MATH 13–Skeletal Notes

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Preface

These are **skeletal** notes. Every section carries the definitions, the statements of the theorems, and the outline of each example and each proof — but the details are left blank, and we fill them in together in class. What you are holding is the scaffolding of the course; the mathematics gets written into it as we do it.

So bring them with you. Before each class, print the section we are about to cover, or download it and annotate it on a tablet — the "PDF" button in the navigation bar gives you the whole book as one file to print from. Then complete the blanks in class as we work through the material. A page you filled in yourself is worth more later than any set of notes handed to you finished.

Everything for this course lives here: the notes themselves, the assignments, the review problems for each exam, and the solutions. Each item is added as we reach it, so check back regularly rather than assuming a page is final. Solutions to an assignment are posted only after its due date has passed; the review sets are posted the same way.

The problems are all gathered in the Exercises chapter. There are ten assignments, which are graded, and four sets of review problems, which are not — the review sets collect everything the assignments left over, and they are fair game on an exam. Assignments are due at 11:59 PM on the day shown below.

Assignments	**Due day, at 11:59 PM**
1, 2, 4, 5, 7, 8, 10	Friday
3, 6, 9	Wednesday (exam weeks 3, 6, and 9)

You hand your work in through Gradescope, not through this site. The steps — how to upload a scan or a photo of your written solutions, and how to tell Gradescope which page holds which problem — are under Submitting Your Assignments in Gradescope in the course syllabus. Read them once before the first assignment is due; a submission with the pages mismatched is the most common way points get lost for reasons that have nothing to do with the mathematics.

One more thing worth knowing before you start: each of the ten assignment pages carries a Socratic AI tutor that will coach you when you are stuck, without ever giving an answer away. How it works, what it will and will not do, and what to keep out of the chat are all set out under Using the AI Tutor, at the top of the Exercises chapter.

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Chapter 1

Hyperbolic Functions

Objectives

After completing this section, you should be able to:

- Define the hyperbolic sine and cosine in terms of e^x and e^{-x}, and differentiate them.
- Sketch the graphs of $\sinh x$ and $\cosh x$, and state their domains and ranges.
- Use the identity $\cosh^2 x - \sinh^2 x = 1$ and relate it to the parametrization of the hyperbola $x^2 - y^2 = 1$.
- Work with the remaining hyperbolic functions $\tanh x$, $\coth x$, $\operatorname{sech} x$, and $\operatorname{csch} x$, and apply hyperbolic identities to integrals and equations.

This chapter is about certain combinations of e^x and e^{-x} which appear in multiple branches of science and engineering. In many ways they are analogous to the trigonometric functions, and they have a similar relationship to the hyperbola that the trigonometric functions have to the circle, which is why they are known as **hyperbolic functions**. We will study these relationships gradually during this chapter.

These are skeletal notes: the definitions, identities, and problem statements are given, and blank boxes and empty grids are left wherever a derivation, a solution, or a sketch belongs, so that you can fill them in by hand.

1.1 Definitions and Derivatives

The **hyperbolic cosine** is defined as

$$\cosh x = \frac{e^x + e^{-x}}{2}, \tag{1.1.1}$$

and the **hyperbolic sine** is defined as

$$\sinh x = \frac{e^x - e^{-x}}{2}. \tag{1.1.2}$$

Find the derivatives $\dfrac{d}{dx}(\cosh x)$ and $\dfrac{d}{dx}(\sinh x)$ by differentiating the two definitions.

workspace

1.2 Graph, Domain, and Range of $\cosh x$ and $\sinh x$

Since $\sinh x$ and $\cosh x$ are built from the two exponentials $\frac{1}{2}e^x$ and $\frac{1}{2}e^{-x}$, their graphs are easiest to understand by sketching those exponentials first. See Figure 1.2.1 and Figure 1.2.2.

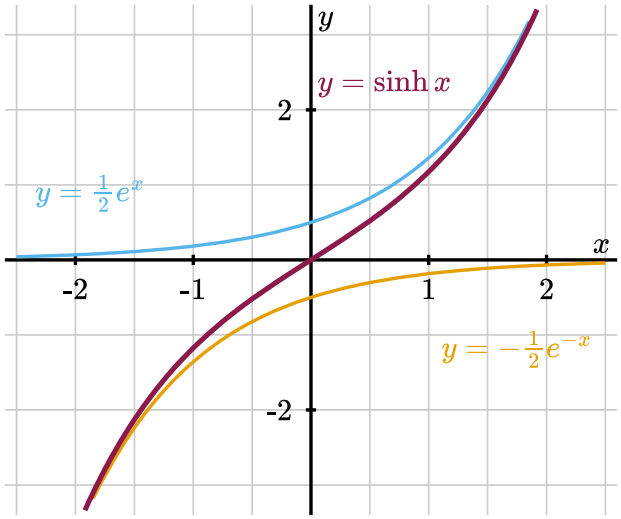

Figure 1.2.1 The graph of $y = \sinh x$. The curve is squeezed between the two exponentials $y = \frac{1}{2}e^x$ and $y = -\frac{1}{2}e^{-x}$, approaching the first as $x \to \infty$ and the second as $x \to -\infty$.

From the graph, read off the domain, the range, and the symmetry of $\sinh x$.

Domain:

Range:

Symmetry:

The graph suggests that $\sinh x$ hugs $\frac{1}{2}e^x$ when x is large and positive, and hugs $-\frac{1}{2}e^{-x}$ when x is large and negative. Confirm this observation.

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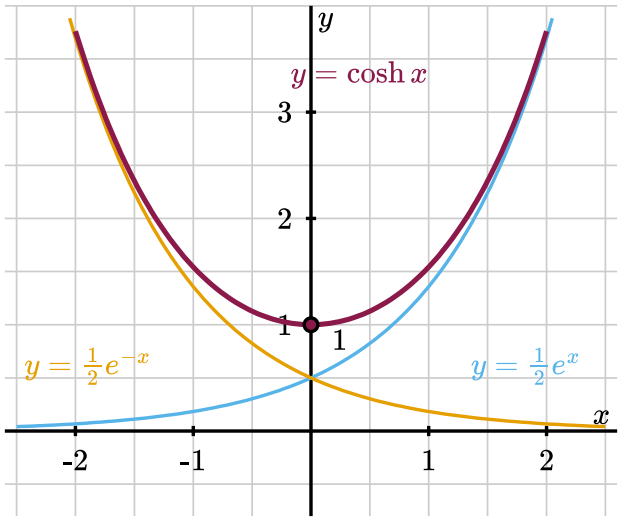


Figure 1.2.2 The graph of $y = \cosh x$. The curve is the sum of the two exponentials $y = \frac{1}{2}e^{x}$ and $y = \frac{1}{2}e^{-x}$, so it lies above both and has its minimum value 1 at $x = 0$.

From the graph, read off the domain, the range, and the symmetry of $\cosh x$.

Domain:

Range:

Symmetry:

The graph suggests that $\cosh x$ hugs $\frac{1}{2}e^{x}$ when x is large and positive, and hugs $\frac{1}{2}e^{-x}$ when x is large and negative, while never dropping below 1. Confirm these observations.

workspace

1.3 Identities and Other Hyperbolic Functions

A similar identity to the trigonometric identity $\cos^2 x + \sin^2 x = 1$ holds for the hyperbolic functions:

$$\cosh^2 x - \sinh^2 x = 1. \tag{1.3.1}$$

As you already know, any point $P(x, y)$ on the circumference of the unit circle ($x^2 + y^2 = 1$) can be described in terms of sine and cosine of an angle $t \in [0, 2\pi)$, i.e. $x = \cos t$ and $y = \sin t$, which results in the trigonometric identity $\cos^2 t + \sin^2 t = 1$. Mark this on the circle in Figure 1.3.1.

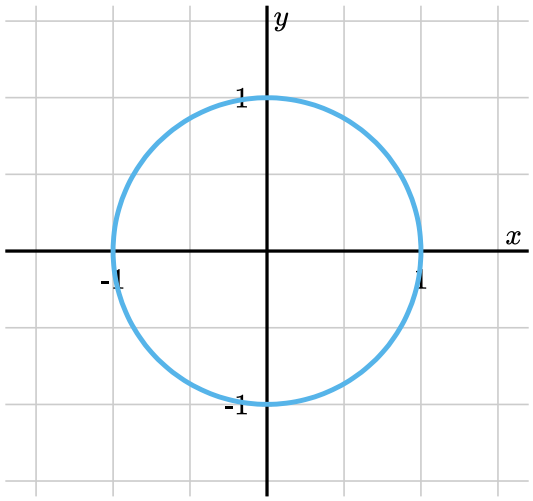


Figure 1.3.1 The unit circle $x^2 + y^2 = 1$. Mark a point $P(\cos t, \sin t)$ on it, and draw the right triangle with legs x and y and hypotenuse 1.

Similarly, any point $P(x, y)$ on the right branch of the hyperbola $x^2 - y^2 = 1$ can be represented as $x = \cosh t$ and $y = \sinh t$, where $t \in \mathbb{R}$. This follows directly from identity (1.3.1), i.e. $\cosh^2 t - \sinh^2 t = 1$. Mark this on the hyperbola in Figure 1.3.2.

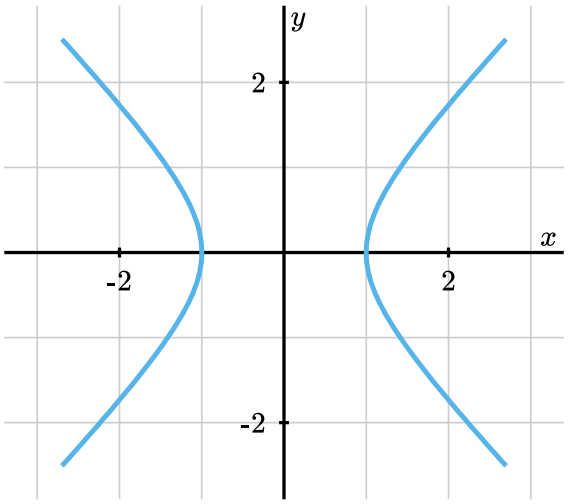


Figure 1.3.2 The hyperbola $x^2 - y^2 = 1$. Mark a point $P(\cosh t, \sinh t)$ on the right branch, and draw the segments from the origin to P and to the vertex.

Checkpoint 1.3.3 Parametrizing the Left Branch. Both branches of $x^2 - y^2 = 1$ appear in Figure 1.3.2, but the parametrization $P(\cosh t, \sinh t)$ traces only the right one, since $\cosh t \geq 1$ for every $t \in \mathbb{R}$. How would you parametrize the *left* branch, where $x \leq -1$?

Your answer and reasoning.

workspace

Hint. The identity $\cosh^2 t - \sinh^2 t = 1$ is unaffected if you change the sign of the first coordinate.

Checkpoint 1.3.4 True or False. The parametrization $x = -\cosh t$, $y = -\sinh t$, $t \in \mathbb{R}$, also traces the left branch of $x^2 - y^2 = 1$.

True or false? Your answer and reasoning.

workspace

As you might have guessed, the rest of the hyperbolic functions are defined

as follows.

$$\tanh x = \frac{\sinh x}{\cosh x} \qquad \operatorname{sech} x = \frac{1}{\cosh x}$$
$$\coth x = \frac{\cosh x}{\sinh x} \qquad \operatorname{csch} x = \frac{1}{\sinh x}$$

1.4 Hyperbolic Identities

Below are some identities that you may find useful in some problems, however, you are not expected to memorize them. We will prove some of them as an exercise later. Each hyperbolic identity is listed next to the trigonometric identity it resembles.

Table 1.4.1 Hyperbolic identities and their trigonometric counterparts.

Hyperbolic	Trigonometric
$\cosh^2 x - \sinh^2 x = 1$	$\cos^2 x + \sin^2 x = 1$
$1 - \tanh^2 x = \operatorname{sech}^2 x$	$1 + \tan^2 x = \sec^2 x$
$\sinh 2x = 2\sinh x \cosh x$	$\sin 2x = 2\sin x \cos x$
$\cosh 2x = \cosh^2 x + \sinh^2 x$	$\cos 2x = \cos^2 x - \sin^2 x$
$\cosh^2 x = \dfrac{\cosh 2x + 1}{2}$	$\cos^2 x = \dfrac{1 + \cos 2x}{2}$
$\sinh^2 x = \dfrac{\cosh 2x - 1}{2}$	$\sin^2 x = \dfrac{1 - \cos 2x}{2}$

Notice the pattern: each hyperbolic identity is its trigonometric counterpart with the sign changed wherever two sines (or two tangents) are multiplied together.

Example 1.4.2 Computing $\cosh^{-1}(x)$. Show that the inverse hyperbolic cosine can be written in terms of the natural logarithm as

$$\cosh^{-1}(x) = \ln\left(x + \sqrt{x^2 - 1}\right), \qquad x \geq 1.$$

Solution. (Restrict cosh to $x \geq 0$ so that it is one-to-one, set $y = \cosh(x)$, and solve for x.)

workspace

▲

Example 1.4.3 An integral via a hyperbolic substitution. Use hyperbolic functions to calculate the integral

$$\int \frac{\sqrt{x^2-1}}{x^2}\,dx, \qquad x \geq 1.$$

Hint: Similar to $\int \sec^2(x)\,dx = \tan(x) + C$, we have $\int \operatorname{sech}^2(x)\,dx = \tanh(x) + C$.

Solution.

workspace

▲

1.5 Hyperbolic Functions in Real Life

Hyperbolic functions are more than a formal analogue of the trigonometric functions: they describe a number of concrete physical situations. We look at three of them.

1.5.1 ∗Hanging Cables and the Catenary

Starred section. This one is for the interested reader. It will not be examined.

If a heavy flexible cable (such as a telephone line, a power line, or a chain) hangs freely from two supports, it settles into a curve called a **catenary**. Contrary to a common guess, this curve is not a parabola; it is the graph of a hyperbolic cosine,

$$y = a\cosh\left(\frac{x}{a}\right),$$

where x is measured horizontally from the lowest point of the cable, so that the y-axis is the axis of symmetry and the lowest point sits at height $y(0) = a$. Sliding the curve up or down, as in $y = c + a\cosh(x/a)$, only changes where we draw the x-axis.

The shape comes out of a balance of forces. Look at the piece of cable running from the lowest point to a point where the cable makes an angle θ with the horizontal, and let s be the arc length of that piece. Three forces act on it: the tension T_0 at the lowest point, which is horizontal; the tension T

along the cable at the other end; and the weight $\lambda g s$ of the piece, where λ is the mass per unit length; see Figure 1.5.1. Balancing the horizontal and the vertical components gives

$$T\cos\theta = T_0$$
$$T\sin\theta = \lambda g s.$$

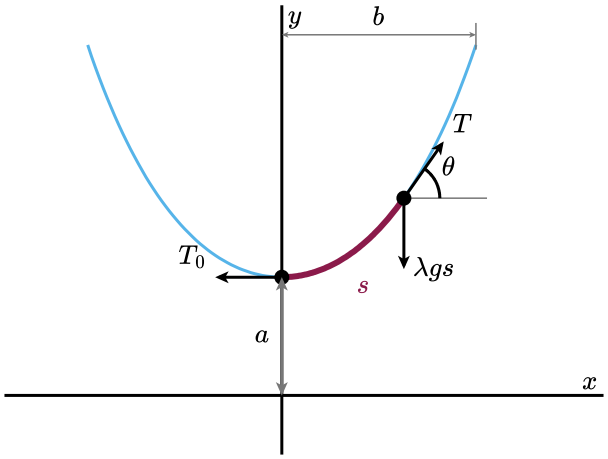


Figure 1.5.1 The three forces on the piece of cable of arc length s running from the lowest point of the cable to a point where the cable makes an angle θ with the horizontal. The lowest point sits at height $a = T_0/(\lambda g)$, and the supports are a distance $2b$ apart. (After Fig. 1 of Behroozi, cited below.)

The quantity $a = T_0/(\lambda g)$ has units of length, and dividing the second equation by the first eliminates T and leaves $s = a\tan\theta$. Since the cable makes the angle θ with the horizontal, $\tan\theta$ is its slope, so

$$\frac{dy}{dx} = \tan\theta = \frac{s}{a}.$$

Now use the arc length element $ds = \sqrt{(dx)^2 + (dy)^2} = \sqrt{1 + (s/a)^2}\,dx$ and separate the variables:

$$dx = \frac{a\,ds}{\sqrt{a^2 + s^2}} \qquad \Longrightarrow \qquad x = a\sinh^{-1}\left(\frac{s}{a}\right),$$

where the constant of integration vanishes because $s = 0$ at $x = 0$.

Solving for s gives $s = a\sinh(x/a)$, and therefore

$$\frac{dy}{dx} = \frac{s}{a} = \sinh\left(\frac{x}{a}\right).$$

One last integration, together with $y(0) = a$, produces the catenary equation $y = a\cosh(x/a)$.

Two things are worth noticing. First, a is a pure scale factor: written as $y/a = \cosh(x/a)$, the equation shows that every catenary is a scaled copy of the single curve $y = \cosh x$, in exactly the same way that every circle is a scaled copy of the unit circle; Figure 1.5.2 shows four of them. Second, a is fixed by the cable itself. If the cable has half-length l and its two supports are a distance $2b$ apart, then putting $s = l$ at $x = b$ in $s = a\sinh(x/a)$ gives

$$l = a\sinh\left(\frac{b}{a}\right),$$

which determines a (numerically) from the two lengths. Since $a = T_0/(\lambda g)$, a cable pulled tight has a large a and hangs almost flat, while a slack one has a small a and sags sharply.

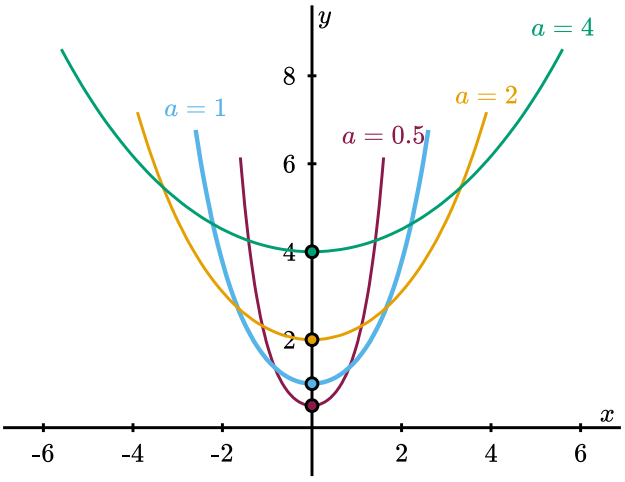


Figure 1.5.2 The catenaries $y = a\cosh(x/a)$ for $a = 0.5,\ 1,\ 2,\ 4$. Each curve meets the y-axis at its own value of a, and all four are scaled copies of the single curve $y = \cosh x$. (After Fig. 2 of Behroozi, cited below.)

A worked example of a hanging cable, in which we find the slope of the cable and the angle at which it meets its pole, appears in Example 1.6.1.

The derivation above follows F. Behroozi, In Praise of the Catenary, *The Physics Teacher* **56**, 214–217 (2018), which also discusses the sense in which all catenaries are similar to one another and suggests simple classroom demonstrations.

1.5.2 Celestial Mechanics

If a comet has enough speed, it can escape the gravitational pull of the sun, in which case one possible trajectory is a hyperbolic trajectory. The comet 2I/Borisov, discovered in 2019, is the first comet known to have come from outside our solar system. It was moving too fast for the sun to capture it, so its path is a hyperbola rather than an ellipse: it swung around the sun once and is now on its way back out. See Figure 1.5.3.

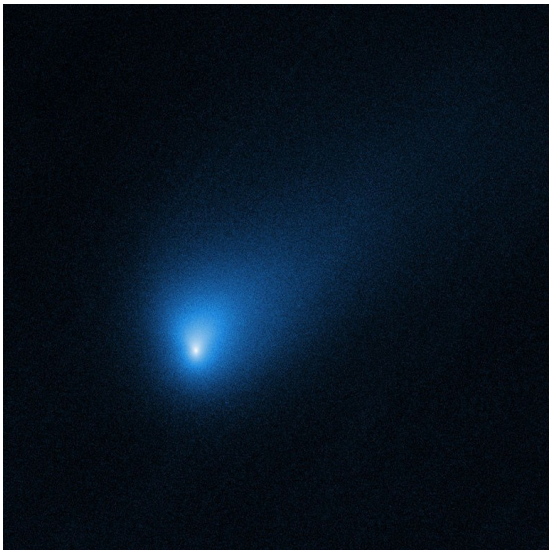


Figure 1.5.3 The interstellar comet 2I/Borisov, photographed by the Hubble Space Telescope in 2019. Because its speed exceeds the escape speed of the sun, its trajectory is a hyperbola and it passes through the solar system only once. (Image: NASA, ESA and D. Jewitt (UCLA).)

1.5.3 The Gateway Arch

The Gateway Arch in St. Louis, Missouri (designed in 1963 and completed in 1965) is a catenary turned upside down: flipping the curve converts the tension carried by a hanging chain into pure compression, which is what masonry and steel carry best. The geometric form of the gateway was set by Hannskari Bandel (structural engineer) and was expressed in the blueprints by the equation

$$y = A\left(\cosh\frac{Cx}{L} - 1\right),$$

where A, C, and L are constants. The arch is slightly flattened compared with a uniform hanging chain, because it is thicker at the base than at the top. It stands 630 feet tall and 630 feet wide at the base; the National Park Service describes its construction and its geometry at Gateway Arch National Park. See Figure 1.5.4.

Figure 1.5.4 The Gateway Arch in St. Louis, Missouri. Its centerline follows the curve $y = A\,(\cosh(Cx/L) - 1)$, an upside-down catenary. (Photograph by John Margolies, 1988; John Margolies Roadside America photograph archive, Library of Congress, Prints and Photographs Division.)

1.6 Further Examples

Example 1.6.1 A hanging telephone line. A telephone line hangs between two poles 14 m apart in the shape of the catenary $y = 20\cosh(x/20) - 15$, where x and y are measured in meters.

A. Find the slope of this curve where it meets the right pole.

B. Find the angle θ between the line and the pole.

Solution. (A sketch of the line between the poles at $x = -7$ and $x = 7$ may help.)

workspace

▲

Example 1.6.2 Rewriting $\sinh(\ln(x))$**.** Consider the function $f(x) = \sinh(\ln(x))$.

A. Express $f(x)$ as a fraction of two polynomials.

B. Calculate $\dfrac{df}{dx}$.

Solution.

workspace

▲

Example 1.6.3 A double-angle identity. Prove that $\sinh(2x) = 2\sinh(x)\cosh(x)$.

Proof (start from the definitions).

workspace

▲

Example 1.6.4 Solving a hyperbolic equation. Consider the equation $2\cosh(2x) + 10\sinh(2x) = 5$ and solve for x.

Solution.

workspace

▲

Chapter 2

Series and Sequences

2.1 Infinite Series

Objectives

After completing this section, you should be able to:

- Define an infinite sequence, an infinite series, and the sequence of partial sums, and decide convergence of a series from its partial sums.
- Recognize a geometric series, and determine whether it converges and what it converges to.
- Apply the nth Term Test for divergence, and understand what the test can and cannot conclude.
- Combine convergent series using the sum, difference, and constant multiple rules, and evaluate telescoping series from their partial sums.

What does it mean to add infinitely many numbers together? In this section we answer that question by defining an infinite series and its sequence of partial sums, so that convergence of a series becomes a statement about a limit we already know how to study. We then put the definition to work on the geometric series, whose behavior we can settle completely, and on the nth Term Test, which is our first quick check for divergence.

These are skeletal notes: the definitions, theorems, and problem statements are given, and blank boxes are left wherever a derivation, a solution, or a sketch belongs, so that you can fill them in by hand.

2.1.1 Definitions

Definition 2.1.1 Sequence. A **sequence** is a list of numbers, $a_1, a_2, a_3, \cdots$. An **infinite sequence** of numbers is a function whose domain is the set of positive integers. ◆

Example 2.1.2 A Sequence of Halves. The numbers $\frac{1}{2}, \frac{1}{4}, \frac{1}{8}, \frac{1}{16}, \cdots$ form an infinite sequence; its nth term is $a_n = \left(\frac{1}{2}\right)^n$. ▲

Definition 2.1.3 Infinite Series. The sum of the numbers in an infinite

sequence $\{a_n\}$, i.e. $a_1 + a_2 + a_3 + \cdots = \sum_{n=1}^{\infty} a_n$, is called an **infinite series**. Here a_n is the nth term of the series. ◆

Example 2.1.4 An Infinite Series with a Finite Sum. Infinite sequences can have finite sums. Consider the sum of the sequence from Example 2.1.2, i.e. $\frac{1}{2} + \frac{1}{4} + \frac{1}{8} + \frac{1}{16} + \cdots$.

It is most convenient to evaluate the result of this sum geometrically. Draw a square of side one in the space below. Shade half of it, then half of what is left, then half of what is left after that, and keep going. Label the pieces $\frac{1}{2}$, $\frac{1}{4}$, $\frac{1}{8}$, $\frac{1}{16}$. What is the total shaded area, and therefore what is the sum?

draw the unit square and its subdivisions here

▲

2.1.2 Partial Sums

Consider again the infinite sequence $\frac{1}{2}, \frac{1}{4}, \frac{1}{8}, \frac{1}{16}, \cdots$. Let us denote the sum of the first n terms in this sequence by s_n, which are known as **partial sums**. Can we find a pattern in the sequence of partial sums?

Write out s_1, s_2, and s_3, each one both as a fraction and in the form $1 - \square$. Then guess a closed formula for $s_n = \sum_{k=1}^{n} \left(\frac{1}{2}\right)^k$.

$s_1 =$

$s_2 =$

$s_3 =$

$\vdots$

$s_n =$

Now use your formula for s_n to compute the infinite series, by taking the limit of the partial sum as $n \to \infty$. Compare the answer with the one you found geometrically from the square.

workspace

In the example above, the sequence of partial sums converged to a number. In general, if the sequence of the partial sums converges to a number, we say that the series **converges**, otherwise we say that the series **diverges**.

2.1.3 Geometric Series

An important example of infinite series is the geometric series. The **geometric series** is of the form

$$a + ar + ar^2 + \cdots + ar^{n-1} + \cdots = \sum_{n=1}^{\infty} ar^{n-1}, \tag{2.1.1}$$

where a, r are real numbers and $a \neq 0$. Note that we can re-write the series as $\sum_{n=0}^{\infty} ar^n$.

Let us compute the partial sum s_n for the geometric series, so that

$$s_n = a + ar + ar^2 + \cdots + ar^{n-1}. \tag{2.1.2}$$

Multiply (2.1.2) by r, subtract the result from (2.1.2), and solve for s_n. Almost every term should cancel.

$r\,s_n =$

$s_n - r\,s_n =$

$s_n =$

Next, take the limit of your partial sum as $n \to \infty$. Treat the cases $|r| < 1$, $|r| > 1$, and $r = 1$ separately, and in each case say what $\lim_{n\to\infty} r^n$ does.

$|r| < 1$:

$|r| > 1$:

$r = 1$:

Checkpoint 2.1.5 What Happens When $r = -1$? We have now handled $|r| < 1$, $|r| > 1$, and $r = 1$, but one case is still missing: $r = -1$. Write out the partial sums s_1, s_2, s_3, s_4 of the series $a - a + a - a + \cdots = \sum_{n=1}^{\infty} a(-1)^{n-1}$ for $a \neq 0$. Does the sequence of partial sums approach a single number as $n \to \infty$? What does that tell you about the series?

Your answer and reasoning.

workspace

Hint. The partial sums do not grow without bound here, the way they do

when $r = 1$. Look instead at whether they settle down to one value.

Putting all of the cases together, we can say that if $|r| \geq 1$, the geometric series is divergent.

Summary.

The geometric series (2.1.1) converges to $\dfrac{a}{1-r}$ if $|r| < 1$, i.e.

$$\sum_{n=1}^{\infty} ar^{n-1} = \frac{a}{1-r}, \qquad |r| < 1, \tag{2.1.3}$$

and diverges if $|r| \geq 1$.

Next, as an application of the geometric series, we will go through the following example, which is from our textbook.

Example 2.1.6 A bouncing ball. You drop a ball from a meters above a flat surface. Each time the ball hits the surface after falling a distance h, it rebounds a distance rh, where r is positive but less than 1. Find the total distance the ball travels up and down.

Solution. (Use Figure 2.1.7 to write the total distance as an infinite series, then match it against (2.1.3). Watch the first drop: it is travelled only once.)

workspace

▲

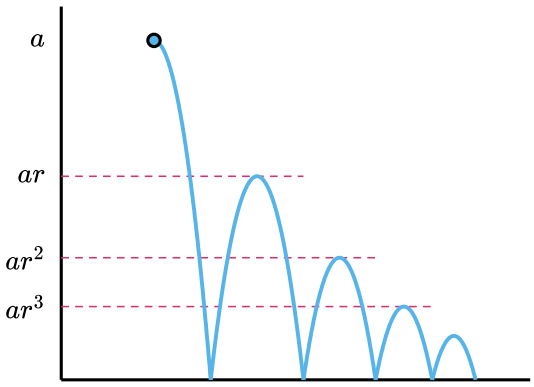


Figure 2.1.7 The ball falls a distance a, then rises and falls a distance ar, then ar^2, and so on, so the total distance travelled is $a + 2ar + 2ar^2 + \cdots$.

2.1.4 The nth Term Test

Theorem 2.1.8 *If* $\sum_{n=1}^{\infty} a_n$ *converges, then* $\lim_{n\to\infty} a_n = 0$.

Important note: If $\lim_{n\to\infty} a_n = 0$, we *cannot* conclude that $\sum_{n=1}^{\infty} a_n$ converges. See parts D and E in the example below. Also see Example 2.1.12.

The following test is a consequence of the above theorem.

The nth Term Test.

If $\lim_{n\to\infty} a_n$ does not exist or $\lim_{n\to\infty} a_n \neq 0$, then $\sum_{n=1}^{\infty} a_n$ diverges.

Example 2.1.9 Testing series for convergence. Determine whether the series is convergent or divergent. If it is convergent, find its sum.

A. $\sum_{n=1}^{\infty} n$

B. $\sum_{n=1}^{\infty} (-1)^n$

C. $\sum_{n=1}^{\infty} \frac{n^3+1}{n^2+n}$

D. $\sum_{n=1}^{\infty} \frac{1}{n(n+1)}$

E. $\frac{4}{9} - \frac{8}{27} + \frac{16}{81} - \frac{32}{243} + \cdots$

Solution.

A.

B.

C.

D.

E.

▲

2.1.5 Combining Series

Theorem 2.1.10 *If* $\sum a_n = A$ *and* $\sum b_n = B$ *are convergent series, then*

1. Sum Rule: $\sum(a_n + b_n) = \sum a_n + \sum b_n = A + B$
2. Difference Rule: $\sum(a_n - b_n) = \sum a_n - \sum b_n = A - B$
3. Constant Multiple Rule: $\sum ka_n = k\sum a_n = kA$ *(Any number* k*).*

Example 2.1.11 Using the difference rule. Evaluate $\displaystyle\sum_{n=1}^{\infty} \frac{1}{n(n+1)} - \frac{1}{2^n}$.

Solution. (You have already summed both of these series in this section: one in Subsection 2.1.2 and the other in part D of Example 2.1.9.)

workspace

▲

Example 2.1.12 A telescoping series with logarithms. Evaluate $\sum_{k=0}^{\infty} \ln\left(\frac{k+2}{k+1}\right)$, if it converges and if it diverges, show that it does.

Solution.

workspace

▲

2.2 Taylor and Maclaurin Series

Objectives

After completing this section, you should be able to:

- Approximate a function near a point by its tangent line and by higher order polynomials built from its derivatives.
- Write down the Taylor series generated by f at $x = a$ and the Maclaurin series generated by f.
- Compute the Taylor polynomial of order n generated by f at $x = a$.
- Find Maclaurin series of standard functions such as $\sin(x)$ directly from the definition.

2.2.1 Definitions of Taylor Series, Maclaurin Series, and Taylor Polynomials

In this section we will answer the following question:

> *If all we know about a function is information at $x = a$, i.e. $f(a), f'(a), f''(a), \cdots$, how can we approximate $f(x)$ with a polynomial $p(x)$?*

These are skeletal notes: the definitions and problem statements are given, and blank boxes are left wherever a derivation or a solution belongs, so that you can fill them in by hand.

Throughout, let f be a function with derivatives of all orders throughout some interval containing a as an interior point.

Before stating the definitions, let us see where the coefficients of such a polynomial have to come from. Suppose the only things we know about f are its readings at $x = a$: the value $f(a)$, the slope $f'(a)$, the second derivative $f''(a)$, and so on. We look for a polynomial written in terms of $x - a$,

$$p_n(x) = c_0 + c_1(x-a) + c_2(x-a)^2 + \cdots + c_n(x-a)^n, \tag{2.2.1}$$

and we pin down the unknown coefficients $c_0, c_1, \ldots, c_n$ by requiring p_n to agree with f at $x = a$ in as many derivatives as it has coefficients. Writing it in terms of $x - a$ rather than x is what makes this manageable: every term after the first vanishes at $x = a$.

Work out the first few coefficients. In each row, differentiate the polynomial as many times as it has coefficients, evaluate at $x = a$, and match against f.

a line, $p_1(x) = c_0 + c_1(x-a)$: $c_0 =$ $c_1 =$

a parabola, $p_2(x) = c_0 + c_1(x-a) + c_2(x-a)^2$: $c_2 =$

a cubic, $p_3(x) = \cdots + c_3(x-a)^3$: $c_3 =$

Notice what should *not* have happened: c_0 and c_1 should come out the same every time. Each new condition is the first one in which the next coefficient appears, so it determines that coefficient and leaves the earlier ones untouched. That is why p_2 is the tangent line with a single new term added to it, rather than a fresh approximation built from scratch. The pattern in the denominators should now be visible: $0!, 1!, 2!, 3!, \ldots$

One computation settles every coefficient at once. Differentiate (2.2.1) exactly k times and evaluate at $x = a$. Say what happens to the terms of degree below k, to those of degree above k, and to the term $c_k(x-a)^k$ itself; then impose $p_n^{(k)}(a) = f^{(k)}(a)$ and solve for c_k.

$p_n^{(k)}(a) =$

$c_k =$

So there is nothing to choose. Once we ask a polynomial to match f and its first n derivatives at $x = a$, its coefficients are determined, and they are the numbers $f^{(k)}(a)/k!$. Reading $f^{(0)}$ as f and $0!$ as 1, the first coefficient $c_0 = f(a)$ fits the same formula. Letting n grow without bound leads to the following definitions.

Definition 2.2.1 Taylor Series. The **Taylor series generated by f at $x = a$** is

$$\sum_{k=0}^{\infty} \frac{f^{(k)}(a)}{k!}(x-a)^k = f(a) + f'(a)(x-a) + \frac{f''(a)}{2!}(x-a)^2 + \cdots + \frac{f^{(n)}(a)}{n!}(x-a)^n + \cdots$$

◆

Definition 2.2.2 Taylor Polynomial of Order n. The **Taylor polynomial of order n** generated by f at $x = a$ is the polynomial

$$p_n(x) = f(a) + f'(a)(x-a) + \frac{f''(a)}{2!}(x-a)^2 + \cdots + \frac{f^{(n)}(a)}{n!}(x-a)^n.$$

◆

Remark 2.2.3 Maclaurin Series. The centre $a = 0$ is common enough to have its own name. The Taylor series generated by f at $x = 0$ is known as the **Maclaurin series generated by f**, which is

$$\sum_{k=0}^{\infty} \frac{f^{(k)}(0)}{k!}x^k = f(0) + f'(0)x + \frac{f''(0)}{2!}x^2 + \cdots + \frac{f^{(n)}(0)}{n!}x^n + \cdots .$$

Example 2.2.4 Approximating e^x near $x = 0$. Write down the Taylor polynomials of orders 1, 2, and 3 generated by $f(x) = e^x$ at $x = 0$.

Solution. Every derivative of e^x is e^x again, so the coefficients of Definition 2.2.2 are easy. Check your answers against Figure 2.2.5.

$p_1(x) =$

$p_2(x) =$

$p_3(x) =$

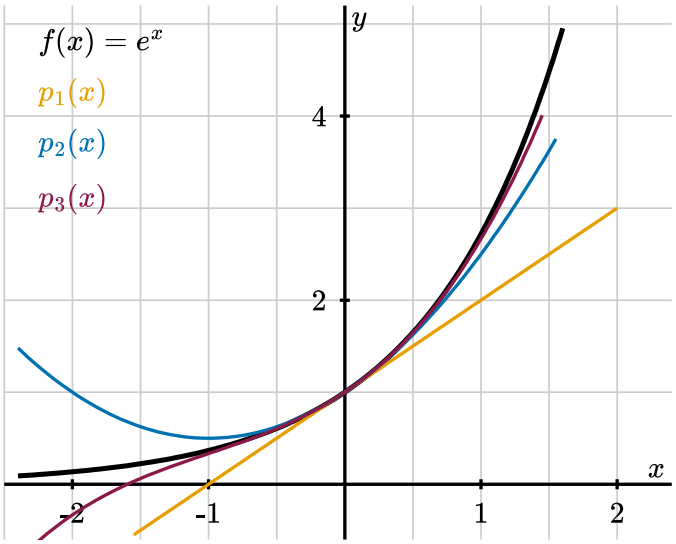


Figure 2.2.5 The function $f(x) = e^x$ together with the Taylor polynomials p_1, p_2, and p_3 at $x = 0$. Near $x = 0$ each polynomial hugs the curve more closely than the one before it.

An animation of this construction accompanies the online version of these notes, with sliders for the centre a and the order n. Two things are worth noting from it. Moving a rebuilds the same construction at a new point of the curve, where p_n again touches f. Raising n adds exactly one term, $\frac{f^{(n)}(a)}{n!}(x-a)^n$, which vanishes at $x = a$ — so it changes the shape of the polynomial everywhere else but never moves it off the point $(a, f(a))$.

The interval on which p_n stays within 0.1 of f widens with every term: about $[-0.5, 0.4]$ for p_1, about $[-1.3, 1.2]$ for p_3, and wider still by p_8. So the Taylor polynomials do not merely improve at the centre; the region where they are usable grows. Whether that region eventually covers everything, and how large the error is at a given x, are the questions of the next section.

2.2.2 More Examples

Example 2.2.6 The Maclaurin series of $\sin(x)$**.** Consider the function $f(x) = \sin(x)$.

A. Find the Taylor series generated by f at $x = 0$. Note that this is the same as the Maclaurin series generated by f.

B. Calculate the first four Taylor polynomials $p_n(x)$.

C. Plot the original function $f(x) = \sin(x)$ and the Taylor polynomials obtained in part B to confirm that the higher order polynomials provide a better approximation.

A. Differentiate f repeatedly, evaluate at $x = 0$, find the pattern, then use Remark 2.2.3.

derivatives:

at $x = 0$:

pattern:

series:

B. Keep the first four non-zero polynomials.

$p_1(x) =$

$p_3(x) =$

$p_5(x) =$

$p_7(x) =$

C. Check your polynomials against Figure 2.2.7. ▲

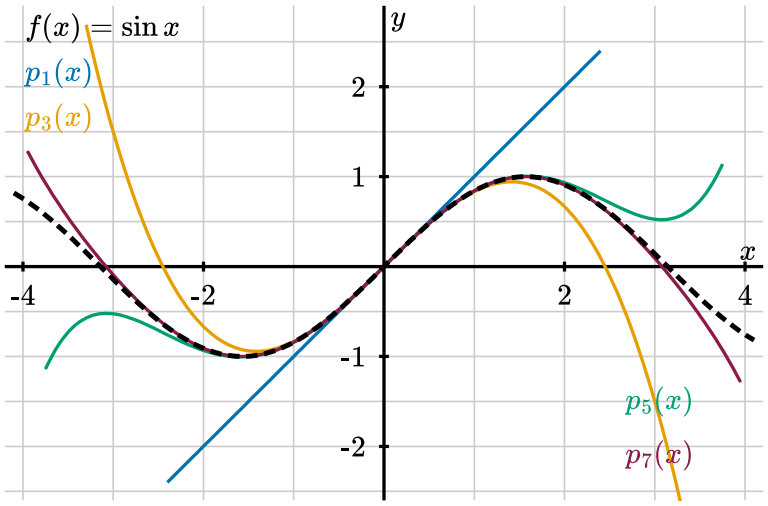


Figure 2.2.7 The function $f(x) = \sin x$ together with the Taylor polynomials at $x = 0$, where $p_1(x) = x$, $p_3(x) = x - \frac{x^3}{3!}$, $p_5(x) = x - \frac{x^3}{3!} + \frac{x^5}{5!}$, and $p_7(x) = x - \frac{x^3}{3!} + \frac{x^5}{5!} - \frac{x^7}{7!}$.

Checkpoint 2.2.8 Consider the function $f(x) = \dfrac{x}{1-9x}$.

A. Compute the Maclaurin series generated by f. Express the result in sigma notation.

B. Find the interval of convergence for this series.

A.

B.

Hint. Write $\dfrac{1}{1-9x}$ as a geometric series first.

Checkpoint 2.2.9 Compute the Taylor series of $f(x) = \dfrac{1}{3x+7}$ at $x = 1$.

workspace

Hint. Either differentiate repeatedly at $x = 1$, or write $3x + 7$ in terms of $x - 1$ and reduce to a geometric series.

A list of Taylor series. The Maclaurin series below are derived or used throughout this book, and the first four are the ones on the formula sheet of the exams. Each of them is a Taylor series centered at $a = 0$, so each can be obtained from Definition 2.2.1 by computing derivatives, as we did for e^x and $\sin(x)$. Most of the time, though, it is faster to start from one of these and substitute, differentiate, integrate, or multiply: that is how the series for $\cos(2x)$, e^{-x^2}, $\dfrac{\sin x}{x}$, and $\arctan(x)$ are found in this book.

Table 2.2.10 A list of Taylor series: the Maclaurin series derived or used in this book.

Series	Interval of convergence	Where in the book
$\frac{1}{1-x} = \sum_{n=0}^{\infty} x^n$ $= 1 + x + x^2 + x^3 + \cdots$	$(-1, 1)$	The geometric series, Subsection 2.1.3. Replacing x by $-x$, x^2, or $-x^2$ gives the series
$e^x = \sum_{n=0}^{\infty} \frac{x^n}{n!}$ $= 1 + x + \frac{x^2}{2!} + \frac{x^3}{3!} + \cdots$	$(-\infty, \infty)$	Derived in Example 2.2.4. Convergence proved in Subsection 2.3.2.
$\sin(x) = \sum_{n=0}^{\infty} (-1)^n \frac{x^{2n+1}}{(2n+1)!}$ $= x - \frac{x^3}{3!} + \frac{x^5}{5!} - \frac{x^7}{7!} + \cdots$	$(-\infty, \infty)$	Derived in Example 2.2.6. Divided by x in Example 2.3.13.
$\cos(x) = \sum_{n=0}^{\infty} (-1)^n \frac{x^{2n}}{(2n)!}$ $= 1 - \frac{x^2}{2!} + \frac{x^4}{4!} - \frac{x^6}{6!} + \cdots$	$(-\infty, \infty)$	The derivative of the series of $\sin(x)$. Used, with $2x$ and $5x$ in place of x, in Assignn
$\sinh(x) = \sum_{n=0}^{\infty} \frac{x^{2n+1}}{(2n+1)!}$ $= x + \frac{x^3}{3!} + \frac{x^5}{5!} + \cdots$	$(-\infty, \infty)$	Derived in Sample Past Exam 1; it is the odd
$\cosh(x) = \sum_{n=0}^{\infty} \frac{x^{2n}}{(2n)!}$ $= 1 + \frac{x^2}{2!} + \frac{x^4}{4!} + \cdots$	$(-\infty, \infty)$	The derivative of the series of $\sinh(x)$; it is the
$\ln(1+x) = \sum_{n=1}^{\infty} (-1)^{n+1} \frac{x^n}{n}$ $= x - \frac{x^2}{2} + \frac{x^3}{3} - \frac{x^4}{4} + \cdots$	$(-1, 1]$	Its Taylor polynomials, for $\ln(1+2x)$ and $\ln(1$
$\arctan(x) = \sum_{n=0}^{\infty} (-1)^n \frac{x^{2n+1}}{2n+1}$ $= x - \frac{x^3}{3} + \frac{x^5}{5} - \frac{x^7}{7} + \cdots$	$[-1, 1]$	Obtained by integrating the series of $\frac{1}{1+t^2}$ in S Evaluated at $x = 1$ to approximate π in Exam

Two more series in this book come from the table by substitution, and both converge on $(-\infty, \infty)$: $e^{-x^2} = \sum_{n=0}^{\infty} (-1)^n \frac{x^{2n}}{n!}$, used in Example 2.3.12 to approximate an integral, and $\frac{\sin x}{x} = \sum_{n=0}^{\infty} (-1)^n \frac{x^{2n}}{(2n+1)!}$, used in Example 2.3.13 to evaluate one exactly.

2.3 Taylor Series and its convergence

Objectives

The main objectives of this section are to answer the following questions:

1. Under what conditions is the function $f(x)$ equal to the Taylor series generated by f at $x = a$? That is, when can we say $f(x) =$

$\sum_{n=0}^{\infty} \frac{f^{(n)}(a)}{n!}(x-a)^n$?

2. If the Taylor polynomial of degree n, $p_n(x) = \sum_{k=0}^{n} \frac{f^{(k)}(a)}{k!}(x-a)^k$, is used as an approximation to $f(x)$, how can we estimate the error in this approximation? That is, how can we estimate the magnitude of $R_n(x) = f(x) - p_n(x)$?

Theorem 2.3.1 and Theorem 2.3.4 will enable us to answer these questions. We begin by stating Taylor's formula and the remainder estimation theorem, and then use them to bound the error in a Taylor approximation, discuss some applications of these theorems, and close with the proof of the remainder theorem.

These are skeletal notes: the theorems and problem statements are given, and blank boxes are left wherever a derivation or a solution belongs, so that you can fill them in by hand.

2.3.1 Taylor's Formula and The Remainder Estimation Theorem

Theorem 2.3.1 Taylor's Formula. *Let f be a function that has $n+1$ continuous derivatives on an open interval I containing a. Then for each $x \in I$ and for each positive integer n, there exists a number c between a and x such that*

$$f(x) = p_n(x) + R_n(x), \tag{2.3.1}$$

where

$$p_n(x) = \sum_{k=0}^{n} \frac{f^{(k)}(a)}{k!}(x-a)^k, \tag{2.3.2}$$

and

$$R_n(x) = \frac{f^{(n+1)}(c)}{(n+1)!}(x-a)^{n+1}. \tag{2.3.3}$$

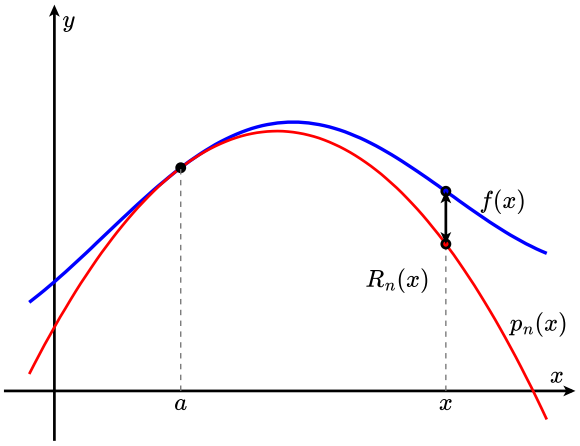


Figure 2.3.2 Taylor's Formula: $f(x) = p_n(x) + R_n(x)$. The Taylor polynomial p_n agrees with f at $x = a$; away from a, the vertical gap between them is the remainder $R_n(x)$.

Remark 2.3.3 Finding an upper bound for the error term without knowing the value of c. Usually the value of c is not explicitly known. However, we may manage to find ***an upper bound*** for the error term $R_n(x)$

without knowing the exact value of c. This is achieved by finding an upper bound M for $|f^{(n+1)}(c)|$, where c is between a and x, and then using this upper bound to estimate the error term.

This is the idea behind every error estimate in this section. It is used in Subsection 2.3.2 to prove that the Taylor series of e^x converges to e^x for every x, and in each of the three examples of Subsection 2.3.3.

Theorem 2.3.4 The Remainder Estimation Theorem. *Let f be a function that has $n+1$ continuous derivatives on an open interval I containing a. Then for each $x \in I$ and for each positive integer n, there exists a number c between a and x such that*

$$|R_n(x)| \leq \frac{M}{(n+1)!}|x-a|^{n+1}, \tag{2.3.4}$$

where M is an upper bound for $|f^{(n+1)}(c)|$ on the interval between a and x.

(Derive (2.3.4) from (2.3.3).)

workspace

You are not expected to know the proof of Taylor's formula itself, only to understand the statement and its implications. The proof is worked through in Subsection 2.3.5.

2.3.2 An example of a Taylor series that converges

Consider the function $f(x) = e^x$. The Taylor series generated by f at $x = 0$ is

$$\sum_{n=0}^{\infty} \frac{f^{(n)}(0)}{n!}x^n = _____, \tag{2.3.5}$$

and its remainder is

$$R_n(x) = _____. \tag{2.3.6}$$

(Compute (2.3.5) and (2.3.6).)

Taylor series of e^x at $x = 0$:

$R_n(x) =$

(Show that (2.3.5) converges to e^x for every $x \in \mathbb{R}$.)

workspace

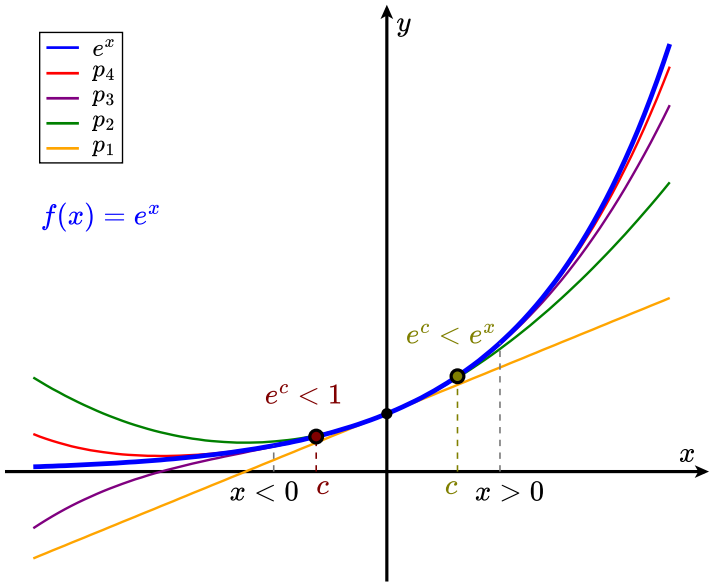


Figure 2.3.5 Schematic graph of $f(x) = e^x$ and its Taylor polynomials $p_1, \ldots, p_4$ about 0.

An animation of this convergence — the Taylor polynomials p_n hugging the graph of $f(x) = e^x$ over a wider and wider interval as n grows — accompanies the online version of these notes.

2.3.3 The error in using a Taylor polynomial

Suppose we approximate $f(x)$ by the Taylor polynomial (2.3.2) of degree n at $x = a$. The error is $R_n(x) = f(x) - p_n(x)$, which is (2.3.1) rearranged, and is given by (2.3.3). To bound it we need an upper bound M for $|f^{(n+1)}(c)|$ on the interval between a and x, as in Remark 2.3.3. The three examples below carry out that step in three different settings.

Example 2.3.6 Approximating e^x using a Taylor polynomial. Approximate $e^{0.5}$ using the Taylor polynomial of degree 2 at $x = 0$. Find an upper bound for the error in this approximation.

Solution.

$p_2(x) =$

bound on $|R_2(0.5)|$*:*

actual error:

▲

Example 2.3.7 Given a desired error bound, find values of x for which the approximation is guaranteed to be valid. Assume that we use the Taylor polynomial of degree 3 at $x = 0$ to approximate $\sin(x)$. For approximately what values of x can you replace $\sin(x)$ by such a Taylor polynomial with an error of magnitude no greater than 4×10^{-3}?

Solution.

$p_3(x) =$ *and* $R_4(x) =$

bound on $|R_4(x)|$*:*

solve for $|x|$*:*

▲

Example 2.3.8 Finding the value of n such that the error is less than a given tolerance. Find the smallest value of n for which the polynomial approximation for $\sin(x)$ is accurate to ± 0.005 for values of x in the interval $[-\pi/2, \pi/2]$.

Solution.

bound on $|R_n(x)|$:

inequality to solve:

test values of n:

▲

2.3.4 Applications of Taylor Series and Remainder Theorem

We begin with two uses of Taylor series that belong to single-variable calculus: computing limits of the indeterminate form $\frac{0}{0}$, which along the way gives a proof of L'Hôpital's rule, and approximating definite integrals whose integrands have no elementary antiderivative.

The remaining three parts of this subsection are starred. Physicists often use Taylor series to approximate functions in order to simplify calculations. The first example is the kinetic energy of an object in relativistic mechanics. The second example is the approximation of the period of a pendulum. We will discuss the error in using these approximations and when it is valid to use them. Additionally, we will discuss how to use the Taylor series to estimate the value of π in the last example.

2.3.4.1 Computing Limits and Integrals with Taylor Series

Taylor's formula Theorem 2.3.1 replaces a function near a point by a polynomial plus a remainder whose size the Remainder Estimation Theorem controls. That is exactly what two problems from single-variable calculus call for: a limit of the indeterminate form $\frac{0}{0}$, where numerator and denominator both vanish and the question is *how fast*, and a definite integral whose integrand has no elementary antiderivative.

We will use two Maclaurin series. The series of $\sin(x)$ was found in Example 2.2.6:

$$\begin{aligned}\sin(x) &= x - \frac{x^3}{3!} + \frac{x^5}{5!} - \cdots \\ &= x - \frac{x^3}{6} + \frac{x^5}{120} - \cdots, \qquad x \in \mathbb{R}.\end{aligned} \tag{2.3.7}$$

The series of $\arctan(x)$ is

$$\arctan(x) = x - \frac{x^3}{3} + \frac{x^5}{5} - \frac{x^7}{7} + \cdots, \qquad |x| \le 1; \tag{2.3.8}$$

it comes from the geometric series (2.1.1): since $\frac{d}{dt}\arctan(t) = \frac{1}{1+t^2}$, and $\frac{1}{1+t^2} = 1 - t^2 + t^4 - t^6 + \cdots$ for $|t| < 1$, integrating this from 0 to x term by term gives (2.3.8).

Example 2.3.9 A $\frac{0}{0}$ limit by Taylor series. Compute

$$\lim_{x\to 0} \frac{\arctan(x) - x}{\sin(x) - x}.$$

Solution.

numerator and denominator as series:

factor and cancel:

limit:

why the remaining terms vanish:

▲

Example 2.3.10 Proving L'Hôpital's rule with Taylor's formula. Let f and g have continuous second derivatives on an open interval containing a, with $f(a) = g(a) = 0$ and $g'(a) \neq 0$. Use Taylor's formula to prove L'Hôpital's rule:

$$\lim_{x\to a} \frac{f(x)}{g(x)} = \frac{f'(a)}{g'(a)} = \lim_{x\to a} \frac{f'(x)}{g'(x)}. \tag{2.3.9}$$

Solution.

Taylor's formula for f and for g:

after cancelling the common factor:

the limit as x tends to a:

the second equality:

▲

Remark 2.3.11 Why the rule sometimes has to be applied several times. If $f'(a) = g'(a) = 0$ as well, the quotient $f'(x)/g'(x)$ is again of the form $\frac{0}{0}$ and L'Hôpital's rule has to be applied again. Taylor's formula explains what is going on. Suppose f and g have $k+1$ continuous derivatives near a, their first $k-1$ derivatives vanish at a, and $g^{(k)}(a) \neq 0$. Then Taylor's formula with $n = k$ gives

$$\frac{f(x)}{g(x)} = \frac{\frac{f^{(k)}(a)}{k!}(x-a)^k + R_k(x)}{\frac{g^{(k)}(a)}{k!}(x-a)^k + \widetilde{R}_k(x)} \longrightarrow \frac{f^{(k)}(a)}{g^{(k)}(a)} \qquad \text{as } x \to a,$$

because each remainder is at most a constant times $|x-a|^{k+1}$. The limit is the ratio of the first nonzero Taylor coefficients, which is exactly what k applications of L'Hôpital's rule compute. In Example 2.3.9 the first nonzero coefficients were those of x^3. Check that $f'''(0)/g'''(0)$, with $f(x) = \arctan(x) - x$ and $g(x) = \sin(x) - x$, agrees with the limit you found.

Example 2.3.12 A definite integral with no elementary antiderivative. The function e^{-x^2} has no elementary antiderivative, so the integral

$$I = \int_0^1 e^{-x^2}\,dx$$

cannot be evaluated with the fundamental theorem of calculus. Use the Taylor polynomial of order n of e^u to approximate I, bound the error with the Remainder Estimation Theorem, and find a value of n that guarantees an error of at most 10^{-4}.

Solution.

series with remainder, and the bound on the remainder:

integrate from 0 to 1:

error bound:

choice of n:

▲

Example 2.3.13 A non-elementary integral computed exactly. In Example 2.3.12, term-by-term integration produced a series that we could only *estimate*. Sometimes, however, the series produced by term-by-term integration is one we already recognize, and then the integral can be evaluated *exactly*, even though the integrand has no elementary antiderivative. Show that

$$\int_0^\infty e^{-x} \frac{\sin x}{x}\, dx = \frac{\pi}{4}.$$

Hint. Each power of x has to be integrated against e^{-x} on $[0, \infty)$. Use the following fact from Calculus II, proved by integration by parts[1]: for every integer $k \geq 0$,

$$I_k = \int_0^\infty x^k e^{-x}\, dx = k!. \tag{2.3.10}$$

Solution.[2]

a series for the integrand:

integrate term by term:

recognize the series:

▲

2.3.4.2 ∗Approximating Relativistic Kinetic Energy

Starred section. This one is for the interested reader. It will not be examined.

In relativistic mechanics, the mass of an object moving with velocity v is given by:

$$m = \frac{m_0}{\sqrt{1 - \frac{v^2}{c^2}}} \tag{2.3.11}$$

where m_0 is the rest mass of the object and c is the speed of light. Then the kinetic energy of an object of mass m moving with velocity v is:

$$K = mc^2 - m_0c^2 \tag{2.3.12}$$

In the case when $v \ll c$, we can use the Taylor series to approximate the kinetic energy. In Example 2.3.15 we will show that the kinetic energy can be

[1] Let $I_k = \int_0^\infty x^k e^{-x}\,dx$. Then $I_0 = \int_0^\infty e^{-x}\,dx = 1$. For $k \geq 1$, integration by parts with $u = x^k$ and $dv = e^{-x}\,dx$ gives $I_k = \Big[-x^k e^{-x} \Big]_0^\infty + k\,I_{k-1} = k\,I_{k-1}$, since $x^k e^{-x} \to 0$ as $x \to \infty$. By induction, $I_k = k(k-1)\cdots 1 \cdot I_0 = k!$.

[2] Integrating an infinite series term by term over the unbounded interval $[0, \infty)$ needs a justification, and the Remainder Estimation Theorem supplies one. Let $S_N(x) = \sum_{n=0}^{N} \frac{(-1)^n x^{2n}}{(2n+1)!}$ be the partial sum of the series for $\frac{\sin x}{x}$, a polynomial of degree $2N$. For $f(x) = \sin x$ every derivative satisfies $|f^{(k)}(t)| \leq 1$. The Taylor polynomial of $\sin x$ of degree $2N+2$ has no x^{2N+2} term, so it equals $x\,S_N(x)$, and the Remainder Estimation Theorem gives $|\sin x - x\,S_N(x)| \leq \frac{|x|^{2N+3}}{(2N+3)!}$. Dividing by $x > 0$, $\left|\frac{\sin x}{x} - S_N(x)\right| \leq \frac{x^{2N+2}}{(2N+3)!}$. Multiplying by e^{-x}, integrating, and using $I_k = k!$ with $k = 2N+2$, the integral differs from the partial sum $\sum_{n=0}^{N} \frac{(-1)^n}{2n+1}$ by at most $\frac{(2N+2)!}{(2N+3)!} = \frac{1}{2N+3}$. This bound tends to 0 as $N \to \infty$, so the partial sums of the Leibniz series converge to the integral. Since they also converge to $\pi/4$, the integral equals $\pi/4$. A numerical evaluation of the integral gives $0.785398\ldots$, which agrees with $\pi/4 = 0.785398\ldots$. The bound $\frac{1}{2N+3}$ also shows why the Leibniz series converges slowly: to guarantee an error below 10^{-3} we need roughly 500 terms.

approximated by the formula $K \approx \frac{1}{2}m_0v^2$ when $v \ll c$. See Figure 2.3.14 for a comparison of the relativistic kinetic energy and its Newtonian approximation.

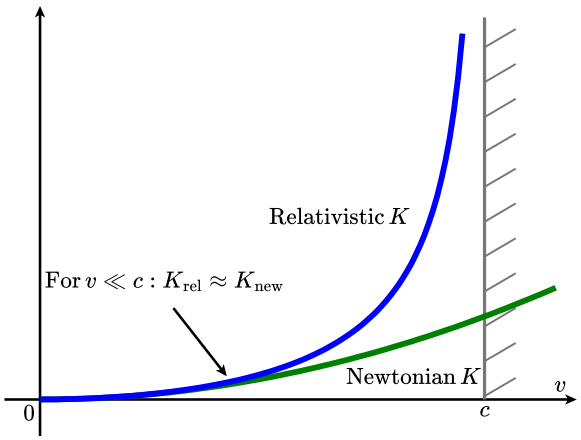


Figure 2.3.14 Relativistic versus Newtonian kinetic energy. The relativistic energy races toward a wall at the speed of light c, while the Newtonian energy follows a gentle parabola; the two are approximately in agreement only when $v \ll c$.

Example 2.3.15 Newtonian kinetic energy as an approximation to relativistic kinetic energy when $v \ll c$. Show that the kinetic energy of an object moving with velocity v can be approximated by the formula $K \approx \frac{1}{2}m_0v^2$ when $v \ll c$.

Solution.

workspace

When $v \ll c$, we can therefore approximate the kinetic energy as:

$$K \approx \frac{1}{2}m_0v^2. \tag{2.3.13}$$

▲

Example 2.3.16 Estimating the error in using the Newtonian kinetic energy formula to approximate the relativistic kinetic energy. Assume

that a car is moving with a velocity of $v = 30m/s$ (≈ 67 miles per hour). Use the remainder's theorem to estimate the error in using the Newtonian kinetic energy formula (2.3.13) to approximate the relativistic kinetic energy of the car. The speed of light is $c = 3 \times 10^8 m/s$.

Solution.

workspace

▲

2.3.4.3 ∗Small-Angle Approximation for a Pendulum

Starred section. This one is for the interested reader. It will not be examined.

We begin this section by briefly reviewing the forces acting on a simple pendulum and how the small-angle approximation allows us to treat its motion as simple harmonic motion.

The bob moves along the arc, so only the component of gravity *tangent* to that arc drives the motion. Resolving the weight $m\vec{\mathbf{g}}$ into a component along the string ($mg\cos\theta$, balanced by the string tension $\vec{\mathbf{F}}_T$) and a component tangent to the arc, as shown in Figure 2.3.17, gives the restoring force

$$F = -mg\sin\theta. \tag{2.3.14}$$

The minus sign indicates that the force always points back toward the equilibrium (straight-down) position. This is *not* Hooke's law: the force is proportional to $\sin\theta$, not to the displacement itself, so the motion is not exactly simple harmonic. Writing the arc displacement as $x = \ell\theta$, we would need F to be proportional to x—that is, to θ—for the motion to be simple harmonic.

The small-angle approximation bridges this gap. From the Taylor series

$$\sin\theta = \theta - \frac{\theta^3}{3!} + \frac{\theta^5}{5!} - \cdots, \tag{2.3.15}$$

when θ is small (in radians) the higher-order terms are negligible and $\sin\theta \approx \theta$. The restoring force then becomes

$$F \approx -mg\theta = -\frac{mg}{\ell}\,x,$$

which *is* Hooke's law $F = -kx$ with effective spring constant $k = \dfrac{mg}{\ell}$.

This is exactly what fixes the period. Newton's second law $F = ma = m\dfrac{d^2x}{dt^2}$ turns Hooke's law into the equation of motion

$$m\frac{d^2x}{dt^2} = -\frac{mg}{\ell}\,x, \qquad \text{that is,} \qquad \frac{d^2x}{dt^2} = -\frac{g}{\ell}\,x.$$

Notice that the mass cancels. The equation says that x is a function whose second derivative is a negative multiple of itself, and the functions with that property are the sines and cosines: writing $\omega^2 = \dfrac{g}{\ell}$, every solution has the form

$$x(t) = A\cos(\omega t) + B\sin(\omega t), \qquad \omega = \sqrt{\frac{g}{\ell}},$$

which you can verify by differentiating twice. The number ω is the angular frequency, and $\cos(\omega t)$ and $\sin(\omega t)$ repeat when ωt increases by 2π. So the motion repeats after a time T with $\omega T = 2\pi$, giving

$$T = \frac{2\pi}{\omega} = 2\pi\sqrt{\frac{\ell}{g}}. \tag{2.3.16}$$

Thus, for small swings the pendulum behaves as a simple harmonic oscillator, with the period (2.3.16), which is independent of both the amplitude and the mass. Taylor's Remainder Theorem (see Example 2.3.18) enables us to quantify how small θ must be for this approximation.

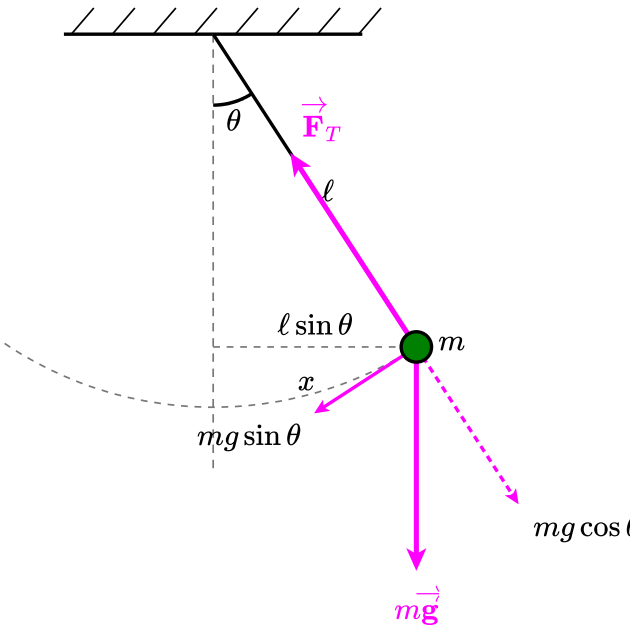


Figure 2.3.17 Forces on a simple pendulum. The weight $m\vec{\mathbf{g}}$ resolves into a component $mg\cos\theta$ along the string (balanced by the tension $\vec{\mathbf{F}}_T$) and a component $mg\sin\theta$ tangent to the arc, which acts as the restoring force.

An animation of these forces — the weight resolving into its radial and tangential components as the pendulum swings — accompanies the online version of these notes.

Example 2.3.18 Simple Harmonic Motion of a Pendulum as an Approximation. Use the remainder theorem to analyze the claim made in Giancoli's textbook that for small angles, $\sin\theta \approx \theta$. Specifically, show that the error is less than 1% for angles below 15°.

Here is the exact quote from Giancoli's textbook:

> "For angles less than 15°, the difference between θ (in radians) and $\sin\theta$ is less than 1%."

Solution.

workspace

▲

2.3.4.4 ∗Approximating the value of π using Taylor series

Starred section. This one is for the interested reader. It will not be examined.

In this subsection, we will discuss how to approximate the value of π using Taylor series. We will use the Taylor series for $\arctan(x)$, which centered at $a = 0$ is

$$\begin{aligned} \arctan(x) &= \sum_{k=0}^{\infty} \frac{(-1)^k}{2k+1} x^{2k+1} \\ &= x - \frac{x^3}{3} + \frac{x^5}{5} - \frac{x^7}{7} + \cdots, \qquad |x| \leq 1. \end{aligned} \tag{2.3.17}$$

Example 2.3.19 Approximating π using the Taylor series for $\arctan(x)$. Use the Taylor series for $\arctan(x)$ to approximate the value of π. Use Taylor's Remainder Theorem to find an upper bound for the error in this approximation, and show that the error decreases as the order n of the Taylor polynomial increases.

Solution.

workspace

For the record: the derivatives of $f(x) = \arctan(x)$ satisfy

$$\left|f^{(n+1)}(t)\right| \leq n! \quad \text{for all } t \in \mathbb{R}, \tag{2.3.18}$$

and the resulting error bound is

$$|\pi - 4\,T_n(1)| \leq \frac{4}{n+1}. \tag{2.3.19}$$

The bound goes to zero as $n \to \infty$, but very slowly: to guarantee an error of at most 0.01 one needs $n \geq 399$. ▲

As we saw in the previous example, Taylor series approached π very slowly. In the project below, we will see how to use the so-called Euler's formula to approximate π much faster. As you may know, there are many other methods to approximate π, which we will not cover here.

Project 2.3.4.1 Computing π with Euler's identity. In Example 2.3.19 we approximated π by evaluating the Taylor series (2.3.17) at $x = 1$, and Taylor's Remainder Theorem gave the error bound (2.3.19), which decreases very slowly. In this guided problem we compute π far more efficiently using **Euler's identity**

$$\arctan\left(\tfrac{1}{2}\right) + \arctan\left(\tfrac{1}{3}\right) = \frac{\pi}{4}, \tag{2.3.20}$$

which lets us evaluate the Taylor series at the small arguments $x = \frac{1}{2}$ and $x = \frac{1}{3}$, where it converges much faster.

(a) *Proving Euler's identity.*

Let $\alpha = \arctan\left(\frac{1}{2}\right)$ and $\beta = \arctan\left(\frac{1}{3}\right)$. Use the addition formula

$$\tan(\alpha + \beta) = \frac{\tan\alpha + \tan\beta}{1 - \tan\alpha\,\tan\beta}$$

to prove that $\alpha + \beta = \dfrac{\pi}{4}$.

$\tan(\alpha+\beta) =$

why $\alpha+\beta$ must be $\pi/4$ and not another angle:

(b) *The approximation.*

Let $T_n(x)$ be the Taylor polynomial of order n for $\arctan(x)$ centered at 0. Use Euler's identity (2.3.20) to explain why

$$\pi \approx 4\left[T_n\left(\tfrac{1}{2}\right) + T_n\left(\tfrac{1}{3}\right)\right].$$

Write out this approximation explicitly for $n = 3$.

why the approximation holds:

the case $n = 3$, as a number:

(c) *Bounding the error with the Remainder Theorem.*

In Example 2.3.19 we showed that the derivatives of $f(x) = \arctan(x)$ satisfy (2.3.18). Use (2.3.4) to show that for $|x| \le 1$

$$|\arctan(x) - T_n(x)| \le \frac{|x|^{n+1}}{n+1},$$

and conclude that

$$\left|\pi - 4\left[T_n\left(\tfrac{1}{2}\right) + T_n\left(\tfrac{1}{3}\right)\right]\right| \le \frac{4}{n+1}\left[\left(\tfrac{1}{2}\right)^{n+1} + \left(\tfrac{1}{3}\right)^{n+1}\right].$$

the bound on $|\arctan(x) - T_n(x)|$*:*

combining the two remainders:

(d) *How much better is it?*

Evaluate the error bound for $n = 9$ and compare it with the bound $\frac{4}{10} = 0.4$ obtained in Example 2.3.19 for the same order. Then find the smallest n for which the bound guarantees an error of at most 10^{-6}.

the bound at $n = 9$*, versus* 0.4*:*

the smallest n *with bound at most* 10^{-6}*:*

An animation of the approximation $4\left[T_n\left(\frac{1}{2}\right) + T_n\left(\frac{1}{3}\right)\right]$ converging to π, with its error compared against the much slower method at $x = 1$, accompanies the online version of these notes.

2.3.5 Proof of the remainder theorem

In this subsection, we will provide a proof of the remainder theorem.

Let f be a function that has $n+1$ continuous derivatives on an open interval I containing a. We want to show that for each $x \in I$ and for each positive integer n, there exists a number c between a and x such that

$$f(x) = p_n(x) + R_n(x),$$

where

$$p_n(x) = \sum_{k=0}^{n} \frac{f^{(k)}(a)}{k!}(x-a)^k,$$

and

$$R_n(x) = \frac{f^{(n+1)}(c)}{(n+1)!}(x-a)^{n+1}.$$

To prove this, we will first prove the following lemma:

Lemma 2.3.20 *Let $f(x)$ be a function that is $(n+1)$-times differentiable. Also, suppose that $f(a) = f'(a) = f''(a) = \ldots = f^{(n)}(a) = 0$ and $f(x) = 0$, where*

$x \neq a$. Then there exists a number c between a and x such that $f^{(n+1)}(c) = 0$.

Proof.

workspace

Remark 2.3.21 The error function and its derivatives are zero at the point of expansion. Note that for the error function $R_n(x) = f(x) - p_n(x)$, we have $R_n(a) = R_n'(a) = R_n''(a) = ... = R_n^{(n)}(a) = 0$.

Completing the proof.

workspace

Chapter 3

3D Space and Vector Algebra

3.1 Three-Dimensional Coordinate Systems

Objectives

After completing this section, you should be able to:

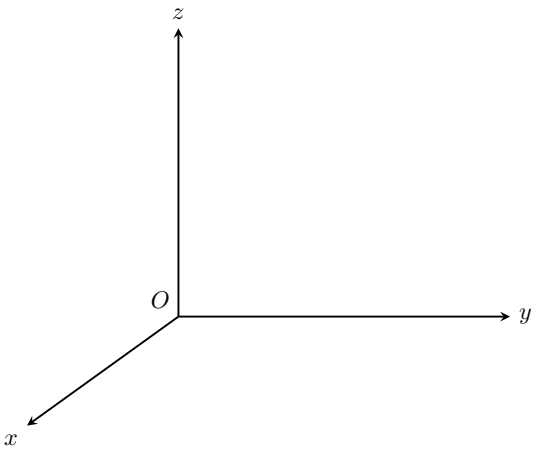
- Locate a point $P(a, b, c)$ in space using the rectangular (Cartesian) coordinate system, and check that the axes are arranged according to the right-hand rule.
- Identify the three coordinate planes and the eight octants, and recognize the surfaces described by equations such as $x = a$, $y = b$, and $z = c$.
- Compute the distance between two points in space, and write the equation of a sphere with a given center and radius.
- Describe the region of space determined by a collection of equations and inequalities, and use completing the square to recognize the equation of a sphere.

3.1.1 The Rectangular Coordinate System

To locate a point in the plane we need two numbers; to locate a point in space we need three. In this section we set up the rectangular coordinate system in space, which is the setting for everything that follows. We then measure distance, describe spheres, and practice translating between an equation and the surface or region it represents.

We will study the Cartesian coordinate system, which is also known as the **rectangular coordinate system**. We choose a point O in space, called the **origin**, and three mutually perpendicular lines through it, called the **coordinate axes** and labelled the x-, y-, and z-axis. A point P in space is then described by an ordered triple (a, b, c), where a, b, and c are the signed distances from the origin along the three axes.

On the axes below, mark off a units along the x-axis, then b units parallel to the y-axis, then c units parallel to the z-axis, and label the point $P(a, b, c)$ you reach.



The three axes must follow the **right-hand rule**: if the index finger of the right hand points along the positive x-axis and the middle finger points along the positive y-axis, then the thumb points along the positive z-axis. Figure 3.1.1 illustrates this convention; the square corner marks in that figure are a reminder that the three axes are mutually orthogonal, so each pair of axes meets at a right angle. Every coordinate system in this course is arranged this way.

The right-hand rule will return in Section 3.4, where we use it in a second form to determine the direction of the cross product $\mathbf{u} \times \mathbf{v}$ of two vectors.

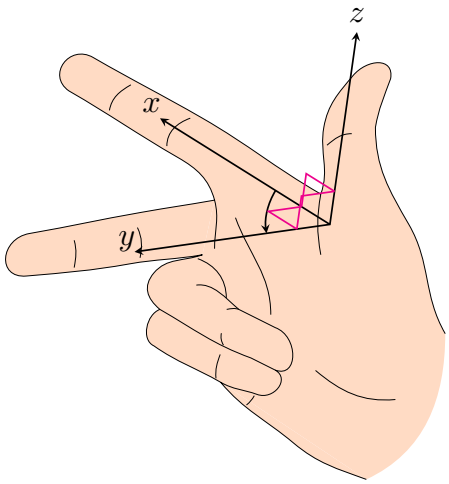
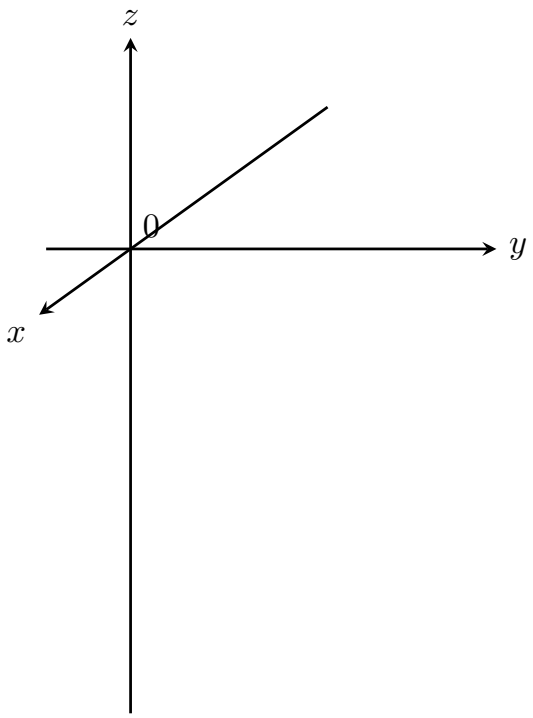


Figure 3.1.1 The right-hand rule. With the index finger of the right hand along the positive x-axis and the middle finger along the positive y-axis, the thumb points along the positive z-axis. The square corner marks record that the three axes are mutually orthogonal: each pair of axes meets at a right angle, even though the drawing on the page must distort those angles.

Now plot the point $(-4, 3, -5)$ on the axes below.



3.1.2 Coordinate Planes and Octants

The three coordinate axes determine three **coordinate planes**. The xy-plane is the plane containing the x- and y-axes, and it is described by the single equation $z = 0$; similarly the xz-plane is $y = 0$ and the yz-plane is $x = 0$. These three planes are shown in Figure 3.1.2.

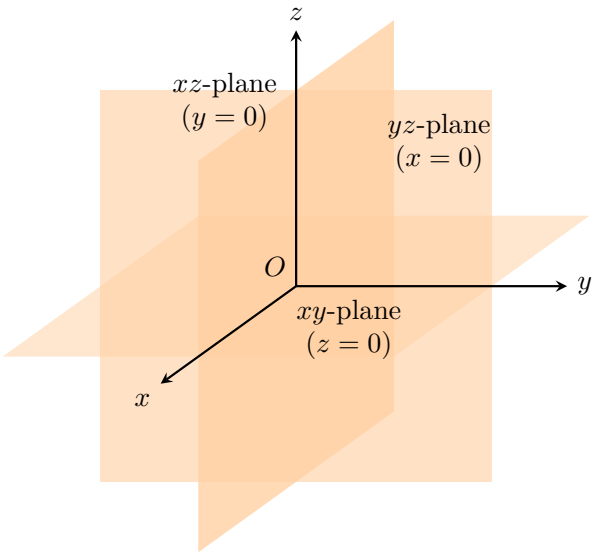


Figure 3.1.2 The three coordinate planes: the xy-plane ($z = 0$), the xz-plane ($y = 0$), and the yz-plane ($x = 0$). They divide space into eight octants.

In the plane the two axes create four quadrants; in space the three coordinate planes create eight **octants**. The **first octant** is the one in which x, y, and z are all positive.

From Figure 3.1.2, record the sign pattern of the octant a point lies in.

First octant, signs of (x, y, z):

The octant directly below it:

Octants with a negative coordinate:

More generally, equations such as $x = a$, $y = b$, and $z = c$ represent planes parallel to the yz-, xz-, and xy-planes respectively. Each of these equations places one restriction on a point of space and leaves the other two coordinates free, so each describes a plane. Consequently a point can be thought of as the intersection of three such planes: the point $P(1, 1, 1)$ of Figure 3.1.3 is the intersection of the planes $x = 1$, $y = 1$, and $z = 1$.

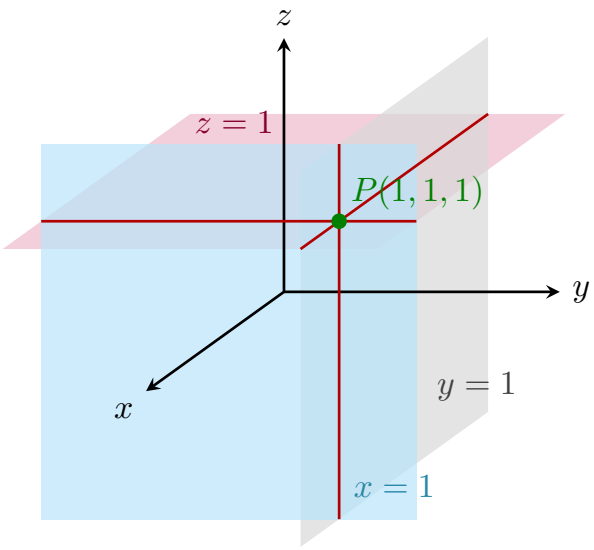


Figure 3.1.3 A point as the intersection of three planes. The planes $x = 1$, $y = 1$, and $z = 1$ meet pairwise in three lines, and all three lines meet in the single point $P(1, 1, 1)$.

3.1.3 Distance Between Two Points

The distance between two points $P_1(x_1, y_1, z_1)$ and $P_2(x_2, y_2, z_2)$ is denoted by $\|P_1P_2\|$ and can be computed with the Pythagorean theorem. As Figure 3.1.4 shows, the segment P_1P_2 is the diagonal of a rectangular box whose edges are parallel to the coordinate axes.

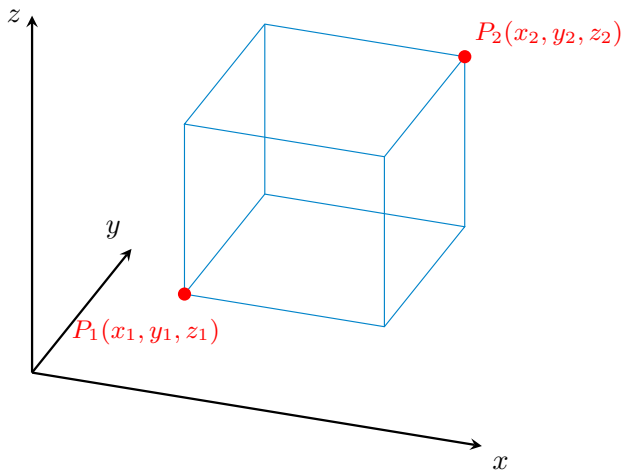


Figure 3.1.4 The segment P_1P_2 is the diagonal of a box with edges parallel to the coordinate axes.

Derive the distance formula from that box.

Step 1, in the base: $\|P_1B\|^2 =$

Step 2, up the vertical edge: $\|P_1P_2\|^2 =$

Substituting, $\|P_1P_2\| =$

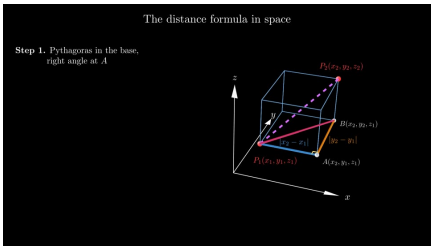
Record the formula you obtained here, so it is easy to find later.

Distance in Space.

For $P_1(x_1, y_1, z_1)$ and $P_2(x_2, y_2, z_2)$,

$$\|P_1P_2\| = \sqrt{(x_1 - x_2)^2 + (y_1 - y_2)^2 + (z_1 - z_2)^2}. \tag{3.1.1}$$

The video in Figure 3.1.5 builds the box of Figure 3.1.4 one edge at a time and applies the Pythagorean theorem twice, in the same two steps. Use it to check the derivation you just wrote.



Standalone

Figure 3.1.5 Deriving the distance formula in space by applying the Pythagorean theorem twice: first in the base triangle P_1AB, then in the vertical triangle P_1BP_2.

3.1.4 Spheres

A **sphere** of radius a is the set of all points $P(x, y, z)$ whose distance from a fixed center $P_0(x_0, y_0, z_0)$ equals a, as in Figure 3.1.6.

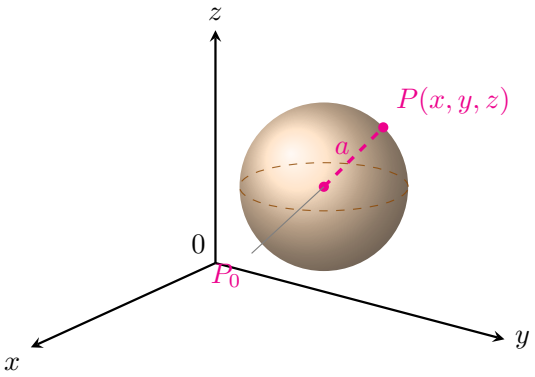


Figure 3.1.6 A sphere of radius a centered at $P_0 = P_0(x_0, y_0, z_0)$: the set of all points $P(x, y, z)$ at distance a from the center.

Turn that description into an equation.

The condition, before squaring:

Equation of the sphere:

Equation of a Sphere.

The sphere of radius a centered at $P_0(x_0, y_0, z_0)$ is

$$(x - x_0)^2 + (y - y_0)^2 + (z - z_0)^2 = a^2. \tag{3.1.2}$$

Example 3.1.7 Recognizing a Sphere by Completing the Square.

Describe the geometric surface represented by the following equation.

$$x^2 + y^2 + z^2 + 2x + 4y = 0$$

Solution.

Completing the square:

Center: *Radius:*

▲

3.1.5 Describing Regions in Space

A single equation in x, y, and z normally describes a surface, two simultaneous equations describe the curve where two surfaces meet, and inequalities describe solid regions. The next example collects several of these situations.

Example 3.1.8 Describing Equations and Inequalities Geometrically. Describe the geometrical meaning of the following equalities and inequalities.

A. $x = 1$

B. $x = 1,\ y = 2$

C. $x^2 + y^2 + z^2 = 1$

D. $1 \leq x^2 + y^2 + z^2 \leq 4,\ z \leq 0$

E. $x^2 + y^2 = 1$

F. $x^2 + y^2 = 1,\ -1 \leq z \leq 1$

G. $x^2 + y^2 = 1,\ z = 3$

Solution.

A.

B.

C.

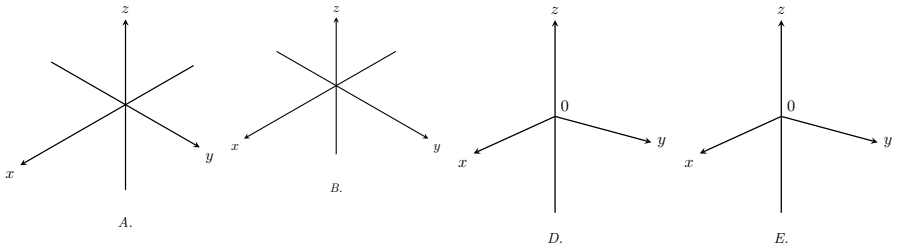
D.

E.

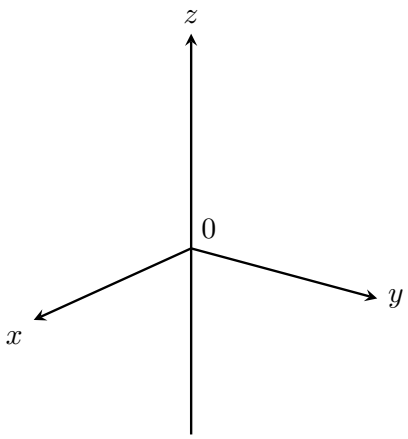
F.

G.

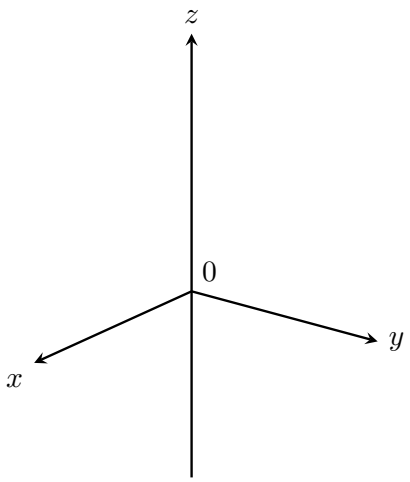
Now sketch parts ***A***, ***B***, ***D***, and ***E*** on the four sets of axes below.



Parts ***F*** and ***G*** are both built from the cylinder of part ***E***. Sketch them on the axes below, and say in one line what changed.



F. $x^2 + y^2 = 1,\ -1 \le z \le 1$



G. $x^2 + y^2 = 1,\ z = 3$

▲

3.2 Vectors

Objectives

After completing this section, you should be able to:

- Explain the difference between a scalar quantity and a vector quantity, and describe a vector by its initial and terminal points.
- Write a vector in component form, find the standard position vector of $\overrightarrow{PQ}$, and compute the length $\|\mathbf{v}\|$ of a vector.
- Add vectors and multiply them by scalars, both algebraically and geometrically using the parallelogram law.
- Write a vector as a linear combination of the standard unit vectors $\hat{\imath}$, $\hat{\jmath}$, and $\hat{k}$, and find the unit vector in the direction of a given vector.

3.2.1 Definitions, Terminology, and Notation

Some quantities can be described using real numbers alone, such as time or temperature. To describe other quantities we need a direction as well as a magnitude. Consider the velocity of a car: we need to know both the speed of the car and its direction of motion to specify its velocity completely. For instance, we might say that the car is moving with speed 65 miles per hour in the direction of north. Such quantities are referred to as **vector quantities**, and they are the subject of this section.

A **vector** is a directed line segment from an **initial point** A to a **terminal point** B, and is denoted by $\overrightarrow{AB}$. We denote the length of a vector by $\|\overrightarrow{AB}\|$. See Figure 3.2.1.

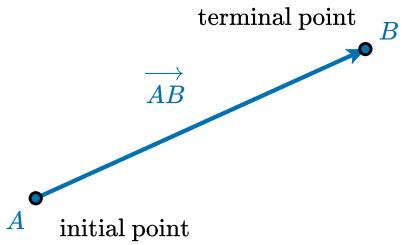


Figure 3.2.1 A vector is a directed line segment. It carries two pieces of information: a direction, shown by the arrowhead, and a magnitude, which is its length $\|\overrightarrow{AB}\|$.

Two vectors are **equal** if they have the same direction and the same magnitude. Notice that this definition says nothing about where a vector is located: a vector may be moved around the plane freely, and as long as its direction and length are unchanged it is the same vector. The vectors shown in Figure 3.2.2 are all equal to each other, $\overrightarrow{AB} = \overrightarrow{CD} = \overrightarrow{OP} = \overrightarrow{EF}$.

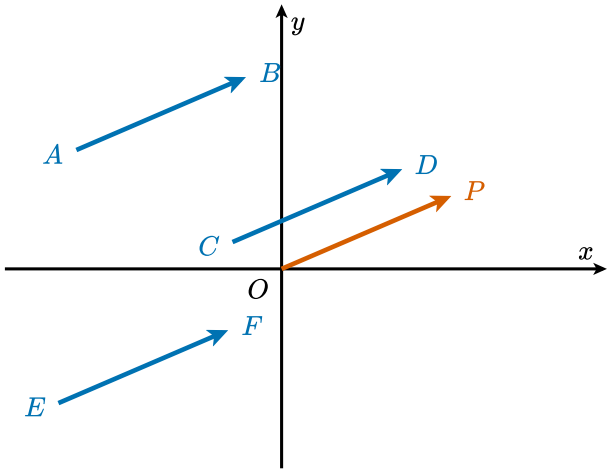


Figure 3.2.2 Four equal vectors. They have different initial points, but the same direction and the same length, so $\overrightarrow{AB} = \overrightarrow{CD} = \overrightarrow{OP} = \overrightarrow{EF}$. Only $\overrightarrow{OP}$ begins at the origin.

Only one of the vectors in Figure 3.2.2 starts from the origin. We say that $\overrightarrow{OP}$ is in **standard position**, and we denote it by a bold letter such as $\mathbf{v} = \overrightarrow{OP}$, which is also referred to as the **standard position vector**.

In 2D, if the initial point of a vector is the origin, i.e. $(0, 0)$, and its final point is (v_1, v_2), then the **component form** of the vector is $\mathbf{v} = \langle v_1, v_2 \rangle$. In 3D, if the initial point of a vector is the origin, i.e. $(0, 0, 0)$, and its final point is (v_1, v_2, v_3), then the component form of the vector is $\mathbf{v} = \langle v_1, v_2, v_3 \rangle$.

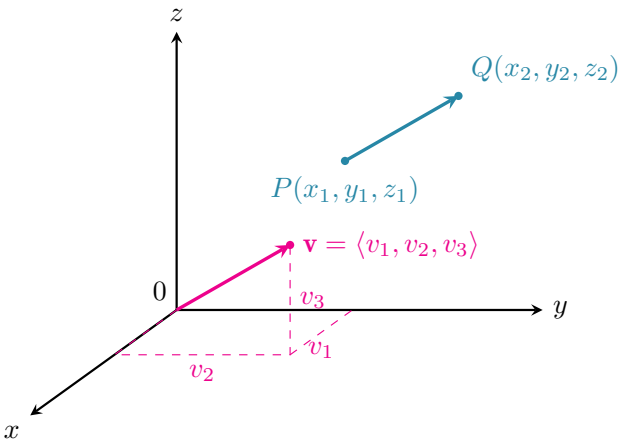


Figure 3.2.3 The vector $\overrightarrow{PQ}$ and its standard position vector $\mathbf{v} = \langle v_1, v_2, v_3 \rangle$. The two arrows are equal as vectors; only the second one begins at the origin.

Read the components of $\mathbf{v} = \overrightarrow{PQ}$ off Figure 3.2.3.

Components: $\mathbf{v} = \langle v_1, v_2, v_3 \rangle =$

Length: $\|\mathbf{v}\| =$

Components and Length.

For $P(x_1, y_1, z_1)$ and $Q(x_2, y_2, z_2)$, the standard position vector of $\overrightarrow{PQ}$ is

$$\mathbf{v} = \langle v_1, v_2, v_3 \rangle = \langle x_2 - x_1,\ y_2 - y_1,\ z_2 - z_1 \rangle, \tag{3.2.1}$$

and its magnitude is

$$\begin{aligned} \|\mathbf{v}\| = \|\overrightarrow{PQ}\| &= \sqrt{v_1^2 + v_2^2 + v_3^2} \\ &= \sqrt{(x_1 - x_2)^2 + (y_1 - y_2)^2 + (z_1 - z_2)^2}. \end{aligned} \tag{3.2.2}$$

Example 3.2.4 Length and Standard Position Vector.

A. Compute the length of the vector with the initial point $P(-1, 0, 1)$ and the final point $Q(1, 1, -1)$.

B. Find the standard position vector corresponding to this vector.

Solution.

A. $\|\overrightarrow{PQ}\| =$

B. $\mathbf{v} =$

Check: $\|\mathbf{v}\| =$

▲

3.2.2 Vector Algebra Operations

Definition 3.2.5 Vector Addition. Let $\mathbf{u} = \langle u_1, u_2, u_3 \rangle$ and $\mathbf{v} = \langle v_1, v_2, v_3 \rangle$. The **sum** of $\mathbf{u}$ and $\mathbf{v}$ is the vector

$$\mathbf{u} + \mathbf{v} = \langle u_1 + v_1,\ u_2 + v_2,\ u_3 + v_3 \rangle. \tag{3.2.3}$$

◆

Parallelogram law. The parallelogram law tells us how to add two vectors geometrically, and is described in Figure 3.2.6. Placing the tail of $\mathbf{v}$ at the head of $\mathbf{u}$ produces the sum as the third side of a triangle; equivalently, drawing both vectors from a common initial point makes the sum the diagonal of the parallelogram they span.

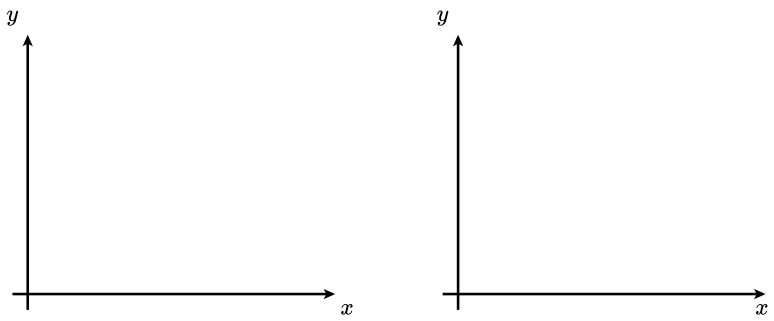


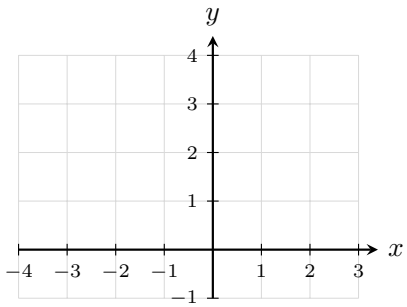
Figure 3.2.6 The parallelogram law: head to tail on the left, the diagonal of the parallelogram on the right.

Example 3.2.7 Adding Two Vectors. Add the following two vectors geometrically and algebraically.

$$\mathbf{u} = \langle 1, 1 \rangle \quad \text{and} \quad \mathbf{v} = \langle -2, 1 \rangle$$

Solution.

$\mathbf{u} + \mathbf{v} =$



▲

Definition 3.2.8 Scalar Multiplication. Let $\mathbf{u} = \langle u_1, u_2, u_3 \rangle$ and let $k \in \mathbb{R}$ be a scalar. The **scalar multiple** $k\,\mathbf{u}$ is the vector

$$k\,\mathbf{u} = \langle ku_1,\ ku_2,\ ku_3 \rangle. \tag{3.2.4}$$

◆

Note that both definitions can be reduced to the 2D case simply by removing the last components of the vectors.

Scaling a vector by k scales its length by $|k|$. Show this.

$\|k\mathbf{u}\| =$

Length of a Scalar Multiple.

$$\|k\mathbf{u}\| = |k|\,\|\mathbf{u}\|. \tag{3.2.5}$$

The vector $-\mathbf{u}$ has the same length as $\mathbf{u}$; however, the two vectors point in opposite directions. In general the length of $k\mathbf{u}$ is $|k|$ times the length of $\mathbf{u}$, and if $k > 0$ the two vectors point in the same direction, whereas if $k < 0$ they point in opposite directions. Figure 3.2.9 shows several examples.

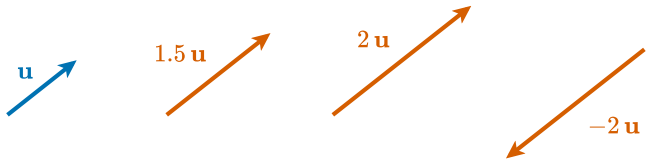


Figure 3.2.9 Scalar multiples of $\mathbf{u}$. Multiplying by 1.5 or 2 stretches the vector without turning it; multiplying by -2 stretches it and reverses its direction.

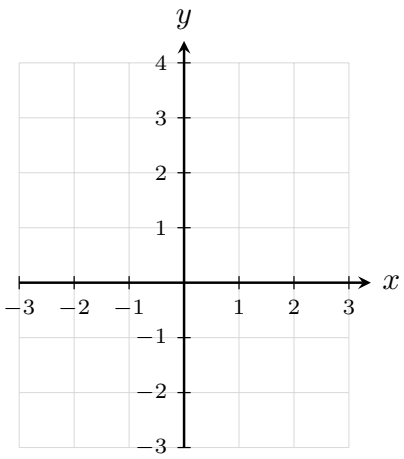
Definition 3.2.10 Vector Subtraction. Subtraction is handled with the same idea: the **difference** $\mathbf{u} - \mathbf{v}$ means

$$\mathbf{u} - \mathbf{v} = \mathbf{u} + (-\mathbf{v}), \tag{3.2.6}$$

so we reverse $\mathbf{v}$ and then add. Geometrically, $\mathbf{u} - \mathbf{v}$ is the vector that points from the head of $\mathbf{v}$ to the head of $\mathbf{u}$ when both are drawn from a common initial point. ◆

Example 3.2.11 Adding and Subtracting Geometrically. Given the two vectors $\mathbf{u} = \langle 1, 1\rangle$ and $\mathbf{v} = \langle -1, 2\rangle$, find $\mathbf{u} + \mathbf{v}$ and $\mathbf{u} - \mathbf{v}$ geometrically.

Solution.



$\mathbf{u} + \mathbf{v} =$

$\mathbf{u} - \mathbf{v} =$

▲

The operations satisfy the familiar algebraic rules collected in Theorem 3.2.12.

Theorem 3.2.12 Properties of Vector Operations. *Let* $\mathbf{u}$, $\mathbf{v}$, $\mathbf{w}$ *be vectors and* a, b *be scalars. Then*

1. $\mathbf{u} + \mathbf{v} = \mathbf{v} + \mathbf{u}$
2. $(\mathbf{u} + \mathbf{v}) + \mathbf{w} = \mathbf{u} + (\mathbf{v} + \mathbf{w})$
3. $\mathbf{u} + \mathbf{0} = \mathbf{u}$
4. $\mathbf{u} + (-\mathbf{u}) = \mathbf{0}$
5. $0\,\mathbf{u} = \mathbf{0}$
6. $1\,\mathbf{u} = \mathbf{u}$
7. $a(b\mathbf{u}) = (ab)\mathbf{u}$
8. $a(\mathbf{u} + \mathbf{v}) = a\mathbf{u} + a\mathbf{v}$
9. $(a + b)\mathbf{u} = a\mathbf{u} + b\mathbf{u}$

3.2.3 Unit Vectors

Vectors of length one are referred to as **unit vectors**. The **standard unit vectors** are the ones pointing in the positive direction of x, y, and z, and they are denoted by $\hat{\imath}$, $\hat{\jmath}$, and $\hat{k}$ respectively, as in Figure 3.2.13.

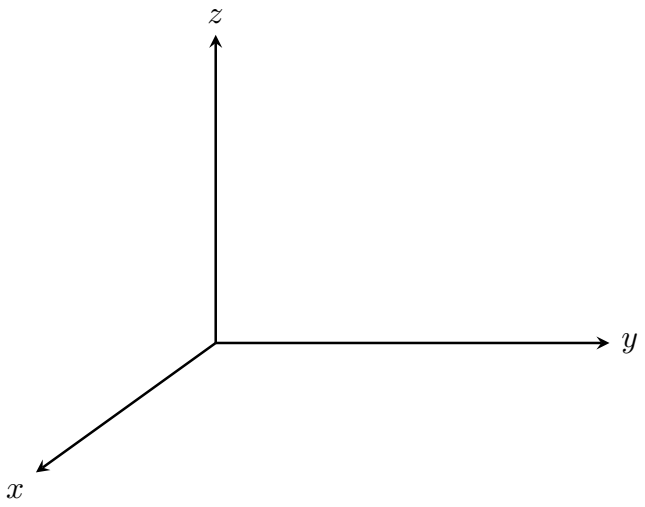


Figure 3.2.13 Empty axes for the standard unit vectors $\hat{\imath}$, $\hat{\jmath}$, and $\hat{k}$, and for the decomposition $\mathbf{a} = a_1\hat{\imath} + a_2\hat{\jmath} + a_3\hat{k}$ of a vector into components along the axes.

Combining (3.2.3) and (3.2.4), any vector $\mathbf{a} = \langle a_1, a_2, a_3\rangle$ can be written as a linear combination of $\hat{\imath}$, $\hat{\jmath}$, and $\hat{k}$ as

$$\mathbf{a} = \langle a_1, a_2, a_3\rangle = a_1\hat{\imath} + a_2\hat{\jmath} + a_3\hat{k}. \tag{3.2.7}$$

To find a unit vector pointing in the same direction as a nonzero vector $\mathbf{a}$, we divide $\mathbf{a}$ by its own length. We write $\hat{a}$, read "a hat", for the resulting unit vector:

$$\hat{a} = \frac{\mathbf{a}}{\|\mathbf{a}\|}. \tag{3.2.8}$$

From now on a hat always marks a vector of length one, as it does for the standard unit vectors $\hat{\imath}$, $\hat{\jmath}$, and $\hat{k}$.

Check that (3.2.8) really does produce a unit vector.

$\|\hat{a}\| =$

Example 3.2.14 Standard Unit Vectors and a Unit Direction. Consider the two vectors $\mathbf{v} = \langle 1, 0, 1\rangle = \hat{\imath} + \hat{k}$ and $\mathbf{u} = \langle -1, 1, 0\rangle = -\hat{\imath} + \hat{\jmath}$.

A. Express $\mathbf{u} + \mathbf{v}$ in terms of the standard unit vectors.

B. Find the unit vector in the direction of $\mathbf{u} + \mathbf{v}$.

Solution.

A. $\mathbf{u} + \mathbf{v} =$

$\|\mathbf{u} + \mathbf{v}\| =$

B. $\widehat{\mathbf{u} + \mathbf{v}} =$

▲

3.3 The Dot Product

Objectives

After completing this section, you should be able to:

- Understand the dot product as a way of combining two vectors into a single number that measures the extent to which they point in the same direction.
- Interpret the sign of the dot product geometrically—positive for an acute angle, negative for an obtuse angle, and zero for perpendicular vectors—and recognize orthogonality as the vanishing of the dot product.
- Understand how the dot product encodes the angle between two vectors, connecting the algebra of vectors to the Law of Cosines.
- Interpret the projection of one vector onto another as the component of one vector in the direction of the other, and understand the decomposition of a vector into parts parallel and perpendicular to a given direction.
- Understand work as a physical measure of the effect of a force along a direction of motion, and appreciate why the dot product is the natural tool for expressing it.
- ∗Explain how the dot product is used in data science to measure similarity: represent preferences as vectors, compute the cosine similarity and the angular distance between them, interpret the result, and extend the computation from two dimensions to $\mathbb{R}^n$. (Starred: for the interested reader, not examined.)

3.3.1 The Dot Product and the Angle between Two Vectors

Consider two vectors $\mathbf{u}$ and $\mathbf{v}$, and let $\mathbf{w} = \mathbf{u} - \mathbf{v}$, as shown in Figure 3.3.1. By the law of cosines,

$$\|\mathbf{w}\|^2 = \|\mathbf{u}\|^2 + \|\mathbf{v}\|^2 - 2\|\mathbf{u}\|\|\mathbf{v}\| \cos\theta. \tag{3.3.1}$$

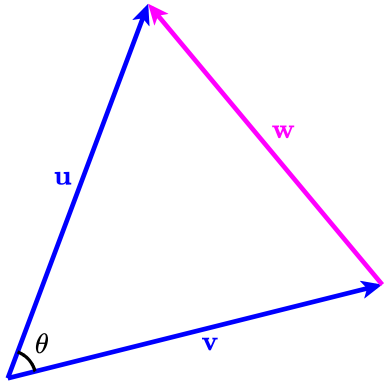
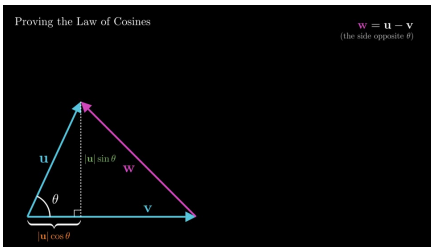


Figure 3.3.1 The vectors $\mathbf{u}$, $\mathbf{v}$, and $\mathbf{w} = \mathbf{u} - \mathbf{v}$, together with the angle θ between $\mathbf{u}$ and $\mathbf{v}$.



Standalone

Figure 3.3.2 Proving the law of cosines: drop a perpendicular from the tip of $\mathbf{u}$ and apply the Pythagorean theorem to the right triangle whose hypotenuse is $\mathbf{w} = \mathbf{u} - \mathbf{v}$.

Now compute $\|\mathbf{w}\|^2$ a second way, in components, and compare the two answers.

In components: $\|\mathbf{w}\|^2 =$

Setting the two expressions equal:

Solving for $\cos\theta$*:*

Theorem 3.3.3 Angle between Two Vectors. *Let* $\mathbf{u} = \langle u_1, u_2, u_3\rangle$ *and* $\mathbf{v} = \langle v_1, v_2, v_3\rangle$ *be two nonzero vectors, and let* θ*, with* $0 \le \theta \le \pi$*, be the angle between them. Then*

$$\begin{aligned} \cos\theta &= \frac{u_1v_1 + u_2v_2 + u_3v_3}{\|\mathbf{u}\|\|\mathbf{v}\|} \\ \iff \quad \theta &= \cos^{-1}\left(\frac{u_1v_1 + u_2v_2 + u_3v_3}{\|\mathbf{u}\|\|\mathbf{v}\|}\right). \end{aligned} \tag{3.3.2}$$

Definition 3.3.4 Dot Product. The term $u_1v_1 + u_2v_2 + u_3v_3$ in the numerator of (3.3.2) is known as the **dot product** of the two vectors $\mathbf{u} = \langle u_1, u_2, u_3\rangle$ and $\mathbf{v} = \langle v_1, v_2, v_3\rangle$, and is denoted $\mathbf{u}\cdot\mathbf{v}$.

$$\mathbf{u}\cdot\mathbf{v} = u_1v_1 + u_2v_2 + u_3v_3. \tag{3.3.3}$$

◆

Example 3.3.5 Computing a dot product. Let $\mathbf{u} = \langle 1, 2, 3\rangle$ and $\mathbf{v} = \langle -2, 0, 4\rangle$. Compute $\mathbf{u}\cdot\mathbf{v}$, and use it to find the angle between $\mathbf{u}$ and $\mathbf{v}$.

Solution.

$\mathbf{u} \cdot \mathbf{v} =$ *so the angle is:*

$\|\mathbf{u}\| =$ $\|\mathbf{v}\| =$

$\cos\theta =$

$\theta =$

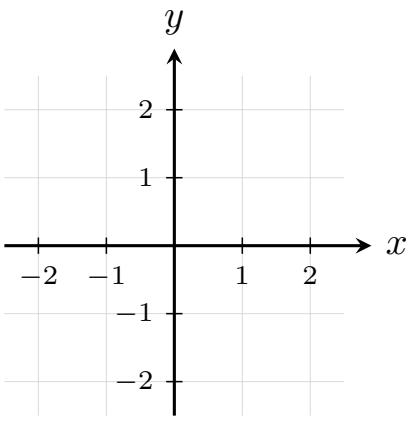
▲

Remark 3.3.6 Orthogonal vectors. If the two vectors $\mathbf{u}$ and $\mathbf{v}$ are orthogonal, then $\theta = \pi/2$, which means $\mathbf{u} \cdot \mathbf{v} = 0$. Conversely, if $\mathbf{u}$ and $\mathbf{v}$ are two vectors such that $\mathbf{u} \cdot \mathbf{v} = 0$, then $\mathbf{u}$ and $\mathbf{v}$ are orthogonal.

$$\mathbf{u} \cdot \mathbf{v} = 0 \iff \mathbf{u} \perp \mathbf{v}. \tag{3.3.4}$$

Example 3.3.7 A right triangle detected with the dot product. Consider the triangle with vertices $A(1,-1)$, $B(1,1)$, and $C(2,0)$. Show that this is a right triangle using the dot product and the orthogonality criterion (3.3.4).

Solution.



The two vectors and their dot product:

Conclusion:

▲

Example 3.3.8 The remaining angles of the triangle. For the triangle of Example 3.3.7, calculate the remaining angles.

Solution.

The angle at A:

The angle at B:

▲

Properties of the Dot Product.

Fact 3.3.9 *If* $\mathbf{u}$, $\mathbf{v}$, *and* $\mathbf{w}$ *are any vectors and* c *is a scalar, then*

1. $\mathbf{u} \cdot \mathbf{v} = \mathbf{v} \cdot \mathbf{u}$
2. $(c\mathbf{u}) \cdot \mathbf{v} = \mathbf{u} \cdot (c\mathbf{v}) = c(\mathbf{u} \cdot \mathbf{v})$
3. $\mathbf{u} \cdot (\mathbf{v} + \mathbf{w}) = \mathbf{u} \cdot \mathbf{v} + \mathbf{u} \cdot \mathbf{w}$
4. $\mathbf{u} \cdot \mathbf{u} = \|\mathbf{u}\|^2$
5. $\mathbf{0} \cdot \mathbf{u} = 0$

Prove properties 1, 3, and 4.

1.

3.

4.

3.3.2 Projection of u in the Direction of v

The dot product measures how much two vectors point in the same direction. This section turns that measurement into a vector: given $\mathbf{u}$ and $\mathbf{v}$, we ask how much of $\mathbf{u}$ lies along $\mathbf{v}$. The answer is the **projection** of $\mathbf{u}$ onto $\mathbf{v}$, and it lets us split any vector into a part that points along $\mathbf{v}$ and a part perpendicular to it. That decomposition is what makes the dot product useful in practice—it is how we find the component of a force along a direction of motion, as in Subsection 3.3.3, or the component of gravity down a slope.

The projection of $\mathbf{u}$ in the direction of $\mathbf{v}$ is denoted $\text{proj}_{\mathbf{v}}\mathbf{u}$, and is shown in Figure 3.3.10.

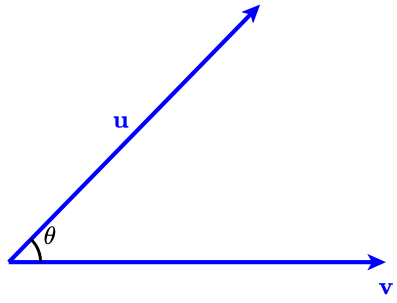


Figure 3.3.10 The vectors $\mathbf{u}$ and $\mathbf{v}$, for the projection $\text{proj}_{\mathbf{v}}\mathbf{u}$ of $\mathbf{u}$ in the direction of $\mathbf{v}$ and the perpendicular component $\mathbf{u} - \text{proj}_{\mathbf{v}}\mathbf{u}$.

Build the projection formula from that picture.

Length × direction:

Replacing $\cos\theta$*:*

$proj_{\mathbf{v}}\mathbf{u} =$

Fact 3.3.11 Projection Formula.

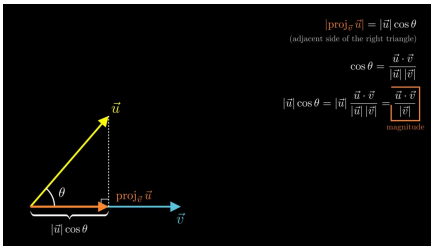
$$proj_{\mathbf{v}}\mathbf{u} = \left(\frac{\mathbf{u}\cdot\mathbf{v}}{\|\mathbf{v}\|^2}\right)\mathbf{v}. \tag{3.3.5}$$

Writing u as Two Vectors, One Parallel and One Perpendicular to v. As can be seen in Figure 3.3.10, $\text{proj}_{\mathbf{v}}\mathbf{u}$ is parallel to $\mathbf{v}$, and the vector $\mathbf{u} - \text{proj}_{\mathbf{v}}\mathbf{u}$ is perpendicular to it. Also, the sum of these two vectors equals $\mathbf{u}$. This means we can write $\mathbf{u}$ as

$$\mathbf{u} = \underbrace{\qquad\qquad}_{\text{parallel to } \mathbf{v}} + \underbrace{\qquad\qquad}_{\text{orthogonal to } \mathbf{v}}. \tag{3.3.6}$$

$\mathbf{u} = proj_{\mathbf{v}}\mathbf{u} + (\mathbf{u} - proj_{\mathbf{v}}\mathbf{u}) =$

with the projection formula:



Standalone

Figure 3.3.12 The projection of $\vec{u}$ onto $\vec{v}$ as a shadow cast by light from above.

Example 3.3.13 Decomposing a vector into parallel and perpendicular parts. Consider the two vectors $\mathbf{v} = \hat{\imath} + \hat{\jmath}$ and $\mathbf{u} = 2\hat{\imath} + 2\hat{\jmath} + 2\hat{k}$. Write $\mathbf{u}$ as a sum of two vectors, one of which is parallel to $\mathbf{v}$ and the other perpendicular to it.

Solution.

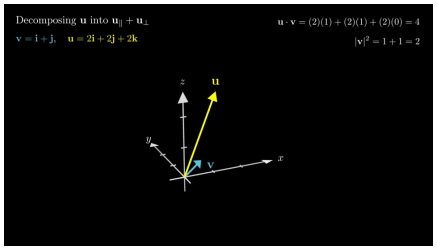
$\mathbf{u} \cdot \mathbf{v} =$ $\|\mathbf{v}\| =$

$\mathbf{u}_{\parallel} =$

$\mathbf{u}_{\perp} =$

Check: $\mathbf{u}_{\perp} \cdot \mathbf{v} =$

To achieve a visual understanding of this decomposition, watch the video below.



Standalone

Figure 3.3.14 Decomposing $\mathbf{u} = 2\hat{\imath} + 2\hat{\jmath} + 2\hat{k}$ into $\mathbf{u}_{\parallel} = 2\hat{\imath} + 2\hat{\jmath}$, lying in the xy-plane along $\mathbf{v}$, and $\mathbf{u}_{\perp} = 2\hat{k}$, pointing straight up.

▲

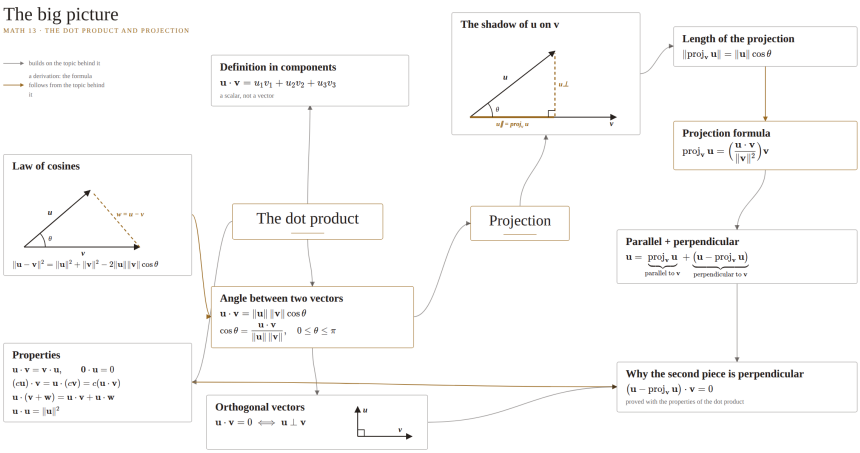
Checkpoint 3.3.15 Concept Check. Everything in (3.3.6) rests on the claim read off from Figure 3.3.10: that $\text{proj}_{\mathbf{v}}\mathbf{u}$ is parallel to $\mathbf{v}$, and that $\mathbf{u}-\text{proj}_{\mathbf{v}}\mathbf{u}$ is perpendicular to $\mathbf{v}$. A picture is not a proof. Explain why each half of the claim is true.

parallel half:

perpendicular half:

The Big Picture. The map below gathers the ideas of this section so far on one page: the dot product and the angle between two vectors, and the projection of one vector onto another. An arrow between two topics means the second builds on the first, and the gold arrows mark a derivation, where a formula follows from the topic behind it.

The online version of the map is interactive: every topic on it is a link to the part of the section where it is covered.



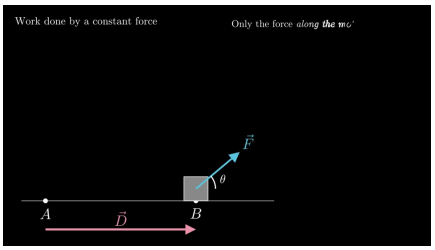
3.3.3 Application in Physics: Work

Consider the scenario in which a constant force $\mathbf{F}$ causes an object to move from point P to point Q, as shown in Figure 3.3.18. The vector $\overrightarrow{PQ}$ is often denoted $\mathbf{D}$ and is referred to as the **displacement vector**. The work done by the force is then

Definition 3.3.16 Work.

$$\text{Work} = \mathbf{F}\cdot\mathbf{D} = \|\mathbf{D}\|\|\mathbf{F}\|\cos\theta, \tag{3.3.7}$$

where $\|\text{proj}_{\mathbf{D}}\mathbf{F}\| = \|\mathbf{F}\|\cos\theta$ is the magnitude of the force in the direction of motion, as computed in Subsection 3.3.2. ◆



Standalone

Figure 3.3.17 A constant force $\mathbf{F}$ acting on an object causing a displacement from A to B.

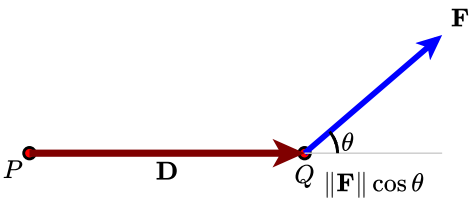


Figure 3.3.18 A force $\mathbf{F}$ displaces an object from P to Q along the displacement vector $\mathbf{D}$. The reference segment shows the magnitude of the force in the direction of motion, $\|\mathbf{F}\|\cos\theta$.

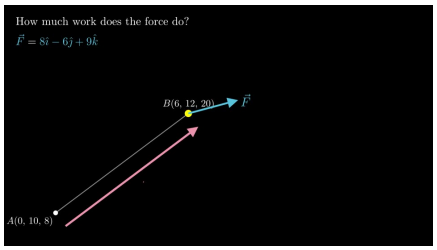
Example 3.3.19 Computing work done by a force. A force is given by the vector $\mathbf{F} = 8\hat{\imath} - 6\hat{\jmath} + 9\hat{k}$ and moves a particle from the point $A(0, 10, 8)$ to the point $B(6, 12, 20)$. Find the work done.

Solution.

D =

Work =

For more help, watch the video below.



Standalone

Figure 3.3.20 Set up the work computation: build the displacement vector first, then take the dot product. What do you get?

▲

Example 3.3.21 Gravity on an incline. Suppose a mass of 10 kg is resting on an inclined plane. Gravity exerts a force equivalent to mg on the object, where $g = 9.8$ m/s^2 is the gravitational acceleration. Suppose the incline is tilted at a 30° angle. Compute the components of the force that are parallel and perpendicular to the inclined plane.

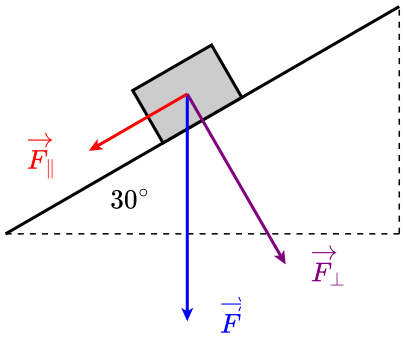


Figure 3.3.22 Forces acting on a mass on a 30° incline: the weight $\overrightarrow{F}$ resolves into a component $\overrightarrow{F}_{\parallel}$ down the slope and a component $\overrightarrow{F}_{\perp}$ into the surface, with $\overrightarrow{F} = \overrightarrow{F}_{\parallel} + \overrightarrow{F}_{\perp}$.

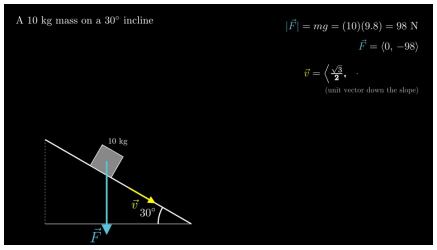
Solution.

$\|\overrightarrow{F}\| =$ $\overrightarrow{F} =$

$\hat{v} =$

$\overrightarrow{F}_{\parallel} =$

$\overrightarrow{F}_{\perp} =$



Standalone

Figure 3.3.23 Decomposing gravity on a 30° incline: the parallel component $\overrightarrow{F}_{\parallel} = \text{proj}_{\vec{v}} \overrightarrow{F}$ pulls the mass down the slope, and the perpendicular component $\overrightarrow{F}_{\perp} = \overrightarrow{F} - \overrightarrow{F}_{\parallel}$ presses it into the surface.

▲

3.3.4 ∗Application in Data Science: Measuring Similarity in Tastes

Starred section. This one is for the interested reader. It will not be examined.

Every time a streaming service tells you "because you watched *Sinners*…", some piece of software has decided that your taste resembles the taste of other people in its database. Deciding whose taste resembles whose can be framed as a geometry problem, and one tool that can help us decide is the dot product.

The first step is to turn taste into a vector. Fix a list of movies and ask each person to rate every one of them on a scale from -5 to 5, where 5 means "loved it", -5 means "I want those two hours back", and 0 means indifference. Reading the ratings off in the same order for everybody turns each person into a vector, and the question "do these two people have similar taste?" becomes a question about the angle between two vectors, which by Theorem 3.3.3 is exactly what the dot product measures.

Definition 3.3.24 Angular Distance and Cosine Similarity. Let $\mathbf{u}$ and $\mathbf{v}$ be two nonzero vectors. Their **angular distance** is the angle θ between them, obtained from (3.3.2),

$$d_A(\mathbf{u}, \mathbf{v}) = \theta = \cos^{-1}\left(\frac{\mathbf{u} \cdot \mathbf{v}}{\|\mathbf{u}\|\|\mathbf{v}\|}\right). \tag{3.3.8}$$

The quantity $\dfrac{\mathbf{u} \cdot \mathbf{v}}{\|\mathbf{u}\|\|\mathbf{v}\|} = \cos\theta$ appearing inside is called the **cosine similarity** of $\mathbf{u}$ and $\mathbf{v}$. The smaller the angular distance, the more similar the two vectors.

◆

Angular distance asks "how nearly do these two vectors point the same way?" Notice that it is completely blind to the lengths of $\mathbf{u}$ and $\mathbf{v}$: multiplying either vector by a positive number leaves θ untouched. We will come back to what that means for moviegoers.

Two Movies at a Time. Two movies give vectors in $\mathbb{R}^2$, which we can draw. Take two of the ten films nominated for Best Picture at the 2026 Academy Awards, *Sinners* and *Hamnet*, and record each person's rating of *Sinners* as the first component and of *Hamnet* as the second. Mehdi, Norm, and Popcorn rate them as follows:

$$\begin{aligned} \text{Mehdi:} \quad & \mathbf{u} = \langle 4, 5 \rangle \\ \text{Norm:} \quad & \mathbf{v} = \langle 5, 3 \rangle \\ \text{Popcorn:} \quad & \mathbf{w} = \langle -4, -2 \rangle. \end{aligned}$$

Mehdi and Norm both enjoyed the two films; Popcorn sat through both of them and regretted it. Figure 3.3.25 shows the three taste vectors.

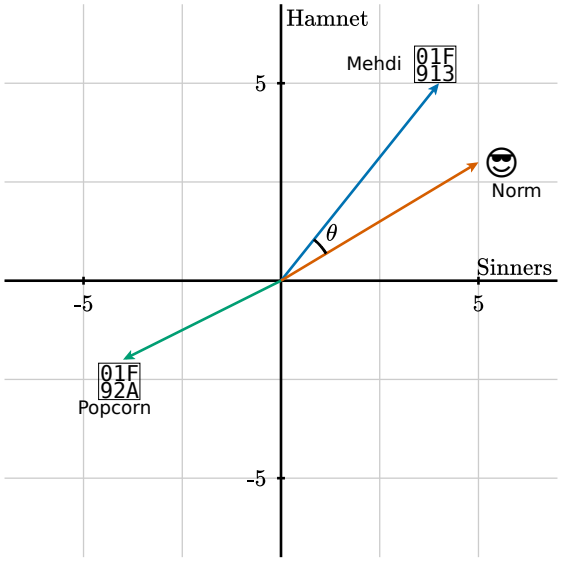


Figure 3.3.25 The taste vectors **u** (Mehdi), **v** (Norm), and **w** (Popcorn). The angle θ is the angular distance between **u** and **v**.

Example 3.3.26 Who should watch a movie together? Using the taste vectors above, rank the three pairs by angular distance.

Solution.

Table 3.3.27 Angular distance between the three taste vectors.

Pair	$\mathbf{u}\cdot\mathbf{v}$	$\cos\theta$	d_A
Mehdi, Norm			
Mehdi, Popcorn			
Norm, Popcorn			

Lengths and dot products:

Who are the movie buddies, and what did the signs already tell you?

▲

Angular Distance Ignores Enthusiasm. Suppose Ray, Vera, and Gus rate the same two films

$$\begin{aligned} \text{Ray:} \quad & \mathbf{a} = \langle 2, 2 \rangle \\ \text{Vera:} \quad & \mathbf{b} = \langle 5, 4 \rangle \\ \text{Gus:} \quad & \mathbf{c} = \langle 5, 5 \rangle, \end{aligned}$$

as in Figure 3.3.28.

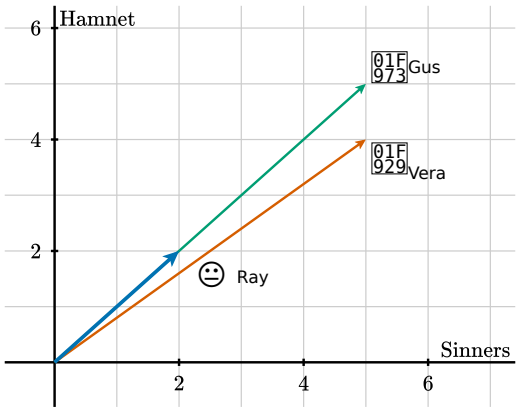


Figure 3.3.28 Ray, Vera, and Gus. Ray's vector **a** lies along Gus's vector **c**, so their angular distance is 0, even though Gus handed out far more generous ratings.

Find $d_A(\mathbf{a}, \mathbf{c})$ and $d_A(\mathbf{b}, \mathbf{c})$.

$d_A(\mathbf{a},\mathbf{c}) =$ *because*

$d_A(\mathbf{b},\mathbf{c}) =$

What this says about enthusiasm:

More Movies, More Dimensions. Nothing above depended on there being exactly two movies. With n movies, a person's taste vector is $\mathbf{u} = \langle u_1, u_2, \ldots, u_n \rangle$ in $\mathbb{R}^n$, the dot product of (3.3.3) becomes a sum of n products, $\mathbf{u}\cdot\mathbf{v} = \sum_{i=1}^{n} u_i v_i$, and the length of a vector becomes $\|\mathbf{u}\| = \sqrt{\sum_{i=1}^{n} u_i^2}$. The angular distance of Definition 3.3.24 carries over verbatim:

$$d_A(\mathbf{u},\mathbf{v}) = \cos^{-1}\left(\frac{\sum_{i=1}^{n} u_i v_i}{\sqrt{\sum_{i=1}^{n} u_i^2}\,\sqrt{\sum_{i=1}^{n} v_i^2}}\right). \tag{3.3.9}$$

We can no longer draw the picture, but every formula still applies, and the language of Remark 3.3.6 still means something: two taste vectors with $\mathbf{u}\cdot\mathbf{v} = 0$ are orthogonal, an angular distance of $90°$, which here says that knowing one person's ratings tells you nothing about the other's. This is what makes the dot product useful in practice. A streaming service with 50,000 titles works in $\mathbb{R}^{50{,}000}$, and finding the users nearest to you is still nothing more than the arithmetic in (3.3.9).

Example 3.3.29 All ten nominees. List the ten 2026 Best Picture nominees alphabetically—*Bugonia*, *F1*, *Frankenstein*, *Hamnet*, *Marty Supreme*, *One Battle After Another*, *The Secret Agent*, *Sentimental Value*, *Sinners*, *Train Dreams*—and suppose Mehdi, Norm, and Popcorn rate all ten:

$$\mathbf{u} = \langle 3,\ -1,\ 2,\ 5,\ 0,\ 5,\ 4,\ 3,\ 4,\ 2 \rangle$$
$$\mathbf{v} = \langle 1,\ 4,\ 3,\ 3,\ 5,\ 4,\ 0,\ 1,\ 5,\ -2 \rangle$$
$$\mathbf{w} = \langle -2,\ 3,\ -3,\ -2,\ 4,\ -1,\ -4,\ -5,\ -4,\ -3 \rangle.$$

(The fourth and ninth entries are the *Hamnet* and *Sinners* ratings from before.) Which pair has the most similar taste?

Solution.

Table 3.3.30 Angular distance across all ten nominees.

Pair	$\mathbf{u} \cdot \mathbf{v}$	$\cos\theta$	d_A
Mehdi, Norm			
Mehdi, Popcorn			
Norm, Popcorn			

Lengths and dot products:

Compared with the two-movie table:

▲

Ten components are a lot to handle by hand, and a real recommender system deals with thousands. The cell below carries out the computation of Example 3.3.29. Press *Evaluate* to run it and check the table you just filled in, then edit the ratings and run it again to see whose taste your own vector is closest to.

```
# ratings of the ten nominees, in alphabetical order
u = vector([ 3, -1,  2,  5,  0,  5,  4,  3,  4,  2])
v = vector([ 1,  4,  3,  3,  5,  4,  0,  1,  5, -2])
w = vector([-2,  3, -3, -2,  4, -1, -4, -5, -4, -3])

def cosine_similarity(a, b):
    return a.dot_product(b) / (a.norm() * b.norm())

# the angular distance, converted from radians to degrees
def angular_distance(a, b):
    return arccos(cosine_similarity(a, b)) * 180 / pi

for name, a, b in [("Mehdi, Norm", u, v),
                   ("Mehdi, Popcorn", u, w),
                   ("Norm, Popcorn", v, w)]:
    print(name, N(cosine_similarity(a, b), digits=3),
        N(angular_distance(a, b), digits=4))
```

```
Mehdi, Norm 0.549 56.71
Mehdi, Popcorn -0.762 139.6
Norm, Popcorn -0.0744 94.27
```

3.4 The Cross Product

Objectives

After completing this section, you should be able to:

- Understand the cross product as an operation that produces a vector perpendicular to two given vectors, with its direction fixed by the right-hand rule.
- Interpret the magnitude of the cross product as the area of the parallelogram spanned by the two vectors, and recognize that the cross product is zero exactly when the vectors are parallel.
- Understand why the geometric and component definitions of the cross product describe one and the same object.
- Contrast the cross product with the dot product: one returns a vector and detects parallelism, while the other returns a scalar and detects perpendicularity.
- Understand torque as a measure of the turning effect of a force, and appreciate the role of cross product in determining torque.
- Describe circular motion with the moving unit vectors $\hat{r}$ and $\hat{\theta}$, and represent the rate of rotation by the angular velocity vector $\overrightarrow{\omega}$ along the axis of rotation.
- Use the cross product to obtain the velocity of a rotating object from its angular velocity and position, $\overrightarrow{v} = \overrightarrow{\omega} \times \overrightarrow{r}$.

3.4.1 Definition and Properties of the Cross Product

Definition 3.4.1 The Cross Product (First Definition). Given two vectors $\mathbf{u}$ and $\mathbf{v}$ in $\mathbb{R}^3$, the **cross product** $\mathbf{u} \times \mathbf{v}$ is the *vector* defined by

$$\mathbf{u} \times \mathbf{v} = (\|\mathbf{u}\|\|\mathbf{v}\| \sin\theta)\, \hat{n}, \tag{3.4.1}$$

where θ, with $0 \leq \theta \leq \pi$, is the angle between $\mathbf{u}$ and $\mathbf{v}$, and $\hat{n}$ is the unit vector orthogonal to both $\mathbf{u}$ and $\mathbf{v}$ whose direction is given by the right-hand rule. ◆

The magnitude of $\mathbf{u} \times \mathbf{v}$ is equal to the area of the parallelogram built on the two vectors $\mathbf{u}$ and $\mathbf{v}$, as shown in Figure 3.4.2.

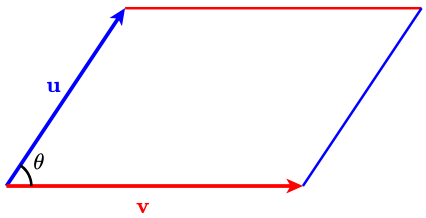


Figure 3.4.2 The parallelogram built on the vectors $\mathbf{u}$ and $\mathbf{v}$, with base $\|\mathbf{v}\|$ and height $\|\mathbf{u}\|\,|\sin(\theta)|$.

Read the area of that parallelogram off the figure, and compare it with (3.4.1).

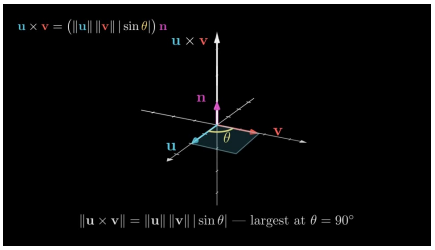
Area = base × height =

Why the absolute value:

Fact 3.4.3 Area of the Parallelogram.

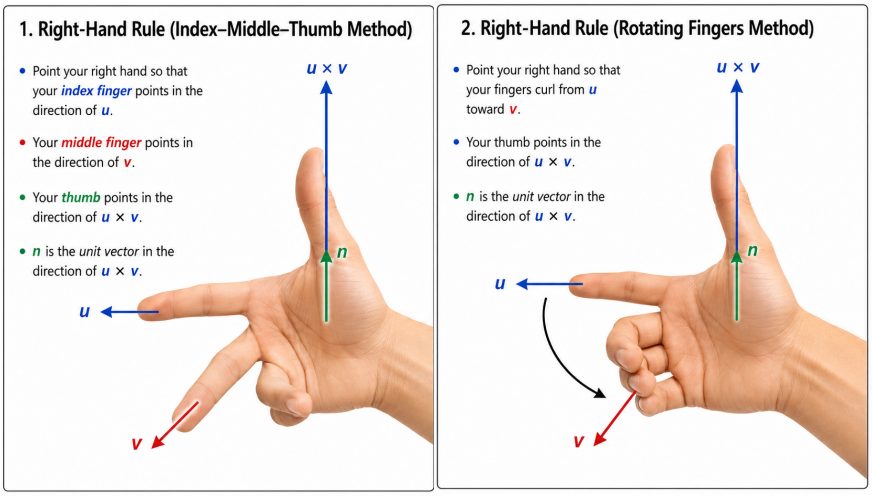
$$\textit{Area of the parallelogram} = \|\mathbf{u}\|\|\mathbf{v}\||\sin\theta| = \|\mathbf{u}\times\mathbf{v}\|. \tag{3.4.2}$$

The vector $\hat{n}$ is the unit vector that determines the direction of $\mathbf{u}\times\mathbf{v}$ using the right-hand rule. Note that $\mathbf{u}\times\mathbf{v}$ is orthogonal (perpendicular) to both vectors, as shown in Figure 3.4.4.



Standalone

Figure 3.4.4 The cross product $\mathbf{u}\times\mathbf{v}$ points in the direction of the unit vector $\hat{n}$, given by the right-hand rule, and is orthogonal to both $\mathbf{u}$ and $\mathbf{v}$; its length is $\|\mathbf{u}\|\|\mathbf{v}\||\sin\theta|$.



(a) Index–Middle–Thumb method. **(b)** Rotating-fingers method.

Figure 3.4.5 Two equivalent right-hand rules for $\mathbf{u}\times\mathbf{v}$.

Fact 3.4.6 Parallel Vectors. *From (3.4.1), it follows that the cross product of two parallel vectors is zero.*

$$\mathbf{u} \parallel \mathbf{v} \iff \mathbf{u} \times \mathbf{v} = \mathbf{0}, \qquad \mathbf{u}, \mathbf{v} \neq \mathbf{0}. \tag{3.4.3}$$

Say why (3.4.3) follows, in one line.

workspace

Theorem 3.4.7 Properties of the Cross Product. *If* $\mathbf{u}$, $\mathbf{v}$, *and* $\mathbf{w}$ *are any vectors and* r, s *are scalars, then*

1. $(r\mathbf{u}) \times (s\mathbf{v}) = (rs)(\mathbf{u} \times \mathbf{v})$
2. $\mathbf{u} \times (\mathbf{v} + \mathbf{w}) = \mathbf{u} \times \mathbf{v} + \mathbf{u} \times \mathbf{w}$
3. $(\mathbf{v} + \mathbf{w}) \times \mathbf{u} = \mathbf{v} \times \mathbf{u} + \mathbf{w} \times \mathbf{u}$
4. $\mathbf{v} \times \mathbf{u} = -(\mathbf{u} \times \mathbf{v})$
5. $\mathbf{0} \times \mathbf{u} = \mathbf{0}$

Property 4 is the one that has no analogue for the dot product, so prove it.

First components of $\mathbf{v} \times \mathbf{u}$ *and* $\mathbf{u} \times \mathbf{v}$*:*

In words:

Checkpoint 3.4.8 Show that $(\mathbf{u} - \mathbf{v}) \times (\mathbf{u} + \mathbf{v}) = 2(\mathbf{u} \times \mathbf{v})$.

Solution.

Expanding:

Simplifying:

Example 3.4.9 Computing a cross product using the first definition. Use Definition 3.4.1 to compute

1. $\hat{\imath} \times \hat{\jmath}$, and also $\hat{\jmath} \times \hat{\imath}$;
2. $\mathbf{u} \times \mathbf{v}$, where $\mathbf{u} = 4\hat{\imath}$ and $\mathbf{v}$ is a vector of length 3 lying in the xy-plane, making an angle of $30°$ with $\mathbf{u}$ measured counterclockwise.

Solution.

1. $\hat{\imath} \times \hat{\jmath} =$

$\hat{\jmath} \times \hat{\imath} =$

2. $\mathbf{u} \times \mathbf{v} =$

Area check:

▲

3.4.2 Second Definition of the Cross Product

Writing the vectors in components gives another definition for the cross product.

Definition 3.4.10 The Cross Product (Second Definition). If $\mathbf{u} = \langle u_1, u_2, u_3 \rangle$ and $\mathbf{v} = \langle v_1, v_2, v_3 \rangle$, then

$$\mathbf{u} \times \mathbf{v} = \langle u_2v_3 - u_3v_2,\ u_3v_1 - u_1v_3,\ u_1v_2 - u_2v_1 \rangle. \tag{3.4.4}$$

◆

One way to remember the second definition of the cross product is to write it as a determinant:

$$\begin{aligned} \mathbf{u} \times \mathbf{v} &= \begin{vmatrix} \hat{\imath} & \hat{\jmath} & \hat{k} \\ u_1 & u_2 & u_3 \\ v_1 & v_2 & v_3 \end{vmatrix} \\ &= \begin{vmatrix} u_2 & u_3 \\ v_2 & v_3 \end{vmatrix} \hat{\imath} - \begin{vmatrix} u_1 & u_3 \\ v_1 & v_3 \end{vmatrix} \hat{\jmath} + \begin{vmatrix} u_1 & u_2 \\ v_1 & v_2 \end{vmatrix} \hat{k}, \end{aligned} \tag{3.4.5}$$

where

$$\begin{vmatrix} a & b \\ c & d \end{vmatrix} = ad - bc. \tag{3.4.6}$$

Example 3.4.11 Computing a cross product. Calculate the cross product $\mathbf{u} \times \mathbf{v}$ if $\mathbf{u} = \langle 1, -1, 2 \rangle$ and $\mathbf{v} = \langle 3, -2, 1 \rangle$.

Solution.

$\mathbf{u} \times \mathbf{v} =$

Check:

▲

Example 3.4.12 Computing a vector perpendicular to two other vectors. Consider the points $A(1, -1, 2)$, $B(2, 0, -1)$, and $C(0, -2, 3)$. Find a unit vector which is orthogonal to both $\overrightarrow{AB}$ and $\overrightarrow{AC}$.

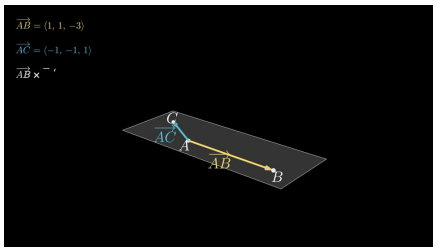
Solution.

$\overrightarrow{AB} =$ $\overrightarrow{AC} =$

$\overrightarrow{AB} \times \overrightarrow{AC} =$

$\hat{n} =$

The other one:



Standalone

Figure 3.4.13 The unit vector $\hat{n}$ is orthogonal to both $\overrightarrow{AB}$ and $\overrightarrow{AC}$, and hence to the plane through the points A, B, and C.

▲

Example 3.4.14 Computing the area of a triangle. Find the area of the triangle with the vertices $A(1, -1, 2)$, $B(2, 0, -1)$, and $C(0, -2, 3)$. Note that these are the same points that we had in the previous example.

Solution.

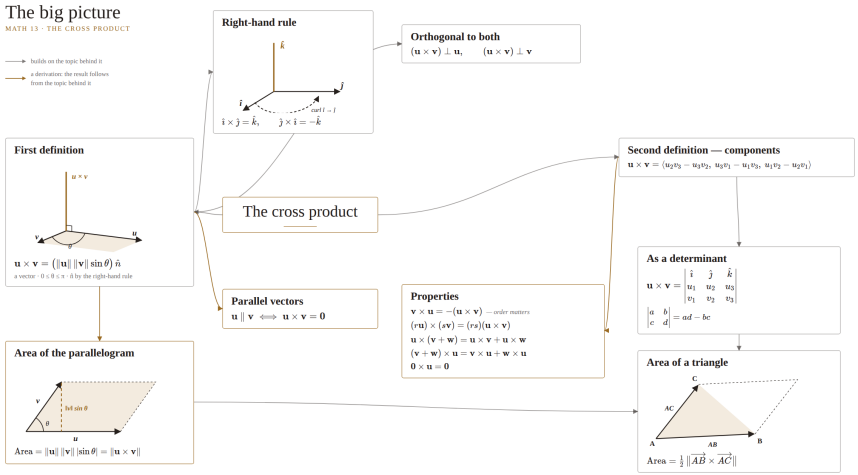
Area of the parallelogram =

Area of the triangle =

▲

The Big Picture. The map below gathers the ideas of this section so far on one page: the two definitions of the cross product and what each one tells us. An arrow between two topics means the second builds on the first, and the gold arrows mark a derivation, where a formula follows from the topic behind it.

The online version of the map is interactive: every topic on it is a link to the part of the section where it is covered.



3.4.3 True or False?

Checkpoint 3.4.15 True or False. Let $\overrightarrow{u}$ and $\overrightarrow{v}$ be two vectors in $\mathbb{R}^3$. Then, $\overrightarrow{u} \times \text{proj}_{\overrightarrow{v}} \overrightarrow{u}$ is perpendicular to $\overrightarrow{u} - \text{proj}_{\overrightarrow{v}} \overrightarrow{u}$.

Answer. True.

Solution. True.

Justify your answer.

workspace

Checkpoint 3.4.16 True or False. Let $\hat{u}$ and $\hat{v}$ be two standard unit vectors in $\mathbb{R}^3$. Then, $(\hat{u} \cdot \hat{v})^2 + \|\hat{v} \times \hat{u}\|^2 = 1$.

Answer. True.

Solution. True.

Justify your answer.

workspace

3.4.4 ∗Application: Torque

Starred section. This one is for the interested reader. It will not be examined.

One of the well known physical applications of the cross product is **torque**, the rotational analog of force. A force makes an object accelerate; a torque makes it *rotate*. How effective a force is at producing rotation depends not only on its magnitude, but also on *where* it is applied and in *what direction*. Think of pushing a door: pushing hard near the hinge barely moves it, while a light push at the doorknob swings it open easily. Pushing at the doorknob but *toward* the hinge does nothing at all. The cross product captures all three scenarios and more.

Definition 3.4.17 Torque. Suppose a force $\vec{F}$ is applied at a point whose position vector relative to the axis of rotation is $\vec{r}$. The **torque** produced by

$\vec{F}$ is the vector

$$\vec{\tau} = \vec{r} \times \vec{F}. \tag{3.4.7}$$

◆

An interactive view of the torque $\vec{\tau} = \vec{r} \times \vec{F}$ — the force swung around the head of $\vec{r}$, with the torque vector responding — accompanies the online version of these notes.

Everything we know about the cross product now translates into physics. By (3.4.1), the magnitude of the torque is

$$\|\vec{\tau}\| = \|\vec{r}\|\|\vec{F}\|\,|\sin\theta|, \tag{3.4.8}$$

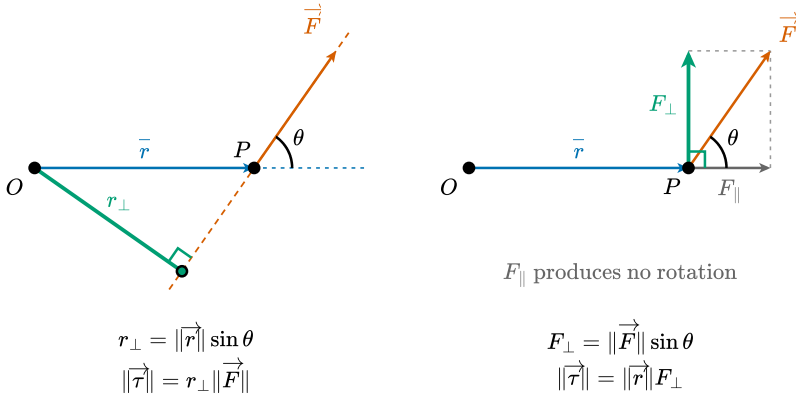
where θ is the angle between $\vec{r}$ and $\vec{F}$, and the direction of $\vec{\tau}$ is given by the right-hand rule: $\vec{\tau}$ points along the axis of rotation, and curling the fingers of the right hand from $\vec{r}$ toward $\vec{F}$ gives the sense of the rotation. Torque has units of meter-newtons (m · N) in SI.

The quantity in (3.4.8) can be grouped in two useful ways, shown in Figure 3.4.18. Write down the two groupings.

Grouped as a lever arm: $\|\vec{\tau}\| =$

Grouped as a perpendicular force: $\|\vec{\tau}\| =$

Why they agree:



(a) Force times lever arm: $\|\vec{\tau}\| = r_\perp\|\vec{F}\|$.

(b) Distance times perpendicular force: $\|\vec{\tau}\| = \|\vec{r}\|F_\perp$.

Figure 3.4.18 The two groupings of (3.4.8). In both pictures the axis of rotation passes through O, perpendicular to the page, the force $\vec{F}$ is applied at P, and θ is the angle between $\vec{r}$ and $\vec{F}$; the two products are equal because each is $\|\vec{r}\|\|\vec{F}\|\sin\theta$.

The first grouping, shown in Figure 3.4.18(a), says the torque is the force times the **lever arm** $r_\perp$, the perpendicular distance from the axis to the line

along which the force acts. The second, shown in Figure 3.4.18(b), says it is the distance $\|\vec{r}\|$ times $F_\perp$, the component of the force perpendicular to $\vec{r}$; the parallel component $F_\parallel$ points straight at the axis and produces no rotation.

Fact 3.4.19 Zero Torque. *By (3.4.3), if $\vec{F}$ is parallel to $\vec{r}$ then $\vec{\tau} = \vec{r} \times \vec{F} = \vec{0}$: a force directed straight at (or away from) the axis produces no rotation. This is why you cannot open a door by pushing toward its hinge.*

Example 3.4.20 Biceps torque. The biceps muscle exerts a vertical force of $\|\vec{F}\| = 700$ N on the lower arm, attached at a point 5.0 cm from the elbow joint (the axis of rotation). Calculate the torque about the elbow when

1. the forearm is horizontal, and
2. the forearm makes a 30° angle below the horizontal.

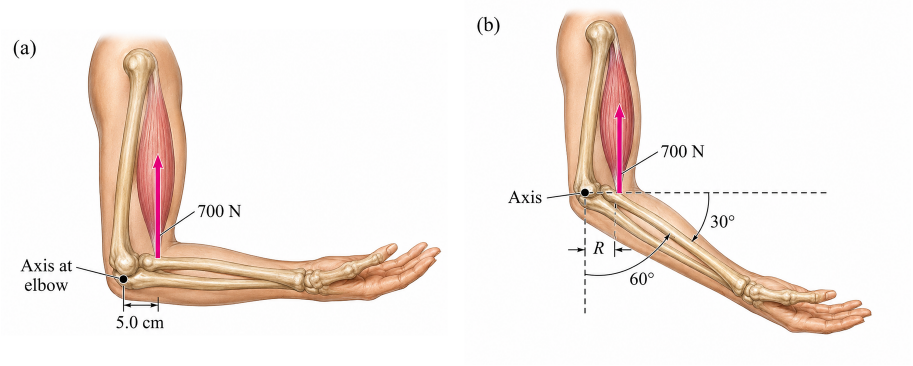


Figure 3.4.21 The biceps exerts a 700 N force on the forearm: (a) forearm horizontal, with the muscle attached 5.0 cm from the elbow axis; (b) forearm at 30° below horizontal, with lever arm R.

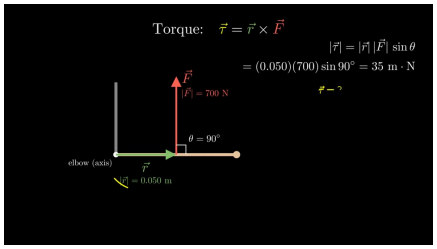
Solution.

Setup: $\overrightarrow{F} =$

1. Forearm horizontal: $\overrightarrow{r} =$, $\overrightarrow{\tau} =$

2. Forearm 30° below: $\overrightarrow{r} =$, $\overrightarrow{\tau} =$

Which is larger, and why it matters:



Standalone

Figure 3.4.22 The torque $\overrightarrow{\tau} = \overrightarrow{r} \times \overrightarrow{F}$ of the biceps force about the elbow. When the forearm drops 30° below the horizontal, the angle between $\overrightarrow{r}$ and $\overrightarrow{F}$ becomes 120° and the lever arm $r_\perp = \|\overrightarrow{r}\| \sin\theta$ shortens.

▲

3.4.5 ∗Application: Circular Motion: Velocity and Angular Velocity

Starred section. This one is for the interested reader. It will not be examined.

A second physical application of the cross product describes the motion of an object travelling in a circle: a rider on a circular track, a ball whirled on a string, a point on a spinning wheel, or the moon on its (nearly circular) orbit. In each case the object turns about a fixed centre, and the natural way to keep track of where it is at time t is not by its coordinates x and y but by the single angle $\theta(t)$ it has swung through. Our goal is to study how the velocity and the

rate of change of that angle are related.

3.4.5.1 A Frame that Turns with the Particle

Let an object move on a circle of radius r centred at the origin of the xy-plane, and let $\theta(t)$ be the angle its position makes with the positive x-axis at time t, as in Figure 3.4.23. At the point P where the particle sits we attach two unit vectors:

- $\hat{r}(t)$, pointing radially outward, away from the centre, and
- $\hat{\theta}(t)$, perpendicular to $\hat{r}(t)$ and tangent to the circle, pointing in the direction of increasing θ.

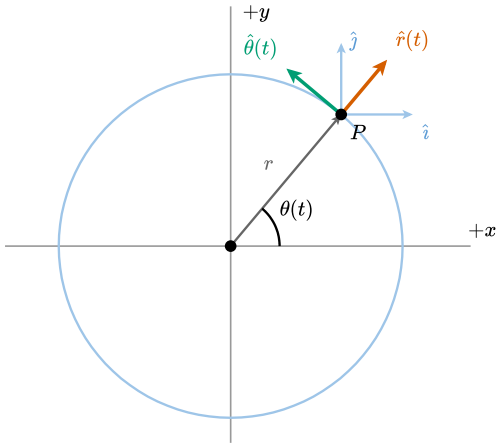


Figure 3.4.23 The moving frame at the point P: $\hat{r}(t)$ points radially outward and $\hat{\theta}(t)$ is tangent to the circle. The fixed vectors $\hat{\imath}$ and $\hat{\jmath}$ are drawn at P for comparison; unlike $\hat{r}$ and $\hat{\theta}$, they do not turn as the particle moves.

Read the components of the moving frame off Figure 3.4.23, and write down the position vector. ($\hat{r}$ makes the angle θ with the x-axis, and $\hat{\theta}$ is a quarter turn counterclockwise from it. Then check that $\hat{r}$, $\hat{\theta}$, $\hat{k}$ is right-handed by computing $\hat{r} \times \hat{\theta}$ with (3.4.5); a Pythagorean identity finishes it.)

$\hat{r}(t) =$

$\hat{\theta}(t) =$

$\overrightarrow{r}(t) =$ $\hat{r} \times \hat{\theta} =$

The Moving Frame.

$$\hat{r}(t) = \cos\theta(t)\,\hat{\imath} + \sin\theta(t)\,\hat{\jmath}, \tag{3.4.9}$$

$$\hat{\theta}(t) = -\sin\theta(t)\,\hat{\imath} + \cos\theta(t)\,\hat{\jmath}, \tag{3.4.10}$$

$$\overrightarrow{r}(t) = r\,\hat{r}(t). \tag{3.4.11}$$

The pair $\hat{\imath}$, $\hat{\jmath}$ is fixed once and for all, while the pair $\hat{r}(t)$, $\hat{\theta}(t)$ rides along with the particle and turns as it goes; this is exactly what makes the second pair convenient.

3.4.5.2 The Velocity in Circular Motion

Because the particle moves, the angle θ depends on t, and so do the two moving unit vectors. Differentiate the frame, and then the position.

$\frac{d\hat{r}}{dt} =$

$\frac{d\hat{\theta}}{dt} =$

$\vec{v}(t) = \frac{d\vec{r}}{dt} =$

Why the velocity has no radial component:

Velocity in Circular Motion.

$$\vec{v}(t) = r\,\frac{d\theta}{dt}\,\hat{\theta}(t), \tag{3.4.12}$$

whose $\hat{\theta}$-component

$$v_\theta = r\,\frac{d\theta}{dt} \tag{3.4.13}$$

is called the **tangential component of the velocity**. It is positive when the particle turns counterclockwise and negative when it turns clockwise.

Definition 3.4.24 Angular Speed. The **angular speed** of the particle is the magnitude of the rate of change of its angle,

$$\omega = \left|\frac{d\theta}{dt}\right|, \tag{3.4.14}$$

measured in radians per second. By (3.4.12), the speed of the particle and its angular speed are related by

$$v = \|\vec{v}\| = r\,\omega. \tag{3.4.15}$$

◆

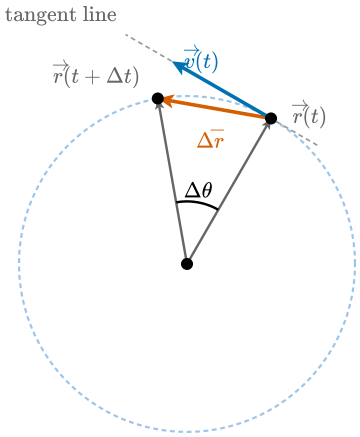
It is worth seeing where (3.4.15) comes from geometrically, without any differentiation of unit vectors. Figure 3.4.25 shows the particle moving from $\vec{r}(t)$ to $\vec{r}(t+\Delta t)$ through a small angle $\Delta\theta$. Recover (3.4.15) from that

picture.

Chord length: $\|\Delta\vec{r}\| =$

Taking the limit:

The direction of the chord as $\Delta t \to 0$*:*



$$\|\Delta\vec{r}\| = 2r\sin\tfrac{\Delta\theta}{2} \approx r\,\Delta\theta$$

Figure 3.4.25 The displacement $\Delta\vec{r}$ is the chord subtending the angle $\Delta\theta$. For small $\Delta\theta$ the chord is nearly the arc, $\|\Delta\vec{r}\| \approx r\,\Delta\theta$, and its direction approaches that of the tangent line, along which $\vec{v}$ points.

3.4.5.3 Angular Velocity as a Vector

So far the rate of turning has been a number, $d\theta/dt$. But a rotation has a direction as well as a rate: the plane of the circle can be tilted any which way,

and the particle can go around it either way. Both pieces of information can be carried by a single vector, provided we point it along the axis of rotation rather than along the motion.

Definition 3.4.26 Angular Velocity Vector. For an object moving in a circle in the xy-plane about the origin, the **angular velocity vector** is

$$\vec{\omega} = \frac{d\theta}{dt}\,\hat{k} = \omega_z\,\hat{k}, \tag{3.4.16}$$

directed along the axis of rotation. Its SI units are $\text{rad}\cdot\text{s}^{-1}$, and the angular speed of (3.4.14) is its magnitude, $\omega = \|\vec{\omega}\| = |\omega_z|$. ◆

The sign of ω_z records which way the object goes around, and the right-hand rule turns that sign into a direction in space: curl the fingers of your right hand in the direction of the motion and your thumb points along $\vec{\omega}$. The two cases are shown in Figure 3.4.27.

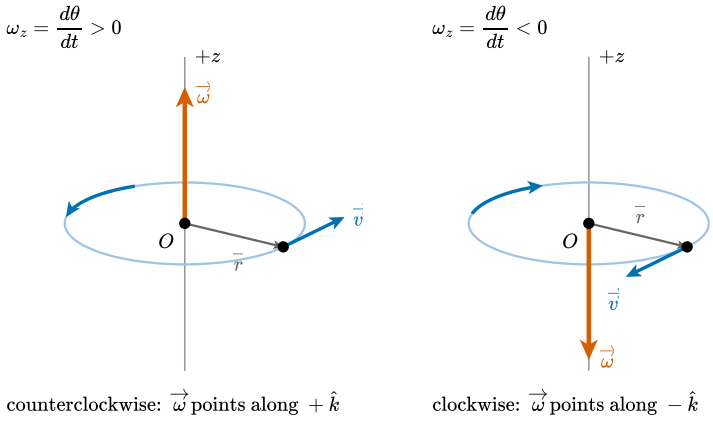


Figure 3.4.27 The angular velocity vector points along the axis of rotation, in the direction given by the right-hand rule: up the z-axis for counterclockwise motion (left), down it for clockwise motion (right). Note that $\vec{\omega}$ is *not* tangent to the orbit — the velocity $\vec{v}$ is.

3.4.5.4 Velocity as a Cross Product

We now have two vectors attached to the motion: the angular velocity $\vec{\omega}$, along the axis, and the position $\vec{r}$, in the plane of the circle. The velocity is perpendicular to both, which is precisely the job of the cross product.

Fact 3.4.28 Velocity and Angular Velocity. *For an object in circular motion about the origin,*

$$\vec{v} = \vec{\omega} \times \vec{r}. \tag{3.4.17}$$

Verify (3.4.17).

$\hat{k} \times \hat{r} =$

$\vec{\omega} \times \vec{r} =$

The geometry of the cross product delivers all three features of the velocity at once. Fill them in from Figure 3.4.29, with no computation.

Magnitude:

Direction:

Sense:

There is a bonus. A piece of $\vec{r}$ running along the axis is parallel to $\vec{\omega}$ and so contributes nothing to the cross product, since $\hat{k} \times \left(z\,\hat{k} \right) = \vec{0}$. Consequently (3.4.17) remains true when $\vec{r}$ is measured from *any* point on the axis of rotation, not just from the centre of the circle.

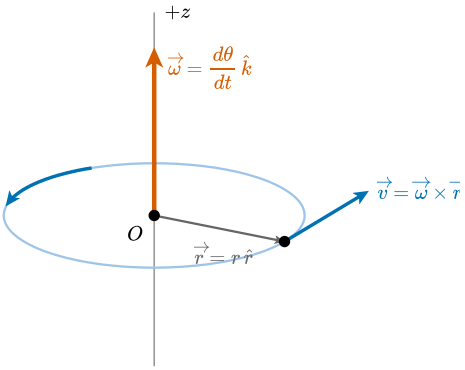


Figure 3.4.29 The velocity of a particle in circular motion is $\vec{v} = \vec{\omega} \times \vec{r}$. Because $\vec{\omega}$ and $\vec{r}$ are perpendicular, the speed is ωr, and the right-hand rule places $\vec{v}$ tangent to the orbit in the direction of travel.

3.4.5.5 Examples

Example 3.4.30 Angular velocity from an angle function. A particle moves in a circle of radius R centred at the origin of the xy-plane; at $t = 0$ it is on the positive x-axis. The angle it makes with the positive x-axis is $\theta(t) = At - Bt^3$, where A and B are positive constants.

1. Find the angular velocity vector.
2. Find the velocity vector, in polar coordinates.
3. At what time t_1 is the angular velocity zero?
4. In which direction does the angular velocity point for $t < t_1$, and for $t > t_1$?

Solution.

$\frac{d\theta}{dt} =$

1. $\vec{\omega}(t) =$

2. $\vec{v}(t) =$

3. $t_1 =$

4. *Before* t_1*:* *After* t_1*:*

▲

Example 3.4.31 A turntable. A record turntable spins at $33\frac{1}{3}$ revolutions per minute, counterclockwise when viewed from above. Take the axis of rotation to be the z-axis, with the turntable lying in the xy-plane, distances in meters.

1. Find the angular velocity vector $\vec{\omega}$.
2. Find the velocity of the point of the record at $\vec{r} = \langle 0.12,\, 0,\, 0\rangle$, and its speed.

Solution.

1. $\omega =$ $\vec{\omega} =$

2. $\vec{v} =$

Speed, and the check:

▲

Checkpoint 3.4.32 A carousel. A carousel turns *clockwise* when viewed from above, making one complete turn every 12 seconds. Taking the axis of rotation as the z-axis, find the angular velocity vector, and the velocity of a horse located at $\vec{r} = \langle 0, 4, 0 \rangle$ meters.

Solution.

$\omega =$ $\vec{\omega} =$

$\vec{v} =$

Direction check:

3.5 Parametrization of Plane Curves

Objectives

After completing this section, you should be able to:

- Describe the motion of a point in the plane with a pair of parametric equations $x = f(t)$ and $y = g(t)$, and understand the parameter t as recording *when* the point visits each place on the curve.
- Sketch a parametric curve from a table of values, and indicate the direction of increasing t in which the curve is traced.
- Find parametric equations for common curves, such as lines, circles, and ellipses, and eliminate the parameter to recover a Cartesian equation when possible.
- Model the motion of a projectile with parametric equations, and derive the equation of its parabolic trajectory.
- Distinguish the **intersection points** of two parametric curves from their **collision points**, where two moving objects reach the same place at the same time.

3.5.1 Parametric Equations

Imagine that you would like to describe the motion of an object whose motion is confined to a plane. If you know how its Cartesian coordinates, x and y, change as time passes, you will be able to draw a curve that represents the trajectory of its motion, as shown in Figure 3.5.2. Mathematically, we will need two equations to demonstrate how the x- and y-coordinates evolve in time t, which are known as the **parametric equations**.

Definition 3.5.1 Parametric Equations. If x and y are given as functions of a third variable t, called a **parameter**, by

$$x = f(t), \qquad y = g(t), \tag{3.5.1}$$

then the points $(x, y) = (f(t), g(t))$ trace out a curve in the plane, called a **parametric curve**. The equations $x = f(t)$ and $y = g(t)$ are the parametric equations of the curve. ◆

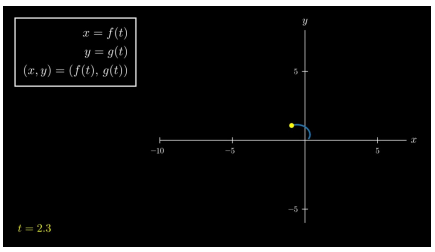


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Figure 3.5.2 A point moves in the plane. As time t passes, its coordinates $x = f(t)$ and $y = g(t)$ change, and the point traces out the trajectory of the motion.

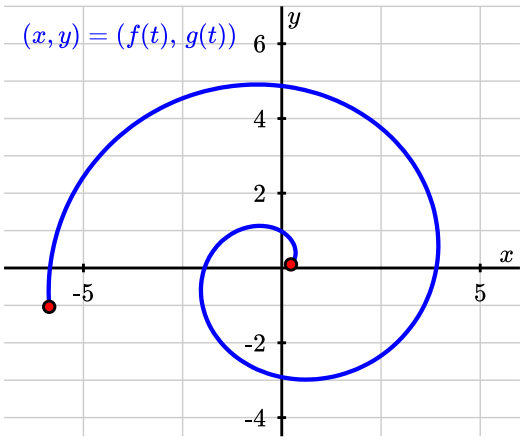
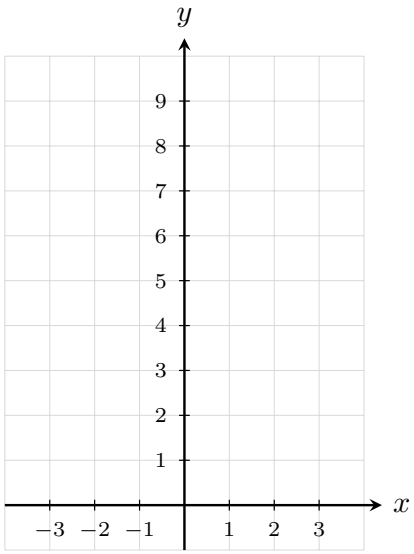


Figure 3.5.3 The trajectory of a moving point whose coordinates are given by the parametric equations $x = f(t)$, $y = g(t)$.

As an example, consider $x = t$ and $y = t^2$. Fill in Table 3.5.4, plot the seven points on the grid below, and join them.

Table 3.5.4 Points on the curve $x = t$, $y = t^2$

t	x	y
-3		
-2		
-1		
0		
1		
2		
3		



Eliminating t:

Name of the curve, and its direction:

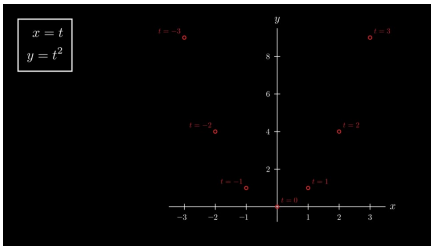


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Figure 3.5.5 The parametric curve $x = t$, $y = t^2$: the points from the table appear first, and then the moving point traces out the parabola $y = x^2$ in the direction of increasing t. Use it to check your sketch.

As our second example, consider the equation of the circle centered at $(0, 0)$ with unit radius,

$$x^2 + y^2 = 1. \tag{3.5.2}$$

Here, we would like to parametrize x and y in terms of a single parameter t, as in (3.5.1), in such a way that by varying the value of t we can reconstruct the circle (3.5.2). Find such a pair.

The identity, and the parametrization:

Interval of t, and the check:

The Unit Circle.

$$x = \cos(t), \qquad y = \sin(t), \qquad t \in [0, 2\pi). \tag{3.5.3}$$

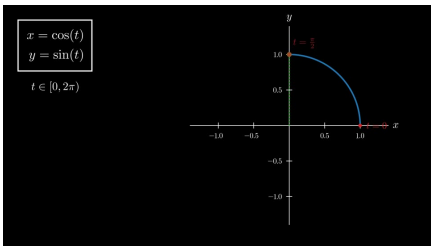

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Figure 3.5.6 Parametrizing the unit circle: as t increases from 0 to 2π, the point $(\cos(t), \sin(t))$ travels counterclockwise around the circle, passing through the marked points at $t = 0$, $\pi/2$, π, and $3\pi/2$.

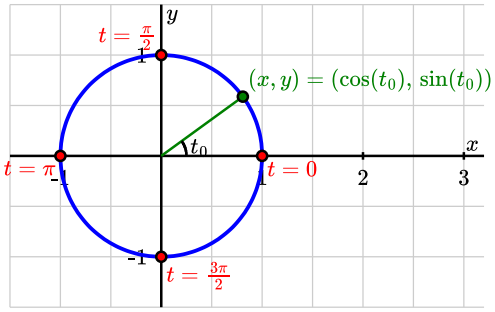


Figure 3.5.7 Parametrizing the unit circle $x^2+y^2 = 1$ by $x = \cos(t)$, $y = \sin(t)$, $t \in [0, 2\pi)$. A generic point of the circle corresponds to the parameter value t_0.

Checkpoint 3.5.8 Question. Can you think of another way to write a parametric form of the circle $x^2 + y^2 = 1$?

workspace

3.5.2 Some Examples of Parametrizing Curves

Example 3.5.9 Parametrizing Curves. Find the parametric equations corresponding to the following curves.

A. The line segment connecting the two points $(1, 0)$ and $(0, 1)$.

B. The ellipse $\dfrac{x^2}{4} + \dfrac{y^2}{9} = 1$.

C. The circle of radius 2 centered at $(2, 0)$.

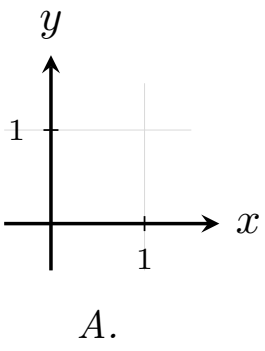
Solution.

A.

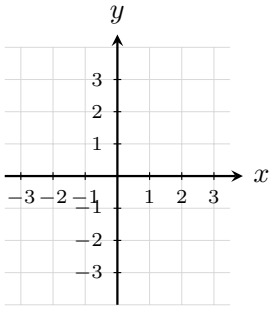
B.

C.

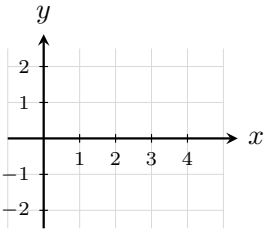
Now sketch the three curves on the grids below, marking the point reached at $t = 0$ and the direction of increasing t on each.



A.



B.



C.

▲

The three videos below trace the curves out. Use them to check your sketches and, in particular, the directions you marked.

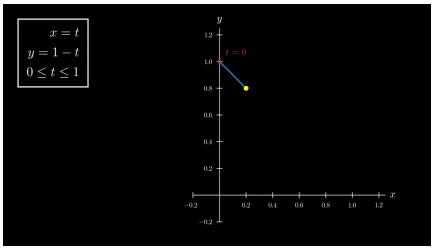


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Figure 3.5.10 Part A: the line segment from $(0, 1)$ to $(1, 0)$.

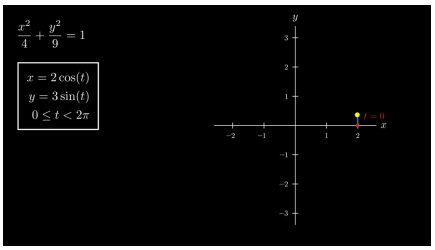

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Figure 3.5.11 Part B: the ellipse $\frac{x^2}{4} + \frac{y^2}{9} = 1$, traced counterclockwise, with the points at $t = 0$, $\pi/2$, π, and $3\pi/2$ marked.

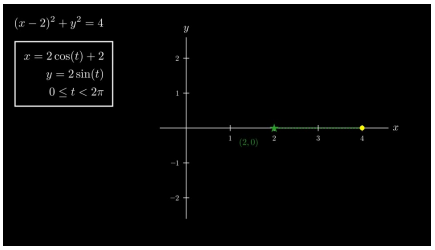

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Figure 3.5.12 Part C: the circle of radius 2 centered at $(2, 0)$.

3.5.3 ∗Projectile Motion

Starred section. This one is for the interested reader. It will not be examined.

A type of parametric equation you may have already seen is the equation of motion for a projectile. Here the parameter is time, and $(x(t), y(t))$ gives the position of the projectile at time t.

Recall two basic facts about motion in one dimension from your introductory physics course. For motion along a straight line at constant speed v, the position is

$$x(t) = v\,t + x_0. \tag{3.5.4}$$

For motion with uniform acceleration a, the position is

$$x(t) = \frac{1}{2}at^2 + v_0t + x_0. \tag{3.5.5}$$

Now consider an object moving under the influence of gravity alone, ignoring air resistance. Write down its equations of motion.

Components of the initial velocity:

$x(t) =$

$y(t) =$

Equations of Motion for a Projectile.

$$x(t) = v_0 \cos(\theta)\, t + x_0, \tag{3.5.6}$$

$$y(t) = -\frac{1}{2} g t^2 + v_0 \sin(\theta)\, t + y_0, \tag{3.5.7}$$

where v_0 is the initial speed, θ is the launch angle, and g is the acceleration due to gravity.

Now eliminate the parameter to find the trajectory.

$t =$

Substituting, $y =$

The trajectory is a:

Differentiating the equations of motion gives the velocity of the projectile. Write down its two components, and use them to say what happens at the

apex.

$v_x =$ $v_y =$

Why v_x is constant:

At the apex:

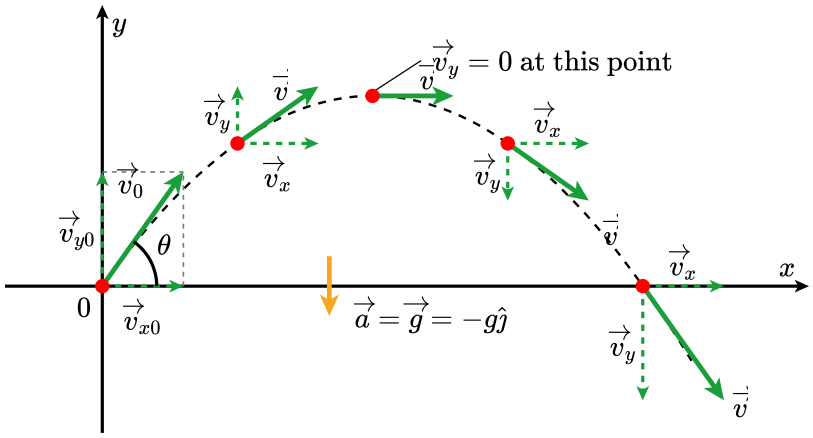

Figure 3.5.13 The velocity of a projectile at five instants along its parabolic path. The horizontal component $\vec{v}_x$ stays constant while the vertical component $\vec{v}_y$ changes under the constant downward acceleration $\vec{g}$; at the apex the vertical component is zero.

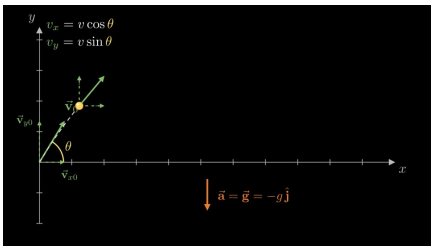

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Figure 3.5.14 A projectile launched from the origin traces out its parabolic trajectory. The horizontal velocity component v_x is constant, while the vertical component v_y shrinks to zero at the apex and then grows in the downward direction as the projectile falls.

Activity 3.5.3.1 Projectiles on an Inclined Plane. A particle is launched from a point O on an inclined plane and travels in the vertical plane that contains the line of greatest slope through O. The plane makes an angle β with the horizontal, and the particle leaves O with initial speed v_0 at an elevation θ to the horizontal. Taking the origin at O with horizontal and vertical axes

and neglecting air resistance, the trajectory is the projectile parabola

$$y = x\tan\theta - \frac{g\,x^2}{2\,v_0^2\cos^2\theta}.$$

Let P be the point where the particle meets the plane again, and let $R = OP$ be the range measured *along the plane*, so that $P = \big(R\cos\beta,\ R\sin\beta\big)$. Work through the tasks below to find the range on the plane, the maximum range for a given v_0, and the time of flight, and then to read off the corresponding results when the particle is fired *down* the plane.

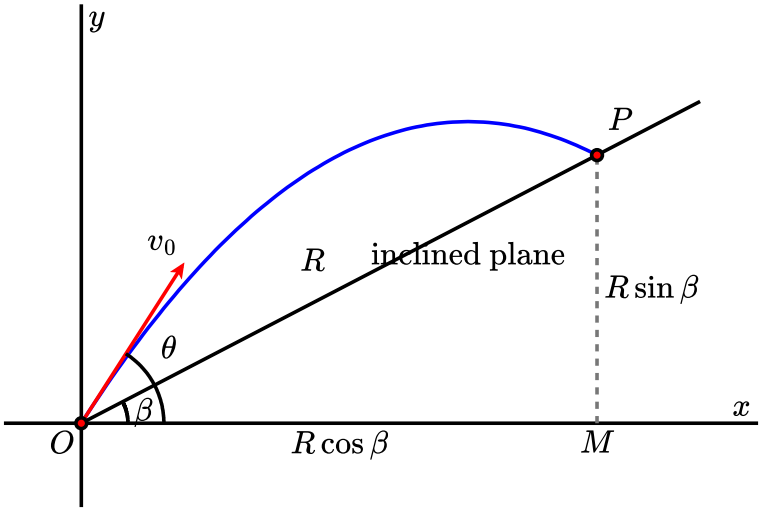

Figure 3.5.15 A particle projected up the plane with speed v_0 at elevation θ, striking the incline (angle β) at P after travelling a range $R = OP$ along the slope.

(a) Since $P = \big(R\cos\beta,\ R\sin\beta\big)$ lies on the trajectory, substitute these coordinates into the parabola and cancel a factor of R to show that

$$\sin\beta = \cos\beta\,\tan\theta - \frac{g\,R\,\cos^2\beta}{2\,v_0^2\cos^2\theta}.$$

workspace

(b) Rearrange the relation from the previous task to isolate R, and use $\sin\theta\cos\beta - \cos\theta\sin\beta = \sin(\theta-\beta)$ to obtain the **range up the plane**

$$R = \frac{2\,v_0^2\,\sin(\theta-\beta)\cos\theta}{g\cos^2\beta}.$$

Collecting the R-term:

Solving for R:

(c) Using the identity $2\sin(\theta-\beta)\cos\theta = \sin(2\theta-\beta) - \sin\beta$, rewrite the range as

$$R = \frac{v_0^2}{g\cos^2\beta}\big[\sin(2\theta-\beta) - \sin\beta\big].$$

For a fixed launch speed v_0, deduce the elevation θ that maximizes R, and show that the maximum range up the plane is

$$R_{\max} = \frac{v_0^2}{g\,(1+\sin\beta)}.$$

The rewritten range:

The optimal elevation, $\theta =$

$R_{\max} =$

Hint. With v_0, g, and β held constant, only $\sin(2\theta-\beta)$ varies, and it is largest when it equals 1. Afterwards use $\cos^2\beta = (1-\sin\beta)(1+\sin\beta)$.

(d) The horizontal distance OM to the foot of P is covered at the constant horizontal speed $v_0 \cos\theta$. Using $OM = R\cos\beta$, show that the **time of flight** is

$$T = \frac{2\,v_0\,\sin(\theta - \beta)}{g\cos\beta}.$$

$T =$

(e) When the particle is projected *down* the plane, the geometry is the same with β replaced by $-\beta$. Write down the range, maximum range, and time of flight down the inclined plane.

$R_{down} =$

$R_{\max,down} =$

$T_{down} =$

Larger or smaller than up the plane, and why:

The maximum range up the plane occurs when $2\theta - \beta = \dfrac{\pi}{2}$. Rearrange that condition into the form $\theta - \beta = \dfrac{\pi}{2} - \theta$, and interpret each side geometrically: one is the angle the launch direction makes *above the incline*, the other the angle it makes *below the vertical*. What does their being equal say about the direction of projection for maximum range?

workspace

3.5.4 ∗Intersection Points versus Collision Points

Starred section. This one is for the interested reader. It will not be examined.

A parametrization carries more information than the curve it traces: it also records *when* the moving point visits each place on the curve. Because of this, there are two different questions we can ask about two parametric curves

$$\mathbf{r}_1(t) = \big\langle f_1(t),\, g_1(t)\big\rangle, \qquad \mathbf{r}_2(t) = \big\langle f_2(t),\, g_2(t)\big\rangle,$$

thought of as the trajectories of two particles.

Definition 3.5.16 Intersection Points and Collision Points. A point P is an **intersection point** of the two curves if P lies on both curves; that is, if there are parameter values t and s, *not necessarily equal*, with

$$\mathbf{r}_1(t) = \mathbf{OP} = \mathbf{r}_2(s). \tag{3.5.8}$$

A point P is a **collision point** of the two particles if both particles are at P at the *same* time; that is, if there is a single value of t with

$$\mathbf{r}_1(t) = \mathbf{r}_2(t) = \mathbf{OP}. \tag{3.5.9}$$

◆

An intersection point is a statement about the two *paths*: they cross, like two roads on a map. A collision point is a statement about the two *motions*: the cars are at the crossroads at the same instant.

Say how the two definitions differ when you set up the equations, and how they are related.

To find intersection points, solve:

To find collision points, solve:

Does one imply the other?

In the next two examples the two *paths* are always the same: the parabola $y = x^2$ and the line $y = x + 2$, which meet at the two points $(-1, 1)$ and $(2, 4)$. Only the *schedule* of the second particle will change.

Example 3.5.17 The paths cross, but the particles never meet. Two particles move in the plane with position vectors

$$\mathbf{r}_1(t) = \langle t,\ t^2 \rangle, \qquad \mathbf{r}_2(t) = \langle -t,\ 2 - t \rangle, \qquad t \in \mathbb{R}.$$

Find all intersection points of their paths, and all collision points of the particles.

Solution.

Paths:

Collisions:

Times at which each particle visits $(-1, 1)$ *and* $(2, 4)$*:*

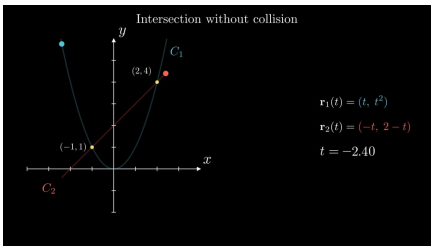

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Figure 3.5.18 The particles $\mathbf{r}_1(t) = \langle t, t^2 \rangle$ and $\mathbf{r}_2(t) = \langle -t, 2 - t \rangle$ move simultaneously. Their paths cross at $(-1, 1)$ and $(2, 4)$, but the clock shows that the two particles are never at either crossing at the same time.

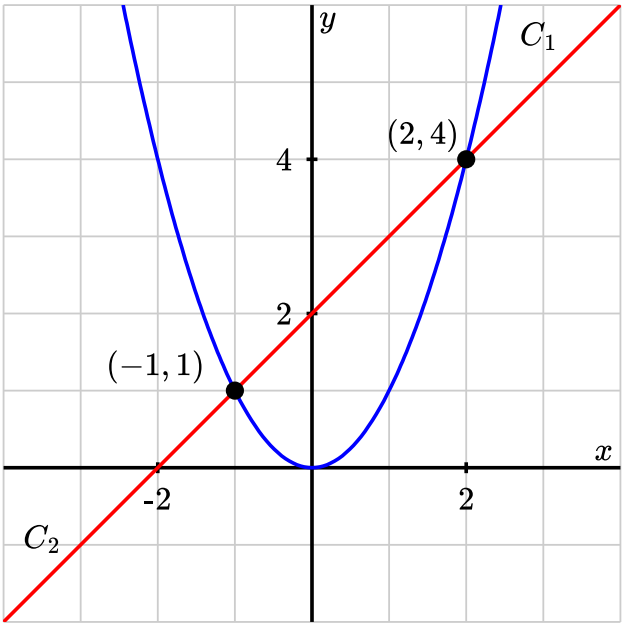


Figure 3.5.19 The parabola C_1 and the line C_2 intersect at $(-1, 1)$ and $(2, 4)$. At each of these points the two particles arrive at different times, so neither point is a collision point.

Example 3.5.20 The same paths, a different schedule—now they collide. Keep the first particle, but re-schedule the second one:

$$\mathbf{r}_1(t) = \langle t,\ t^2 \rangle, \qquad \mathbf{r}_2(t) = \langle 2t - 2,\ 2t \rangle, \qquad t \in \mathbb{R}.$$

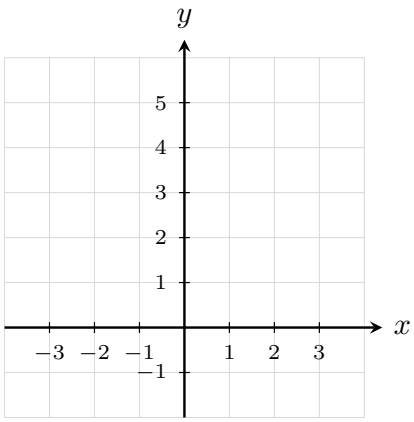
Find the intersection points of the paths and the collision points of the particles.

Solution.

Paths:

Collisions:

The other crossing:



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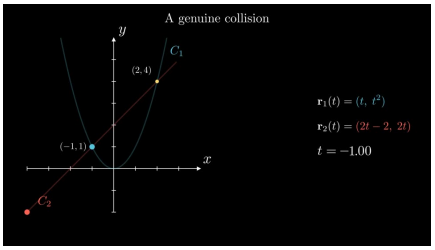

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Figure 3.5.21 With $\mathbf{r}_2(t) = \langle 2t - 2, 2t \rangle$ the second particle follows the same line as before, but on a different schedule. Use it to check which crossing is the collision, and when it happens.

Insight 3.5.22 Every Collision Is an Intersection, but Not Conversely. If two particles collide at P, then certainly P lies on both paths, so every collision point is an intersection point. The converse fails: the paths may cross at a point that the two particles visit at different times. Changing the parametrization of a curve does not move the curve, but it can create or destroy collisions.

Checkpoint 3.5.23 Keep $\mathbf{r}_1(t) = \langle t, t^2 \rangle$. Find a parametrization $\mathbf{r}_2$ of the line $y = x + 2$ for which the two particles collide at *both* intersection points.

$\mathbf{r}_2(t) =$

The collision equations, and their solutions:

Hint. Try to arrange that the second particle has the same x-coordinate as the first one at every time t.

3.6 Lines and Planes in Space

Objectives

After completing this section, you should be able to:

- Write the vector equation and the parametric equations of a line in space from a point on the line and a vector parallel to it.
- Compute the distance from a point to a line using the cross product.
- Find the equation of a plane from a point on the plane and a normal vector, and find the line of intersection of two planes.
- Compute the distance from a point to a plane using the projection onto the normal vector.

3.6.1 Vector Equation for a Line in Space

Consider a line that passes through the point $P_0(x_0, y_0, z_0)$ and is parallel to the vector $\mathbf{v}$, as in Figure 3.6.1. Write down the vector equation of that line.

$\overrightarrow{P_0P} =$

$\mathbf{r}(t) =$

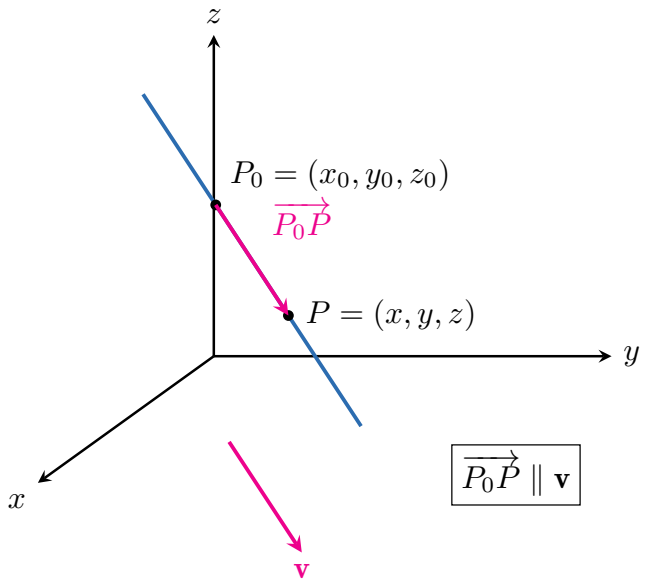


Figure 3.6.1 The line through P_0 parallel to $\mathbf{v}$. For any point P on the line, the vector $\overrightarrow{P_0P}$ is parallel to $\mathbf{v}$.

Vector Equation of a Line.

$$\mathbf{r}(t) = \mathbf{r}_0 + t\,\mathbf{v}, \quad t \in \mathbb{R}. \tag{3.6.1}$$

lets you move P_0 and $\mathbf{v}$ and slide the parameter t to see the point $\mathbf{r}(t) = \mathbf{r}_0 + t\,\mathbf{v}$ travel along the line.

An interactive figure of this line — drag P_0 or $\mathbf{v}$, and slide t to move the point along it — accompanies the online version of these notes.

3.6.2 Parametric Equations for a Line

The vector equation (3.6.1) can be interpreted as the following parametric equations, where $\mathbf{v} = \langle v_1, v_2, v_3 \rangle$:

$$\begin{aligned} x &= x_0 + t\,v_1 \\ y &= y_0 + t\,v_2 \qquad t \in \mathbb{R}. \\ z &= z_0 + t\,v_3 \end{aligned} \tag{3.6.2}$$

When none of v_1, v_2, v_3 is zero, each parametric equation can be solved for t; equating the three expressions eliminates t and gives the **standard equations** (also called the **symmetric equations**) of the line:

$$\frac{x - x_0}{v_1} = \frac{y - y_0}{v_2} = \frac{z - z_0}{v_3}. \tag{3.6.3}$$

If one of the components of $\mathbf{v}$ is zero, say $v_3 = 0$, that coordinate stays constant along the line, and the standard equations are written as $\dfrac{x - x_0}{v_1} = \dfrac{y - y_0}{v_2}$, $z = z_0$.

Example 3.6.2 The line through two points. Find the vector equation, the parametric equations and the standard equations of the line that passes through the points $P_0(2, 0, 0)$ and $P(1, -1, 1)$.

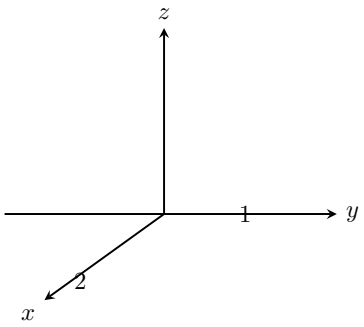
Solution.

$\mathbf{v} =$

$\mathbf{r}(t) =$

Parametric equations:

Standard equations:



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3.6.3 The Distance from a Point to a Line

Our goal is to find the distance d of the point S from the line L, as shown in Figure 3.6.3. Derive a formula for it.

From the triangle, $d =$

As a cross product, $d =$

Distance from a Point to a Line.

$$d = \frac{\|\overrightarrow{PS} \times \mathbf{v}\|}{\|\mathbf{v}\|}. \tag{3.6.4}$$

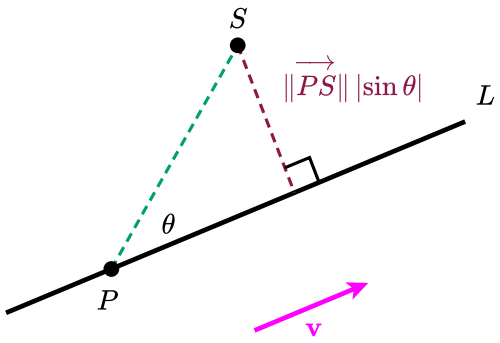


Figure 3.6.3 The distance of the point S from the line L is $d = \|\overrightarrow{PS}\|\,|\sin\theta|$, where P is any point on the line.

Example 3.6.4 Distance from a point to a line. Calculate the distance between the point $S(1,1,0)$ and the line with the vector equation $\mathbf{r}(t) = (2-t)\,\hat{\imath} - t\,\hat{\jmath} + t\,\hat{k}$, $t \in \mathbb{R}$.

Solution.

$\mathbf{v} =$ $P =$ $\overrightarrow{PS} =$

$\overrightarrow{PS} \times \mathbf{v} =$

$d =$

▲

3.6.4 Equation of a Plane in Space

Let us assume that we have computed the normal vector $\overrightarrow{n}$ to a plane and that we have a point P_0 on the plane. A normal vector is perpendicular to the plane and hence perpendicular to any vector lying in it. Denoting an arbitrary

point of the plane by P, as in Figure 3.6.5, this gives

$$\vec{n} \cdot \overrightarrow{P_0P} = 0. \tag{3.6.5}$$

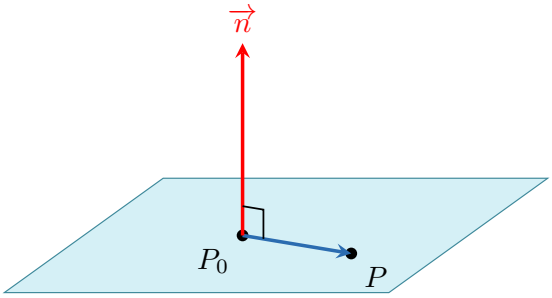


Figure 3.6.5 The normal vector to a plane is perpendicular to all the vectors in the plane.

Turn (3.6.5) into an equation in x, y, and z.

Point-normal form:

Standard form:

$D =$

Equation of a Plane.

$$A(x - x_0) + B(y - y_0) + C(z - z_0) = 0, \tag{3.6.6}$$

equivalently

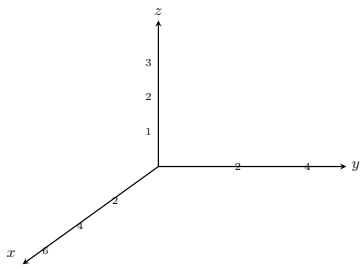
$$Ax + By + Cz = D, \qquad D = Ax_0 + By_0 + Cz_0. \tag{3.6.7}$$

Notice that the coefficients of x, y, and z in the standard form are the components of the normal vector.

Example 3.6.6 Finding the equation of a plane. Find an equation of the plane through the point $P_0(2, 4, -1)$ with normal vector $\vec{n} = \langle 2, 3, 4 \rangle$. Find the intercepts and sketch the plane.

Solution.

Equation of the plane:



x-intercept: *y-intercept:* *z-intercept:*

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3.6.5 Lines of Intersection

Suppose we would like to find the line of intersection L of two planes with normal vectors $\vec{n}_1$ and $\vec{n}_2$, as in Figure 3.6.7. To write down the equation of L we need a direction vector $\mathbf{v}$ for it, and the two normal vectors are enough to produce one.

Explain why, and write down $\mathbf{v}$.

Each normal vector is … to L, because:

$\mathbf{v} =$

When is this nonzero?

Direction of the Line of Intersection.

$$\mathbf{v} = _____. \tag{3.6.8}$$

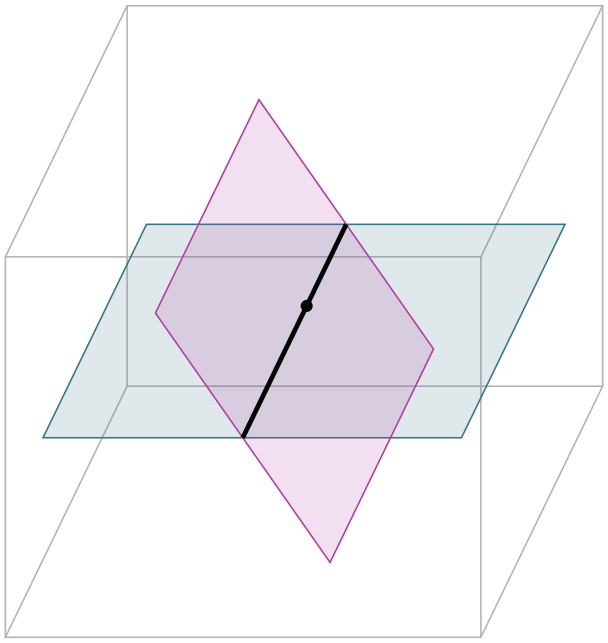


Figure 3.6.7 The direction vector of the line.

Example 3.6.8 The line of intersection of two planes. Find the parametric equations of the line of intersection of the two planes $3x - 6y - 2z = 15$ and $2x + y - 2z = 5$.

Solution.

$\vec{n}_1 =$ $\vec{n}_2 =$

$\mathbf{v} =$

A common point $P_0 =$

Parametric equations:

▲

3.6.6 Distance of a Point from a Plane

Our goal here is to find the distance d of the point S from a plane, given a point P on the plane and the normal vector $\vec{n}$, as shown in Figure 3.6.9. Derive a formula for it.

$d = \left\|\text{proj}_{\vec{n}}\, \overrightarrow{PS}\right\| =$

Simplified, $d =$

Distance from a point to a plane.

$$d = \frac{\left|\overrightarrow{PS} \cdot \vec{n}\right|}{\|\vec{n}\|} \tag{3.6.9}$$

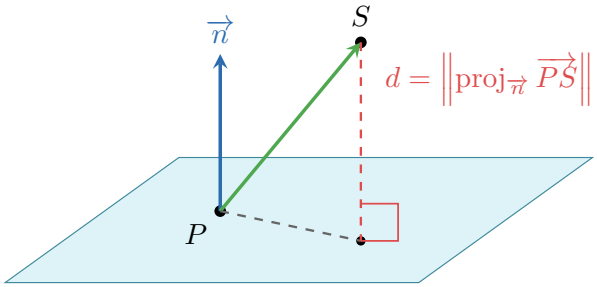


Figure 3.6.9 The distance of the point S from the plane is the magnitude of the projection of $\overrightarrow{PS}$ onto the normal vector $\vec{n}$. The corner mark records that the dashed segment meets the plane at a right angle, so it is parallel to $\vec{n}$.

Example 3.6.10 Distance from a point to a plane. Find the distance from the point $S(2, 3, 0)$ to the plane with equation $5x + y + z = -1$.

Solution.

$\vec{n} =$	$P =$
$\overrightarrow{PS} =$	$\overrightarrow{PS} \cdot \vec{n} =$
$d =$	

▲

3.7 Conic Sections

Objectives

After completing this section, you should be able to:

- Understand the parabola, ellipse, and hyperbola as curves defined by distance conditions relative to foci and a directrix, rather than merely as graphs of particular equations.
- Recognize how a single geometric idea—a locus of points satisfying a distance condition—unifies the three conic sections.
- Interpret the roles of the focus, directrix, vertices, and axes in determining the shape and orientation of each conic.
- Understand the reflection properties of the conics and why they explain applications such as parabolic reflectors and whispering galleries.
- Appreciate how the defining property of the hyperbola underlies position-finding methods such as hyperbolic navigation.

Conic sections are the curves obtained by intersecting a double cone with a plane. There are three types: **parabolas**, **ellipses**, and **hyperbolas**. In this section we give the focus–directrix and focal definitions of each, read the key features off the standard equations, and work examples that change the orientation.

An interactive figure of the slicing itself — the plane swinging from horizontal to steep, the section stretching from circle to ellipse, opening into a parabola and breaking into a hyperbola — accompanies the online version of these notes.

Record what decides which of the three curves you get.

Ellipse when the tilt is:

Parabola when the tilt is:

Hyperbola when the tilt is:

3.7.1 Parabola

Definition 3.7.1 A **parabola** is the set of points in a plane that are equidistant from a fixed point F (the **focus**) and a fixed line (the **directrix**). ◆

The standard equation follows from that definition and nothing else. Choose coordinates that make the picture symmetric: put the focus at $F(0, p)$ and the directrix at $y = -p$, as in Figure 3.7.2. Derive the standard form.

The equidistance condition:

After squaring:

Standard form:

The Standard Parabola.

$$x^2 = 4py. \tag{3.7.1}$$

The vertex is at the origin, the focus at $(0, p)$, and the directrix is the line $y = -p$; the vertex sits halfway between them. If $p < 0$ the curve opens downward, and interchanging the roles of x and y gives the sideways parabola

$$y^2 = 4px. \tag{3.7.2}$$

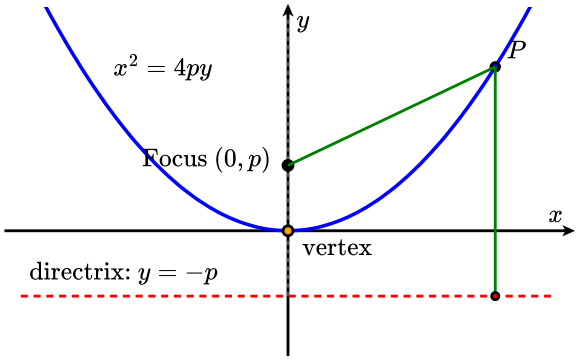
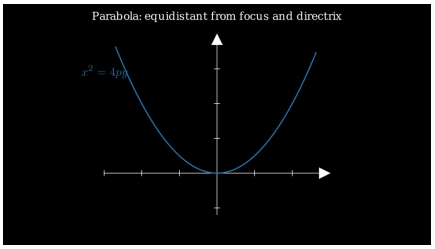


Figure 3.7.2 The parabola $x^2 = 4py$. The point P is equidistant from the focus $(0, p)$ and the directrix $y = -p$.



Standalone

Figure 3.7.3 Animation: as P moves along the parabola, its distance to the focus always equals its distance to the directrix.

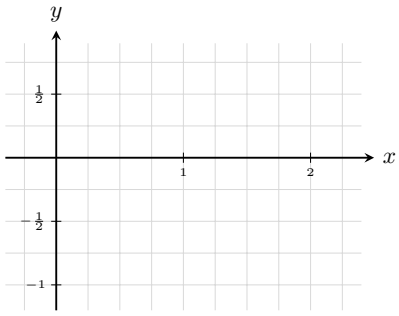
Example 3.7.4 From equation to focus and directrix. Find the focus and the directrix of $y = -\frac{1}{2}x^2 + x - \frac{1}{2}$.

Solution.

Completing the square:

$4p =$ *so* $p =$ *vertex:*

Focus: *Directrix:*



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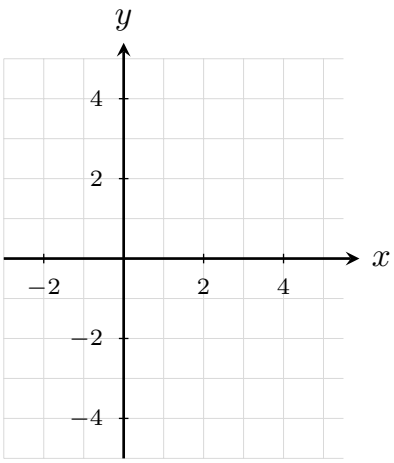
Example 3.7.5 From focus and directrix to equation (a sideways parabola). Find the equation of the parabola whose focus is $(2, 0)$ and whose directrix is the vertical line $x = -2$. In which direction does it open?

Solution.

The equidistance condition, squared and expanded:



Equation: *Opens:* $p =$

▲

3.7.2 Ellipse

Definition 3.7.6 An **ellipse** is the set of points in a plane the sum of whose distances from two fixed points F_1 and F_2 (the **foci**) is constant. ◆

The Standard Ellipse.

An ellipse centred at the origin with its foci on the x-axis has the standard form

$$\frac{x^2}{a^2} + \frac{y^2}{b^2} = 1, \qquad a > b. \tag{3.7.3}$$

The segment joining $(a, 0)$ and $(-a, 0)$ is the **semi-major axis**, the segment joining $(0, b)$ and $(0, -b)$ is the **semi-minor axis**, and the foci satisfy $c^2 = a^2 - b^2 > 0$.

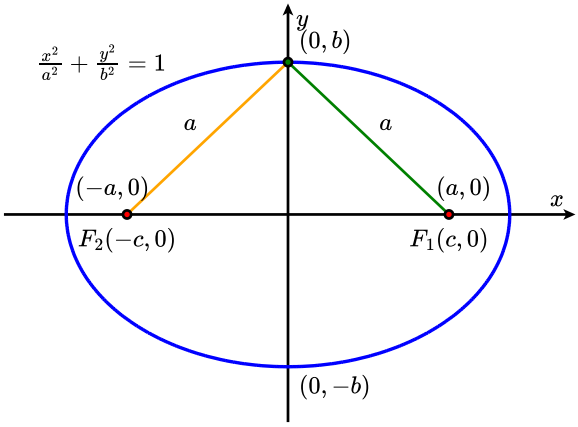
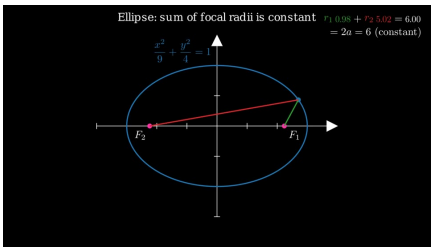


Figure 3.7.7 An ellipse with foci $F_1(c, 0)$ and $F_2(-c, 0)$. Each slanted segment from $(0, b)$ to a focus has length a.



Standalone

Figure 3.7.8 Animation: as P travels around the ellipse, the sum $r_1 + r_2$ of its distances to the two foci stays fixed at $2a = 6$.

Where do the formulas for a come from? Two evaluations of Definition 3.7.6 do all the work. Carry them out.

At the vertex: $r_1 + r_2 =$

At the co-vertex:

Which is the hypotenuse, and why the minus sign:

Focal Relation for the Ellipse.

$$a^2 = b^2 + c^2 \qquad \Longleftrightarrow \qquad c^2 = a^2 - b^2. \tag{3.7.4}$$

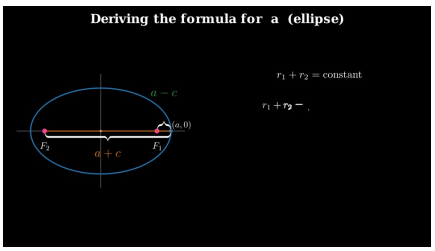


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Figure 3.7.9 Animation: deriving the formula for a. Sliding P to the vertex shows the constant equals $2a$; sliding it to the co-vertex builds the right triangle giving $a^2 = b^2 + c^2$.

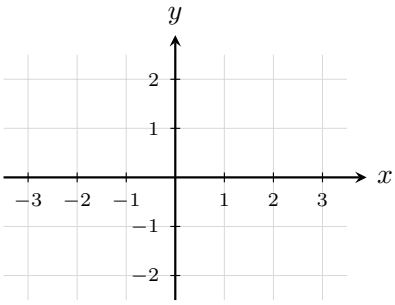
Example 3.7.10 Horizontal ellipse. Sketch the graph of $4x^2 + 9y^2 = 36$ and locate the foci.

Solution.

Standard form:

$a =$ $b =$ *major axis:*

$c =$ *foci:*



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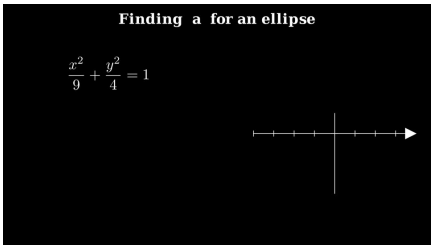


Standalone

Figure 3.7.11 Animation: in practice, put the equation in standard form and read a^2 off the *larger* denominator; then a is the semi-major axis, measured from the center to a vertex.

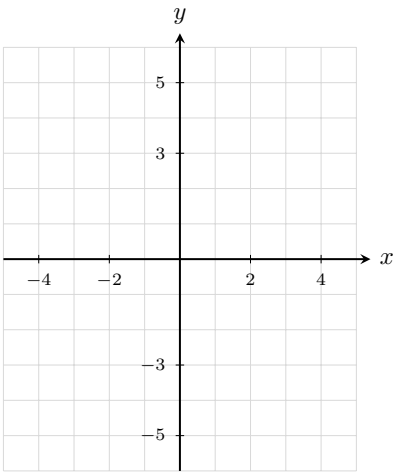
Example 3.7.12 A vertical ellipse (foci on the y-axis). Sketch the graph of $25x^2 + 16y^2 = 400$ and locate the foci.

Solution.

Standard form:

$a =$ $b =$ *major axis:*

$c =$ *foci:*



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3.7.3 Hyperbola

Definition 3.7.13 A **hyperbola** is the set of points in a plane the *difference* of whose distances from two fixed points F_1 and F_2 (the **foci**) is constant. ◆

The Standard Hyperbola.

A hyperbola centred at the origin with its foci on the x-axis has the standard form

$$\frac{x^2}{a^2} - \frac{y^2}{b^2} = 1. \tag{3.7.5}$$

Its vertices are $(\pm a, 0)$, the foci satisfy $c^2 = a^2 + b^2$, and the asymptotes are $y = \pm \dfrac{b}{a}\, x$.

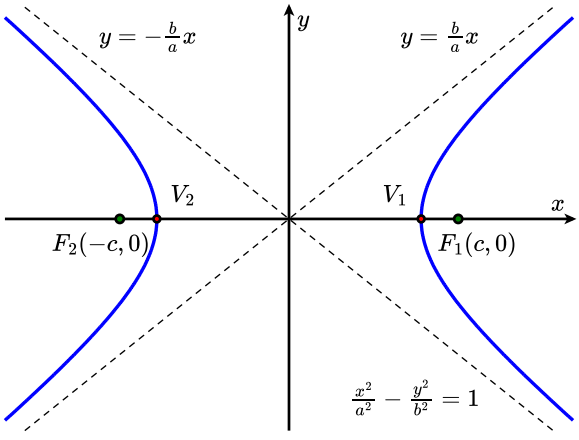
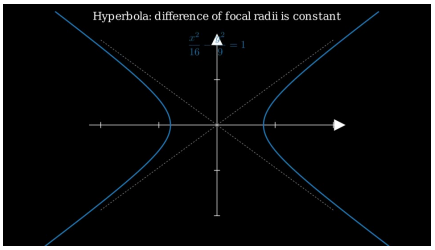


Figure 3.7.14 A hyperbola opening left and right, with vertices $(\pm a, 0)$, foci $(\pm c, 0)$, and asymptotes $y = \pm \frac{b}{a} x$.



Standalone

Figure 3.7.15 Animation: as P moves along a branch, the absolute difference $|r_1 - r_2|$ of its distances to the foci stays fixed at $2a = 8$, while the branch hugs its asymptotes.

The formulas for a arise exactly as they did for the ellipse, with sums replaced by differences. Work them out.

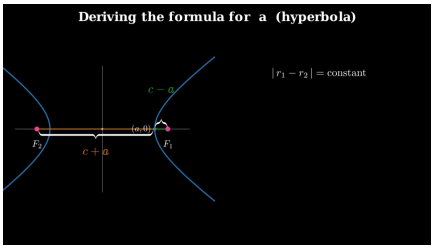
At the vertex: $|r_1 - r_2| =$

From the central box:

Contrast with the ellipse:

Focal Relation for the Hyperbola.

$$c^2 = a^2 + b^2 \qquad \Longleftrightarrow \qquad a^2 = c^2 - b^2. \tag{3.7.6}$$



Standalone

Figure 3.7.16 Animation: deriving the formula for a. Sliding P to the vertex shows the constant equals $2a$; the central box then builds the right triangle giving $c^2 = a^2 + b^2$.

The same box explains the asymptotes. Show where they come from.

Solving for y:

The limit as $|x| \to \infty$:

Why the curve never touches its asymptotes:

Slopes for a vertical hyperbola:

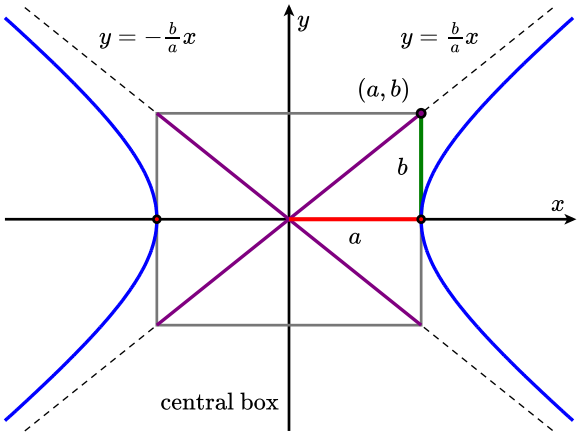


Figure 3.7.17 The central box has half-width a and half-height b. Its diagonals, extended, are exactly the asymptotes: the diagonal to the corner (a, b) has run a and rise b, hence slope $\frac{b}{a}$.

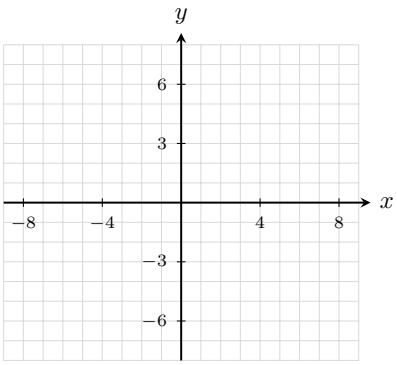
Example 3.7.18 Horizontal hyperbola. Find the foci and asymptotes of the hyperbola $9x^2 - 16y^2 = 144$ and sketch its graph.

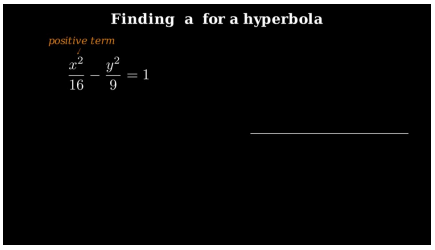
Solution.

Standard form:

$a =$ $b =$ *opens:*

$c =$ *foci:* *asymptotes:*





Standalone

Figure 3.7.19 Animation: in practice, put the equation in standard form and read a^2 off the denominator under the *positive* term; then a is measured along the transverse axis, from the center to a vertex.

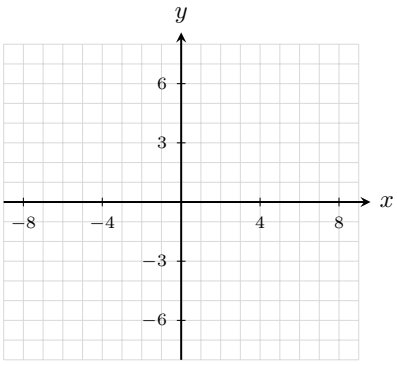
Example 3.7.20 A vertical hyperbola (opens up and down). Find the vertices, foci, and asymptotes of $16y^2 - 9x^2 = 144$ and sketch its graph.

Solution.

Standard form:

$a =$ $b =$ *vertices:*

$c =$ *foci:* *asymptotes:*



▲

3.7.4 ∗Application: Parabolic Reflectors

Starred section. This one is for the interested reader. It will not be examined.

Satellite dishes, radio telescopes, headlights, and solar cookers are all parabolic in cross-section, and for one reason: a parabola has a **reflection property**. Every ray travelling parallel to the axis of the parabola reflects off the curve and passes through the *focus*. Run the argument backwards and a source placed at the focus emits a perfectly parallel beam—which is why a headlight is shaped this way too.

This is not a coincidence of the shape; it follows from the equidistance definition (Definition 3.7.1). For $x^2 = 4py$ the tangent at the point $(x_0,\, x_0^2/4p)$ has slope $x_0/2p$, and a short computation shows that the incoming vertical ray and the segment from that point to $(0, p)$ make equal angles with the normal. The law of reflection then sends every such ray straight to the focus, so that is where the receiver goes.

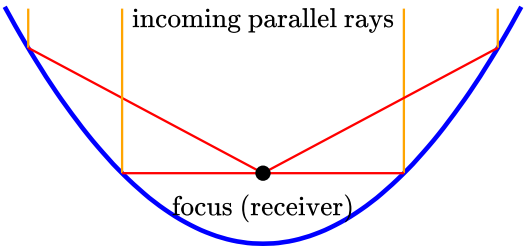
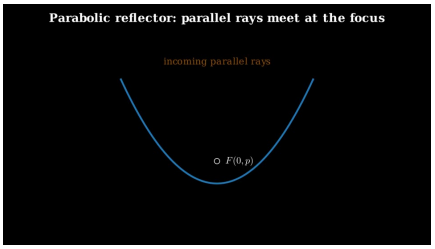


Figure 3.7.21 A parabolic dish. Rays arriving parallel to the axis (orange) reflect off the dish (red) and all converge on the focus, where the receiver sits.



Standalone

Figure 3.7.22 Animation: parallel rays strike the dish at different points and all reflect through the single focus.

Example 3.7.23 Placing the receiver. A satellite dish has a parabolic cross-section that is 4 feet wide and 1 foot deep at its center. How far from the vertex should the receiver be mounted?

Solution.

A point on the rim:

$p =$

The receiver goes:

▲

3.7.5 ∗Application: Whispering Galleries

Starred section. This one is for the interested reader. It will not be examined.

An ellipse has a reflection property of its own: a ray leaving one focus reflects off the ellipse and passes through the *other* focus. In a room whose ceiling is a half-ellipse—the dome of St. Paul's Cathedral, or Statuary Hall in the U.S. Capitol—a whisper released at one focus is gathered up by the whole ceiling and delivered to a listener standing at the other focus, while people in between hear nothing.

The constant-sum definition (Definition 3.7.6) explains why it works so well. Every path from one focus to the wall and on to the other focus has the *same* total length, no matter where it strikes. So the reflected sound does not merely arrive at the far focus: it arrives from every direction *at the same instant*, in phase, and the pieces reinforce one another instead of smearing out. That is what makes a whisper audible across the room.

Write down that common length, and say why the phrase "in phase" is the key to the effect.

Every path has length:

Why that matters:

Figure 3.7.24 The interior of St. Paul's Cathedral beneath Wren's dome. Hand-coloured aquatint by Thomas Rowlandson and Augustus Pugin, from Ackermann's *Microcosm of London* (1809). Public domain, via The Metropolitan Museum of Art.

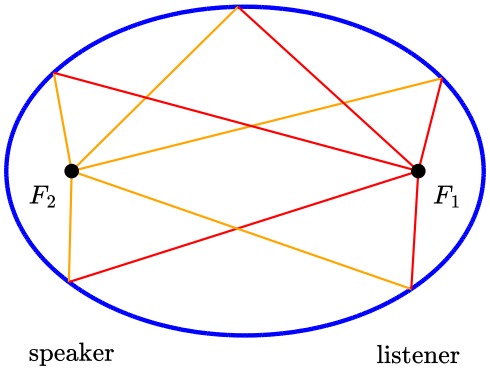
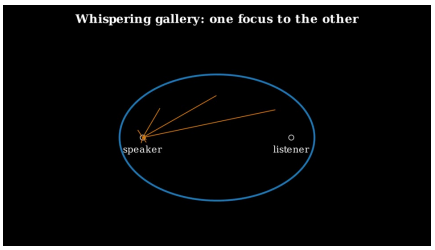


Figure 3.7.25 A whispering gallery seen from above. Five sound paths leave the speaker at one focus, bounce off the elliptical wall, and all arrive at the listener at the other focus. Each path has the same total length $2a$.



Standalone

Figure 3.7.26 Animation: sound leaves one focus in many directions, reflects off the wall, and reconverges at the other focus—every path the same length $2a$.

Example 3.7.27 Where should the listener stand? A whispering gallery is 100 feet long and 60 feet wide. Where should the speaker and the listener stand, and how far does the whisper travel on its way across?

Solution.

$a =$ $b =$ $c =$

They stand at:

The whisper travels:

▲

3.7.6 ∗Application: Hyperbolic Navigation (LORAN)

Starred section. This one is for the interested reader. It will not be examined.

Progress in electrical engineering enabled navigation systems based on the transmission of electromagnetic waves. One example is LORAN-C marine navigation, developed in the United States during World War II. A vessel receives a synchronized signal from a pair of transmitters; the signal from the more distant transmitter arrives later, so the measured delay Δt determines the *difference* between the vessel's distances to the two transmitters,

$$|r_2 - r_1| = v\,\Delta t,$$

where v is the signal speed.

Say what that single measurement tells the vessel, and what a second one adds.

One delay places the vessel on:

The sign of the delay tells it:

A second pair of stations gives:

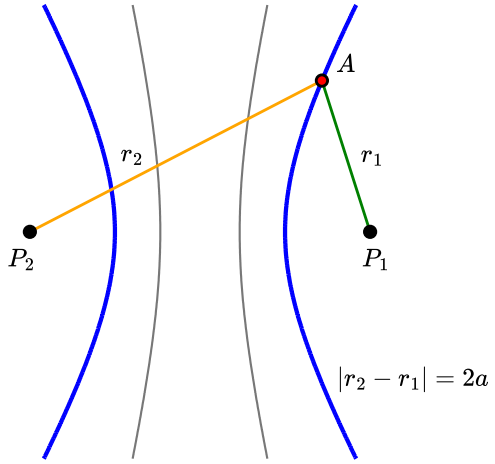
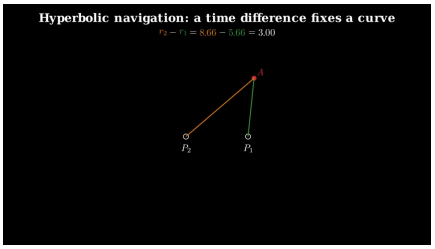


Figure 3.7.28 Hyperbolic navigation. The measured delay places the unknown position A on the solid hyperbola with foci at the receivers P_1 and P_2; a different delay would place it on the dashed one instead.



Standalone

Figure 3.7.29 Animation: the point A moves, and both signal distances r_1 and r_2 change—but their difference does not, tracing out the hyperbola.

Example 3.7.30 Locating a hiker from three receivers. Three receivers P_1, P_2, and P_3 are deployed in the landscape. The figure captures the distances we know. Emma's tourist navigation device sends a signal to all three receivers. The signal arrives at receivers P_1 and P_3 at the same time, and at receiver P_2 it arrives 80 microseconds later. Where is Emma located? Assume the signal travels 300,000 km per second, and determine the position in a suitably chosen coordinate system.

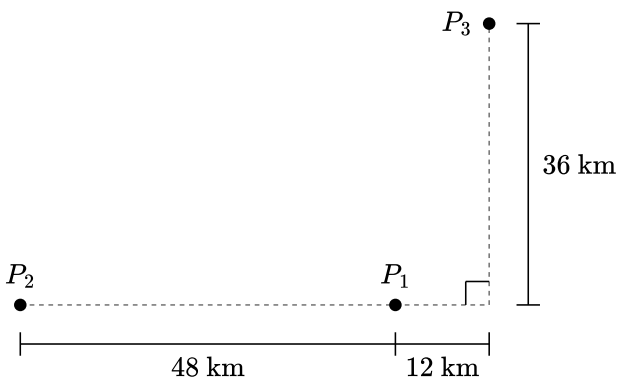


Figure 3.7.31 The exercise data: P_1 and P_2 are 48 km apart, and P_3 is 36 km directly above the point 12 km beyond P_1.

Solution.

The two timing facts, as geometry:

Coordinates, and the three receivers in them:

The line o:

The hyperbola h:

Solving:

Emma is at: *Check:*

▲

Remark 3.7.32 What if Emma were not equidistant from P_1 and P_3? The exercise was arranged so that the signal reached P_1 and P_3 simultaneously, and that is what kept the algebra easy: a distance difference of *zero* is the degenerate case of the hyperbola, and the locus collapses to a straight line, the perpendicular bisector of P_1P_3. We then only had to substitute a linear parametrization into one quadratic equation.

If the two arrival times differed, the delay would instead give a *nonzero* difference $\big|\,\|AP_3\| - \|AP_1\|\,\big| = v\,\Delta t$, and Emma would lie on a genuine second hyperbola, with foci P_1 and P_3—tilted, since its focal axis P_1P_3 is not parallel to a coordinate axis. Locating her would then mean intersecting the correct branches of *two* hyperbolas, as in the figure below. Conceptually nothing changes—each measurement contributes one curve, and the position is their common point—but algebraically we would be solving two quadratic equations together rather than a linear one and a quadratic one.

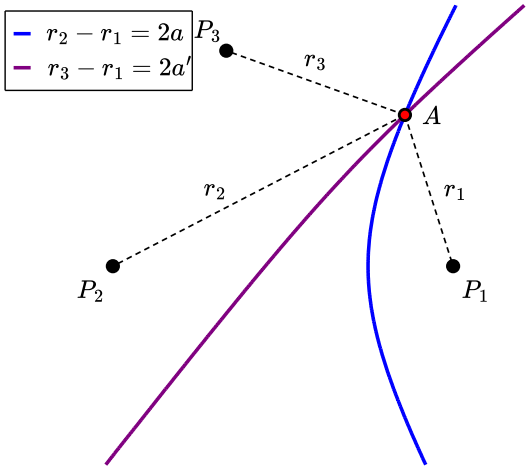


Figure 3.7.33 Two measurements fix the position. The first delay (receivers P_1, P_2) puts A on the blue branch; the second (receivers P_1, P_3) puts it on the purple branch. The position A is at the crossing, and the dashed segments show the three distances r_1, r_2, r_3.

3.8 Quadric Surfaces

Objectives

1. We know that Conic Sections are defined by second-degree equations in two variables. What occurs when we extend this idea to three variables?
2. How are conic sections and quadric surfaces related? How are they different?
3. What conditions on the coefficients of a second-degree equation in three variables will produce a quadric surface? What are the different types of quadric surfaces?

The conic sections are the curves cut out by second-degree equations in two variables. Asking the same question one dimension higher leads to the **quadric surfaces**: the surfaces in space described by a second-degree equation in three variables,

$$Ax^2 + By^2 + Cz^2 + Dxy + Exz + Fyz + Gx + Hy + Iz + J = 0, \qquad (3.8.1)$$

where A through J are constants.

The general equation (3.8.1) carries more freedom than we need. The cross terms xy, xz, and yz only tilt the surface away from the coordinate axes, and the linear terms Gx and Hy only slide it off the origin; neither affects the *shape* of the surface. Setting those coefficients to zero therefore costs us nothing essential, and it leaves a surface in standard position. Every example in this section comes from the resulting reduced equation

$$Ax^2 + By^2 + Cz^2 + Dz = E. \qquad (3.8.2)$$

Each surface below is obtained by one choice of the five remaining coefficients. What tells the surfaces apart is which of them vanish and, above all, the signs of those that do not.

The method is the same every time: fix the value of one variable, which cuts the surface with a plane, and identify the **trace** that results. Before starting, write down what you expect a trace to be, and why.

A trace is:

It must be a conic section because:

3.8.1 Elliptical Paraboloid

We begin with the case in which x and y appear squared with coefficients of the same sign, while z appears only to the first power.[1] Equation (3.8.2) then reduces to

$$z = \frac{x^2}{4} + \frac{y^2}{9},$$

the surface known as an **elliptical paraboloid**.

Find its traces in the planes $x = 2$, $y = -3$, and $z = 1$.

Trace in the first plane:

Trace in the second plane:

Trace in the third plane:

So the surface is called:

[1] In equation (3.8.2), take $A = 1/4$, $B = 1/9$, $C = 0$, $D = -1$, and $E = 0$.

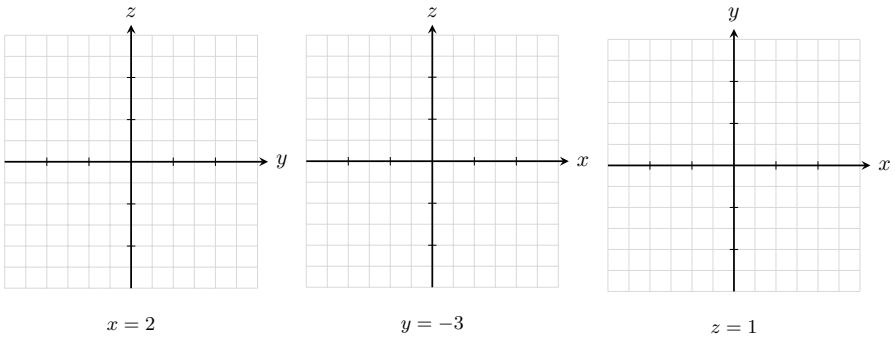
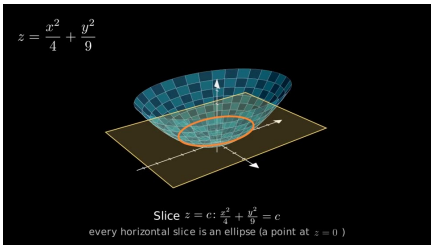


Figure 3.8.1 Grids for the traces of the elliptical paraboloid $z = \frac{x^2}{4} + \frac{y^2}{9}$ in the planes $x = 2$, $y = -3$, and $z = 1$.

An interactive figure slicing the elliptical paraboloid $z = \frac{x^2}{4} + \frac{y^2}{9}$ with the planes $x = c$, $y = c$ and $z = c$ accompanies the online version of these notes.



Standalone

Figure 3.8.2 Slicing $z = \frac{x^2}{4} + \frac{y^2}{9}$ with planes $z = c$, $x = c$, and $y = c$. Use it to check the traces you found.

3.8.2 Hyperbolic Paraboloid

Now change a single sign: keep z to the first power, but let the squared terms in x and y carry *opposite* signs.[2] Equation (3.8.2) becomes

$$z = \frac{x^2}{4} - \frac{y^2}{9},$$

a **hyperbolic paraboloid**. That one sign is enough to change the surface completely.

Take the same three planes $x = 2$, $y = -3$, and $z = 1$ as in Subsection 3.8.1, and find the traces.

[2] In equation (3.8.2), take $A = 1/4$, $B = -1/9$, $C = 0$, $D = -1$, and $E = 0$.

Trace in the first plane:

Trace in the second plane:

Trace in the third plane:

So the surface is called:

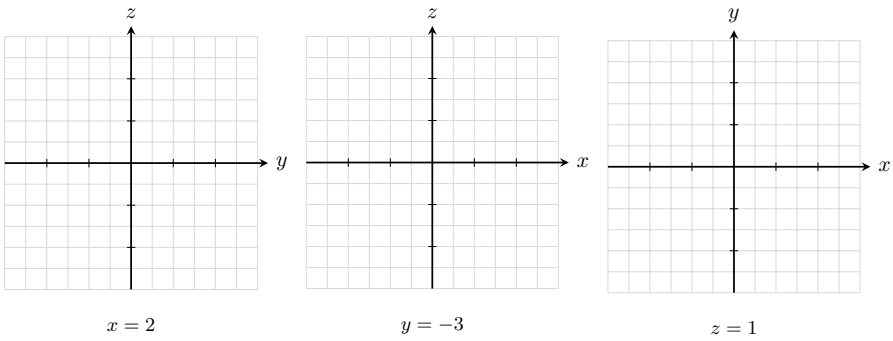
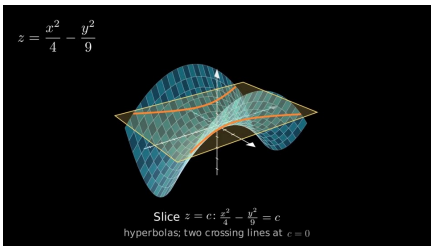


Figure 3.8.3 Grids for the traces of the hyperbolic paraboloid $z = \frac{x^2}{4} - \frac{y^2}{9}$ in the planes $x = 2$, $y = -3$, and $z = 1$.

An interactive figure slicing the hyperbolic paraboloid $z = \frac{x^2}{4} - \frac{y^2}{9}$ with the planes $x = c$, $y = c$ and $z = c$ accompanies the online version of these notes.



Standalone

Figure 3.8.4 Slicing $z = \frac{x^2}{4} - \frac{y^2}{9}$ with planes $z = c$, $x = c$, and $y = c$. Use it to check the traces you found.

3.8.3 Ellipsoid

Suppose next that all three variables appear squared with coefficients of the same sign, and that no linear term is present at all.[3] Equation (3.8.2) reduces to

$$\frac{x^2}{4} + \frac{y^2}{9} + \frac{z^2}{16} = 1,$$

an **ellipsoid**.

Find the traces in the three coordinate planes $x = 0$, $y = 0$, and $z = 0$.

Trace in the first plane:

Trace in the second plane:

Trace in the third plane:

So the surface is called:

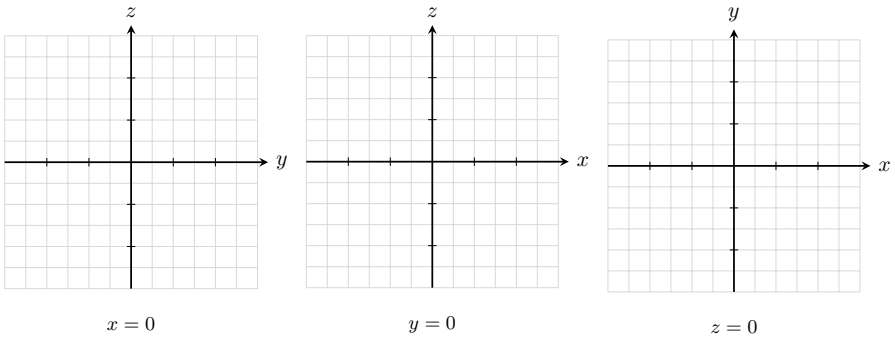
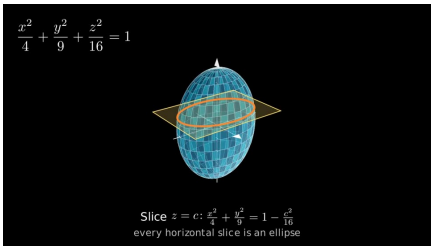


Figure 3.8.5 Grids for the traces of the ellipsoid $\frac{x^2}{4} + \frac{y^2}{9} + \frac{z^2}{16} = 1$ in the coordinate planes $x = 0$, $y = 0$, and $z = 0$.

An interactive figure slicing the ellipsoid with the planes $x = c$, $y = c$ and $z = c$ accompanies the online version of these notes.

[3] In equation (3.8.2), take $A = 1/4$, $B = 1/9$, $C = 1/16$, $D = 0$, and $E = 1$.



Standalone

Figure 3.8.6 Slicing the ellipsoid with planes $z = c$, $x = c$, and $y = c$. Use it to check the traces you found.

3.8.4 Elliptic Cone

Finally, keep all three squared terms, but let the coefficient of z^2 be negative and set the constant on the right-hand side to zero.[4] Equation (3.8.2) becomes

$$z^2 = \frac{x^2}{4} + \frac{y^2}{9},$$

an **elliptic cone**.

Find the traces in the planes $x = 2$, $y = -3$, and $z = 1$.

Trace in the first plane:

Trace in the second plane:

Trace in the third plane:

So the surface is called:

[4] In equation (3.8.2), take $A = 1/4$, $B = 1/9$, $C = -1$, $D = 0$, and $E = 0$.

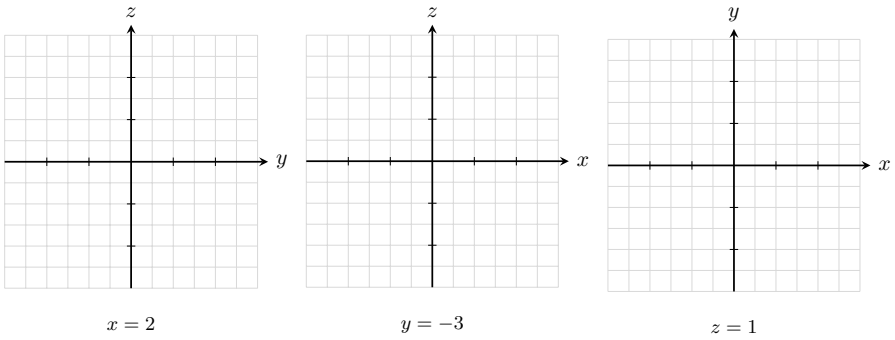


Figure 3.8.7 Grids for the traces of the elliptic cone $z^2 = \frac{x^2}{4} + \frac{y^2}{9}$ in the planes $x = 2$, $y = -3$, and $z = 1$.

An interactive figure slicing the elliptic cone with the planes $x = c$, $y = c$ and $z = c$ accompanies the online version of these notes.

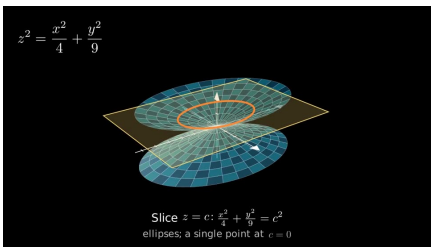


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Figure 3.8.8 Slicing the elliptic cone with planes $z = c$, $x = c$, and $y = c$. Use it to check the traces you found.

3.8.5 Hyperboloids

The two remaining quadric surfaces are left for you to explore. The aim of this subsection is to practice the slicing method of the previous subsections on a new pair of surfaces and, in doing so, to see what separates a hyperboloid of one sheet from a hyperboloid of two sheets.

Activity 3.8.5.1 Slicing the Hyperboloids. Use the same slicing method as in the previous subsections to study the two surfaces

$$\frac{x^2}{4} + \frac{y^2}{9} - \frac{z^2}{16} = 1 \qquad \text{and} \qquad \frac{z^2}{16} - \frac{x^2}{4} - \frac{y^2}{9} = 1,$$

both of which come from equation (3.8.2).[5] Discover why the first is called a **hyperboloid of one sheet** while the second is called a **hyperboloid of two sheets**. Pay particular attention to the traces in the horizontal planes $z = c$: they are what tells the two surfaces apart.

(a) For the surface $\frac{x^2}{4} + \frac{y^2}{9} - \frac{z^2}{16} = 1$, find the trace in the plane $z = c$ for an arbitrary constant c, and the traces in the coordinate planes $x = 0$ and $y = 0$. For which values of c does the plane $z = c$ actually intersect the surface? Identify each trace as an ellipse, parabola, or hyperbola.

Trace in $z = c$:

Which c give a trace?

Traces in $x = 0$ and $y = 0$:

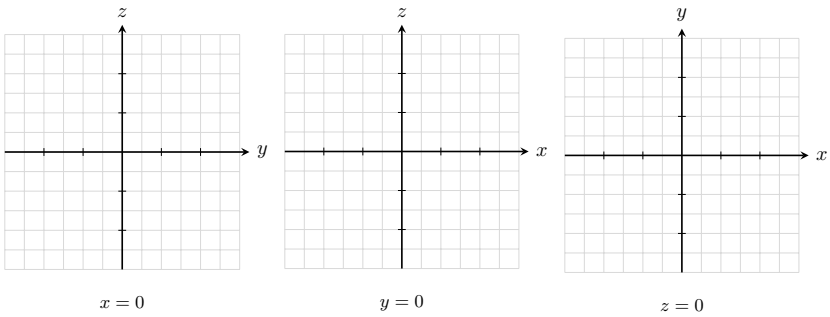
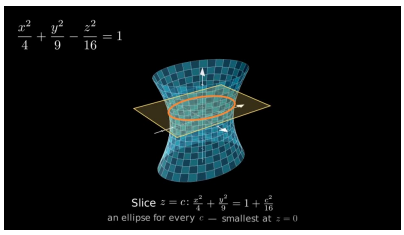


Figure 3.8.9 Grids for the traces of the hyperboloid of one sheet $\frac{x^2}{4} + \frac{y^2}{9} - \frac{z^2}{16} = 1$ in the coordinate planes $x = 0$, $y = 0$, and $z = 0$.

An interactive figure slicing the hyperboloid of one sheet with the planes $x = c$, $y = c$ and $z = c$ accompanies the online version of these notes.



Standalone

Figure 3.8.10 Slicing the hyperboloid of one sheet with planes $z = c$, $x = c$, and $y = c$. Use it to check the traces you found.

(b) Repeat the analysis for the surface $\frac{z^2}{16} - \frac{x^2}{4} - \frac{y^2}{9} = 1$. For which values of c does the plane $z = c$ intersect the surface this time? What happens for c between those values?

Trace in $z = c$:

Cases:

Traces in $x = 0$ and $y = 0$:

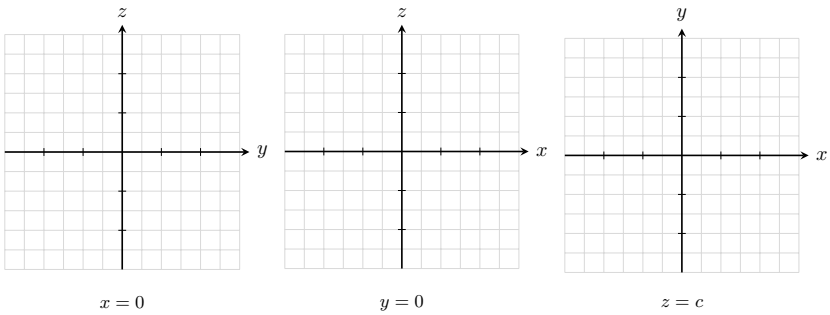
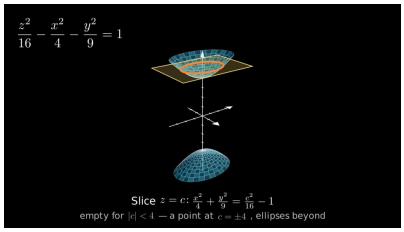


Figure 3.8.11 Grids for the traces of the hyperboloid of two sheets $\frac{z^2}{16} - \frac{x^2}{4} - \frac{y^2}{9} = 1$ in the coordinate planes $x = 0$, $y = 0$, and a plane $z = c$ that meets it.

An interactive figure slicing the hyperboloid of two sheets with the planes $x = c$, $y = c$ and $z = c$ accompanies the online version of these notes.



Standalone

Figure 3.8.12 Slicing the hyperboloid of two sheets with planes $z = c$, $x = c$, and $y = c$. Use it to check the traces you found.

(c) Using only the traces in the planes $z = c$, explain why the first surface is called a hyperboloid of *one sheet* and the second a hyperboloid of *two sheets*. Can you predict the number of sheets directly from the signs in the equation?

Why one sheet, and why two:

The rule from the signs:

The axis of the hyperboloid:

3.8.6 Summary of the Quadric Surfaces

We collect the six surfaces of this section in Figure 3.8.13. For each one the table gives its equation, a picture of the surface, and the equation and type of the cross-section cut by the planes $x = c$, $y = c$, and $z = c$; a cell also notes any value of c for which that slice is just a point or a pair of lines. Every entry is one you worked out above, so use the table to check your completed notes, and keep it afterwards as a reference. A printable copy is available as a PDF.

[5] For the first surface $A = 1/4$, $B = 1/9$, $C = -1/16$, $D = 0$, and $E = 1$; for the second surface $A = -1/4$, $B = -1/9$, $C = 1/16$, $D = 0$, and $E = 1$. For the ellipsoid all three squared terms were positive; here exactly *one* squared term is negative for the first surface and exactly *two* are negative for the second. Keep this count in mind as you work through the traces.

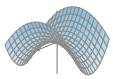
Equation	Shape	$x = c$ slices	$y = c$ slices	$z = c$ slices
elliptical paraboloid $z = \frac{x^2}{4} + \frac{y^2}{9}$		$z = \frac{c^2}{4} + \frac{y^2}{9}$ *parabola* opens up	$z = \frac{x^2}{4} + \frac{c^2}{9}$ *parabola* opens up	$\frac{x^2}{4} + \frac{y^2}{9} = c$ *ellipse* point $(0,0,0)$ if $c = 0$
hyperbolic paraboloid $z = \frac{x^2}{4} - \frac{y^2}{9}$		$z = \frac{c^2}{4} - \frac{y^2}{9}$ *parabola* opens down	$z = \frac{x^2}{4} - \frac{c^2}{9}$ *parabola* opens up	$\frac{x^2}{4} - \frac{y^2}{9} = c$ *hyperbola* opens left–right; two lines if $c = 0$
ellipsoid $\frac{x^2}{4} + \frac{y^2}{9} + \frac{z^2}{16} = 1$		$\frac{y^2}{9} + \frac{z^2}{16} = 1 - \frac{c^2}{4}$ *ellipse* point if $c = \pm 2$	$\frac{x^2}{4} + \frac{z^2}{16} = 1 - \frac{c^2}{9}$ *ellipse* point if $c = \pm 3$	$\frac{x^2}{4} + \frac{y^2}{9} = 1 - \frac{c^2}{16}$ *ellipse* point if $c = \pm 4$
elliptic cone $z^2 = \frac{x^2}{4} + \frac{y^2}{9}$		$z^2 - \frac{y^2}{9} = \frac{c^2}{4}$ *hyperbola* opens up–down; two lines if $c = 0$	$z^2 - \frac{x^2}{4} = \frac{c^2}{9}$ *hyperbola* opens up–down; two lines if $c = 0$	$\frac{x^2}{4} + \frac{y^2}{9} = c^2$ *ellipse* point $(0,0,0)$ if $c = 0$
hyperboloid of one sheet $\frac{x^2}{4} + \frac{y^2}{9} - \frac{z^2}{16} = 1$		$\frac{y^2}{9} - \frac{z^2}{16} = 1 - \frac{c^2}{4}$ *hyperbola* opens left–right; two lines if $c = \pm 2$	$\frac{x^2}{4} - \frac{z^2}{16} = 1 - \frac{c^2}{9}$ *hyperbola* opens left–right; two lines if $c = \pm 3$	$\frac{x^2}{4} + \frac{y^2}{9} = 1 + \frac{c^2}{16}$ *ellipse*
hyperboloid of two sheets $\frac{z^2}{16} - \frac{x^2}{4} - \frac{y^2}{9} = 1$		$\frac{z^2}{16} - \frac{y^2}{9} = 1 + \frac{c^2}{4}$ *hyperbola* opens up–down	$\frac{z^2}{16} - \frac{x^2}{4} = 1 + \frac{c^2}{9}$ *hyperbola* opens up–down	$\frac{x^2}{4} + \frac{y^2}{9} = \frac{c^2}{16} - 1$ *ellipse* point if $c = \pm 4$; empty if $\lvert c \rvert < 4$

Figure 3.8.13 The six parent quadric surfaces, with the equation and type of the slice cut by each family of coordinate planes $x = c$, $y = c$, and $z = c$.

3.8.7 Quadric Surfaces in the World

The surfaces of this section are more than abstract shapes. Each one appears in the physical world, and often it appears *because* of the very geometric properties we have been discovering by slicing.

Elliptical paraboloid. A paraboloid has a striking reflective property: every ray travelling parallel to its axis bounces off the surface and passes through a single point, the focus. This is why the dishes of radio telescopes and satellite receivers, and the reflectors behind car headlights and solar concentrators, are shaped like paraboloids — they gather parallel incoming rays to one point, or, run in reverse, send rays out in a single parallel beam. The benefit is sensitivity: because parallel rays converge on the focus no matter where they strike the surface, enlarging the dish simply gathers more of a faint signal onto the same receiver, letting a radio telescope detect fainter and more distant objects. The

National Radio Astronomy Observatory explains how a parabolic dish bounces incoming radio waves to a focus.

Figure 3.8.14 The dishes of the Very Large Array are elliptical paraboloids, focusing incoming radio waves onto a single receiver. (Photo: Wikimedia Commons, CC BY 3.0.)

Hyperbolic paraboloid. The saddle is **doubly ruled**: through every point pass two straight lines that lie entirely on the surface, just like the flat traces — the two crossing lines in the plane $z = 0$ — that appear when the surface is sliced with the plane $z = 0$. A doubly curved roof can therefore be built out of straight beams, or poured over straight formwork, which makes the hyperbolic paraboloid both strong and inexpensive to build. It is the shape of many "saddle" roofs and of Félix Candela's thin concrete shells — and, on a smaller scale, of a Pringles potato chip. The benefit is efficiency: a thin shell of this shape carries its load by compression and tension acting within the surface rather than by bending, so it can roof a very wide span with only a few inches of material. Encyclopaedia Britannica's article on shell structures describes how such curved roofs are engineered from straight lines.

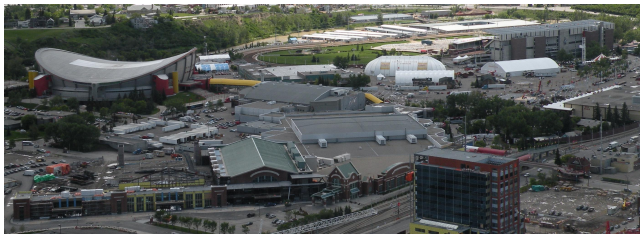


Figure 3.8.15 The roof of the Scotiabank Saddledome in Calgary is a hyperbolic paraboloid. (Photo: Wikimedia Commons, CC BY-SA 3.0.)

Ellipsoid. An ellipsoid has two focal points, and a wave leaving one focus reflects off the surface straight toward the other. In a "whispering gallery" a whisper at one focus is heard clearly across the room at the other; in medical **lithotripsy** a shock wave generated at one focus is focused onto a kidney stone placed at the other, breaking it apart without surgery. On the largest scale, the Earth itself is modeled as a slightly flattened ellipsoid — the reference ellipsoid against which GPS coordinates are measured. The benefit of this two-focus focusing is precision without contact: a lithotripter can concentrate its energy on a stone deep inside the body while sparing the surrounding tissue. Modeling the Earth as an ellipsoid brings a different benefit — a single smooth equation

captures its slight flattening, giving GPS a far more accurate reference than a sphere would. NOAA's National Geodetic Survey describes the reference ellipsoids that anchor those coordinates.

Figure 3.8.16 The Earth is modeled as an oblate ellipsoid, the reference surface behind GPS coordinates. (Image: NASA.)

Elliptic cone. When an aircraft flies faster than sound, the pressure waves it creates pile up into a cone that trails behind it, the Mach cone. The **sonic boom** you hear is the instant this cone of compressed air sweeps past you. This cone is not a design choice but an unavoidable consequence of the motion; even so, its geometry is informative: the sine of its half-angle equals $1/M$, where M is the Mach number, so a narrower cone means a faster aircraft. NASA's Glenn Research Center describes how supersonic disturbances stay confined within this cone.

Figure 3.8.17 A fighter jet at transonic speed, wrapped in a cone-shaped condensation cloud that traces out the Mach cone. (Photo: U.S. Navy.)

Hyperboloid of one sheet. Like the saddle, this surface is **ruled** — recall the two straight-line traces we found in the planes $x = \pm 2$ in Activity 3.8.5.1. Because straight members can be arranged to sweep out its double curvature, it can be built cheaply from straight beams or straight formwork while remaining very stiff. This is exactly why the cooling towers of power plants, and open lattice towers such as Vladimir Shukhov's, are hyperboloids

of one sheet. The benefit is that stiffness and wind resistance come almost for free: because the surface is ruled, the whole tower is assembled from straight, easily fabricated members, so it reaches great height with remarkably little material. The University of Houston's Engines of Our Ingenuity tells the story of Shukhov and these ruled towers.

Figure 3.8.18 A power-plant cooling tower is a hyperboloid of one sheet, assembled from straight structural members. (Photo: Wikimedia Commons, CC BY 3.0.)

Hyperboloid of two sheets. Like the ellipse, a hyperbola has two foci, and a ray aimed at one focus reflects toward the other. Reflecting telescopes of the Cassegrain and Ritchey–Chrétien type — including the Hubble Space Telescope — use mirrors ground to hyperboloidal shapes to fold a long optical path into a short tube. The same two-focus idea drives **hyperbolic navigation**: comparing the arrival times of two signals places a receiver on a hyperboloid, and intersecting several such surfaces is how systems from LORAN to GPS pin down a location. The benefit is sharpness in a compact instrument: the paired hyperboloidal mirrors fold a long focal length into a short tube and cancel the aberrations that would blur a simpler design, keeping Hubble's images crisp across its whole field of view. NASA explains how these curved mirrors gather starlight in its overview of the Hubble Space Telescope's optics.

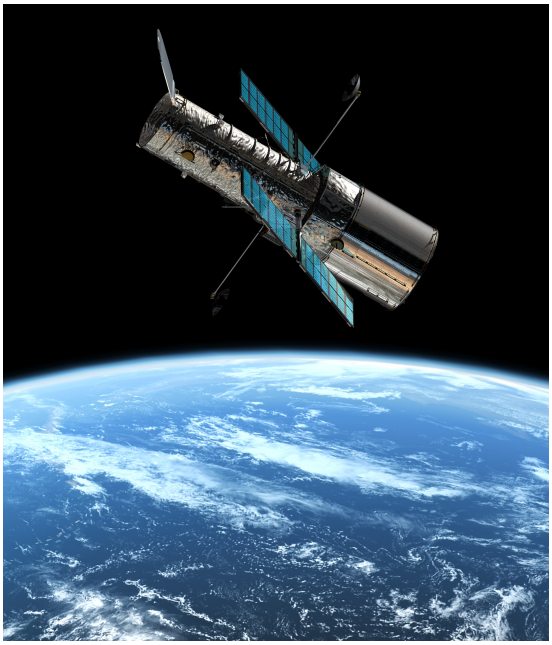


Figure 3.8.19 The Hubble Space Telescope focuses light with hyperboloidal mirrors. (Image: NASA.)

Chapter 4

Assignments and Review Problems

The ten assignments, the four review problem sets, two sample past exams, and Exam 1, in one place. Worked solutions appear beneath each problem once the assignment's due date has passed; solutions for the review sets are posted the same way.

Using the AI Tutor.

Stuck? A Socratic AI tutor is available on every assignment page. It knows the problems on the page and will coach you with questions and gentle hints — but it will never give away an answer. Here is how to use it.

Opening the tutor. On an assignment page, click the round "Tutor" button in the lower-right corner. A chat panel opens and stays in place as you scroll, so you can read a problem and talk to the tutor at the same time. The dash button in the panel's title bar minimizes it back to the button.

The tutor is available on each of the ten assignment pages. The review problem sets do not have it: those sets are practice for the exams, where you will be entirely on your own.

One-time setup. The first time you open the tutor it asks for a free Google AI Studio key (this takes about a minute):

1. Go to aistudio.google.com/apikey and sign in with a *personal* Google account — a regular Gmail. Do *not* use your `@scu.edu` account: the university has this service turned off, and you will see "Your account is managed by an organization."
2. Click *Create API key* and copy it.
3. Paste it into the tutor.

The key is stored only in your own browser and is sent only to Google; this site never sees it. Treat the key as yours alone: anyone who has it can spend your free quota, so do not share it or paste it anywhere else.

Privacy: what to keep out of the chat. Everything you type into the tutor is sent to Google and handled under Google's terms, not the university's. On the free tier your conversations *may be read by*

people at Google and used to improve their products, and they are not covered by the protections your school records have. Nothing you type is private, so treat the panel as a public place and keep it to mathematics.

- Do not type anything that identifies you: your name, student ID, SCU email, phone number, address, or date of birth. The tutor does not need to know who you are in order to help with a gradient.
- Do not type anything about anyone else — a classmate's name, their work, or their grade. That is their information to share, not yours.
- Keep out anything sensitive or unrelated to the course: health, finances, immigration or visa status, family matters, passwords, or anything you would not want quoted back to you.
- Before you paste or upload, look at what you are sending. A screenshot or a photo of your work can carry your name, a page header, or a browser tab in the background.
- The tutor is a study aid, not a counselor and not the instructor. If something personal is affecting your work in this course, bring it to office hours or to the university's student services instead — those conversations belong with a person, and they stay confidential.

None of this is a reason to avoid the tutor. Ask it anything about the mathematics — what you tried, where you are stuck, why a step feels wrong. Just keep yourself, and everyone else, out of the transcript.

Working with the tutor. Choose the problem you are working on from the drop-down at the top of the panel, then tell the tutor what you have tried so far — the more of your own thinking you show, the more useful its questions become. The tutor can nudge you toward a starting point, and it can point you to sections and worked examples in these notes to study.

If your answer is wrong, the tutor will tell you so and help you understand *why* it is wrong: which step breaks, what misconception is behind it, and what picture or small example will let you see the failure for yourself. Note that this requires showing your reasoning — a bare answer with no work, right or wrong, will simply get asked for the thinking behind it. And what the tutor will not do is tell you how to correct an error — no fixed-up step, no "instead, you should…" Finding the right path once you understand why the old one fails is your part of the work.

Two models. Next to the problem picker is a "Model" drop-down offering *Careful* and *Quick*. Both are Gemini Flash models. Careful is the default: it thinks before it answers, so it takes a few seconds longer and is better at staying in the role of a tutor rather than a solutions manual. Quick is lighter and replies almost instantly. Either will coach you and neither will hand you an answer; switching between them costs nothing and does not disturb your conversation or your hint count. Try both — and tell me which you prefer.

Hints are limited on purpose. The point of the tutor is to get you unstuck, not to walk you to the answer, so hints are deliberately scarce. The exact rules:

- You get at most *three hints per problem, total* — the budget never resets. The panel always shows how many you have left on the problem you selected ("Hints left: 2/3").
- *Every* reply from the tutor costs a hint — there are no free ones. Lead with what you have tried, so each reply can meet your actual thinking instead of spending itself asking for it.
- Restarting the conversation, reloading the page, or switching problems does not refill hints. Spend them thoughtfully — full solutions are posted after the due date.
- When your hints for a problem run out, bring your work to office hours — working through it together is exactly what office hours are for.

Tell me how it is going. Under every hint is a single question — "Was this hint helpful?" — with a thumb up and a thumb down. One tap is the whole thing, and it is the most useful second you can spend on this course: it tells me which hints land and which ones miss, hint by hint. Nothing but your answer and which problem you were on is sent.

For anything longer there is the "feedback" button at the top of the panel, which sends me a short note about how the tutor is working for you: whether it helped, and — in a box you can write as much as you like in — what would make it better. Tapping the thumb down offers it too. All of it is anonymous, it has nothing to do with your grade, and the tutor itself never sees it. If you want me to see the exchange you just had, there is a box to attach it; it is off unless you tick it. The tutor is new, and what you write is how it gets better.

Finally, know what the tutor will and will not do. It will not state answers, complete a solution, or turn a wrong answer into a right one — no matter how you ask. There is exactly one way to get an answer confirmed: state your conclusion *together with your own justification.* If your reasoning is sound and complete, the tutor will tell you that you have it; if there is a gap, it will point at the gap and let you close it. A bare answer, right or wrong, earns nothing.

4.1 Assignment 1

These problems exercise the hyperbolic identities, the derivatives of the hyperbolic functions and the inverse hyperbolic functions. If you would like to review the material first, see Hyperbolic Functions.

1. Show that $\tanh^2(x) + \operatorname{sech}^2(x) = 1$, for all real numbers x.

Solution. We write both terms over the common denominator $\cosh^2(x)$ and use the identity $\cosh^2(x) - \sinh^2(x) = 1$, i.e. $\sinh^2(x) + 1 = \cosh^2(x)$:

$$\begin{aligned}\tanh^2(x) + \operatorname{sech}^2(x) &= \frac{\sinh^2(x)}{\cosh^2(x)} + \frac{1}{\cosh^2(x)} \\ &= \frac{\sinh^2(x)+1}{\cosh^2(x)} = \frac{\cosh^2(x)}{\cosh^2(x)} = 1.\end{aligned}$$

Note that this is valid for every real x, since $\cosh(x) \geq 1 > 0$ and so the denominator is never zero.

2. Compute $\dfrac{d}{dx}\, 3\sinh\left(\dfrac{3}{x}\right)$.

Solution. We use $\dfrac{d}{dx}\sinh(u) = \cosh(u)\,\dfrac{du}{dx}$ with $u = \dfrac{3}{x} = 3x^{-1}$, so $\dfrac{du}{dx} = -3x^{-2} = -\dfrac{3}{x^2}$. Hence

$$\frac{d}{dx}\, 3\sinh\left(\frac{3}{x}\right) = 3\cosh\left(\frac{3}{x}\right)\left(-\frac{3}{x^2}\right) = -\frac{9}{x^2}\cosh\left(\frac{3}{x}\right).$$

3. Simplify $\cosh(\ln 2)$.

Solution. Using the definition $\cosh x = \dfrac{e^x + e^{-x}}{2}$ together with $e^{\ln 2} = 2$ and $e^{-\ln 2} = \dfrac{1}{e^{\ln 2}} = \dfrac{1}{2}$,

$$\cosh(\ln 2) = \frac{e^{\ln 2} + e^{-\ln 2}}{2} = \frac{2 + \frac{1}{2}}{2} = \frac{\frac{5}{2}}{2} = \frac{5}{4}.$$

4. Solve the equation $5\sinh(x) - 3\cosh(x) = 3$ for x.

Solution. We first replace the hyperbolic functions by their definitions:

$$\begin{aligned} & 5\sinh(x) - 3\cosh(x) = 3 \\ \Rightarrow \quad & \frac{5\,(e^x - e^{-x})}{2} - \frac{3\,(e^x + e^{-x})}{2} = 3 \\ \Rightarrow \quad & e^x - 4e^{-x} = 3.\end{aligned}$$

Multiplying through by e^x and writing $u = e^x$ turns this into a quadratic equation:

$$\begin{aligned} & u^2 - 3u - 4 = 0 \\ \Rightarrow \quad & (u-4)(u+1) = 0.\end{aligned}$$

Since $u = e^x$ is positive, the root $u = -1$ is impossible, and only $u = 4$ survives. Therefore

$$e^x = 4 \quad \Longrightarrow \quad x = \ln 4 = 2\ln 2.$$

5. Following the method of Example 1.4.2, show that the inverse hyperbolic tangent is given by

$$\tanh^{-1}(x) = \frac{1}{2}\ln\left(\frac{1+x}{1-x}\right), \qquad -1 < x < 1.$$

Solution. Unlike cosh, the function tanh is increasing on all of $\mathbb{R}$, so no restriction of its domain is needed. Set $y = \tanh(x)$ and solve for x. Multiplying the numerator and the denominator by e^x gives

$$y = \frac{e^x - e^{-x}}{e^x + e^{-x}} \cdot \frac{e^x}{e^x} = \frac{e^{2x} - 1}{e^{2x} + 1}.$$

Writing $u = e^{2x}$ and clearing the denominator,

$$y(u+1) = u - 1$$

$$\Rightarrow \quad y+1 = u - yu = u(1-y)$$
$$\Rightarrow \quad u = \frac{1+y}{1-y}.$$

Therefore $e^{2x} = \dfrac{1+y}{1-y}$, and taking the natural logarithm gives $2x = \ln\left(\frac{1+y}{1-y}\right)$. Interchanging the names of the two variables, so that $y = \tanh^{-1}(x)$ is the inverse function,

$$y = \tanh^{-1}(x) = \frac{1}{2}\ln\left(\frac{1+x}{1-x}\right).$$

The range of tanh is the interval $(-1, 1)$, which is exactly the set of x for which $\frac{1+x}{1-x}$ is positive, so this is the domain of $\tanh^{-1}$.

6. Use the substitution $x = \tanh(t)$ to calculate

$$\int \frac{dx}{1-x^2}, \qquad -1 < x < 1,$$

and then use Worksheet Exercise 4.1.5 to write your answer with a logarithm. *Hint:* $\frac{d}{dt}\tanh(t) = \operatorname{sech}^2(t)$, and $1 - \tanh^2(t) = \operatorname{sech}^2(t)$.

Solution. With $x = \tanh(t)$ we have $dx = \operatorname{sech}^2(t)\,dt$, and the denominator collapses by the identity in the hint:

$$\begin{aligned}\int \frac{dx}{1-x^2} &= \int \frac{\operatorname{sech}^2(t)}{1-\tanh^2(t)}\,dt \\ &= \int \frac{\operatorname{sech}^2(t)}{\operatorname{sech}^2(t)}\,dt \\ &= \int dt = t + C.\end{aligned}$$

Since $x = \tanh(t)$ means $t = \tanh^{-1}(x)$, and using Worksheet Exercise 4.1.5 to rewrite the inverse function,

$$\begin{aligned}\int \frac{dx}{1-x^2} &= \tanh^{-1}(x) + C \\ &= \frac{1}{2}\ln\left(\frac{1+x}{1-x}\right) + C.\end{aligned}$$

This agrees with the answer obtained by partial fractions, since $\frac{1}{2}\ln\left(\frac{1+x}{1-x}\right) = \frac{1}{2}\ln(1+x) - \frac{1}{2}\ln(1-x)$.

4.2 Assignment 2

These problems work with sequences, finite sums and geometric series, ask whether a series converges and what it sums to, and then use the Maclaurin series of the standard functions to recognise a sum. If you would like to review the material first, see Infinite Series and Taylor and Maclaurin Series.

1. The terms of a geometric series $a + ar + ar^2 + \cdots + ar^{n-1} + \cdots$ satisfy

$$a_5 + a_7 = 1500 \quad \text{and} \quad a_{11} + a_{13} = 187500,$$

where $a_n = ar^{n-1}$ denotes the nth term. Find $a_1 + a_2 + a_3$.

Solution. Using $a_n = ar^{n-1}$,

$$\begin{aligned} a_5 + a_7 &= ar^4 + ar^6 = ar^4(1 + r^2) = 1500, \\ a_{11} + a_{13} &= ar^{10} + ar^{12} = ar^{10}(1 + r^2) = 187500. \end{aligned}$$

Dividing the two equations,

$$\frac{a_{11} + a_{13}}{a_5 + a_7} = \frac{ar^{10}(1 + r^2)}{ar^4(1 + r^2)} = \frac{187500}{1500} \;\Rightarrow\; r^6 = 125 = 5^3 \;\Rightarrow\; r^2 = 5.$$

Substituting back,

$$ar^4(1 + r^2) = 1500 \;\Rightarrow\; a(25)(1 + 5) = 1500 \;\Rightarrow\; a = \frac{1500}{150} = 10.$$

Since $r^2 = 5$, we have $r = \pm\sqrt{5}$, and therefore

$$\begin{aligned} a_1 + a_2 + a_3 &= a + ar + ar^2 = a(1 + r + r^2) \\ &= 10\left(1 \pm \sqrt{5} + 5\right) = 10\left(6 \pm \sqrt{5}\right). \end{aligned}$$

2. What is the sum of all multiples of 7 or 11 less than 1000?

Solution. Note that we need to subtract the multiples of 77, since they have been added twice:

$$\begin{aligned} &\underbrace{(7 + 14 + 21 + \cdots + 77 + \cdots + 994)}_{\text{multiples of 7}} \\ &\quad + \underbrace{(11 + 22 + \cdots + 77 + \cdots + 990)}_{\text{multiples of 11}} \\ &\quad - \underbrace{(77 + 154 + \cdots + 924)}_{\text{multiples of 77}} \\ &= 7(1 + 2 + 3 + \cdots + 142) + 11(1 + 2 + 3 + \cdots + 90) \\ &\quad - 77(1 + 2 + \cdots + 12) \end{aligned}$$

Using $\displaystyle\sum_{i=1}^{n} i = \frac{n(n+1)}{2}$:

$$\begin{aligned} &= 7\,\frac{(142)(143)}{2} + 11\,\frac{(90)(91)}{2} - 77\,\frac{(12)(13)}{2} \\ &= 7(71)(143) + 11(45)(91) - 77(6)(13) \\ &= (7)(71)(13)(11) + (11)(13)(7)(45) - (7)(11)(6)(13) \\ &= (7)(11)(13)(71 + 45 - 6) = (7)(11)(13)(110) = 110110, \end{aligned}$$

where we used $143 = (13)(11)$ and $91 = (13)(7)$.

3. What can we conclude by applying the nth term test in the following series?

A. $\displaystyle\sum_{n=1}^{\infty} \frac{(5n+3)^{2n}}{(7n^2+2)^n}$

B. $\displaystyle\sum_{n=1}^{\infty} \frac{2\ln(n)}{3n}$

Solution.

A.

$$\begin{aligned}\lim_{n\to\infty} \frac{(5n+3)^{2n}}{(7n^2+2)^n} &= \lim_{n\to\infty} \left(\frac{(5n+3)^2}{7n^2+2}\right)^n \\ &= \lim_{n\to\infty} \left(\frac{25n^2+30n+9}{7n^2+2}\right)^n \\ &= \lim_{n\to\infty} \left(\frac{25}{7}\right)^n = \infty \;\Rightarrow\; \text{the series diverges.}\end{aligned}$$

B.

$$\begin{aligned}\lim_{n\to\infty} \frac{2\ln(n)}{3n} &\overset{\text{H}}{=} \frac{2}{3}\lim_{n\to\infty} \frac{1/n}{1} = 0 \\ &\Rightarrow \text{ the } n\text{th Term Test is inconclusive.}\end{aligned}$$

4. Evaluate the following sums or show that they diverge.

A. $\displaystyle\sum_{n=1}^{\infty} \frac{1}{n(n+1)(n+2)}$

B. $\displaystyle\sum_{n=0}^{\infty} e^{-2n}$

C. $\displaystyle\sum_{n=0}^{\infty} e^{2n}$

D. $\displaystyle\sum_{n=1}^{\infty} \left(1+\frac{4}{n}\right)^n$

E. $\displaystyle\sum_{n=2}^{\infty} \frac{2}{3^n}$

Solution.

A. We use partial fractions:

$$\begin{aligned}\frac{1}{n(n+1)(n+2)} &= \frac{A}{n} + \frac{B}{n+1} + \frac{C}{n+2} \\ &= \frac{A(n+1)(n+2) + Bn(n+2) + Cn(n+1)}{n(n+1)(n+2)}.\end{aligned}$$

Setting $n=0$ gives $2A=1$, so $A=\frac{1}{2}$; setting $n=-1$ gives $-B=1$, so $B=-1$; and setting $n=-2$ gives $2C=1$, so $C=\frac{1}{2}$. Hence

$$\begin{aligned}&\sum_{n=1}^{\infty} \frac{1}{n(n+1)(n+2)} \\ &= \sum_{n=1}^{\infty} \frac{1}{2}\left(\frac{1}{n} - \frac{2}{n+1} + \frac{1}{n+2}\right)\end{aligned}$$

$$
\begin{aligned}
&= \frac{1}{2}\sum_{n=1}^{\infty}\left(\frac{1}{n}-\frac{1}{n+1}\right) - \frac{1}{2}\sum_{n=1}^{\infty}\left(\frac{1}{n+1}-\frac{1}{n+2}\right)\\
&= \frac{1}{2}\sum_{n=1}^{\infty}\left(\frac{1}{n}-\frac{1}{n+1}\right) - \frac{1}{2}\sum_{n=2}^{\infty}\left(\frac{1}{n}-\frac{1}{n+1}\right)\\
&= \frac{1}{2}\left(1-\frac{1}{2}\right)\\
&\qquad + \underbrace{\frac{1}{2}\sum_{n=2}^{\infty}\left(\frac{1}{n}-\frac{1}{n+1}\right) - \frac{1}{2}\sum_{n=2}^{\infty}\left(\frac{1}{n}-\frac{1}{n+1}\right)}_{\text{zero}}\\
&= \frac{1}{4}.
\end{aligned}
$$

B. This is a geometric series with $a = 1$ and $r = \frac{1}{e^2}$:

$$
\begin{aligned}
\sum_{n=0}^{\infty} e^{-2n} &= \sum_{n=0}^{\infty}\left(\frac{1}{e^2}\right)^n = \sum_{n=1}^{\infty}\left(\frac{1}{e^2}\right)^{n-1}\\
&= \frac{1}{1-\frac{1}{e^2}} = \frac{e^2}{e^2-1}.
\end{aligned}
$$

C. $\lim_{n\to\infty} a_n = \lim_{n\to\infty} e^{2n} = \infty$, so by the nth Term Test the series diverges.

D. Let $L = \lim_{n\to\infty}\left(1+\frac{4}{n}\right)^n$. Then

$$
\begin{aligned}
\ln L &= \lim_{n\to\infty} n\ln\left(1+\frac{4}{n}\right) = \lim_{n\to\infty}\frac{\ln\left(1+\frac{4}{n}\right)}{\frac{1}{n}}\\
&\overset{\text{H}}{=} \lim_{n\to\infty}\frac{\frac{-4/n^2}{1+4/n}}{-\frac{1}{n^2}} = \lim_{n\to\infty}\frac{4}{1+\frac{4}{n}} = 4.
\end{aligned}
$$

Hence $L = e^4 \neq 0$, so by the nth Term Test the series diverges.

E.

$$
\begin{aligned}
\sum_{n=2}^{\infty}\frac{2}{3^n} &= \sum_{n=2}^{\infty} 2\left(\frac{1}{3}\right)^n\\
&= \frac{2}{1-\frac{1}{3}} - \left(2+\frac{2}{3}\right) = 3-\frac{8}{3} = \frac{1}{3},
\end{aligned}
$$

where the terms for $n = 0$ and $n = 1$ need to be subtracted.

5. Answer questions A and B below for the following infinite series:

$$\sum_{k=1}^{\infty}\left(\frac{6}{k^2}-\frac{6}{(k+1)^2}\right).$$

A. Does the nth-term test apply? Remember to fully justify your answer.

B. Evaluate the series or show that it diverges.

Solution.

A. We compute the limit of the terms:

$$\lim_{n\to\infty} a_n = \lim_{n\to\infty}\frac{6}{n^2} - \frac{6}{(n+1)^2} = \lim_{n\to\infty}\frac{6(n+1)^2-6n^2}{n^2(n+1)^2}$$

$$= \lim_{n\to\infty} \frac{12n+6}{n^2(n+1)^2} = \lim_{n\to\infty} \frac{12n}{n^4} = 0.$$

Hence the nth-term test does *not* apply: since the limit of the terms is 0, the test is inconclusive.

B. The series telescopes. The partial sum is

$$\begin{aligned} s_n &= \left(\frac{6}{1^2} - \frac{6}{2^2}\right) + \left(\frac{6}{2^2} - \frac{6}{3^2}\right) + \cdots \\ &\quad + \left(\frac{6}{(n-1)^2} - \frac{6}{n^2}\right) + \left(\frac{6}{n^2} - \frac{6}{(n+1)^2}\right) \\ &= 6 - \frac{6}{(n+1)^2}, \end{aligned}$$

and therefore

$$\sum_{k=1}^{\infty} \left(\frac{6}{k^2} - \frac{6}{(k+1)^2}\right) = \lim_{n\to\infty} s_n = \lim_{n\to\infty} 6 - \frac{6}{(n+1)^2} = 6 - 0 = 6.$$

6. Express $8.81818181818\ldots$ as a rational number, i.e. in the form $\frac{p}{q}$, where p and q are positive integers with no common factors.

Solution. We write the repeating decimal as a geometric series:

$$8.81818181818\ldots = 8 + \frac{81}{100} + \frac{81}{10000} + \cdots = 8 + 81\sum_{n=1}^{\infty} \left(\frac{1}{100}\right)^n.$$

Using the geometric series with $a = \frac{1}{100}$ and $r = \frac{1}{100}$,

$$8 + 81\left(\frac{\frac{1}{100}}{1 - \frac{1}{100}}\right) = 8 + \frac{81}{99} = 8 + \frac{9}{11} = \frac{97}{11}.$$

Hence $p = 97$ and $q = 11$.

7. Find the sum of the convergent series $\displaystyle\sum_{n=0}^{\infty} \frac{(-25)^n}{(2n)!}$.

Solution. Recall $\cos x = \displaystyle\sum_{n=0}^{\infty} \frac{(-1)^n x^{2n}}{(2n)!}$. With $x = 5$,

$$\begin{aligned} \cos(5) &= \sum_{n=0}^{\infty} \frac{(-1)^n 5^{2n}}{(2n)!} = \sum_{n=0}^{\infty} \frac{(-1)^n 25^n}{(2n)!} \\ &= \sum_{n=0}^{\infty} \frac{(-25)^n}{(2n)!}, \end{aligned}$$

so the sum is $\cos(5)$.

8. Find the sum of the series $\displaystyle\sum_{n=0}^{\infty} \frac{1}{n!}$.

Solution. The Maclaurin series of the exponential function is

$$e^x = \sum_{n=0}^{\infty} \frac{x^n}{n!}, \qquad \text{valid for all } x \in \mathbb{R}.$$

Setting $x = 1$ gives

$$\sum_{n=0}^{\infty} \frac{1}{n!} = e^1 = e.$$

9. Find the sum of the series

$$5 + 5^2 + \frac{5^3}{2!} + \frac{5^4}{3!} + \cdots + \frac{5^{n+1}}{n!} + \cdots$$

Solution. The general term is $\dfrac{5^{n+1}}{n!}$ starting at $n = 0$. Let us check the first few: at $n = 0$ we get $5^1/0! = 5$; at $n = 1$ we get $5^2/1! = 5^2$; at $n = 2$ we get $5^3/2!$. These match, so the series is

$$\sum_{n=0}^{\infty} \frac{5^{n+1}}{n!}.$$

Now pull out one factor of 5, which does not depend on n:

$$\sum_{n=0}^{\infty} \frac{5^{n+1}}{n!} = \sum_{n=0}^{\infty} \frac{5 \cdot 5^n}{n!} = 5 \sum_{n=0}^{\infty} \frac{5^n}{n!}.$$

The remaining series is the Maclaurin series $e^x = \displaystyle\sum_{n=0}^{\infty} \frac{x^n}{n!}$ evaluated at $x = 5$, which converges for every x. Therefore

$$5 + 5^2 + \frac{5^3}{2!} + \cdots = 5e^5.$$

4.3 Assignment 3

These problems bound the error in a Taylor approximation with the Remainder Theorem and use Taylor series to compute limits and integrals. Problems marked with a star (∗) are for the interested reader: they do not need to be handed in and will not be examined. If you would like to review the material first, see Taylor Series and its convergence.

1. For approximately what values of x can we replace $\sin(x)$ by $x - \dfrac{x^3}{6}$ with an error of magnitude no greater than 4×10^{-3}?

Solution. Here $a = 0$, and the cubic $x - \dfrac{x^3}{3!}$ is $T_3(x)$. But the Maclaurin series of sin has no x^4 term, so the same polynomial is also the fourth order Taylor polynomial:

$$\begin{aligned} T_4(x) &= x - \frac{x^3}{3!} + \frac{f^{(4)}(0)}{4!}x^4 \\ &= x - \frac{x^3}{3!} = T_3(x), \qquad \text{since } f^{(4)}(0) = \sin(0) = 0. \end{aligned}$$

We should therefore take $n = 4$, not $n = 3$: both choices describe the very same approximation, but the remainder R_4 is one order smaller than R_3 and so gives the sharper estimate.

The derivatives of $f(x) = \sin(x)$ are

$$\begin{aligned} f'(x) &= \cos(x), & f''(x) &= -\sin(x), \\ f^{(3)}(x) &= -\cos(x), & f^{(4)}(x) &= \sin(x), \\ f^{(5)}(x) &= \cos(x), \end{aligned}$$

and therefore $\left|f^{(5)}(c)\right| = |\cos(c)| \le 1$, so we can take $M = 1$.

By the Remainder Theorem with $n = 4$,

$$\text{Error} = |R_4(x)| \le M\,\frac{|x-a|^5}{5!} = \frac{|x|^5}{5!} \le 4 \times 10^{-3},$$

which gives

$$\begin{aligned} |x| &\le \sqrt[5]{(5!)(0.004)} = \sqrt[5]{0.48} \approx 0.863, \\ \Rightarrow \quad & x \in [-0.863,\ 0.863]. \end{aligned}$$

See Figure 4.3.1.

For comparison, stopping at $n = 3$ would have given $|x| \le \sqrt[4]{(4!)(0.004)} \approx 0.556$, a needlessly small interval for exactly the same polynomial.

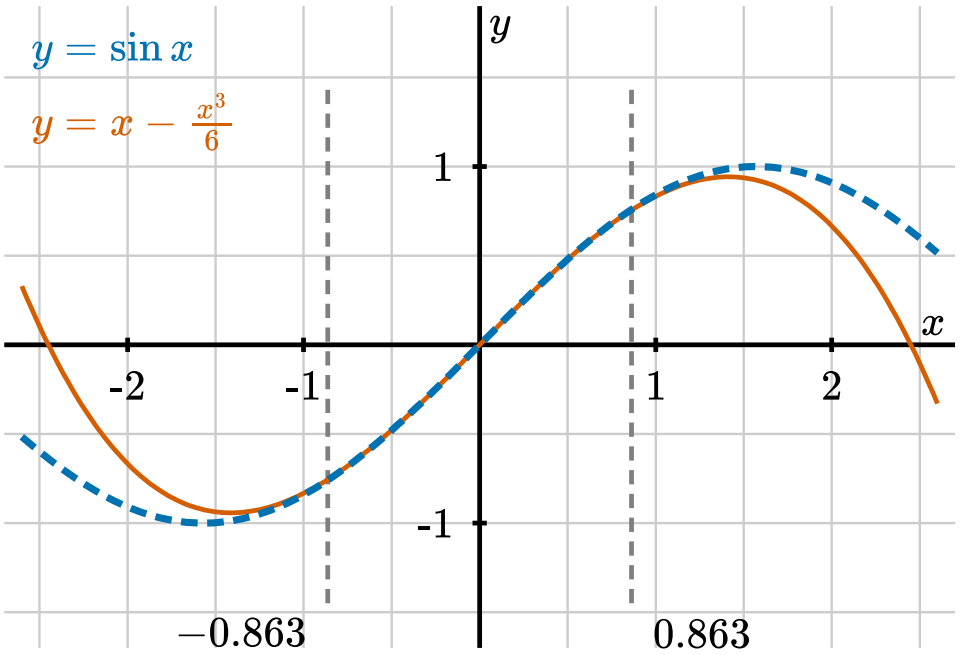


Figure 4.3.1 The function $y = \sin x$ and the cubic $y = x - \frac{x^3}{6}$. Between the dashed lines $x = \pm 0.863$ the two graphs differ by at most 4×10^{-3}.

2. Use the remainder estimation theorem to estimate the maximum error when approximating $f(x) = e^x$ by $T_2(x) = 1 + x + \dfrac{x^2}{2}$ on the interval $\left[-\dfrac{5}{6}, \dfrac{5}{6}\right]$.

Solution. From the remainder theorem, we know that

$$\text{Error} = |R_2(x)| = \left|\frac{f^{(3)}(c)}{3!}\, x^3\right| \leq \frac{e^c}{3!}\,|x|^3.$$

Also, since $c \in \left[-\frac{5}{6}, \frac{5}{6}\right]$, we have $|c| \leq \frac{5}{6}$ and hence $e^c \leq e^{5/6}$:

$$\text{Error} = |R_2(x)| \leq \frac{e^{5/6}}{3!}\left(\frac{5}{6}\right)^3.$$

We know that $e^{5/6} < e^1 < 3$, hence

$$\text{Error} = |R_2(x)| \leq \frac{e^{5/6}}{3!}\left(\frac{5}{6}\right)^3 < \frac{3}{3!}\left(\frac{5}{6}\right)^3 \approx 0.289.$$

Hence, an estimate for the upper bound of the error is $\dfrac{3}{3!}\left(\dfrac{5}{6}\right)^3 \approx 0.289$. See Figure 4.3.2.

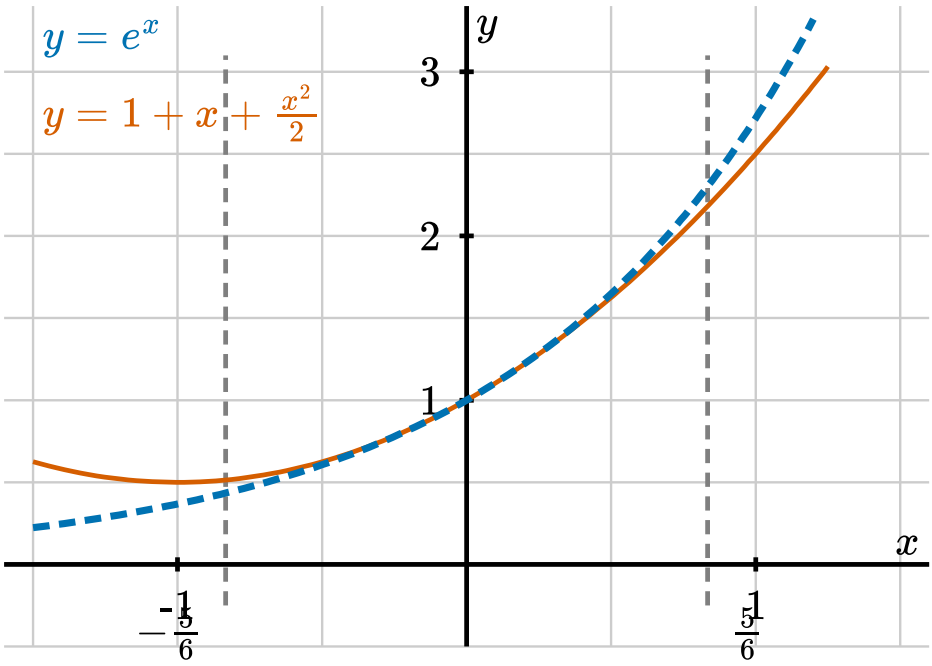


Figure 4.3.2 The function $y = e^x$ and $y = T_2(x) = 1 + x + \frac{x^2}{2}$ on the interval $\left[-\frac{5}{6}, \frac{5}{6}\right]$, marked by the dashed lines.

3. Consider the function $f(x) = \ln(1 + 2x)$.

A. Find the second order Taylor polynomial $T_2(x)$ centered at 0.

B. Estimate the maximum error when approximating $f(x) = \ln(1 + 2x)$ with the second order Taylor polynomial $T_2(x)$ centered at 0, on the interval $[-0.25, 0.25]$.

Solution.

A. We compute the derivatives at 0:

$$f'(x) = \frac{2}{1+2x} = 2(1+2x)^{-1}, \qquad f'(0) = 2,$$
$$f''(x) = -4(1+2x)^{-2}, \qquad f''(0) = -4.$$

Hence

$$T_2(x) = f(0) + f'(0)(x-0) + \frac{f''(0)}{2!}(x-0)^2 = 0 + 2x - 2x^2,$$

i.e. $T_2(x) = 2x - 2x^2$.

B. We have $f^{(3)}(x) = 16(1+2x)^{-3}$ and $-\frac{1}{4} \le x \le \frac{1}{4}$. Note that $f^{(4)}(x) = -96(1+2x)^{-4}$ is negative, which means $f^{(3)}$ is a decreasing function, hence at $x = -\frac{1}{4}$ the value $f^{(3)}(c)$ is maximized, i.e.,

$$f^{(3)}(c) \le f^{(3)}(-0.25) = 16\left(1 - \frac{1}{2}\right)^{-3} = 128.$$

Also

$$-\frac{1}{4} \le x \le \frac{1}{4} \;\Rightarrow\; |x^3| \le \left(\frac{1}{4}\right)^3 = \frac{1}{4^3} = \frac{1}{64},$$

and therefore

$$\text{Error} = |R_2(x)| \le \left|\frac{f^{(3)}(c)}{3!}\,x^3\right| \le \frac{1}{3!}\cdot\frac{1}{64}\cdot 128 = \frac{1}{3}.$$

This means that the error in estimating $f(x) = \ln(1+2x)$ for $-\frac{1}{4} \le x \le \frac{1}{4}$ by $T_2(x) = 2x - 2x^2$ is definitely smaller than $\frac{1}{3}$. See Figure 4.3.3.

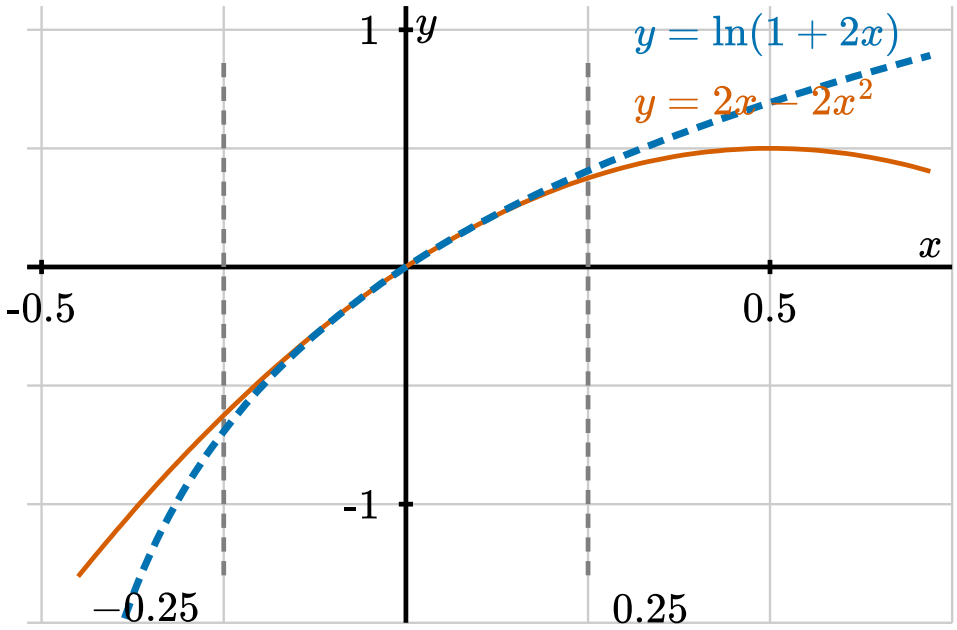


Figure 4.3.3 The function $y = \ln(1+2x)$ and $y = T_2(x) = 2x - 2x^2$. On the interval $[-0.25, 0.25]$, marked by the dashed lines, the two graphs are nearly identical.

4. Let

$$f(x) = 1 + 2x + 3x^2 + 4x^3 + 5x^4 + \cdots$$

Find the exact value of $\displaystyle\int_0^{1/13} f(x)\,dx$.

Solution. First we identify f. Its general term is $(n+1)x^n$, so

$$f(x) = \sum_{n=0}^{\infty} (n+1)x^n.$$

This is exactly what you get by differentiating the geometric series term by term:

$$\frac{1}{1-x} = \sum_{n=0}^{\infty} x^n = 1 + x + x^2 + x^3 + \cdots, \qquad |x| < 1,$$

$$\frac{d}{dx}\left(\frac{1}{1-x}\right) = \frac{1}{(1-x)^2} = \sum_{n=1}^{\infty} nx^{n-1} = 1 + 2x + 3x^2 + \cdots$$

So $f(x) = \dfrac{1}{(1-x)^2}$ for $|x| < 1$. Since $\frac{1}{13} < 1$, the whole interval of integration lies inside the interval of convergence.

Now we integrate. An antiderivative of $(1-x)^{-2}$ is $(1-x)^{-1}$, so

$$\begin{aligned}\int_0^{1/13} \frac{dx}{(1-x)^2} &= \left[\frac{1}{1-x}\right]_0^{1/13} \\ &= \frac{1}{1-\frac{1}{13}} - \frac{1}{1-0} \\ &= \frac{1}{\frac{12}{13}} - 1 = \frac{13}{12} - 1 = \frac{1}{12}.\end{aligned}$$

5. Evaluate $\displaystyle\int \frac{\cos x - 1}{x}\,dx$ as an infinite series. Give the first three nonzero terms.

Solution. The integrand has no elementary antiderivative, so expand it as a series first. Starting from $\cos x = 1 - \dfrac{x^2}{2!} + \dfrac{x^4}{4!} - \dfrac{x^6}{6!} + \cdots$, subtracting 1 kills the constant term, so every surviving power of x is even and at least 2. Dividing by x therefore leaves an honest power series:

$$\begin{aligned}\frac{\cos x - 1}{x} &= \frac{1}{x}\left(-\frac{x^2}{2!} + \frac{x^4}{4!} - \frac{x^6}{6!} + \cdots\right)\\ &= -\frac{x}{2!} + \frac{x^3}{4!} - \frac{x^5}{6!} + \cdots\end{aligned}$$

Integrating term by term,

$$\begin{aligned}\int \frac{\cos x - 1}{x}\,dx &= C - \frac{x^2}{2\cdot 2!} + \frac{x^4}{4\cdot 4!} - \frac{x^6}{6\cdot 6!} + \cdots\\ &= C - \frac{x^2}{4} + \frac{x^4}{96} - \frac{x^6}{4320} + \cdots\end{aligned}$$

6. Use Taylor series to evaluate

$$\lim_{x\to 0} \frac{\cos(2x) - 1}{x^2 e^x}.$$

Solution. The quotient has the indeterminate form $\frac{0}{0}$. Replace the numerator and the denominator by their Maclaurin series. Putting $2x$ in place of x in $\cos x = 1 - \frac{x^2}{2!} + \frac{x^4}{4!} - \cdots$,

$$\begin{aligned}&\cos(2x) = 1 - \frac{(2x)^2}{2!} + \frac{(2x)^4}{4!} - \cdots = 1 - 2x^2 + \frac{2}{3}x^4 - \cdots\\ \Rightarrow\quad &\cos(2x) - 1 = -2x^2 + \frac{2}{3}x^4 - \cdots\end{aligned}$$

and from $e^x = 1 + x + \frac{x^2}{2!} + \cdots$,

$$x^2 e^x = x^2\left(1 + x + \frac{x^2}{2!} + \cdots\right) = x^2 + x^3 + \frac{x^4}{2} + \cdots.$$

Both vanish to exactly second order, so cancel the common factor of x^2 — legitimate, since the limit never uses the value at $x = 0$ itself:

$$\begin{aligned}\lim_{x\to 0}\frac{\cos(2x) - 1}{x^2 e^x} &= \lim_{x\to 0}\frac{x^2\left(-2 + \frac{2}{3}x^2 - \cdots\right)}{x^2\left(1 + x + \frac{x^2}{2!} + \cdots\right)}\\ &= \lim_{x\to 0}\frac{-2 + \frac{2}{3}x^2 - \cdots}{1 + x + \frac{x^2}{2!} + \cdots} = \frac{-2}{1} = -2.\end{aligned}$$

Each remaining series is continuous at 0 with a nonzero value there, so only the two leading coefficients matter.

7. Show that

$$\int_0^1 \frac{\sin(\ln t)}{\ln t}\,dt = \frac{\pi}{4}.$$

(The integrand is continuous on $(0,1)$. As $t \to 1^-$ we have $\ln t \to 0$, so the integrand tends to 1; as $t \to 0^+$ we have $\left|\dfrac{\sin(\ln t)}{\ln t}\right| \le \dfrac{1}{|\ln t|} \to 0$. So the integrand is bounded and the integral exists. Its antiderivative is not elementary.)

Hint. Two facts from Calculus II, both proved by integration by parts[1]: for every integer $k \ge 0$,

$$I_k = \int_0^\infty x^k e^{-x}\,dx = k!,$$

$$J_k = \int_0^1 (\ln t)^k\,dt = (-1)^k\,k!.$$

Either substitute $t = e^{-x}$ and use Example 2.3.13, or expand $\dfrac{\sin(\ln t)}{\ln t}$ as a series in $\ln t$ and integrate term by term with J_k.

Solution. *Solution 1 (substitution).* Let $t = e^{-x}$, so $x = -\ln t$ and $dt = -e^{-x}\,dx$. As t runs from 0 to 1, x runs from ∞ to 0. Since $\ln t = -x$,

$$\frac{\sin(\ln t)}{\ln t} = \frac{\sin(-x)}{-x} = \frac{\sin x}{x}.$$

Therefore

$$\begin{aligned}\int_0^1 \frac{\sin(\ln t)}{\ln t}\,dt &= \int_\infty^0 \frac{\sin x}{x}\,\left(-e^{-x}\right)dx \\ &= \int_0^\infty e^{-x}\,\frac{\sin x}{x}\,dx = \frac{\pi}{4}\end{aligned}$$

by Example 2.3.13.

Solution 2 (directly with series). Substituting $u = \ln t$ into the series $\dfrac{\sin u}{u} = \displaystyle\sum_{n=0}^{\infty} \frac{(-1)^n u^{2n}}{(2n+1)!}$,

$$\frac{\sin(\ln t)}{\ln t} = \sum_{n=0}^{\infty} \frac{(-1)^n (\ln t)^{2n}}{(2n+1)!}.$$

Integrating term by term and using J_k with $k = 2n$ (so $(-1)^{2n} = 1$),

$$\begin{aligned}\int_0^1 \frac{\sin(\ln t)}{\ln t}\,dt &= \sum_{n=0}^{\infty} \frac{(-1)^n}{(2n+1)!}\,(2n)! \\ &= \sum_{n=0}^{\infty} \frac{(-1)^n}{2n+1} = \arctan 1 = \frac{\pi}{4}.\end{aligned}$$

Justification. With $S_N(x) = \displaystyle\sum_{n=0}^{N} \frac{(-1)^n x^{2n}}{(2n+1)!}$, the Remainder Estimation Theorem gives $\left|\dfrac{\sin x}{x} - S_N(x)\right| \le \dfrac{x^{2N+2}}{(2N+3)!}$, exactly as in Example 2.3.13. Replacing x by $u = \ln t$,

$$\left|\frac{\sin(\ln t)}{\ln t} - S_N(\ln t)\right| \le \frac{(\ln t)^{2N+2}}{(2N+3)!}.$$

Integrating over $[0,1]$ with J_k, $k = 2N+2$, bounds the error after $N+1$ terms by

$$\frac{(2N+2)!}{(2N+3)!} = \frac{1}{2N+3} \longrightarrow 0,$$

so the partial sums converge to the integral, and the integral equals $\pi/4$.

[1]For I_k: $I_0 = \int_0^\infty e^{-x}\,dx = 1$, and for $k \ge 1$ integration by parts with $u = x^k$ and $dv = e^{-x}\,dx$ gives $I_k = \Big[-x^k e^{-x}\Big]_0^\infty + k\,I_{k-1} = k\,I_{k-1}$, since $x^k e^{-x} \to 0$ as $x \to \infty$; by induction $I_k = k!$. For J_k: $J_0 = 1$, and for $k \ge 1$ integration by parts with $u = (\ln t)^k$ and $dv = dt$, so $du = k(\ln t)^{k-1}\,\frac{dt}{t}$ and $v = t$, gives $J_k = \Big[t(\ln t)^k\Big]_0^1 - k\,J_{k-1} = -k\,J_{k-1}$. The bracket vanishes at $t = 1$ because $\ln 1 = 0$, and at $t = 0^+$ because $t(\ln t)^k \to 0$ (by L'Hôpital's rule). By induction, $J_k = (-k)(-(k-1))\cdots(-1)\,J_0 = (-1)^k k!$.

4.4 Review Problems #1

These are the leftover problems from the first four topics of the course, collected here for review. They are not assigned, but they are fair game on an exam. Problems marked with a star (∗) are the exception: those are for the interested reader and will not be examined. The topics they cover, with links to the notes:

- Hyperbolic Functions
- Infinite Series
- Taylor and Maclaurin Series
- Taylor Series and its convergence

1. **True or False.** For any real number x, we have $\cosh^2(x) + \sinh^2(x) = \cosh(2x)$.
Justify your answer fully: give a proof if the statement is true, or a counterexample if it is false.

Answer. True.

Solution. True.
First,

$$\cosh(2x) = \frac{1}{2}\left(e^{2x} + e^{-2x}\right).$$

Second,

$$\begin{aligned}
&\cosh^2(x) + \sinh^2(x) \\
&= \frac{1}{4}\left(e^{x} + e^{-x}\right)^2 \\
&\quad + \frac{1}{4}\left(e^{x} - e^{-x}\right)^2 \\
&= \frac{1}{4}\left(2e^{2x} + 2e^{-2x}\right) \\
&= \frac{1}{2}\left(e^{2x} + e^{-2x}\right).
\end{aligned}$$

Comparing the two results gives $\cosh^2(x) + \sinh^2(x) = \cosh(2x)$.

2. If $a, b, a+b$ and ab are positive numbers that form 4 consecutive terms in a geometric sequence, find a.

Solution. Since consecutive ratios in a geometric sequence are equal,

$$\frac{a}{b} = \frac{b}{a+b} = \frac{a+b}{ab}.$$

From the first equality,

$$\begin{aligned}
\frac{a}{b} = \frac{b}{a+b} \;&\Rightarrow\; a^2 + ab = b^2 \;\Rightarrow\; b^2 - ab - a^2 = 0 \\
&\overset{\div a^2}{\Rightarrow} \left(\frac{b}{a}\right)^2 - \left(\frac{b}{a}\right) - 1 = 0 \\
\frac{b}{a} = \frac{1 \pm \sqrt{1+4}}{2} \;&\overset{\text{since } b/a>0}{\Rightarrow}\; \frac{b}{a} = \frac{1+\sqrt{5}}{2}. \quad (*)
\end{aligned}$$

From the equality of the first and third fractions,

$$\begin{aligned}
\frac{a}{b} = \frac{a+b}{ab} \;\Rightarrow\; a^2 = a + b \;&\overset{\div a}{\Rightarrow}\; a = 1 + \frac{b}{a} \\
&\overset{(*)}{=}\; 1 + \frac{1+\sqrt{5}}{2} = \frac{3+\sqrt{5}}{2}.
\end{aligned}$$

3. Consider the sequence defined by $a_1 = 1$ and $a_{n+1} = a_n + 3n^2 + 3n + 1$. Find a formula for a_n and use it to compute a_{200}.

Solution. We compute the first few terms:

$$\begin{aligned} n=1: &\quad a_2 = a_1 + (3+3+1) = 1+7 = 8 \;\Rightarrow\; a_2 = 2^3 \\ n=2: &\quad a_3 = a_2 + (12+6+1) = 8+19 = 27 \;\Rightarrow\; a_3 = 3^3 \end{aligned}$$

We notice that $a_1 = 1^3$, $a_2 = 2^3$, and $a_3 = 3^3$, hence it seems that $a_n = n^3$.

Let us verify by computing $a_{n+1} - a_n$ using $a_n = n^3$:

$$\begin{aligned} a_{n+1} - a_n &= (n+1)^3 - n^3 \\ &= n^3 + 3n^2 + 3n + 1 - n^3 = 3n^2 + 3n + 1, \end{aligned}$$

which confirms that when $a_n = n^3$, then $a_{n+1} = a_n + 3n^2 + 3n + 1$. Hence,

$$a_{200} = (200)^3 = 8 \times 10^6.$$

4. What can we conclude by applying the nth term test to the series $\displaystyle\sum_{n=1}^{\infty} \frac{3n}{\sqrt{6n^2+4n+5}}$?

Solution.

$$\lim_{n\to\infty} \frac{3n}{\sqrt{6n^2+4n+5}} = \lim_{n\to\infty} \frac{3n}{\sqrt{6}\,n} = \sqrt{\frac{3}{2}} \neq 0$$
$$\Rightarrow \text{ the series diverges.}$$

5. Evaluate the following sums or show that they diverge.

A. $\displaystyle\sum_{n=0}^{10} e^{-2n}$

B. $\displaystyle\sum_{n=1}^{\infty} \frac{6}{(2n-1)(2n+1)}$

C. $\displaystyle\sum_{n=1}^{\infty} \frac{2n+1}{n^2(n+1)^2}$

D. $\displaystyle\sum_{n=1}^{\infty} \ln\!\left(\frac{n}{2n+1}\right)$

E. $\displaystyle\sum_{n=3}^{\infty} \frac{2^n}{3^n}$

Solution.

A. This is a finite geometric sum. Using $\displaystyle\sum_{n=1}^{N} ar^{n-1} = a\,\frac{1-r^N}{1-r}$, which was proved when we first studied geometric sums,

$$\begin{aligned} \sum_{n=0}^{10} e^{-2n} &= \sum_{n=1}^{11} \left(\frac{1}{e^2}\right)^{n-1} \\ &= \frac{1-\left(e^{-2}\right)^{11}}{1-e^{-2}} = \frac{1-e^{-22}}{1-e^{-2}}. \end{aligned}$$

B. Partial fractions give

$$\frac{6}{(2n-1)(2n+1)} = \frac{A}{2n-1} + \frac{B}{2n+1} = \frac{A(2n+1)+B(2n-1)}{(2n-1)(2n+1)},$$

and setting $n = \frac{1}{2}$ gives $2A = 6$, $A = 3$, while $n = -\frac{1}{2}$ gives $-2B = 6$, $B = -3$. The sum telescopes:

$$\begin{aligned} s_k &= \left(\frac{1}{1} - \frac{1}{3}\right) + \left(\frac{1}{3} - \frac{1}{5}\right) + \left(\frac{1}{5} - \frac{1}{7}\right) + \cdots \\ &\quad + \left(\frac{1}{2k-1} - \frac{1}{2k+1}\right) = 1 - \frac{1}{2k+1}, \\ \text{so} \quad & 3\sum_{n=1}^{\infty}\left(\frac{1}{2n-1} - \frac{1}{2n+1}\right) = 3\lim_{k\to\infty} s_k \\ &= 3\lim_{k\to\infty}\left(1 - \frac{1}{2k+1}\right) = 3. \end{aligned}$$

C. Partial fractions (or direct observation) give

$$\frac{2n+1}{n^2(n+1)^2} = \frac{1}{n^2} - \frac{1}{(n+1)^2},$$

so the sum telescopes:

$$\begin{aligned} s_k &= \sum_{n=1}^{k}\left(\frac{1}{n^2} - \frac{1}{(n+1)^2}\right) \\ &= \left(1 - \frac{1}{4}\right) + \left(\frac{1}{4} - \frac{1}{9}\right) + \left(\frac{1}{9} - \frac{1}{16}\right) + \cdots \\ &\quad + \left(\frac{1}{k^2} - \frac{1}{(k+1)^2}\right) = 1 - \frac{1}{(k+1)^2} \\ \Rightarrow \quad & \sum_{n=1}^{\infty}\frac{2n+1}{n^2(n+1)^2} = \lim_{k\to\infty}\left(1 - \frac{1}{(k+1)^2}\right) = 1. \end{aligned}$$

D. $\lim_{n\to\infty} \ln\left(\frac{n}{2n+1}\right) = \ln\left(\frac{1}{2}\right) \neq 0$, so by the nth Term Test the series diverges.

E.

$$\begin{aligned} \sum_{n=3}^{\infty}\frac{2^n}{3^n} &= \sum_{n=4}^{\infty}\left(\frac{2}{3}\right)^{n-1} = \frac{1}{1-\frac{2}{3}} - \left(\frac{4}{9} + \frac{2}{3} + 1\right) \\ &= 3 - \frac{4+6+9}{9} = 3 - \frac{19}{9} = \frac{27-19}{9} = \frac{8}{9}, \end{aligned}$$

where the subtracted terms correspond to $n = 3$, $n = 2$, and $n = 1$ of the shifted series.

6. The government has decided to give a \$1,000 tax rebate to each household in order to stimulate the economy. The government statistics say that each household will spend 80% of the rebate in goods and services. The businesses and individuals who benefited from that 80% will then spend 80% of what they received and so on. The result is called the multiplier effect. What is the total effect of the rebate on the economy?

Solution. The rounds of spending form a geometric series with $a = 1000$ and $r = 0.8$:

$$\begin{aligned} &1000 + 0.8(1000) + (0.8)^2(1000) + \cdots = \sum_{n=1}^{\infty} 1000\,(0.8)^{n-1} \\ &= \frac{1000}{1-0.8} = \frac{1000}{0.2} = 5000 \text{ dollars.} \end{aligned}$$

The successive rounds of spending are shown in Figure 4.4.1.

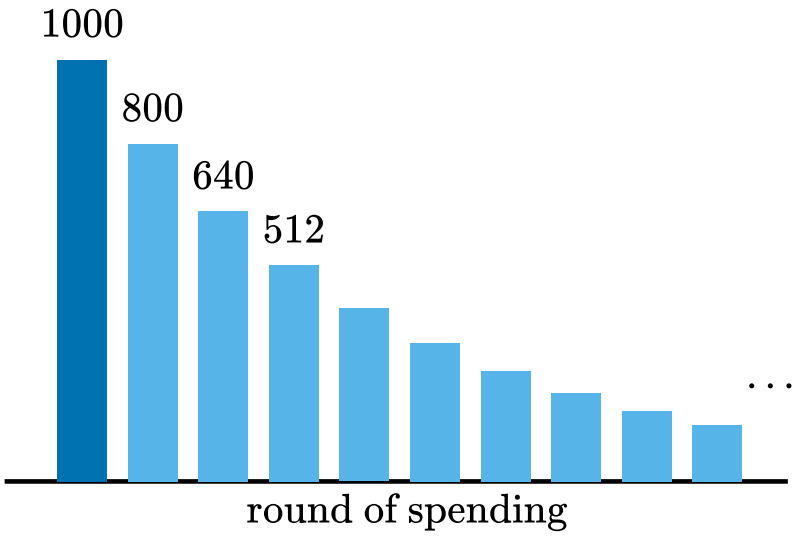


Figure 4.4.1 The multiplier effect. Each round of spending is 80% of the previous one, and the total of all the bars is $\frac{1000}{1-0.8} = 5000$ dollars.

7. Determine whether the series is convergent or divergent and if it is convergent calculate its sum.

A. $\displaystyle\sum_{n=0}^{\infty} \sin\left(\frac{1}{n+1}\right) - \sin\left(\frac{1}{n+2}\right)$

B. $\displaystyle\sum_{n=0}^{\infty} \frac{1+5^n}{3^n}$

Solution.

A. The series telescopes. The partial sum is

$$\begin{aligned} s_k &= \sum_{n=0}^{k} \sin\left(\frac{1}{n+1}\right) - \sin\left(\frac{1}{n+2}\right) \\ &= \sin(1) - \sin\left(\frac{1}{2}\right) + \sin\left(\frac{1}{2}\right) - \sin\left(\frac{1}{3}\right) \\ &\quad + \sin\left(\frac{1}{3}\right) - \sin\left(\frac{1}{4}\right) + \cdots \\ &\quad + \sin\left(\frac{1}{k+1}\right) - \sin\left(\frac{1}{k+2}\right) \\ &= \sin(1) - \sin\left(\frac{1}{k+2}\right). \end{aligned}$$

Hence the series converges and

$$\begin{aligned} \sum_{n=0}^{\infty} \sin\left(\frac{1}{n+1}\right) - \sin\left(\frac{1}{n+2}\right) &= \lim_{k\to\infty} s_k \\ &= \sin(1) - \sin(0) = \sin(1). \end{aligned}$$

B. We split the series into two geometric series:

$$\sum_{n=0}^{\infty} \frac{1+5^n}{3^n} = \sum_{n=0}^{\infty} \left(\frac{1}{3}\right)^n + \sum_{n=0}^{\infty} \left(\frac{5}{3}\right)^n.$$

Since $\lim_{n\to\infty} \left(\frac{5}{3}\right)^n = \infty$, by the nth term test we can conclude that the series diverges.

8. Determine whether the series converges, and if so find its sum:

$$\sum_{n=1}^{\infty}\left(\frac{n}{n+5}\right)^n.$$

Solution. Note that

$$\begin{aligned}\lim_{n\to\infty} a_n &= \lim_{n\to\infty}\left(1+\frac{5}{n}\right)^{-n}\\ &= \lim_{n\to\infty}\left[\left(1+\frac{5}{n}\right)^{\frac{n}{5}}\right]^{-5} = e^{-5}\neq 0,\end{aligned}$$

since $\left(1+\frac{5}{n}\right)^{n/5}\to e$. Indeed, setting $x=\frac{n}{5}$ and $L=\lim_{x\to\infty}\left(1+\frac{1}{x}\right)^x$,

$$\begin{aligned}\ln L &= \lim_{x\to\infty} x\ln\left(1+\frac{1}{x}\right) = \lim_{x\to\infty}\frac{\ln\left(1+\frac{1}{x}\right)}{\frac{1}{x}}\\ &\overset{\text{H}}{=} \lim_{x\to\infty}\frac{\frac{-1/x^2}{1+1/x}}{-\frac{1}{x^2}} = \lim_{x\to\infty}\frac{1}{1+\frac{1}{x}} = 1\\ &\Rightarrow\ L = e.\end{aligned}$$

Therefore, the series diverges by the nth Term Test.

9. Consider the following series. Answer the following questions.

$$\sum_{n=0}^{\infty}\frac{(x+4)^n}{2^n}$$

A. Find the values of x for which the series converges.

B. Find the sum of the series for those values of x.

Solution.

A. We can write the series as a geometric series:

$$\sum_{n=0}^{\infty}\frac{(x+4)^n}{2^n} = \sum_{n=0}^{\infty}\left(\frac{x+4}{2}\right)^n = \sum_{n=0}^{\infty}\left(\frac{x}{2}+2\right)^n,$$

which converges when $\left|\frac{x}{2}+2\right|<1$:

$$-1<\frac{x}{2}+2<1\ \Rightarrow\ -3<\frac{x}{2}<-1\ \Rightarrow\ -6<x<-2,$$

i.e. the series converges on the interval $(-6,-2)$.

B. When $x\in(-6,-2)$, the geometric series with $a=1$ and $r=\frac{x+4}{2}$ gives

$$\sum_{n=0}^{\infty}\left(\frac{x+4}{2}\right)^n = \frac{1}{1-\frac{x+4}{2}} = \frac{2}{2-x-4} = -\frac{2}{x+2}.$$

10. True or False. A geometric series $\sum_{n=1}^{\infty} ar^{n-1}$ converges if and only if $|r|\le 1$.

Justify your answer fully: give a proof if the statement is true, or a counterexample if it is false.

Answer. False.

Solution. False.

As a counterexample consider $\sum_{n=1}^{\infty} 1^{n-1}$, which clearly diverges even though $|r| = 1$. The correct condition is $|r| < 1$.

11. Consider the series $\sum_{k=0}^{\infty} \frac{3^{k-1}}{5^k}$. Does the series converge? If so, what is the result?

Solution. We first factor out $\frac{1}{3}$ so that the powers match:

$$\sum_{k=0}^{\infty} \frac{3^{k-1}}{5^k} = \frac{1}{3}\sum_{k=0}^{\infty} \frac{3^k}{5^k} = \frac{1}{3}\sum_{k=0}^{\infty} \left(\frac{3}{5}\right)^k.$$

Splitting off the $k = 0$ term so that the sum starts at $k = 1$,

$$\frac{1}{3}\sum_{k=0}^{\infty} \left(\frac{3}{5}\right)^k = \frac{1}{3}\left[1 + \sum_{k=1}^{\infty} \left(\frac{3}{5}\right)\left(\frac{3}{5}\right)^{k-1}\right].$$

The remaining sum is a geometric series with $a = \frac{3}{5}$ and $r = \frac{3}{5}$. Since $|r| = \frac{3}{5} < 1$, it converges and $\sum_{k=1}^{\infty} ar^{k-1} = \frac{a}{1-r}$, so

$$\frac{1}{3}\left[1 + \frac{\frac{3}{5}}{1 - \frac{3}{5}}\right] = \frac{1}{3}\left[1 + \frac{3}{2}\right] = \frac{1}{3} \cdot \frac{5}{2} = \frac{5}{6}.$$

12. Find the sum of all of the convergent series.

A. $\sum_{n=0}^{\infty} \frac{\sin\left(\frac{\pi}{2}n\right)}{3^{n+1}}$

B. $\sum_{n=1}^{\infty} \frac{-2}{n(n+1)}$

Solution.

A. The factor $\sin\left(\frac{\pi}{2}n\right)$ cycles through $0, 1, 0, -1$ as $n = 0, 1, 2, 3, \ldots$, so only the odd n contribute, with alternating signs. Writing $n = 2k + 1$,

$$\begin{aligned}\sum_{n=0}^{\infty} \frac{\sin\left(\frac{\pi}{2}n\right)}{3^{n+1}} &= \frac{1}{3^2} - \frac{1}{3^4} + \frac{1}{3^6} - \cdots \\ &= \sum_{k=0}^{\infty} \frac{(-1)^k}{3^{2k+2}} = \frac{1}{9}\sum_{k=0}^{\infty} \left(-\frac{1}{9}\right)^k.\end{aligned}$$

This is a geometric series with $a = 1$ and $r = -\frac{1}{9}$, and $|r| < 1$, so

$$\frac{1}{9} \cdot \frac{1}{1 - \left(-\frac{1}{9}\right)} = \frac{1}{9} \cdot \frac{1}{\frac{10}{9}} = \frac{1}{10}.$$

B. By the constant multiple rule, $\sum_{n=1}^{\infty} \frac{-2}{n(n+1)} = -2\sum_{n=1}^{\infty} \frac{1}{n(n+1)}$. The remaining series telescopes: since $\frac{1}{n(n+1)} = \frac{1}{n} - \frac{1}{n+1}$,

$$\begin{aligned}s_n &= \left(1 - \frac{1}{2}\right) + \left(\frac{1}{2} - \frac{1}{3}\right) + \cdots + \left(\frac{1}{n} - \frac{1}{n+1}\right) \\ &= 1 - \frac{1}{n+1} \longrightarrow 1.\end{aligned}$$

Hence the sum is $-2(1) = -2$.

13. True or False. If we manage to find the maximum value of $|f^{(n+1)}(c)|$ for c in the interval between a and x, then we can find the exact error in the Taylor polynomial approximation.

Justify your answer fully: give a proof if the statement is true, or a counterexample if it is false.

Answer. False.

Solution. False.

The statement is incorrect. While finding the maximum value of $|f^{(n+1)}(c)|$ allows us to find an upper bound for the error, it does not give the exact error.

14. For the following functions, give the Taylor *series* generated by the function at $x = 0$ AND give the values of x for which the Taylor series converges to the given function.

A. $f(x) = \cos(x)$

B. $g(x) = \dfrac{1}{1-x}$

C. $h(x) = x^2 e^{x^2}$

D. Using the Taylor series you found for $h(x)$ in part C, find $h^{(12)}(0)$, i.e. the 12th order derivative of $h(x)$ at 0.

Solution.

A. The derivatives of $\cos(x)$ at 0 cycle through $1, 0, -1, 0$, so only even powers survive and

$$\cos(x) = \sum_{n=0}^{\infty} \frac{(-1)^n}{(2n)!} x^{2n} = 1 - \frac{x^2}{2!} + \frac{x^4}{4!} - \frac{x^6}{6!} + \cdots,$$

which converges to $\cos(x)$ for all $x \in \mathbb{R}$.

B. This is the geometric series with $a = 1$ and $r = x$:

$$\frac{1}{1-x} = \sum_{n=0}^{\infty} x^n = 1 + x + x^2 + x^3 + \cdots,$$

which converges to $\dfrac{1}{1-x}$ exactly when $|x| < 1$, i.e. for $-1 < x < 1$.

C. We start from $e^u = \displaystyle\sum_{n=0}^{\infty} \frac{u^n}{n!}$, valid for all u, and substitute $u = x^2$:

$$e^{x^2} = \sum_{n=0}^{\infty} \frac{x^{2n}}{n!}.$$

Multiplying by x^2,

$$h(x) = x^2 e^{x^2} = \sum_{n=0}^{\infty} \frac{x^{2n+2}}{n!} = x^2 + x^4 + \frac{x^6}{2!} + \frac{x^8}{3!} + \cdots,$$

which converges to $h(x)$ for all $x \in \mathbb{R}$.

D. In the Taylor series $h(x) = \displaystyle\sum_{k=0}^{\infty} \frac{h^{(k)}(0)}{k!} x^k$, the coefficient of x^{12} is $\dfrac{h^{(12)}(0)}{12!}$. From part C, the term with x^{12} occurs when $2n + 2 = 12$, i.e. $n = 5$, and its coefficient is $\dfrac{1}{5!}$. Equating the two,

$$\frac{h^{(12)}(0)}{12!} = \frac{1}{5!} \;\Rightarrow\; h^{(12)}(0) = \frac{12!}{5!} = \frac{479001600}{120} = 3991680.$$

15. Given $f(x) = \ln(1 - 2x)$.

A. Find the 2nd order Maclaurin polynomial for $f(x)$.

B. Use Taylor's Remainder Theorem to find an upper bound on the magnitude of the error if the 2nd order Maclaurin polynomial is used to approximate $f(x)$ for $|x| \le \frac{1}{4}$.

Solution.

A. We compute the derivatives at 0:

$$\begin{aligned} f(x) &= \ln(1-2x), & f(0) &= 0, \\ f'(x) &= \frac{-2}{1-2x} = -2(1-2x)^{-1}, & f'(0) &= -2, \\ f''(x) &= -4(1-2x)^{-2}, & f''(0) &= -4. \end{aligned}$$

Hence

$$P_2(x) = f(0) + f'(0)x + \frac{f''(0)}{2!}x^2 = -2x - 2x^2.$$

B. By Taylor's Remainder Theorem,

$$|R_2(x)| \le M\,\frac{|x|^3}{3!},$$
$$\text{where } M \ge \left|f^{(3)}(c)\right| \text{ for all } c \text{ between 0 and } x.$$

Here $f^{(3)}(x) = -16(1-2x)^{-3}$, so $\left|f^{(3)}(c)\right| = \dfrac{16}{|1-2c|^3}$. For $|c| \le \frac{1}{4}$ we have $\frac{1}{2} \le 1-2c \le \frac{3}{2}$, and the fraction is largest when the denominator is smallest, i.e. at $c = \frac{1}{4}$:

$$\left|f^{(3)}(c)\right| \le \frac{16}{\left(\frac{1}{2}\right)^3} = 16 \cdot 8 = 128 = M.$$

Therefore, for $|x| \le \frac{1}{4}$,

$$|R_2(x)| \le 128 \cdot \frac{\left(\frac{1}{4}\right)^3}{3!} = \frac{128}{64 \cdot 6} = \frac{1}{3}.$$

16. What function has Maclaurin series $x - \dfrac{x^3}{2!} + \dfrac{x^5}{4!} - \dfrac{x^7}{6!} + \dfrac{x^9}{8!} - \cdots$?

Solution. Factoring x out of every term,

$$x - \frac{x^3}{2!} + \frac{x^5}{4!} - \frac{x^7}{6!} + \cdots = x\left(1 - \frac{x^2}{2!} + \frac{x^4}{4!} - \frac{x^6}{6!} + \cdots\right),$$

and the bracket is exactly the Maclaurin series of $\cos(x)$. Hence the function is

$$x\cos(x).$$

17.

A. Use a third Taylor polynomial at $x = 100$ to approximate $\sqrt{102}$.

B. Give an upper bound for the error in using this approximation.

Solution.

A. Let $f(x) = \sqrt{x} = x^{1/2}$ and $a = 100$. Then

$$\begin{aligned} f(x) &= x^{1/2}, & f(100) &= 10, \\ f'(x) &= \frac{1}{2}x^{-1/2}, & f'(100) &= \frac{1}{20}, \\ f''(x) &= -\frac{1}{4}x^{-3/2}, & f''(100) &= -\frac{1}{4000}, \end{aligned}$$

$$f'''(x) = \frac{3}{8}x^{-5/2}, \qquad f'''(100) = \frac{3}{800000}.$$

Hence

$$T_3(x) = 10 + \frac{x-100}{20} - \frac{(x-100)^2}{8000} + \frac{(x-100)^3}{1600000},$$

and evaluating at $x = 102$ (so $x - 100 = 2$),

$$\begin{aligned}\sqrt{102} &\approx 10 + \frac{2}{20} - \frac{4}{8000} + \frac{8}{1600000} \\ &= 10 + \frac{1}{10} - \frac{1}{2000} + \frac{1}{200000}.\end{aligned}$$

B. By Taylor's Remainder Theorem, $|R_3(x)| \le M\dfrac{|x-100|^4}{4!}$, where M bounds $\left|f^{(4)}\right|$ on $[100, 102]$. Since $f^{(4)}(x) = -\frac{15}{16}x^{-7/2}$ and $x^{-7/2}$ is decreasing, the largest value occurs at $x = 100$:

$$M = \frac{15}{16}\cdot 100^{-7/2} = \frac{15}{16\cdot 10^7}.$$

Therefore

$$|R_3(102)| \le \frac{15}{16\cdot 10^7}\cdot\frac{2^4}{24} = \frac{15}{24\cdot 10^7} = \frac{1}{16000000}.$$

18. Use Taylor series to evaluate

$$\lim_{x\to 0}\frac{\arctan x - x}{\sin x - x}.$$

Solution. Numerator and denominator both tend to 0, and each vanishes to third order, so l'Hôpital's rule would have to be applied three times. Replacing each by its Maclaurin series is quicker. From $\arctan x = x - \dfrac{x^3}{3} + \dfrac{x^5}{5} - \cdots$ and $\sin x = x - \dfrac{x^3}{3!} + \dfrac{x^5}{5!} - \cdots$, subtracting x removes the leading term of each:

$$\begin{aligned}\arctan x - x &= -\frac{x^3}{3} + \frac{x^5}{5} - \cdots \\ \sin x - x &= -\frac{x^3}{3!} + \frac{x^5}{5!} - \cdots\end{aligned}$$

Both series begin with x^3. The limit never sees $x = 0$ itself, so we may cancel a factor of x^3 from top and bottom:

$$\begin{aligned}\lim_{x\to 0}\frac{\arctan x - x}{\sin x - x} &= \lim_{x\to 0}\frac{-\frac{1}{3} + \frac{x^2}{5} - \cdots}{-\frac{1}{3!} + \frac{x^2}{5!} - \cdots} \\ &= \frac{\lim\limits_{x\to 0}\left(-\dfrac{1}{3} + \dfrac{x^2}{5} - \cdots\right)}{\lim\limits_{x\to 0}\left(-\dfrac{1}{3!} + \dfrac{x^2}{5!} - \cdots\right)} \\ &= \frac{-\frac{1}{3}}{-\frac{1}{3!}} = \frac{-\frac{1}{3}}{-\frac{1}{6}} = 2.\end{aligned}$$

Each of the two remaining series is a power series with a nonzero constant term, so it is continuous at 0 and the limit is just that constant term. Only the leading coefficients matter: the answer is the ratio $\left(-\frac{1}{3}\right) / \left(-\frac{1}{6}\right)$.

4.5 Sample Past Exam 1

A sample past exam, with worked solutions. It was a 65-minute, closed-book exam worth 20 points: no aids of their own (formula sheets, notes, phones, tablets, smart watches or similar) were permitted, and students were asked to write their work in a neat and organized format and to fully justify every step. The formula sheet at the end of this page will be the last page of the exam booklet on the day of the exam. Try the exam under the same conditions before you look at the solutions. The topics it covers, with links to the notes:

- Hyperbolic Functions
- Infinite Series
- Taylor and Maclaurin Series
- Taylor Series and its convergence

1. 4 points. Answer parts (a) and (b) for the following infinite series:

$$\sum_{k=1}^{\infty} \left(e^{1-k} - e^{-k}\right).$$

(a) Does the nth-term test apply? Remember to fully justify your answer. (2 points)

Solution.

$$\lim_{k\to\infty} a_k = \lim_{k\to\infty} \left(e^{1-k} - e^{-k}\right) = 0,$$

so the nth-term test does *not* apply: a limit of 0 is inconclusive.

(b) Evaluate the series or show that it diverges. (2 points)

Solution. The partial sums telescope:

$$\begin{aligned} S_n &= \underbrace{\left(e^0 - e^{-1}\right)}_{k=1} + \underbrace{\left(e^{-1} - e^{-2}\right)}_{k=2} + \underbrace{\left(e^{-2} - e^{-3}\right)}_{k=3} \\ &\quad + \cdots + \underbrace{\left(e^{2-n} - e^{1-n}\right)}_{k=n-1} + \underbrace{\left(e^{1-n} - e^{-n}\right)}_{k=n} \\ &= e^0 - e^{-n} = 1 - \frac{1}{e^n}. \end{aligned}$$

Hence

$$\sum_{k=1}^{\infty} \left(e^{1-k} - e^{-k}\right) = \lim_{n\to\infty} \left(1 - \frac{1}{e^n}\right) = 1.$$

2. 5 points. Consider the Taylor series for the function $f(x) = \sinh(x)$ about $x = 0$.

(a) Find $p_5(x)$, i.e. the Taylor polynomial of order 5. (2 points)

Solution.

$$\begin{aligned} f(x) &= \sinh(x), & f(0) &= 0, \\ f'(x) &= \cosh(x), & f'(0) &= 1, \\ f''(x) &= \sinh(x), & f''(0) &= 0, \\ f^{(3)}(x) &= \cosh(x), & f^{(3)}(0) &= 1, \\ f^{(4)}(x) &= \sinh(x), & f^{(4)}(0) &= 0, \\ f^{(5)}(x) &= \cosh(x), & f^{(5)}(0) &= 1. \end{aligned}$$

Therefore

$$p_5(x) = f(0) + f'(0)(x-0) + \frac{f''(0)}{2!}(x-0)^2$$

$$+\cdots+\frac{f^{(5)}(0)}{5!}(x-0)^5$$
$$=x+\frac{x^3}{3!}+\frac{x^5}{5!}.$$

(b) Express the Taylor series for the function $f(x)=\sinh(x)$ about $x=0$ in sigma notation. (1 point)

Solution.
$$\sum_{k=0}^{\infty}\frac{x^{2k+1}}{(2k+1)!}$$

(c) Assuming that $-2\le x\le 2$, find an upper bound on the error in estimating $f(x)$ using $p_5(x)$. (2 points)

Note: an answer in the form $\left(e^5+e^{-3}\right)\dfrac{3^{10}}{9!}$ suffices.

Solution. Collect the ingredients of the Remainder Estimation Theorem:

(I) $-2\le x\le 2$, so $|x|\le 2$.

(II) $n=6$, since $p_5(x)=p_6(x)$ for $f(x)=\sinh(x)$ (the coefficient of x^6 is $f^{(6)}(0)/6!=0$).

(III) $a=0$.

(IV) $f^{(n+1)}(t)=f^{(7)}(t)=\cosh(t)=\dfrac{e^t+e^{-t}}{2}$, so for $-2\le t\le 2$,

$$\left|f^{(7)}(t)\right|\le\frac{e^2+e^{-2}}{2},\qquad\text{and we take}\qquad M=\frac{e^2+e^{-2}}{2}.$$

Therefore
$$\text{Error}=|R_5(x)|=|R_6(x)|\le\frac{M\,|x-0|^7}{7!}\le\left(\frac{e^2+e^{-2}}{2}\right)\frac{2^7}{7!},$$
which is the upper bound on the error.

3. 4 points. Consider the series
$$\sum_{k=1}^{\infty}\left(\frac{2}{x}\right)^k.$$

(a) For which values of x does the series converge? (2 points)

Solution.
$$\sum_{k=1}^{\infty}\left(\frac{2}{x}\right)^k=\sum_{k=1}^{\infty}\left(\frac{2}{x}\right)\left(\frac{2}{x}\right)^{k-1}$$
is a geometric series with $r=\dfrac{2}{x}$ and $a=\dfrac{2}{x}$. It converges when
$$|r|<1\ \Rightarrow\ \left|\frac{2}{x}\right|<1\ \Rightarrow\ |x|>2\ \Rightarrow\ x\in(-\infty,-2)\cup(2,\infty).$$

(b) Evaluate the series for the x values that you found in part (a). (2 points)

Solution. Since
$$\sum_{n=1}^{\infty}ar^{n-1}=\frac{a}{1-r}\quad\text{if }|r|<1,$$
we get
$$\sum_{k=1}^{\infty}\left(\frac{2}{x}\right)^k=\frac{\frac{2}{x}}{1-\frac{2}{x}}=\frac{2}{x-2}.$$

4. 3 points. Compute the result of

$$\sum_{n=1}^{\infty} \frac{2^{(n+1)}}{3^n}.$$

Solution.

$$\sum_{n=1}^{\infty} \frac{2^{n+1}}{3^n} = 2\sum_{n=1}^{\infty} \frac{2^n}{3^n} = 2\sum_{n=1}^{\infty} \left(\frac{2}{3}\right)\left(\frac{2}{3}\right)^{n-1}$$
$$= 2\,\frac{\frac{2}{3}}{1-\frac{2}{3}} = 2\,\frac{\frac{2}{3}}{\frac{1}{3}} = 4.$$

The last sum is a geometric series with $a = \frac{2}{3}$ and $r = \frac{2}{3}$, which converges to $a/(1-r)$.

5. 4 points. Find the result of the following series or show that the series diverges.

(a) $-\ln(3) + \frac{(\ln(3))^2}{2} - \frac{(\ln(3))^3}{6} + \frac{(\ln(3))^4}{24} - \cdots$ (2 points)

Solution. Add and subtract 1:

$$-\ln(3) + \frac{(\ln(3))^2}{2} - \frac{(\ln(3))^3}{6} + \frac{(\ln(3))^4}{24} - \cdots$$
$$= -1 + \left[1 - \ln(3) + \frac{(\ln(3))^2}{2} - \frac{(\ln(3))^3}{6} + \frac{(\ln(3))^4}{24} - \cdots\right].$$

The bracket is the Maclaurin series

$$e^x = \sum_{n=0}^{\infty} \frac{x^n}{n!} = 1 + \frac{x}{1!} + \frac{x^2}{2!} + \frac{x^3}{3!} + \cdots$$

with $x = -\ln(3)$. Hence the series equals

$$-1 + e^{-\ln(3)} = -1 + \frac{1}{e^{\ln(3)}} = -1 + \frac{1}{3} = -\frac{2}{3}.$$

(b) $e + e^2 + e^4 + e^6 + \cdots$ (2 points)

Solution.

$$e + e^2 + e^4 + e^6 + \cdots = e + \sum_{n=1}^{\infty} e^{2n},$$

and $\sum_{n=1}^{\infty} e^{2n}$ is a geometric series with $r = e^2$. Hence it diverges, since $|r| > 1$.

Formula Sheet.

Taylor's Formula. If f has derivatives of all orders in an open interval I containing a, then for each positive integer n and for each x in I,

$$f(x) = f(a) + f'(a)(x-a) + \frac{f''(a)}{2!}(x-a)^2$$
$$+ \cdots + \frac{f^{(n)}(a)}{n!}(x-a)^n + R_n(x)$$

where $R_n(x) = \dfrac{f^{(n+1)}(c)}{(n+1)!}(x-a)^{n+1}$ and c is between a and x.

The Remainder Estimation Theorem. If there is a positive constant M such that $\left|f^{(n+1)}(c)\right| \le M$ for

all c between x and a, inclusive, then the remainder term $R_n(x)$ in Taylor's Theorem satisfies the inequality

$$\text{Error} = |R_n(x)| \leq M \frac{|x-a|^{n+1}}{(n+1)!}.$$

If this condition holds for every n and the other conditions of Taylor's Theorem are satisfied by f, then the series converges to $f(x)$.

Maclaurin series.

$$\frac{1}{1-x} = \sum_{n=0}^{\infty} x^n = 1 + x + x^2 + x^3 + \cdots, \quad x \in (-1,1)$$

$$e^x = \sum_{n=0}^{\infty} \frac{x^n}{n!} = 1 + \frac{x}{1!} + \frac{x^2}{2!} + \frac{x^3}{3!} + \cdots$$

$$\sin x = \sum_{n=0}^{\infty} (-1)^n \frac{x^{2n+1}}{(2n+1)!} = x - \frac{x^3}{3!} + \frac{x^5}{5!} - \frac{x^7}{7!} + \cdots$$

$$\cos x = \sum_{n=0}^{\infty} (-1)^n \frac{x^{2n}}{(2n)!} = 1 - \frac{x^2}{2!} + \frac{x^4}{4!} - \frac{x^6}{6!} + \cdots$$

4.6 Exam 1

Exam 1 of this quarter (Fall 2026), with solutions. These were the instructions on the exam:

- You have ***65 minutes***. The exam has 5 problems and is worth ***20 points***.
- This is a closed-book exam. No aids of your own are permitted: no formula sheets, notes, phones, tablets, smart watches, or similar. ***Calculators of any kind are not permitted.***
- Write your work in a neat and organized format and ***fully justify every step***. An answer without supporting work may receive little or no credit.
- Give exact answers. Decimal approximations are not required.
- If you need more room, use the blank page at the end of the booklet and say so on the page of the problem.
- The last page of the booklet is a formula sheet. It is reproduced at the end of this page.
- Any violation of academic integrity, such as the use of AI, calculators, etc., may result in receiving an F and being reported to the Office of Student Life.

The topics it covers, with links to the notes:

- Hyperbolic Functions
- Infinite Series
- Taylor and Maclaurin Series
- Taylor Series and its convergence

1. **4 points.** The centerline of an arch is modeled by the curve

$$y = 50 - 30\cosh\left(\frac{x}{30}\right),$$

where x and y are measured in meters. The ground is the line $y = 0$, and the arch is the part of the curve with $y \geq 0$.

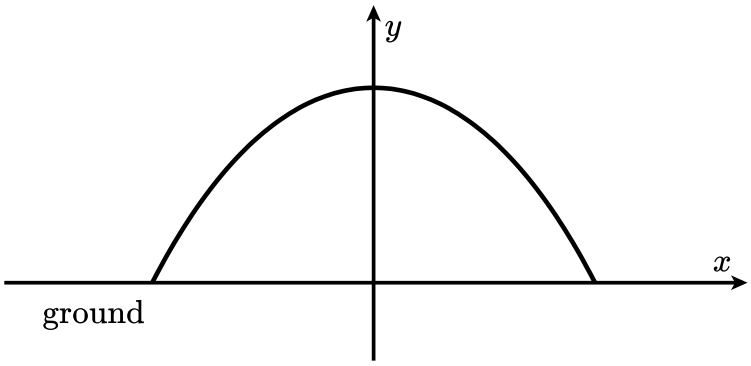


Figure 4.6.1 The arch $y = 50 - 30\cosh\left(\frac{x}{30}\right)$ above the ground $y = 0$.

(a) Find the height of the arch, that is, its maximum height above the ground. Justify why this is the maximum. (1 point)

Solution. Since $\cosh u \geq 1$ for every real u, with equality only at $u = 0$ (the range of cosh is $[1, \infty)$ and its minimum is at 0),

$$y = 50 - 30\cosh\left(\tfrac{x}{30}\right) \leq 50 - 30 = 20,$$

with equality exactly when $x = 0$. The arch is ***20 m*** tall.

(b) Find the width of the arch at ground level. (2 points)

Solution. The arch meets the ground where $y = 0$, that is, where $\cosh\left(\frac{x}{30}\right) = \frac{5}{3}$. Put $u = e^{x/30} > 0$, so that $e^{-x/30} = \frac{1}{u}$:

$$\frac{e^{x/30} + e^{-x/30}}{2} = \frac{5}{3} \quad \Longleftrightarrow \quad u + \frac{1}{u} = \frac{10}{3}.$$

Multiplying by $3u$:

$$\begin{aligned} 3u^2 - 10u + 3 = 0 &\implies (3u-1)(u-3) = 0 \\ &\implies u = 3 \text{ or } u = \tfrac{1}{3}. \end{aligned}$$

So $\frac{x}{30} = \ln 3$ or $\frac{x}{30} = \ln \frac{1}{3} = -\ln 3$, i.e. the arch meets the ground at $x = \pm 30 \ln 3$. The width is

$$30 \ln 3 - (-30 \ln 3) = 60 \ln 3 \text{ m} \quad (\approx 66 \text{ m}).$$

(c) Find the slope of the arch where it meets the ground on the right. (1 point)

Solution.

$$\frac{dy}{dx} = -30 \sinh\left(\frac{x}{30}\right) \cdot \frac{1}{30} = -\sinh\left(\frac{x}{30}\right).$$

At the right base $x = 30 \ln 3$,

$$\begin{aligned} \left.\frac{dy}{dx}\right|_{x=30\ln 3} &= -\sinh(\ln 3) = -\frac{e^{\ln 3} - e^{-\ln 3}}{2} \\ &= -\frac{3 - \frac{1}{3}}{2} = -\frac{4}{3}. \end{aligned}$$

2. 4 points. For each series below, determine whether it converges or diverges. If it converges, find its sum. Remember to fully justify your answers.

(a) $\displaystyle\sum_{n=1}^{\infty} \frac{\sinh(n)}{e^n}$ (2 points)

Solution. Using the definition of sinh,

$$\begin{aligned} a_n = \frac{\sinh(n)}{e^n} = \frac{e^n - e^{-n}}{2e^n} &= \frac{1 - e^{-2n}}{2} \\ &\longrightarrow \frac{1}{2} \neq 0 \quad (n \to \infty). \end{aligned}$$

By the nth Term Test, the series ***diverges***.

(b) $\displaystyle\sum_{n=1}^{\infty} \frac{\sinh(n)}{e^{3n}}$ (2 points)

Solution. Here

$$\frac{\sinh(n)}{e^{3n}} = \frac{e^n - e^{-n}}{2e^{3n}} = \frac{1}{2}\left(e^{-2n} - e^{-4n}\right).$$

Both $\sum_{n\geq 1} e^{-2n}$ and $\sum_{n\geq 1} e^{-4n}$ are geometric series with $a = r$ and $|r| < 1$, so they converge:

$$\begin{aligned} \sum_{n=1}^{\infty} e^{-2n} &= \frac{e^{-2}}{1 - e^{-2}} = \frac{1}{e^2 - 1}, \\ \sum_{n=1}^{\infty} e^{-4n} &= \frac{e^{-4}}{1 - e^{-4}} = \frac{1}{e^4 - 1}. \end{aligned}$$

Since both converge, the difference and constant multiple rules give that the series ***converges***, and

$$\sum_{n=1}^{\infty} \frac{\sinh(n)}{e^{3n}} = \frac{1}{2}\left(\frac{1}{e^2 - 1} - \frac{1}{e^4 - 1}\right)$$

$$= \frac{1}{2} \cdot \frac{(e^2+1)-1}{e^4-1}$$
$$= \frac{e^2}{2\,(e^4-1)} \quad \left(= \frac{1}{4\sinh 2} \approx 0.069\right).$$

(The nth Term Test is inconclusive here, since the terms tend to 0.)

3. **3 points.** A patient takes a 60 mg dose of a medication at the same time every day. By the time the next dose is taken, the body has eliminated three quarters of the medication, so exactly $\frac{1}{4}$ of the amount that was in the body just after a dose is still there when the next dose is taken. Let Q_n be the amount of medication (in mg) in the body just after the nth dose, so that $Q_1 = 60$.

(a) Find a formula for Q_n that does not contain a sum (no "$\cdots$" and no $\sum$). (2 points)

Solution. Just after each dose, the amount is 60 plus a quarter of the amount just after the previous dose: $Q_n = 60 + \frac{1}{4}Q_{n-1}$. Hence

$$\begin{aligned} Q_1 &= 60, \\ Q_2 &= 60 + 60\left(\tfrac{1}{4}\right), \\ Q_3 &= 60 + 60\left(\tfrac{1}{4}\right) + 60\left(\tfrac{1}{4}\right)^2, \\ Q_n &= 60 + 60\left(\tfrac{1}{4}\right) + \cdots + 60\left(\tfrac{1}{4}\right)^{n-1} \\ &= \sum_{k=1}^{n} 60\left(\tfrac{1}{4}\right)^{k-1}. \end{aligned}$$

This is the nth partial sum of the geometric series with $a = 60$ and $r = \frac{1}{4}$, so

$$\begin{aligned} Q_n &= a\,\frac{1-r^n}{1-r} = 60 \cdot \frac{1-\left(\frac{1}{4}\right)^n}{\frac{3}{4}} \\ &= 80\left(1-\left(\tfrac{1}{4}\right)^n\right) \text{ mg}. \end{aligned}$$

(Check: $Q_1 = 80 \cdot \frac{3}{4} = 60$ and $Q_2 = 80 \cdot \frac{15}{16} = 75$.)

(b) What happens to Q_n in the long run? (1 point)

Solution. Since $\left(\frac{1}{4}\right)^n \to 0$, $\lim_{n\to\infty} Q_n = 80$ ***mg***. In the long run the amount in the body just after a dose levels off at (approaches, but never exceeds) 80 mg. This is the sum of the series $\sum_{k=1}^{\infty} 60\left(\frac{1}{4}\right)^{k-1} = \frac{60}{1-\frac{1}{4}}$.

4. **5 points.** Let $f(x) = \ln x$.

(a) Find the Taylor polynomial $p_3(x)$ of order 3 generated by f at $x = 1$. (2 points)

Solution.

$$\begin{aligned} f(x) &= \ln x, & f(1) &= 0, \\ f'(x) &= x^{-1}, & f'(1) &= 1, \\ f''(x) &= -x^{-2}, & f''(1) &= -1, \\ f'''(x) &= 2x^{-3}, & f'''(1) &= 2. \end{aligned}$$

Therefore

$$\begin{aligned} p_3(x) &= f(1) + f'(1)(x-1) \\ &\quad + \frac{f''(1)}{2!}(x-1)^2 + \frac{f'''(1)}{3!}(x-1)^3 \\ &= (x-1) - \frac{(x-1)^2}{2} + \frac{(x-1)^3}{3}. \end{aligned}$$

(b) For each n, let $p_n(x)$ be the Taylor polynomial of order n generated by f at $x = 1$. Use the Remainder Estimation Theorem to find the smallest n for which the theorem guarantees that the absolute value of the error in approximating $\ln x$ by $p_n(x)$ is no greater than 0.01 for every x in $\left[1, \frac{3}{2}\right]$. (3 points)

Solution. The derivatives follow a pattern: $f^{(k)}(x) = (-1)^{k-1}\,\frac{(k-1)!}{x^k}$ for $k \geq 1$, so

$$f^{(n+1)}(c) = (-1)^n\,\frac{n!}{c^{\,n+1}}.$$

For x in $\left[1, \frac{3}{2}\right]$, the number c lies between 1 and x, so $1 \leq c \leq \frac{3}{2}$ and

$$\left|f^{(n+1)}(c)\right| = \frac{n!}{c^{\,n+1}} \leq n!,$$

the largest value occurring at $c = 1$. Take $M = n!$. Since $|x-1| \leq \frac{1}{2}$, the Remainder Estimation Theorem gives

$$\begin{aligned} |\ln x - p_n(x)| = |R_n(x)| &\leq \frac{M\,|x-1|^{n+1}}{(n+1)!} \\ &\leq \frac{n!}{(n+1)!}\left(\frac{1}{2}\right)^{n+1} = \frac{1}{(n+1)\,2^{\,n+1}}. \end{aligned}$$

We need $\frac{1}{(n+1)\,2^{\,n+1}} \leq 0.01 = \frac{1}{100}$, that is, $(n+1)\,2^{\,n+1} \geq 100$:

$$\begin{aligned} n = 3: &\quad 4 \cdot 16 = 64 \text{ (too small)}, \\ n = 4: &\quad 5 \cdot 32 = 160 \text{ (large enough)}. \end{aligned}$$

The smallest such order is $n = 4$. (In fact p_3 really is not good enough: $\left|\ln \frac{3}{2} - p_3\left(\frac{3}{2}\right)\right| = \left|\ln \frac{3}{2} - \frac{5}{12}\right| \approx 0.0112$.)

5. 4 points.

(a) Use Taylor series to evaluate

$$\lim_{x \to 0} \frac{x - \sin x}{x\,(1 - \cos x)}.$$

(2 points)

Solution. From the Maclaurin series of $\sin x$ and $\cos x$,

$$\begin{aligned} x - \sin x &= x - \left(x - \frac{x^3}{3!} + \frac{x^5}{5!} - \cdots\right) \\ &= \frac{x^3}{6} - \frac{x^5}{120} + \cdots, \\ x\,(1 - \cos x) &= x\left(\frac{x^2}{2!} - \frac{x^4}{4!} + \cdots\right) \\ &= \frac{x^3}{2} - \frac{x^5}{24} + \cdots. \end{aligned}$$

Dividing numerator and denominator by x^3,

$$\begin{aligned} \lim_{x \to 0} \frac{x - \sin x}{x\,(1 - \cos x)} &= \lim_{x \to 0} \frac{\frac{1}{6} - \frac{x^2}{120} + \cdots}{\frac{1}{2} - \frac{x^2}{24} + \cdots} \\ &= \frac{1/6}{1/2} = \frac{1}{3}. \end{aligned}$$

(b) ***True or False?*** If $\sum_{n=1}^{\infty} a_n$ and $\sum_{n=1}^{\infty} b_n$ both diverge, then $\sum_{n=1}^{\infty}(a_n + b_n)$ diverges. Justify your answer fully: give a proof if the statement is true, or a counterexample if it is false. (2 points)

Solution. ***False.*** Take $a_n = 1$ and $b_n = -1$ for every n. Both $\sum a_n$ and $\sum b_n$ diverge by the nth Term Test, since $a_n \to 1 \neq 0$ and $b_n \to -1 \neq 0$ (their partial sums are n and $-n$). But $a_n + b_n = 0$ for every n, so

$$\sum_{n=1}^{\infty}(a_n + b_n) = 0 + 0 + 0 + \cdots = 0$$

converges. The Sum Rule $\sum(a_n + b_n) = \sum a_n + \sum b_n$ holds only when both series converge.

Formula Sheet.

Geometric series. The sum of the first n terms is

$$s_n = a + ar + ar^2 + \cdots + ar^{n-1} = a\,\frac{1-r^n}{1-r}, \qquad r \neq 1.$$

The geometric series converges to $\dfrac{a}{1-r}$ if $|r| < 1$, i.e.

$$\sum_{n=1}^{\infty} ar^{n-1} = a + ar + ar^2 + \cdots = \frac{a}{1-r}, \qquad |r| < 1,$$

and diverges if $|r| \geq 1$.

Taylor's Formula. If f has derivatives of all orders in an open interval I containing a, then for each positive integer n and for each x in I,

$$f(x) = f(a) + f'(a)(x-a) + \frac{f''(a)}{2!}(x-a)^2 + \cdots + \frac{f^{(n)}(a)}{n!}(x-a)^n + R_n(x)$$

where $R_n(x) = \dfrac{f^{(n+1)}(c)}{(n+1)!}(x-a)^{n+1}$ and c is between a and x.

The Remainder Estimation Theorem. If there is a positive constant M such that $\left|f^{(n+1)}(c)\right| \leq M$ for all c between x and a, inclusive, then the remainder term $R_n(x)$ in Taylor's Theorem satisfies the inequality

$$\text{Error} = |R_n(x)| \leq M\,\frac{|x-a|^{n+1}}{(n+1)!}.$$

If this condition holds for every n and the other conditions of Taylor's Theorem are satisfied by f, then the series converges to $f(x)$.

Maclaurin series.

$$\frac{1}{1-x} = \sum_{n=0}^{\infty} x^n = 1 + x + x^2 + x^3 + \cdots, \quad x \in (-1,1)$$

$$e^x = \sum_{n=0}^{\infty} \frac{x^n}{n!} = 1 + \frac{x}{1!} + \frac{x^2}{2!} + \frac{x^3}{3!} + \cdots$$

$$\sin x = \sum_{n=0}^{\infty} (-1)^n \frac{x^{2n+1}}{(2n+1)!} = x - \frac{x^3}{3!} + \frac{x^5}{5!} - \frac{x^7}{7!} + \cdots$$

$$\cos x = \sum_{n=0}^{\infty} (-1)^n \frac{x^{2n}}{(2n)!} = 1 - \frac{x^2}{2!} + \frac{x^4}{4!} - \frac{x^6}{6!} + \cdots$$

Answers at a glance.

(a) (a) 20 m; (b) $60\ln 3$ m; (c) $-\frac{4}{3}$.

(b) (a) diverges (the terms tend to $\frac{1}{2}$); (b) converges to $\dfrac{e^2}{2\,(e^4-1)} = \dfrac{1}{4\sinh 2}$.

(c) (a) $Q_n = 80\left(1 - \left(\frac{1}{4}\right)^n\right)$ mg; (b) 80 mg.

(d) (a) $p_3(x) = (x-1) - \frac{(x-1)^2}{2} + \frac{(x-1)^3}{3}$; (b) $n = 4$.

(e) (a) $\frac{1}{3}$; (b) False (for example, $a_n = 1$ and $b_n = -1$).

4.7 Assignment 4

These problems set up coordinates in space, describe regions and solids by equations and inequalities, and do algebra with vectors. If you would like to review the material first, see Three-Dimensional Coordinate Systems and Vectors.

1.

A. Find an equation of the set of all points equidistant from the points $A(-1,5,3)$ and $B(6,2,-2)$.

B. Describe the geometrical shape corresponding to the set.

Solution.

A. We want to find all points $P(x,y,z)$ that have the same distance from A and B. Squaring both distances (which is equivalent, since distances are non-negative) gives

$$(x+1)^2+(y-5)^2+(z-3)^2=(x-6)^2+(y-2)^2+(z+2)^2.$$

Expanding both sides,

$$\begin{aligned} &x^2+2x+1+y^2-10y+25+z^2-6z+9\\ &=x^2-12x+36+y^2-4y+4+z^2+4z+4,\\ &2x-10y-6z+35=-12x-4y+4z+44, \end{aligned}$$

and collecting terms,

$$14x-6y-10z=9.$$

B. This is the equation of a plane. Its normal vector is $\langle 14,-6,-10\rangle = 2\langle 7,-3,-5\rangle$, which is parallel to $\vec{AB}=\langle 6-(-1),\,2-5,\,-2-3\rangle=\langle 7,-3,-5\rangle$. Moreover, the midpoint of $\overline{AB}$,

$$C\left(\frac{-1+6}{2},\frac{5+2}{2},\frac{3+(-2)}{2}\right)=C\left(\frac{5}{2},\frac{7}{2},\frac{1}{2}\right),$$

satisfies the equation, since $14\left(\frac{5}{2}\right)-6\left(\frac{7}{2}\right)-10\left(\frac{1}{2}\right)=35-21-5=9$. Hence the set is the plane that passes through the midpoint of $\overline{AB}$ and is orthogonal to $\vec{AB}$, i.e. the **perpendicular bisector plane** of the segment $\overline{AB}$. See Figure 4.7.1.

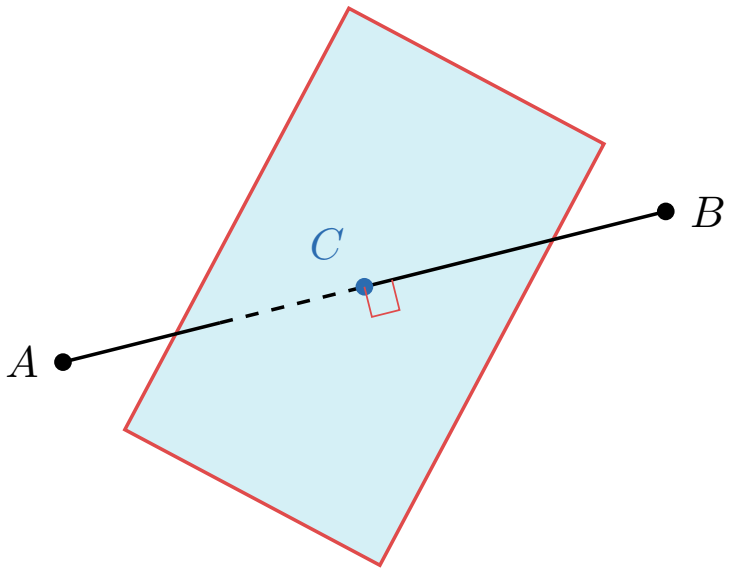


Figure 4.7.1 The set of points equidistant from A and B is the plane through the midpoint C of $\overline{AB}$ perpendicular to $\vec{AB}$.

2. Describe the following regions and graphs.

A. $x^2 + y^2 + z^2 \leq 4$, $z \geq 0$

B. $x^2 + y^2 + z^2 \leq 4$, $z = 0$

C. $x^2 + y^2 + z^2 = 4$, $z \geq 0$

D. $x^2 + y^2 + z^2 = 4$, $z = 0$

Solution. The key is to notice whether the first condition is an *inequality* (a solid region) or an *equation* (a surface), and then what the second condition does to it.

A. The solid ball of radius 2 centered at the origin, restricted to $z \geq 0$: the *upper half of the solid ball*, including the flat disk in the xy-plane.

B. Setting $z = 0$ in the solid ball gives $x^2 + y^2 \leq 4$: the *solid disk* of radius 2 centered at the origin, lying in the xy-plane.

C. The sphere of radius 2 restricted to $z \geq 0$: the *upper hemisphere* (a surface only), together with the circle where it meets the xy-plane.

D. Setting $z = 0$ on the sphere gives $x^2 + y^2 = 4$: the *circle* of radius 2 centered at the origin in the xy-plane.

3. Consider the point $(3, 7, -5)$.

(a) What is its distance to the yz-plane?

(b) What is its distance to the y-axis?

Solution. **(a)** The yz-plane is the plane $x = 0$. The closest point of that plane to $(3, 7, -5)$ is obtained by simply setting the x-coordinate to zero, giving $(0, 7, -5)$. Hence the distance is

$$\sqrt{(3-0)^2 + (7-7)^2 + (-5+5)^2} = |3| = 3.$$

In general the distance from (x_0, y_0, z_0) to the yz-plane is $|x_0|$.

(b) The y-axis consists of the points $(0, y, 0)$. The closest such point to $(3, 7, -5)$ is the one with the same y-coordinate, namely $(0, 7, 0)$, so the distance is

$$\sqrt{(3-0)^2 + (7-7)^2 + (-5-0)^2} = \sqrt{9+25} = \sqrt{34}.$$

In general the distance from (x_0, y_0, z_0) to the y-axis is $\sqrt{x_0^2 + z_0^2}$: we drop the coordinate along the axis and keep the other two. See Figure 4.7.2.

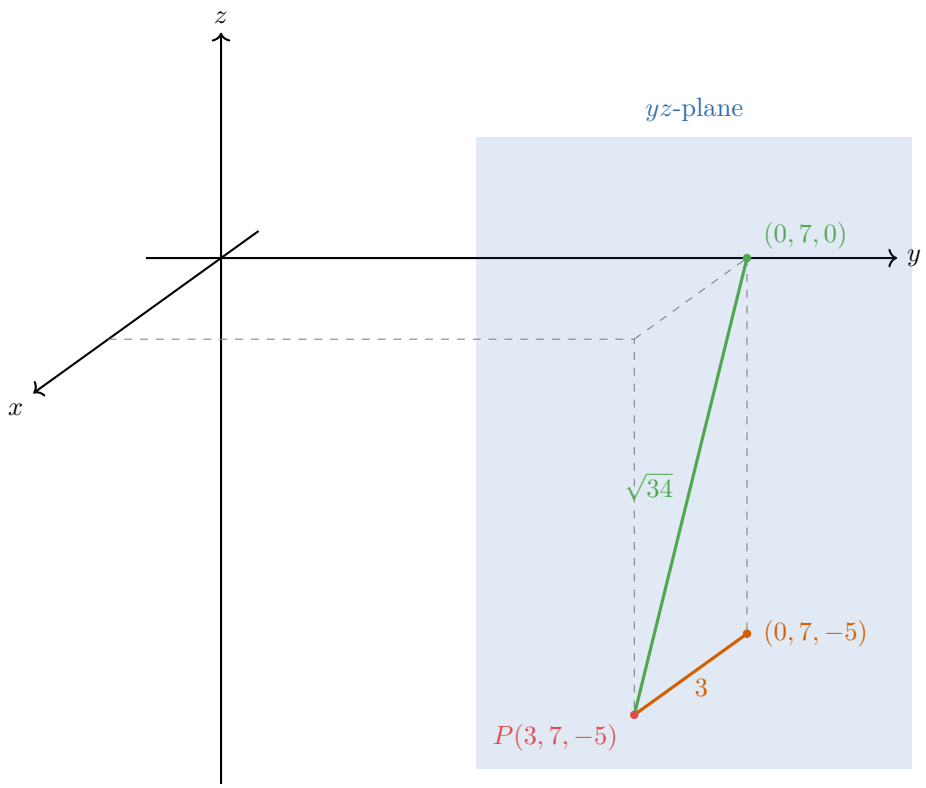


Figure 4.7.2 The point $P(3, 7, -5)$, its distance 3 to the yz-plane (measured horizontally, parallel to the x-axis), and its distance $\sqrt{34}$ to the y-axis (measured perpendicular to that axis).

4. A Solid Bounded by a Hemisphere, a Plane, and a Cylinder. Consider the solid region bounded below by the hemisphere $z = -\sqrt{1 - x^2 - y^2}$, above by the plane $z = 1$, and on the outside by the cylinder $x^2 + y^2 = 1$. Describe this solid.

Solution. Squaring $z = -\sqrt{1 - x^2 - y^2}$ gives $x^2 + y^2 + z^2 = 1$, and the minus sign keeps only the points with $z \le 0$: the surface is the lower half of the unit sphere centered at the origin, with its lowest point at $(0, 0, -1)$. It reaches $z = 0$ exactly on the circle $x^2 + y^2 = 1$, the same circle where the cylinder meets the xy-plane.

The solid consists of the points inside the cylinder that lie *above* the hemisphere and *below* the plane:

$$x^2 + y^2 \le 1, \qquad -\sqrt{1 - x^2 - y^2} \le z \le 1.$$

At the center $(x, y) = (0, 0)$, this range for z is the full interval $-1 \le z \le 1$. At the rim $x^2 + y^2 = 1$, it shrinks to $0 \le z \le 1$. The part with $z \ge 0$ is the solid cylinder $x^2 + y^2 \le 1$, $0 \le z \le 1$, and the part with $z \le 0$ is the solid lower half of the unit ball, $x^2 + y^2 + z^2 \le 1$, $z \le 0$. The solid is therefore a can of radius 1 and height 1 with a hemispherical bowl attached beneath it along the unit disk in the xy-plane, like the rounded end of a test tube, shown in Figure 4.7.3.

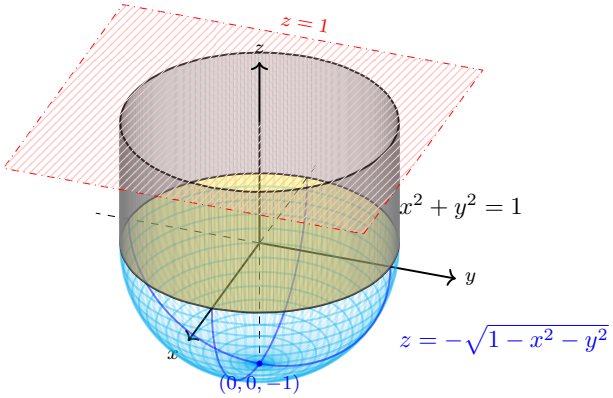


Figure 4.7.3 The solid bounded below by the hemisphere $z = -\sqrt{1 - x^2 - y^2}$, above by the plane $z = 1$, and on the outside by the cylinder $x^2 + y^2 = 1$: a solid cylinder of height 1 sitting on a solid half-ball, the two joined along the unit disk in the xy-plane.

5. Write each combination of vectors as a single vector. See Figure 4.7.4.

A. $\vec{PQ} + \vec{QR}$

B. $\vec{QS} - \vec{PS}$

C. $\vec{RS} + \vec{SP} + \vec{PQ}$

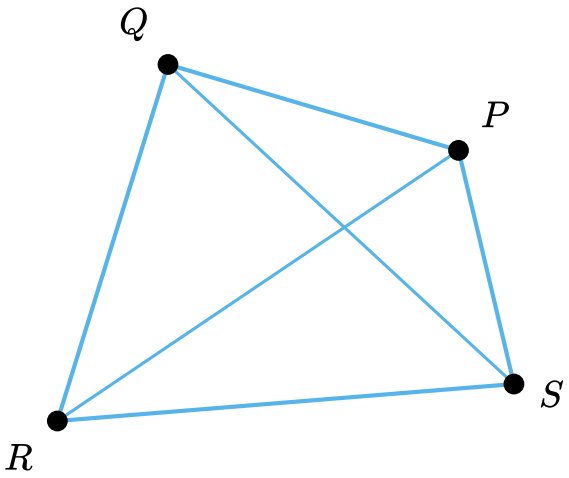


Figure 4.7.4 The quadrilateral with vertices P, Q, R, and S, with its diagonals.

Solution.

A. By the triangle law, placing $\vec{QR}$ at the tip of $\vec{PQ}$,

$$\vec{PQ} + \vec{QR} = \vec{PR}.$$

B. Since $-\vec{PS} = \vec{SP}$,

$$\vec{QS} - \vec{PS} = \vec{QS} + \vec{SP} = \vec{QP}.$$

C. Chaining the three vectors tip to tail,

$$\vec{RS} + \vec{SP} + \vec{PQ} = \vec{RQ}.$$

6. Find a vector of length 3 pointing in the opposite direction from the vector $2\,\mathbf{i} - 4\,\mathbf{j} + 4\,\mathbf{k}$.

Solution. The given vector has length $\sqrt{4 + 16 + 16} = \sqrt{36} = 6$, so the unit vector in its direction is

$\frac{1}{6}\langle 2,-4,4\rangle = \left\langle \frac{1}{3},-\frac{2}{3},\frac{2}{3}\right\rangle$. Multiplying by -3 reverses the direction and gives length 3:

$$-3\left\langle \frac{1}{3},-\frac{2}{3},\frac{2}{3}\right\rangle = \langle -1,2,-2\rangle = -\mathbf{i}+2\,\mathbf{j}-2\,\mathbf{k}.$$

7. Let $\vec{v}$ be the vector that goes from the point $\left(5,-4,\sqrt{3}\right)$ to the point $(3,-1,0)$. Find a vector of length $\frac{1}{3}$ that points in the same direction as $\vec{v}$.

Solution. The vector from $P(5,-4,\sqrt{3})$ to $Q(3,-1,0)$ is obtained by subtracting the tail from the head:

$$\vec{v} = \vec{PQ} = \left\langle 3-5,\ -1-(-4),\ 0-\sqrt{3}\right\rangle = \left\langle -2,\ 3,\ -\sqrt{3}\right\rangle.$$

Its length is

$$\|\vec{v}\| = \sqrt{(-2)^2+3^2+\left(-\sqrt{3}\right)^2} = \sqrt{4+9+3} = \sqrt{16} = 4.$$

The unit vector in the direction of $\vec{v}$ is therefore

$$\hat{u} = \frac{\vec{v}}{\|\vec{v}\|} = \frac{1}{4}\left\langle -2,\ 3,\ -\sqrt{3}\right\rangle.$$

Scaling by $\frac{1}{3}$ gives a vector of length $\frac{1}{3}$ pointing the same way:

$$\frac{1}{3}\,\hat{u} = \frac{1}{12}\left\langle -2,\ 3,\ -\sqrt{3}\right\rangle = \left\langle -\frac{1}{6},\ \frac{1}{4},\ -\frac{\sqrt{3}}{12}\right\rangle.$$

8. **A parallelogram in space.** Consider the four points

$$A(1,2,5), \qquad B(4,3,3), \qquad C(6,7,4), \qquad D(3,6,6).$$

A. Show that $ABCD$ is a parallelogram.

B. Find the point M at which the two diagonals of $ABCD$ meet.

C. Find the perimeter of $ABCD$.

Solution.

A. A quadrilateral is a parallelogram exactly when one pair of opposite sides is given by the *same* vector, since equal vectors have both the same direction and the same length. Along the sides AB and DC,

$$\vec{AB} = \langle 4-1,\ 3-2,\ 3-5\rangle = \langle 3,\ 1,\ -2\rangle,$$
$$\vec{DC} = \langle 6-3,\ 7-6,\ 4-6\rangle = \langle 3,\ 1,\ -2\rangle.$$

Since $\vec{AB} = \vec{DC}$, these two sides are parallel and have equal length, so $ABCD$ is a parallelogram. The other pair of sides matches as well:

$$\vec{AD} = \langle 2,\ 4,\ 1\rangle = \vec{BC}.$$

See Figure 4.7.5.

B. The diagonals of a parallelogram bisect each other, so M is the midpoint of AC. Using position vectors and $\vec{AC} = \langle 5,\ 5,\ -1\rangle$,

$$\vec{OM} = \vec{OA} + \tfrac{1}{2}\vec{AC} = \langle 1,\ 2,\ 5\rangle + \tfrac{1}{2}\langle 5,\ 5,\ -1\rangle$$
$$= \left\langle \tfrac{7}{2},\ \tfrac{9}{2},\ \tfrac{9}{2}\right\rangle.$$

Travelling along the other diagonal instead, with $\vec{BD} = \langle -1,\ 3,\ 3\rangle$,

$$\vec{OB} + \tfrac{1}{2}\vec{BD} = \langle 4,\ 3,\ 3\rangle + \tfrac{1}{2}\langle -1,\ 3,\ 3\rangle = \left\langle \tfrac{7}{2},\ \tfrac{9}{2},\ \tfrac{9}{2}\right\rangle,$$

the same point, which confirms both the answer and part A. Hence $M\left(\frac{7}{2},\ \frac{9}{2},\ \frac{9}{2}\right)$.

C. Opposite sides have equal length, so the perimeter is $2\left(\left\|\vec{AB}\right\| + \left\|\vec{AD}\right\|\right)$, where

$$\left\|\vec{AB}\right\| = \sqrt{3^2 + 1^2 + (-2)^2} = \sqrt{14},$$
$$\left\|\vec{AD}\right\| = \sqrt{2^2 + 4^2 + 1^2} = \sqrt{21}.$$

The perimeter is therefore $2\left(\sqrt{14} + \sqrt{21}\right) \approx 16.65$. Since $\sqrt{14} \neq \sqrt{21}$, this parallelogram is not a rhombus.

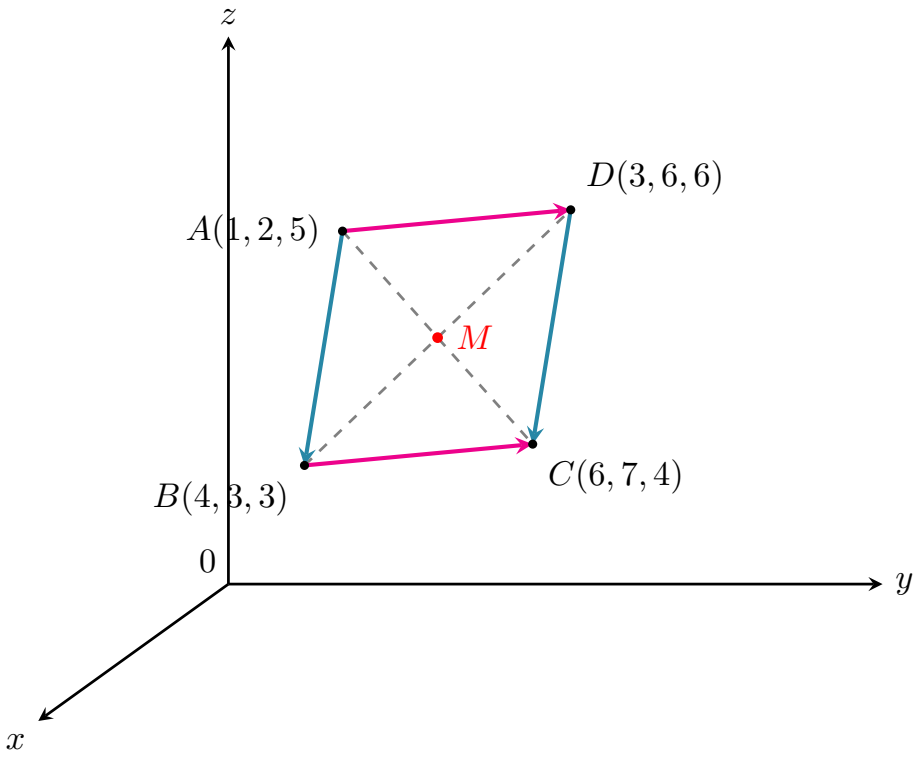


Figure 4.7.5 The parallelogram $ABCD$, with $\vec{AB} = \vec{DC} = \langle 3, 1, -2\rangle$ drawn in blue and $\vec{AD} = \vec{BC} = \langle 2, 4, 1\rangle$ in magenta. The diagonals AC and BD cross at their common midpoint $M\left(\frac{7}{2}, \frac{9}{2}, \frac{9}{2}\right)$.

4.8 Assignment 5

These problems use the dot product to measure angles and to split a vector into a piece along a given direction and a piece orthogonal to it, use the cross product to build normal vectors, areas and orthogonal directions, and parametrize plane curves and curves of intersection in space. If you would like to review the material first, see The Dot Product, The Cross Product and Parametrization of Plane Curves.

1. Consider the two vectors $\mathbf{u} = 3\,\mathbf{j} + 4\,\mathbf{k}$ and $\mathbf{v} = \mathbf{i} + \mathbf{j}$. Write $\mathbf{u}$ as the sum of a vector parallel to $\mathbf{v}$ and a vector orthogonal to $\mathbf{v}$.

2. Determine whether the following pairs of vectors are orthogonal, parallel, or neither.

A. $\vec{u}_1 = -3\,\mathbf{i} + 9\,\mathbf{j} + 6\,\mathbf{k}$ and $\vec{u}_2 = 4\,\mathbf{i} - 12\,\mathbf{j} - 8\,\mathbf{k}$

B. $\vec{v}_1 = \mathbf{i} + \mathbf{j} - 2\,\mathbf{k}$ and $\vec{v}_2 = \mathbf{i} + \mathbf{j} + \mathbf{k}$

C. $\vec{w}_1 = a\,\mathbf{i} + b\,\mathbf{j}$ and $\vec{w}_2 = c\,\mathbf{k}$, where a, b, and c are non-zero real numbers.

3. A 100-meter dash is run on a track in the direction of the vector $2\,\mathbf{i} + 6\,\mathbf{j}$. The wind velocity is $\mathbf{v} = 5\,\mathbf{i} + 2\,\mathbf{j}$ km/hr. The rules say that a legal wind speed measured in the direction of the dash must not exceed 5 km/hr.

A. Will the race results be disqualified due to an illegal wind? Justify your answer.

B. Find the velocity vector of the wind in the direction of the dash.

4. **True or False.** If $\vec{u}$ and $\vec{v}$ are two non-zero vectors in $\mathbb{R}^3$, then $\vec{u} \cdot (\vec{u} \times \vec{v}) = \|\vec{u}\|^2 + \vec{u} \cdot \vec{v}$.
Justify your answer fully: give a proof if the statement is true, or a counterexample if it is false.

Answer. False.

Solution. False.
Counterexample: take $\vec{u} = \mathbf{i}$ and $\vec{v} = \mathbf{i}$. Then

$$\mathbf{i} \cdot \underbrace{(\mathbf{i} \times \mathbf{i})}_{\vec{0}} = 0, \quad \text{whereas} \quad \|\mathbf{i}\|^2 + \mathbf{i} \cdot \mathbf{i} = 1 + 1 = 2,$$

and $0 \neq 2$.

5. Let $\mathbf{v}$ be the vector $3\,\mathbf{i} - 4\,\mathbf{j} + 5\,\mathbf{k}$.

A. Find a non-zero vector $\mathbf{v}'$ orthogonal to $\mathbf{v}$.

B. Find a vector orthogonal to both $\mathbf{v}$ and $\mathbf{v}'$.

6. Suppose $\|\vec{u}\| = 3$, $\|\vec{v}\| = 4$ and $\|\vec{u} \times \vec{v}\| = 6$. Find

(a) $|\vec{u} \cdot \vec{v}|$;

(b) $\|\text{proj}_{\vec{u}}\, \vec{v}\|$.

7. Find the Cartesian equation $f(x, y) = 0$ for the curve represented by the following parametric equations, then graph it:

$$\begin{aligned} x(t) &= e^{2t}, \\ y(t) &= e^t - 1, \\ 0 &\leq t \leq \ln(2). \end{aligned}$$

8. Provide a parametrized form of the curve given by

$$x^2 + 4y^2 + 8y - 2\sqrt{21}\,x = 0.$$

Assume that the curve is traced **counter-clockwise** as the parameter increases.

9.

A. Parametrize the intersection of $x^2 + y^2 + z^2 = 25$ and the plane $x = 4$.

B. Which axis is perpendicular to the plane $x = 4$?

10. Consider the curve $25(y+4)^2 + 400(x-1)^2 = 100$.

(a) Sketch the curve and label its important points.

(b) Parametrize the entire curve using one parametrization.

4.9 Assignment 6

These problems intersect lines with planes and measure distances between them, and identify conic sections from their equations. If you would like to review the material first, see Lines and Planes in Space and Conic Sections.

1. Find the vector equation of the line of intersection of the following planes:

$$2x + y - z = 6,$$
$$x - y + 3z = 4.$$

2. Find an equation of a plane containing the line $\mathbf{r} = \langle -4, 5, -1\rangle + t\langle -4, 6, -3\rangle$ and parallel to the plane $-3x - y + 2z = 0$, in which the coefficient of x is -3.

3. Calculate the distance between the following two lines:

$$L_1: \quad x = 4 - t, \quad y = 3 + 2t, \quad z = -5 + 3t$$
$$L_2: \quad x = 5 - t, \quad y = 3 + 2t, \quad z = -5 + 3t$$

4. Find parametric equations for the line through $(2, 1, 1)$ which is normal to the plane containing $(0, 1, 1)$, $(-1, 2, 4)$ and $(3, 0, 1)$.

5. Let L be the line given by

$$x = 4 + t, \qquad y = -1 - 2t, \qquad z = 5 + t.$$

Find the point on L that is closest to $(-2, 2, -1)$.

6. A constant force is

$$\mathbf{F} = \langle 2, -1, 3\rangle .$$

A particle is constrained to move in directions parallel to the plane

$$2x - y + 2z = 0.$$

For a displacement of one unit, the work done by the force is $W = \mathbf{F} \cdot \mathbf{d}$, where $\mathbf{d}$ is an allowed unit direction lying in the plane.

(a) Find the unit direction in the plane that maximizes the work.

(b) Find the maximum possible work per unit distance.

(c) Find one unit direction in the plane for which the work is zero.

7. Find the equation of the hyperbola with asymptotes $y = 3x$ and $y = -3x$ passing through the point $(0, 2)$.

8. Find the equation of the parabola with vertex at the origin and axis of symmetry the y-axis, passing through the point $(4, 2)$. Then find its focus and its directrix.

9. Two trees grow 100 feet apart. A 120 foot rope is attached to the first tree at a height of 100 feet and to the second tree at a height of 50 feet. A child folds an empty plastic water bottle over the rope and rappels from the high end of the rope to the low end. At each moment, the rope is taut. The point where the water bottle is folded over the rope traces a path. Ignoring the numbers, state what kind of curve the path makes: line, ellipse, parabola or hyperbola.

4.10 Review Problems #2

These are the problems from the Chapter 3 topics that were not assigned in Assignments 4-6, collected here for review. They are not assigned, but they are fair game on an exam. The problems marked with a star ($*$), at the end, are the exception: those are for the interested reader and will not be examined.

The topics they cover, with links to the notes:

- Three-Dimensional Coordinate Systems
- Vectors
- The Dot Product
- The Cross Product
- Parametrization of Plane Curves
- Lines and Planes in Space
- Conic Sections

1. Describing More Equations and Inequalities Geometrically. Describe the geometrical meaning of the following equalities and inequalities.

A. $y = -2$

B. $y = -2,\ z = 1$

C. $(x-2)^2 + (y+1)^2 + z^2 = 9$

D. $(x-2)^2 + (y+1)^2 + z^2 \leq 9,\ y \geq -1$

E. $y^2 + z^2 = 4$

F. $y^2 + z^2 = 4,\ 0 \leq x \leq 5$

G. $x = y$

Solution. ***A.*** This is the set of all points whose y-coordinate equals -2, that is $\{(x, y, z) \in \mathbb{R}^3 : y = -2\}$. Both x and z are unrestricted, so it is a plane parallel to the xz-plane, sitting two units to the negative side of it, shown in Figure 4.10.1.

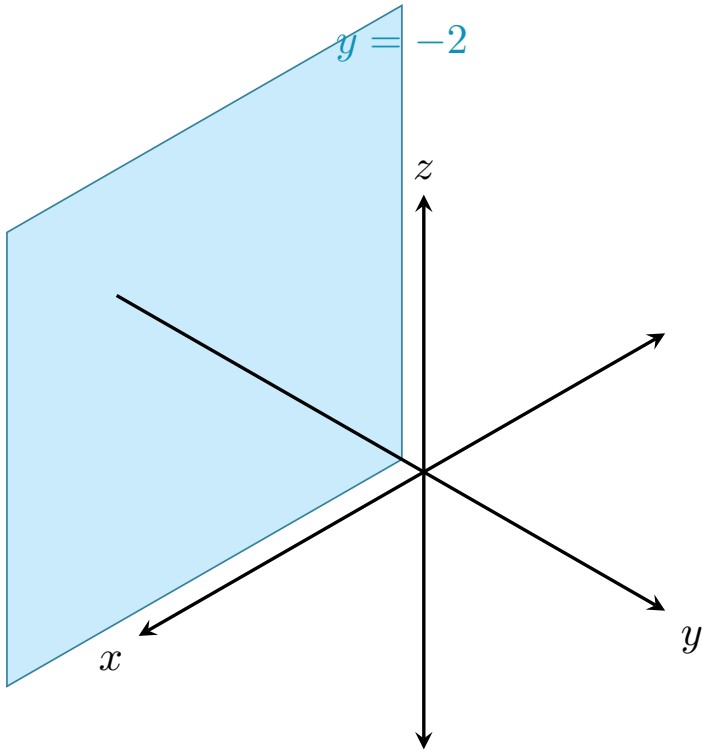


Figure 4.10.1 Part ***A***: the plane $y = -2$, parallel to the xz-plane.

B. This is the intersection of the two planes $y = -2$ and $z = 1$, which is a line. Only x is unrestricted, so the line is parallel to the x-axis and passes through the point $(0, -2, 1)$, as shown in Figure 4.10.2.

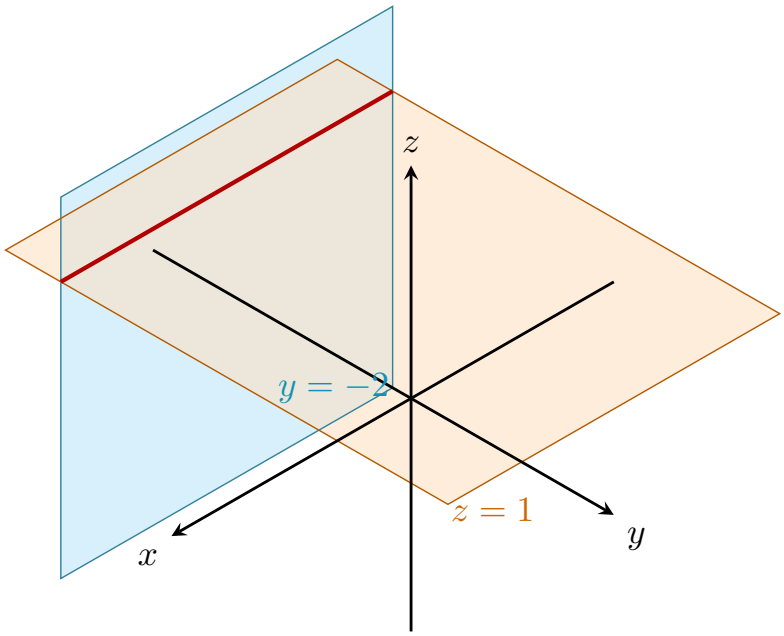
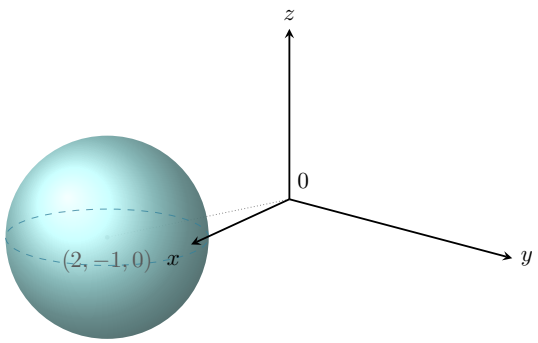


Figure 4.10.2 Part ***B***: the planes $y = -2$ and $z = 1$ meet in a line parallel to the x-axis, highlighted in red.

C. Comparing with the standard equation of a sphere, this is the sphere of radius 3 centered at $(2, -1, 0)$. Note the center lies in the xy-plane, and since the radius is 3 the sphere reaches from $z = -3$ up to $z = 3$, as shown in Figure 4.10.3.



$(x-2)^2+(y+1)^2+z^2=9$

Figure 4.10.3 Part ***C***: the sphere $(x-2)^2+(y+1)^2+z^2=9$, of radius 3 centered at $(2,-1,0)$.

D. Replacing the equality by $\leq$ gives the solid ball: every point whose distance from $(2,-1,0)$ is at most 3. The extra condition $y \geq -1$ keeps only the points on one side of the plane $y=-1$. That plane passes through the *center* of the ball, so exactly half of the ball survives: the region is a solid half-ball of radius 3, whose flat face is the disk of radius 3 cut out of the plane $y=-1$, shown in Figure 4.10.4.

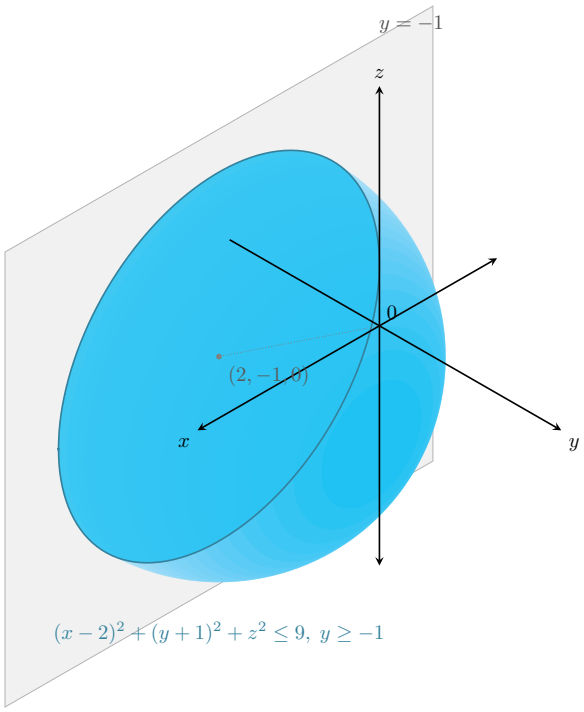
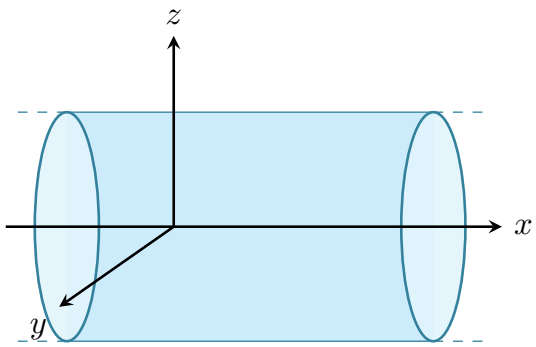


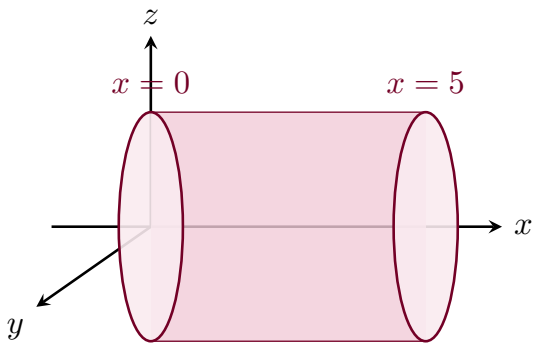
Figure 4.10.4 Part ***D***: the half-ball of radius 3 centered at $(2,-1,0)$, cut by the condition $y \geq -1$, a plane through its center.

E. In the yz-plane, $y^2+z^2=4$ is a circle of radius 2 centered at the origin. In space x is unrestricted, so the equation represents an infinitely long cylinder of radius 2 whose axis is the x-axis. Had the missing variable been z instead, the axis would have been the z-axis: the axis of the cylinder is always the axis of the variable that does not appear. The left half of Figure 4.10.5 shows this cylinder.

F. The extra condition $0 \leq x \leq 5$ cuts the cylinder of part ***E*** down to a piece of length 5, running from the circle in the plane $x=0$ to the circle in the plane $x=5$, as on the right of Figure 4.10.5. It is a tube, not a solid: the two end disks are not included, since the equation forces $y^2+z^2=4$ exactly.



$y^2 + z^2 = 4$



$y^2 + z^2 = 4,\ 0 \le x \le 5$

Figure 4.10.5 Parts ***E*** and ***F***. On the left, the infinite cylinder $y^2 + z^2 = 4$, whose axis is the x-axis; the dashed lines indicate that it continues without bound in both directions. On the right, the same cylinder cut down to $0 \le x \le 5$.

G. The condition $x = y$ says nothing about z, so whenever a point satisfies it, so does the whole vertical line through that point. In the xy-plane the equation $x = y$ describes a line through the origin, and sweeping that line vertically gives a plane: the plane containing the z-axis that cuts the xy-plane along the line $y = x$, shown in Figure 4.10.6. It is *not* parallel to any coordinate plane, unlike part ***A***.

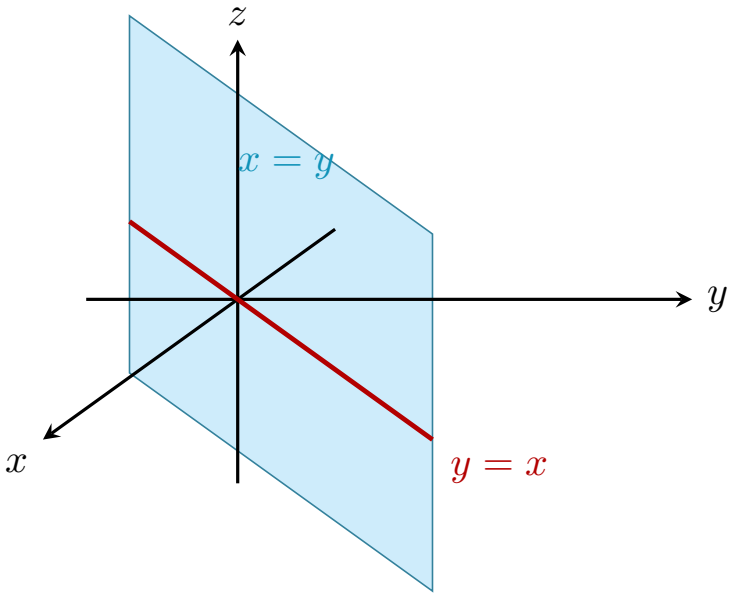


Figure 4.10.6 Part ***G***: the plane $x = y$. It contains the z-axis and meets the xy-plane in the line $y = x$, drawn in red.

2. A Solid Bounded by a Cylinder and a Plane. Consider the solid region bounded by the three surfaces

$$z = 0, \qquad x^2 + y^2 = 4, \qquad x + y + z = 4,$$

restricted to $z \ge 0$. Describe each of the three bounding surfaces, and describe the solid region they enclose.

Solution. The equation $x^2 + y^2 = 4$ is missing z, so it is the infinite cylinder of radius 2 whose axis is the z-axis. The equation $z = 0$ is the xy-plane, and $x+y+z = 4$ is a plane tilted with respect to all three coordinate axes.

Solving the third equation for z gives $z = 4 - x - y$. Over the disk $x^2 + y^2 \le 4$ enclosed by the cylinder, this height stays positive: the largest value of $x + y$ on that disk is $2\sqrt{2} \approx 2.83$, attained in the direction $(1, 1)$, so $z = 4 - x - y \ge 4 - 2\sqrt{2} > 0$ throughout the disk. The tilted plane therefore never dips below the xy-plane over the region enclosed by the cylinder.

The solid is the piece of the solid cylinder $x^2 + y^2 \le 4$ lying between the flat base $z = 0$ and the slanted lid $z = 4 - x - y$: an oblique, truncated cylinder whose base is the disk of radius 2 in the xy-plane and whose

slanted top is an ellipse, shown in Figure 4.10.7.

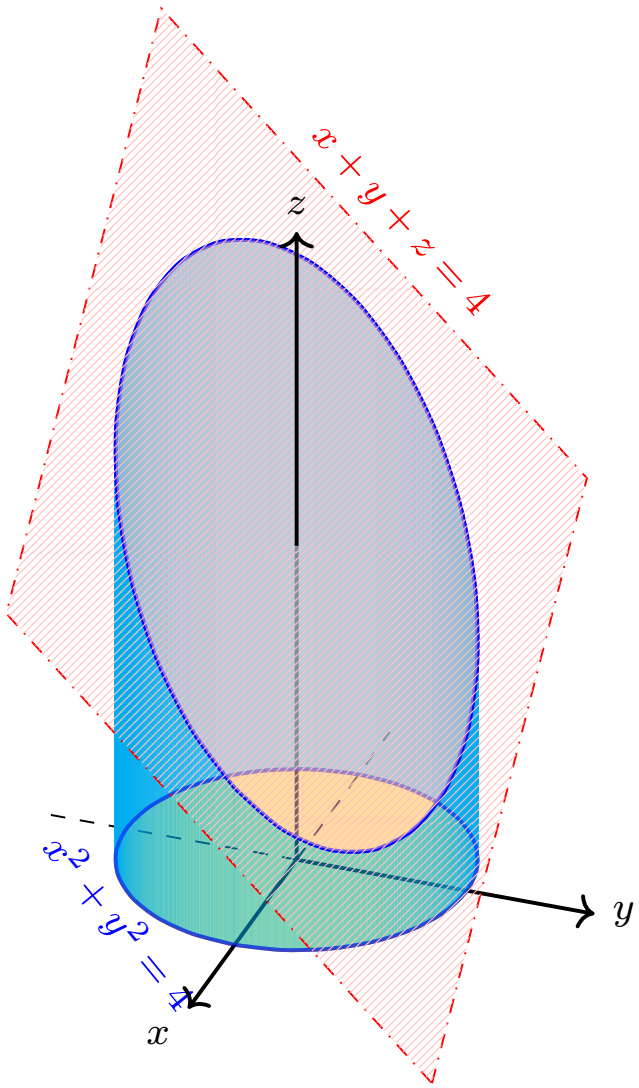


Figure 4.10.7 The solid bounded by $z = 0$, the cylinder $x^2 + y^2 = 4$, and the tilted plane $x + y + z = 4$. The disk in the xy-plane is the flat base, and the plane, hatched in pink, cuts the cylinder in an ellipse that forms the slanted top.

3. The vectors $2\,\mathbf{i} + 3\,\mathbf{j}$, $4\,\mathbf{i} + \mathbf{j}$ and $5\,\mathbf{i} + y\,\mathbf{j}$ have their tails at the origin. Find the value of y that will make their heads collinear.

Three points are **collinear** when they all lie on one straight line. Two points always do, so the condition is a condition on the third: it has to lie on the line already determined by the other two.

Solution. The heads are the points $(2, 3)$, $(4, 1)$, and $(5, y)$, and we want all three on a single line. Two of them are already given, so the line is fixed: the line through the first two has slope

$$m = \frac{1 - 3}{4 - 2} = -1.$$

For $(5, y)$ to lie on that same line, the slope from $(4, 1)$ to $(5, y)$ must also be -1:

$$\frac{y - 1}{5 - 4} = -1 \;\Rightarrow\; y - 1 = -1 \;\Rightarrow\; y = 0.$$

Equivalently, in vector language: the three heads are collinear exactly when the displacement vectors between them are parallel. Here $\langle 4, 1\rangle - \langle 2, 3\rangle = \langle 2, -2\rangle$ and $\langle 5, y\rangle - \langle 4, 1\rangle = \langle 1, y - 1\rangle$, and these are parallel exactly when $\langle 1, y - 1\rangle = \frac{1}{2}\langle 2, -2\rangle$, that is $y - 1 = -1$, giving $y = 0$ again.

4. Two vectors $\vec{u}$ and $\vec{v}$ are drawn with a common tail; $\vec{u}$ points up and to the right, $\vec{v}$ points up and to the left, and the angle between them is slightly larger than a right angle. Sketch and clearly label a diagram showing $\vec{u}$, $\vec{v}$, and $\vec{v} - \vec{u}$.

Solution. To make the picture concrete let us take $\vec{u} = \langle 4, 2\rangle$ and $\vec{v} = \langle -3, 5\rangle$, which have roughly the directions described. Everything below is a statement about the *geometry*, so the same picture is correct for any pair of vectors in that configuration.

The difference $\vec{v} - \vec{u}$ is the vector that, added to $\vec{u}$, gives $\vec{v}$. So when $\vec{u}$ and $\vec{v}$ are drawn from a common tail, $\vec{v} - \vec{u}$ is the arrow that runs *from the tip of* $\vec{u}$ *to the tip of* $\vec{v}$. (Here it is $\langle -7, 3\rangle$.) It is easy to get this backwards; the check is that $\vec{u} + (\vec{v} - \vec{u}) = \vec{v}$. See Figure 4.10.8.

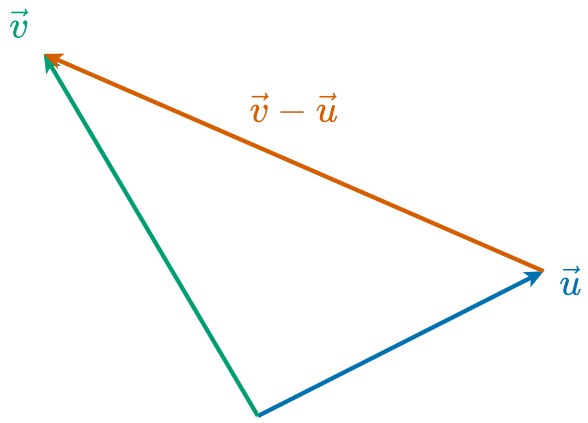


Figure 4.10.8 $\vec{v} - \vec{u}$ runs from the tip of $\vec{u}$ to the tip of $\vec{v}$.

5. Find the projection of $-\mathbf{i} + 5\,\mathbf{j} - 2\,\mathbf{k}$ on $3\,\mathbf{i} - \mathbf{j}$.

Solution. With $\vec{u} = \langle -1, 5, -2\rangle$ and $\vec{v} = \langle 3, -1, 0\rangle$,

$$\vec{u} \cdot \vec{v} = -3 - 5 + 0 = -8, \qquad \|\vec{v}\|^2 = 9 + 1 + 0 = 10,$$

so

$$\begin{aligned} \text{proj}_{\vec{v}}\, \vec{u} &= \left(\frac{\vec{u} \cdot \vec{v}}{\|\vec{v}\|^2} \right) \vec{v} = -\frac{8}{10} \langle 3, -1, 0\rangle \\ &= \left\langle -\frac{12}{5}, \frac{4}{5}, 0 \right\rangle = -\frac{12}{5}\,\mathbf{i} + \frac{4}{5}\,\mathbf{j}. \end{aligned}$$

The negative scalar tells us the projection points opposite to $\vec{v}$, i.e. the angle between $\vec{u}$ and $\vec{v}$ is obtuse.

6. Let $\vec{v}$ be the vector from $(-4, 3, -1)$ to $(-2, -1, 3)$.

(a) Find a non-zero unit vector that is orthogonal to $\vec{v}$.

(b) Find the angle between $\vec{v}$ and $\vec{w} = 3\mathbf{i} - \mathbf{k}$.

Solution. First,

$$\begin{aligned} \vec{v} &= \langle -2 - (-4),\ -1 - 3,\ 3 - (-1)\rangle = \langle 2,\ -4,\ 4\rangle\,, \\ \|\vec{v}\| &= \sqrt{4 + 16 + 16} = \sqrt{36} = 6. \end{aligned}$$

(a) We need any non-zero $\vec{u}$ with $\vec{u} \cdot \vec{v} = 0$. Writing $\vec{u} = \langle a, b, c\rangle$, the condition is

$$2a - 4b + 4c = 0.$$

This is one equation in three unknowns, so there are infinitely many answers; we just pick a convenient one. Taking $c = 0$ gives $2a = 4b$, so $a = 2$, $b = 1$ works:

$$\vec{u} = \langle 2,\ 1,\ 0\rangle\,, \qquad \vec{u} \cdot \vec{v} = 4 - 4 + 0 = 0.$$

Finally we normalize:

$$\hat{u} = \frac{\vec{u}}{\|\vec{u}\|} = \frac{1}{\sqrt{5}}\langle 2,\ 1,\ 0\rangle = \left\langle \frac{2}{\sqrt{5}},\ \frac{1}{\sqrt{5}},\ 0 \right\rangle.$$

(b) With $\vec{w} = \langle 3, 0, -1\rangle$ we have

$$\vec{v}\cdot\vec{w} = (2)(3) + (-4)(0) + (4)(-1) = 6 - 4 = 2,$$
$$\|\vec{w}\| = \sqrt{9 + 0 + 1} = \sqrt{10}.$$

Therefore

$$\cos\theta = \frac{\vec{v}\cdot\vec{w}}{\|\vec{v}\|\,\|\vec{w}\|} = \frac{2}{6\sqrt{10}} = \frac{1}{3\sqrt{10}} \approx 0.1054,$$

so

$$\theta = \cos^{-1}\left(\frac{1}{3\sqrt{10}}\right) \approx 1.465 \text{ radians} \approx 83.9^\circ.$$

The angle is slightly less than a right angle, which matches the fact that the dot product is positive but small.

7. Let $A = (0, 0, 1)$ and $B = (0, 2, 3)$. Find an equation for the set of all points $P = (x, y, z)$ such that $\vec{AP}$ is orthogonal to $\vec{BP}$. Then sketch the resulting surface in three dimensions.

Solution. The two vectors are

$$\vec{AP} = \langle x - 0,\ y - 0,\ z - 1\rangle = \langle x,\ y,\ z - 1\rangle,$$
$$\vec{BP} = \langle x,\ y - 2,\ z - 3\rangle.$$

Orthogonality means the dot product vanishes:

$$\vec{AP}\cdot\vec{BP} = 0$$
$$x^2 + y(y-2) + (z-1)(z-3) = 0$$
$$x^2 + y^2 - 2y + z^2 - 4z + 3 = 0.$$

Now complete the square in y and in z:

$$x^2 + \left(y^2 - 2y + 1\right) + \left(z^2 - 4z + 4\right) = -3 + 1 + 4$$
$$x^2 + (y-1)^2 + (z-2)^2 = 2.$$

This is the sphere of radius $\sqrt{2}$ centred at $(0, 1, 2)$. That centre is exactly the midpoint of A and B, and the radius is exactly half of $\|\vec{AB}\| = \|\langle 0, 2, 2\rangle\| = 2\sqrt{2}$. This is the three-dimensional version of the familiar fact from plane geometry: the points from which a given segment subtends a right angle form the circle having that segment as a diameter. See Figure 4.10.9.

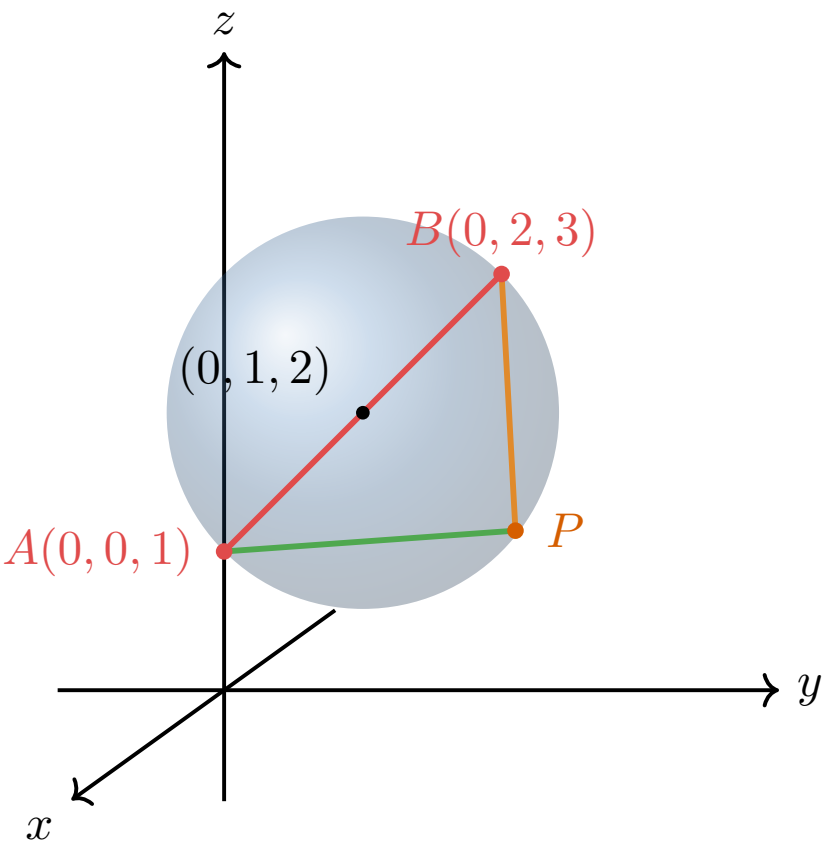


Figure 4.10.9 The set of points P with $\vec{AP} \perp \vec{BP}$ is the sphere having $\overline{AB}$ as a diameter, namely $x^2 + (y-1)^2 + (z-2)^2 = 2$.

8. Two vectors $\vec{u}$ and $\vec{v}$ are drawn with a common tail; $\vec{u}$ points up and to the right, $\vec{v}$ points up and to the left, and the angle between them is slightly larger than a right angle. Sketch and clearly label a diagram showing $\vec{u}$, $\vec{v}$, and $\text{proj}_{\vec{u}}\,\vec{v}$.

Solution. To make the picture concrete let us take $\vec{u} = \langle 4, 2\rangle$ and $\vec{v} = \langle -3, 5\rangle$, which have roughly the directions described. Everything below is a statement about the *geometry*, so the same picture is correct for any pair of vectors in that configuration.

The projection of $\vec{v}$ onto $\vec{u}$ is the shadow that $\vec{v}$ casts on the line through $\vec{u}$, obtained by dropping a perpendicular from the tip of $\vec{v}$ to that line. Algebraically,

$$\begin{aligned}\text{proj}_{\vec{u}}\,\vec{v} &= \left(\frac{\vec{u}\cdot\vec{v}}{\|\vec{u}\|^2}\right)\vec{u} = \left(\frac{-12+10}{20}\right)\langle 4, 2\rangle \\ &= -\frac{1}{10}\,\langle 4, 2\rangle = \langle -0.4,\ -0.2\rangle\,.\end{aligned}$$

Because the angle between $\vec{u}$ and $\vec{v}$ is *obtuse*, the dot product is negative and the projection points in the direction *opposite* to $\vec{u}$. This is the feature of the picture the problem is testing. See Figure 4.10.10.

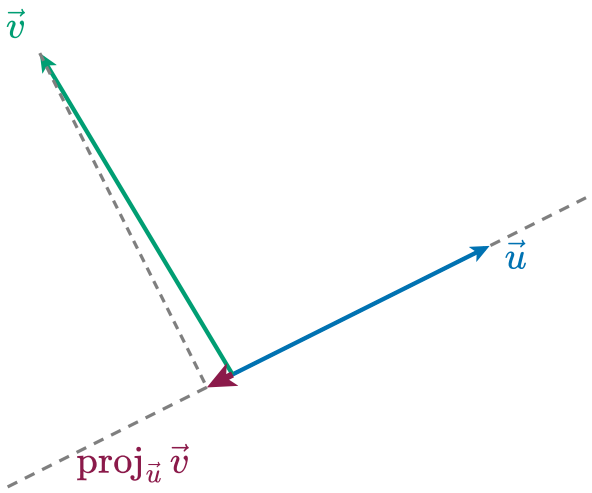


Figure 4.10.10 Since the angle between $\vec{u}$ and $\vec{v}$ is obtuse, $\text{proj}_{\vec{u}}\,\vec{v}$ points opposite to $\vec{u}$.

9. Suppose $\mathbf{u}$ and $\mathbf{v}$ are non-zero vectors satisfying

$$\|\mathbf{u}+\mathbf{v}\| = 5, \qquad \|\mathbf{u}-\mathbf{v}\| = 13,$$

and

$$\|\mathbf{u}\|^2 + \|\mathbf{v}\|^2 = 97, \qquad \|\mathbf{u}\| = 7.$$

Without finding the coordinates of either vector:

(a) Compute $\mathbf{u}\cdot\mathbf{v}$.

(b) Find $\|\mathbf{v}\|$.

(c) Find the angle θ between $\mathbf{u}$ and $\mathbf{v}$.

(d) Determine whether the angle is acute, right, or obtuse.

Solution. The whole problem rests on one idea: the square of a length is a dot product, $\|\mathbf{w}\|^2 = \mathbf{w}\cdot\mathbf{w}$. Expanding with the distributive property,

$$\|\mathbf{u}+\mathbf{v}\|^2 = (\mathbf{u}+\mathbf{v})\cdot(\mathbf{u}+\mathbf{v}) = \|\mathbf{u}\|^2 + 2\,\mathbf{u}\cdot\mathbf{v} + \|\mathbf{v}\|^2,$$
$$\|\mathbf{u}-\mathbf{v}\|^2 = (\mathbf{u}-\mathbf{v})\cdot(\mathbf{u}-\mathbf{v}) = \|\mathbf{u}\|^2 - 2\,\mathbf{u}\cdot\mathbf{v} + \|\mathbf{v}\|^2.$$

These two identities are the algebraic form of the parallelogram in Figure 4.10.11: the diagonals of the parallelogram built on $\mathbf{u}$ and $\mathbf{v}$ are $\mathbf{u}+\mathbf{v}$ and $\mathbf{u}-\mathbf{v}$.

(a) Subtracting the second identity from the first makes the $\|\mathbf{u}\|^2$ and $\|\mathbf{v}\|^2$ terms cancel, leaving only the dot product:

$$\|\mathbf{u}+\mathbf{v}\|^2 - \|\mathbf{u}-\mathbf{v}\|^2 = 4\,\mathbf{u}\cdot\mathbf{v}.$$

Substituting the two given lengths,

$$\begin{aligned} 5^2 - 13^2 &= 4\,\mathbf{u}\cdot\mathbf{v}, \\ 25 - 169 &= 4\,\mathbf{u}\cdot\mathbf{v}, \\ -144 &= 4\,\mathbf{u}\cdot\mathbf{v}, \end{aligned}$$

and therefore $\mathbf{u}\cdot\mathbf{v} = -36$.

It is worth pausing to check that the data are consistent. *Adding* the two identities instead of subtracting gives the parallelogram law,

$$\|\mathbf{u}+\mathbf{v}\|^2 + \|\mathbf{u}-\mathbf{v}\|^2 = 2\left(\|\mathbf{u}\|^2 + \|\mathbf{v}\|^2\right),$$

and indeed $5^2 + 13^2 = 25 + 169 = 194 = 2(97)$, exactly as it should be.

(b) We are told $\|\mathbf{u}\| = 7$ and $\|\mathbf{u}\|^2 + \|\mathbf{v}\|^2 = 97$, so

$$\begin{aligned} 7^2 + \|\mathbf{v}\|^2 &= 97, \\ 49 + \|\mathbf{v}\|^2 &= 97, \\ \|\mathbf{v}\|^2 &= 48. \end{aligned}$$

A length is never negative, so $\|\mathbf{v}\| = \sqrt{48} = 4\sqrt{3} \approx 6.93$.

(c) For non-zero vectors, $\mathbf{u} \cdot \mathbf{v} = \|\mathbf{u}\|\,\|\mathbf{v}\| \cos\theta$, so

$$\begin{aligned} \cos\theta &= \frac{\mathbf{u} \cdot \mathbf{v}}{\|\mathbf{u}\|\,\|\mathbf{v}\|} = \frac{-36}{(7)\left(4\sqrt{3}\right)} \\ &= -\frac{9}{7\sqrt{3}} = -\frac{3\sqrt{3}}{7} \approx -0.7423, \end{aligned}$$

and therefore

$$\theta = \cos^{-1}\left(-\frac{3\sqrt{3}}{7}\right) \approx 2.407 \text{ radians} \approx 137.9^\circ.$$

(d) Since $\mathbf{u} \cdot \mathbf{v} = -36 < 0$ and the lengths are positive, $\cos\theta < 0$. Hence $\frac{\pi}{2} < \theta < \pi$ and the angle is **obtuse**. Notice that we could have answered this part immediately after part (a), without knowing either length: the *sign* of the dot product already decides the type of angle.

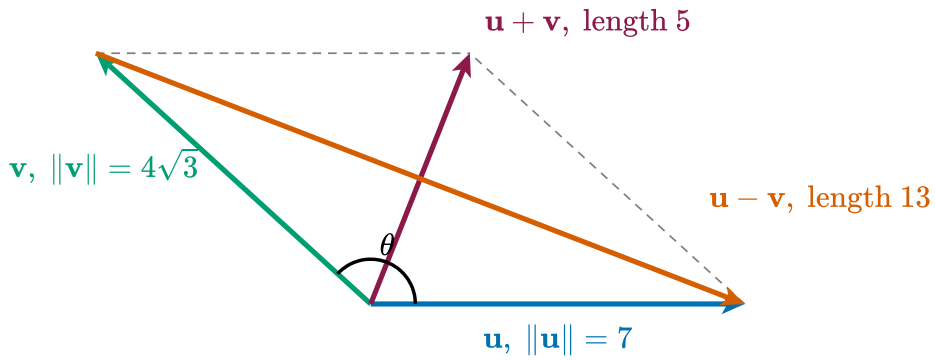


Figure 4.10.11 The parallelogram built on $\mathbf{u}$ and $\mathbf{v}$. Its diagonals are $\mathbf{u}+\mathbf{v}$, of length 5, and $\mathbf{u}-\mathbf{v}$, of length 13. One short diagonal together with one long one forces the angle θ between the sides to be obtuse.

A remark on the data. The two diagonal lengths by themselves already determine $\mathbf{u}\cdot\mathbf{v}$, and the condition $\|\mathbf{u}\|^2 + \|\mathbf{v}\|^2 = 97$ then follows automatically from the parallelogram law. So the individual lengths are *not* pinned down by that data alone: the pair $\|\mathbf{u}\| = 4\sqrt{3}$, $\|\mathbf{v}\| = 7$ fits equally well and gives the same angle, while other splits of 97 give different angles. This is why the extra condition $\|\mathbf{u}\| = 7$ is needed for parts (b) and (c).

10.

A. Find the area of the triangle with vertices $(0,1,1)$, $(-1,2,4)$, $(3,0,1)$.

B. Find the equation of the plane containing the triangle.

Solution. Take $A(0,1,1)$ as the base vertex and form two edge vectors:

$$\vec{a} = \vec{AB} = \langle -1, 1, 3\rangle, \qquad \vec{b} = \vec{AC} = \langle 3, -1, 0\rangle.$$

Their cross product is

$$\vec{a}\times\vec{b}=\begin{vmatrix}\mathbf{i}&\mathbf{j}&\mathbf{k}\\-1&1&3\\3&-1&0\end{vmatrix}=(0+3)\mathbf{i}-(0-9)\mathbf{j}+(1-3)\mathbf{k}=\langle 3,9,-2\rangle.$$

A. The magnitude of the cross product is the area of the parallelogram spanned by $\vec{a}$ and $\vec{b}$, so the triangle has half that area:

$$\text{Area}=\frac{1}{2}\left\|\vec{a}\times\vec{b}\right\|=\frac{1}{2}\sqrt{9+81+4}=\frac{\sqrt{94}}{2}.$$

B. The cross product is normal to the plane, so the plane has the form $3x+9y-2z=D$. Substituting the point $(0,1,1)$ gives $D=0+9-2=7$, hence

$$3x+9y-2z=7.$$

11. Two vectors $\vec{u}$ and $\vec{v}$ are drawn with a common tail; $\vec{u}$ points up and to the right, $\vec{v}$ points up and to the left, and the angle between them is slightly larger than a right angle. Sketch and clearly label a diagram showing $\vec{u}$, $\vec{v}$, and $\vec{u}\times\vec{v}$.

Solution. To make the picture concrete let us take $\vec{u}=\langle 4,2\rangle$ and $\vec{v}=\langle -3,5\rangle$, which have roughly the directions described. Everything below is a statement about the *geometry*, so the same picture is correct for any pair of vectors in that configuration.

The cross product $\vec{u}\times\vec{v}$ is perpendicular to both, hence perpendicular to the page. The right-hand rule (curl the fingers of the right hand from $\vec{u}$ towards $\vec{v}$ through the smaller angle) shows that it points *out of the page*, which we draw as a circle with a dot in it. Indeed, treating the vectors as lying in the xy-plane,

$$\vec{u}\times\vec{v}=\begin{vmatrix}\mathbf{i}&\mathbf{j}&\mathbf{k}\\4&2&0\\-3&5&0\end{vmatrix}=\langle 0,\ 0,\ (4)(5)-(2)(-3)\rangle=26\,\mathbf{k},$$

and the **k**-component is positive. Its length, 26, is the area of the parallelogram spanned by $\vec{u}$ and $\vec{v}$. See Figure 4.10.12.

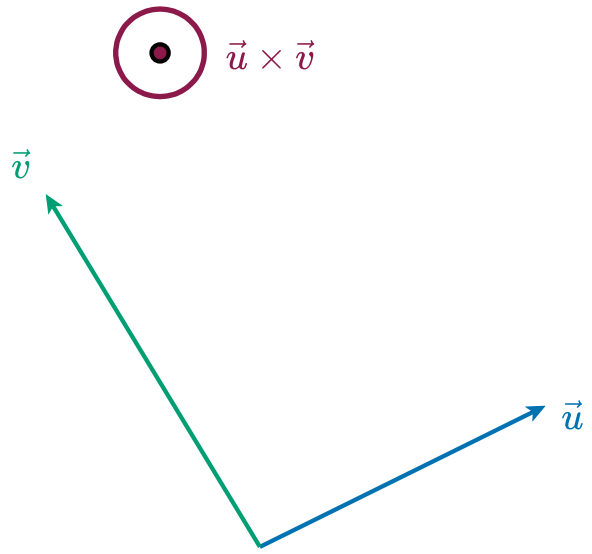


Figure 4.10.12 $\vec{u}\times\vec{v}$ points out of the page, drawn as a circle with a dot at its centre.

12. Consider the curve of intersection of the surfaces $4x^2+z^2=16$ and $y=z$.

(a) Parametrize the curve.

(b) Find the projection of the curve onto the xy-plane, and give a Cartesian equation for it.

Solution. **(a)** The first surface does not involve y; dividing by 16,

$$\frac{x^2}{4} + \frac{z^2}{16} = 1,$$

which is an ellipse in the xz-plane with semi-axes 2 (in x) and 4 (in z). It is parametrized by $x = 2\cos(t)$, $z = 4\sin(t)$. The second surface simply forces $y = z$, so

$$x = 2\cos(t), \qquad y = 4\sin(t), \qquad z = 4\sin(t), \qquad 0 \le t \le 2\pi.$$

(b) Projecting onto the xy-plane just means forgetting the z-coordinate, so the projected curve is parametrized by the first two components alone,

$$x = 2\cos(t), \qquad y = 4\sin(t), \qquad 0 \le t \le 2\pi.$$

To turn that into a Cartesian equation, eliminate t with $\cos^2 t + \sin^2 t = 1$:

$$\left(\frac{x}{2}\right)^2 + \left(\frac{y}{4}\right)^2 = \cos^2 t + \sin^2 t = 1, \qquad \text{that is} \qquad \frac{x^2}{4} + \frac{y^2}{16} = 1.$$

The shadow is an ellipse in the xy-plane with semi-axes 2 in the x-direction and 4 in the y-direction. This is the same ellipse we started from in the xz-plane, which is no accident: the plane $y = z$ carries the z-coordinate over to the y-coordinate unchanged.

13. Find the intersection of the line $\mathbf{r}(t) = \langle 1, 0, 1\rangle + t\langle -1, 1, 1\rangle$ and the plane $2x - y + z = 1$.

Solution. The parametric equations of the line are

$$x(t) = 1 - t, \qquad y(t) = t, \qquad z(t) = 1 + t.$$

Substituting into the equation of the plane,

$$2x - y + z = 2(1 - t) - t + (1 + t) = 3 - 2t = 1 \;\Rightarrow\; t = 1,$$

and $x(1) = 0$, $y(1) = 1$, $z(1) = 2$. The intersection is the point $(0, 1, 2)$.

14. Find the distance between the two planes

$$x + 2y + z = 1 \qquad \text{and} \qquad 2x + 4y + 2z = 7.$$

Solution. Dividing the second equation by 2 gives $x + 2y + z = \frac{7}{2}$, so both planes have the same normal vector $\vec{n} = \langle 1, 2, 1\rangle$ and are therefore *parallel*. (They are distinct, since $1 \neq \frac{7}{2}$.)

Pick any point on the first plane, say $P(1, 0, 0)$, and any point on the second, say $S\left(\frac{7}{2}, 0, 0\right)$. Then $\vec{PS} = \left\langle \frac{5}{2}, 0, 0\right\rangle$, and the distance between the planes is the length of the projection of $\vec{PS}$ onto $\vec{n}$:

$$d = \left|\vec{PS} \cdot \frac{\vec{n}}{\|\vec{n}\|}\right| = \frac{\left|\frac{5}{2} \cdot 1 + 0 + 0\right|}{\sqrt{1 + 4 + 1}} = \frac{5}{2\sqrt{6}}.$$

15. Find the angle between the planes $2x + 2y = 7$ and $y + z = -1$.

Solution. The angle between two planes equals the angle between their normal vectors, $\vec{n}_1 = \langle 2, 2, 0\rangle$ and $\vec{n}_2 = \langle 0, 1, 1\rangle$:

$$\cos\theta = \frac{\vec{n}_1 \cdot \vec{n}_2}{\|\vec{n}_1\|\,\|\vec{n}_2\|} = \frac{0 + 2 + 0}{\sqrt{8} \cdot \sqrt{2}} = \frac{2}{4} = \frac{1}{2},$$

so $\theta = \dfrac{\pi}{3}$.

16. There is a line L parametrized by $x = 1 + 2t$, $y = 3 + 4t$, $z = 5 + 6t$. The line passes through some point P whose z-coordinate is -7. Find an equation for the plane through P normal to L.

Solution. First locate P. Setting $z = -7$,

$$5 + 6t = -7 \;\Rightarrow\; t = -2,$$

so $x = 1 + 2(-2) = -3$ and $y = 3 + 4(-2) = -5$, i.e. $P(-3, -5, -7)$.

A plane normal to L has the direction vector of L as its normal vector, $\vec{n} = \langle 2, 4, 6\rangle$. Therefore the plane is

$$2(x+3) + 4(y+5) + 6(z+7) = 0.$$

17. A surveyor determines that the three points

$$A = (-1, 2, 16), \qquad B = (2, -2, 17), \qquad C = (2, 0, 16)$$

all lie on a flat surface W.

(a) Find the point of W that is closest to the point $(4, 4, -3)$.

(b) Find parametric equations for a line that passes through $(4, 4, -3)$, never crosses W, and satisfies $x(t) = y(t)$.

Solution. **Finding the plane.** Two vectors lying in W are

$$\vec{AB} = \langle 3,\ -4,\ 1\rangle, \qquad \vec{AC} = \langle 3,\ -2,\ 0\rangle.$$

A normal vector is their cross product:

$$\begin{aligned}\vec{n} = \vec{AB} \times \vec{AC} &= \begin{vmatrix} \mathbf{i} & \mathbf{j} & \mathbf{k} \\ 3 & -4 & 1 \\ 3 & -2 & 0 \end{vmatrix} \\ &= \langle (-4)(0) - (1)(-2),\ (1)(3) - (3)(0),\ (3)(-2) - (-4)(3)\rangle \\ &= \langle 2,\ 3,\ 6\rangle.\end{aligned}$$

Note $\|\vec{n}\| = \sqrt{4 + 9 + 36} = 7$, which will be convenient. Using the point A, the plane is

$$\begin{aligned} 2(x+1) + 3(y-2) + 6(z-16) &= 0 \\ 2x + 3y + 6z &= 100. \end{aligned}$$

(Check: B gives $4 - 6 + 102 = 100$ and C gives $4 + 0 + 96 = 100$.)

(a) The closest point of a plane to a given point $Q = (4, 4, -3)$ is the foot of the perpendicular from Q, which we reach by moving from Q in the direction of the normal. So consider

$$\vec{r}(t) = Q + t\,\vec{n} = (4 + 2t,\ 4 + 3t,\ -3 + 6t)$$

and find the value of t for which this point lies on W:

$$\begin{aligned} 2(4 + 2t) + 3(4 + 3t) + 6(-3 + 6t) &= 100 \\ 8 + 4t + 12 + 9t - 18 + 36t &= 100 \\ 2 + 49t &= 100 \\ t &= 2. \end{aligned}$$

Therefore the closest point is

$$\vec{r}(2) = (4 + 4,\ 4 + 6,\ -3 + 12) = (8,\ 10,\ 9).$$

(Check: $16 + 30 + 54 = 100$.) Incidentally, the distance from Q to W is $|t|\,\|\vec{n}\| = 2 \cdot 7 = 14$. See Figure 4.10.13.

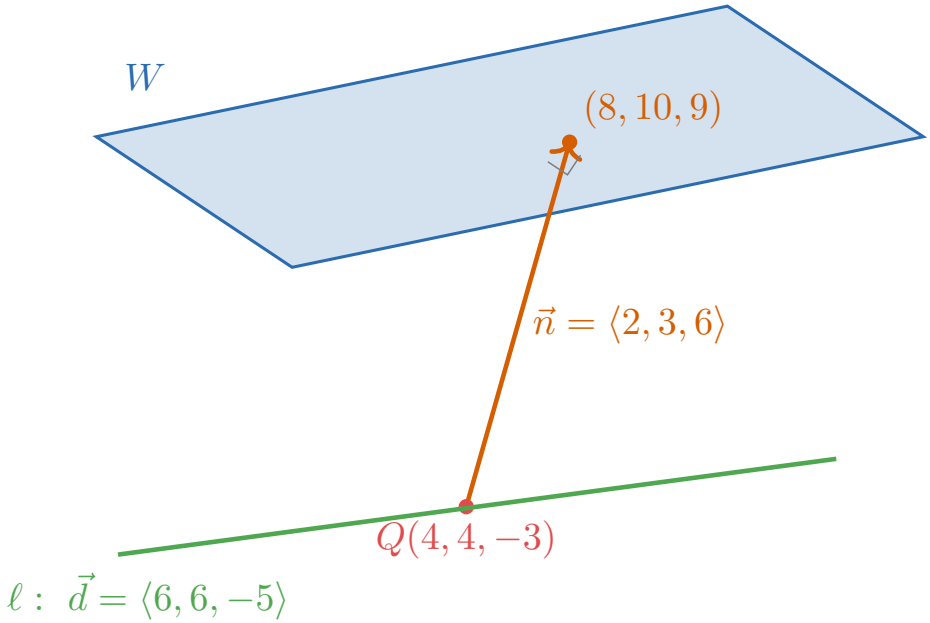


Figure 4.10.13 Schematic picture of Worksheet Exercise 4.10.17. From $Q(4, 4, -3)$ we travel along the normal direction $\vec{n} = \langle 2, 3, 6 \rangle$ until we hit W, arriving at $(8, 10, 9)$. Any line through Q whose direction is perpendicular to $\vec{n}$ stays parallel to W and never meets it.

(b) A line never crosses the plane W exactly when it is parallel to W and does not lie in it. Since $Q = (4, 4, -3)$ is not on W (we saw $2(4) + 3(4) + 6(-3) = 2 \neq 100$), we only need the direction vector $\vec{d} = \langle a, b, c \rangle$ to be perpendicular to the normal:

$$\vec{d} \cdot \vec{n} = 2a + 3b + 6c = 0.$$

The extra requirement $x(t) = y(t)$ forces the two lines $x = 4 + at$ and $y = 4 + bt$ to agree for all t, which happens exactly when $a = b$. Substituting $b = a$,

$$2a + 3a + 6c = 0 \quad \Longrightarrow \quad 5a = -6c.$$

Choosing $a = 6$ and $c = -5$ gives $\vec{d} = \langle 6,\ 6,\ -5 \rangle$, and the line is

$$x = 4 + 6t, \qquad y = 4 + 6t, \qquad z = -3 - 5t.$$

Indeed $x(t) = y(t)$ for every t, and $\vec{d} \cdot \vec{n} = 12 + 18 - 30 = 0$, so the line is parallel to W and, starting from a point off W, never reaches it.

18. Which Identity Fails? Exactly one of the following is *not* valid for all vectors $\vec{a}, \vec{b}, \vec{c}$ in $\mathbb{R}^3$. Which one?

A. $\vec{a} \cdot (\vec{b} \times \vec{c}) = (\vec{a} \times \vec{b}) \cdot \vec{c}$

B. $\vec{a} \times (\vec{b} \times \vec{c}) = (\vec{a} \times \vec{b}) \times \vec{c}$

C. $\vec{a} \times (\vec{b} + \vec{c}) = \vec{a} \times \vec{b} + \vec{a} \times \vec{c}$

D. $\vec{a} \times (\vec{b} \times \vec{c}) = (\vec{a} \cdot \vec{c})\, \vec{b} - (\vec{a} \cdot \vec{b})\, \vec{c}$

Answer. B.

Solution.

A. *Incorrect.*

This one is valid. Both sides equal the determinant with rows $\vec{a}, \vec{b}, \vec{c}$, so the dot and the cross may be interchanged.

B. *Correct.*

Correct — the cross product is *not associative*. Take $\vec{a} = \vec{b} = \mathbf{i}$ and $\vec{c} = \mathbf{j}$. Then

$$\mathbf{i} \times (\mathbf{i} \times \mathbf{j}) = \mathbf{i} \times \mathbf{k} = -\mathbf{j}, \qquad (\mathbf{i} \times \mathbf{i}) \times \mathbf{j} = \vec{0} \times \mathbf{j} = \vec{0}.$$

The left side lies in the plane of $\vec{b}$ and $\vec{c}$; the right side lies in the plane of $\vec{a}$ and $\vec{b}$. There is no reason for those to agree.

C. *Incorrect.*

This one is valid — the cross product *is* distributive over addition. (It is only associativity that fails.)

D. *Incorrect.*

This one is valid: it is the "BAC-CAB" triple product expansion. It looks the most exotic of the four, which is exactly why it is worth remembering that it is true.

19. Distance Between Skew Lines. Consider the two lines

$$L_1: \quad \vec{r} = \langle 1, 0, 2\rangle + t\,\langle 2, -1, 1\rangle,$$
$$L_2: \quad \vec{r} = \langle 0, 3, -1\rangle + s\,\langle 1, 2, -1\rangle.$$

They are skew. Let $\vec{u}, \vec{v}$ be the direction vectors and let $\vec{w}$ join a point of L_1 to a point of L_2.

The absolute value of the scalar triple product $|\vec{w} \cdot (\vec{u} \times \vec{v})|$ equals _____.

The distance between the two lines, to three decimal places, is _____.

Hint. The vector $\vec{u} \times \vec{v}$ is perpendicular to both lines, so the distance is the length of the projection of $\vec{w}$ onto it: $d = |\vec{w} \cdot (\vec{u} \times \vec{v})| \,/\, |\vec{u} \times \vec{v}|$.

Solution 1. With $\vec{u} = \langle 2, -1, 1\rangle$ and $\vec{v} = \langle 1, 2, -1\rangle$,

$$\vec{u} \times \vec{v} = \begin{vmatrix} \mathbf{i} & \mathbf{j} & \mathbf{k} \\ 2 & -1 & 1 \\ 1 & 2 & -1 \end{vmatrix} = \langle -1,\, 3,\, 5\rangle, \qquad |\vec{u} \times \vec{v}| = \sqrt{35}.$$

Taking $\vec{w} = \langle 0, 3, -1\rangle - \langle 1, 0, 2\rangle = \langle -1, 3, -3\rangle$,

$$\vec{w} \cdot (\vec{u} \times \vec{v}) = 1 + 9 - 15 = -5, \qquad d = \frac{5}{\sqrt{35}} = \frac{\sqrt{35}}{7} \approx 0.845.$$

Solution 2. Consider the two lines

$$L_1: \quad \vec{r} = \langle 1, 0, 2\rangle + t\,\langle 2, -1, 1\rangle,$$
$$L_2: \quad \vec{r} = \langle 0, 3, -1\rangle + s\,\langle 1, 2, -1\rangle.$$

They are skew. Let $\vec{u}, \vec{v}$ be the direction vectors and let $\vec{w}$ join a point of L_1 to a point of L_2.

The absolute value of the scalar triple product $|\vec{w} \cdot (\vec{u} \times \vec{v})|$ equals _5_.

The distance between the two lines, to three decimal places, is _5_.

Correct.

Correct.

20. ∗Why a Magnetic Field Cannot Change a Particle's Speed. *Starred problem.* This one is for the interested reader. It will not be examined.

Arrange the steps below into a correct proof that the magnetic force does no work, and therefore that a charged particle in a magnetic field moves at constant speed.

- Let a particle of mass m and charge q move with velocity $\vec{v}$ through a magnetic field $\vec{B}$.
- The force on the particle is $\vec{F} = q\,\vec{v} \times \vec{B}$.
- By definition, a cross product is perpendicular to both of its factors, so $\vec{v} \times \vec{B}$ is perpendicular to $\vec{v}$.
- Hence $\vec{F} \cdot \vec{v} = q\left(\vec{v} \times \vec{B}\right) \cdot \vec{v} = 0$.
- The kinetic energy satisfies $\dfrac{d}{dt}\left(\frac{1}{2} m\,\vec{v} \cdot \vec{v}\right) = m\,\vec{v} \cdot \dfrac{d\vec{v}}{dt} = \vec{F} \cdot \vec{v}$.

- Therefore $\frac{d}{dt}\left(\frac{1}{2}mv^2\right) = 0$, so v is constant: the field changes the particle's direction but never its speed.

Solution.

- Let a particle of mass m and charge q move with velocity $\vec{v}$ through a magnetic field $\vec{B}$.
- The force on the particle is $\vec{F} = q\,\vec{v} \times \vec{B}$.
- By definition, a cross product is perpendicular to both of its factors, so $\vec{v} \times \vec{B}$ is perpendicular to $\vec{v}$.
- Hence $\vec{F} \cdot \vec{v} = q\left(\vec{v} \times \vec{B}\right) \cdot \vec{v} = 0$.
- The kinetic energy satisfies $\frac{d}{dt}\left(\frac{1}{2}m\,\vec{v}\cdot\vec{v}\right) = m\,\vec{v}\cdot\frac{d\vec{v}}{dt} = \vec{F}\cdot\vec{v}$.
- Therefore $\frac{d}{dt}\left(\frac{1}{2}mv^2\right) = 0$, so v is constant: the field changes the particle's direction but never its speed.

21. ∗Circular Motion from a Perpendicular Force. *Starred problem.* This one is for the interested reader. It will not be examined.

Through this guided exercise, we prove that *a force of constant magnitude that always points perpendicular to the velocity drives the particle around a circle.* We then apply it to a charged particle in a magnetic field.

Both of the products you have met so far appear, and they do genuinely different jobs. Watch for them:

- the **dot product** is used, through $\vec{F}\cdot\vec{v}$, to determine whether the speed of a particle acted upon by a perpendicular force can change,
- the **cross product** is used to determine the direction and magnitude of the force that keeps a charged particle moving in a uniform magnetic field.

(a) A particle of mass m moves under a force $\vec{F}$ of constant magnitude that is always perpendicular to its velocity $\vec{v}$. Show that the particle's *speed* is constant.

Solution. Since $\vec{F}$ is perpendicular to $\vec{v}$, we have

$$\vec{F}\cdot\vec{v} = 0.$$

Now consider the square of the speed, $v^2 = \vec{v}\cdot\vec{v}$. Using the product rule for the dot product[1] and then Newton's second law $m\frac{d\vec{v}}{dt} = \vec{F}$,

$$\begin{aligned}\frac{d}{dt}\left(v^2\right) = \frac{d}{dt}\left(\vec{v}\cdot\vec{v}\right) &= 2\,\vec{v}\cdot\frac{d\vec{v}}{dt}\\ &= \frac{2}{m}\,\vec{v}\cdot\vec{F} = 0.\end{aligned}$$

So v^2 never changes, and hence neither does the speed v.

Why the dot product is the right tool here. The quantity $\vec{F}\cdot\vec{v}$ is the rate at which the force does work on the particle. A force with a forward component speeds the particle up; a force with a backward component slows it down. Only the part of $\vec{F}$ lying along $\vec{v}$ can change the speed, and the dot product is exactly the mathematical tool that isolates that part. When it vanishes, can only change the direction of the velocity but not its magnitude, and so can only *turn* the particle, while the speed remains constant. See Figure 4.10.14.

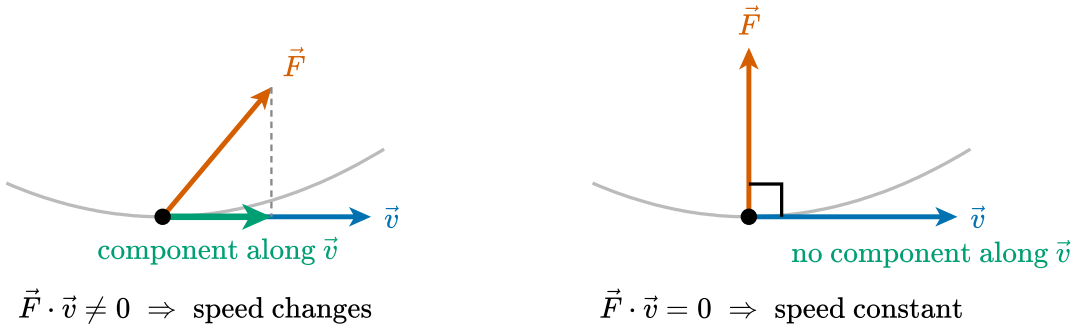


Figure 4.10.14 Only the component of $\vec{F}$ along $\vec{v}$ can change the speed. On the left that component is non-zero, so the particle speeds up; on the right $\vec{F} \perp \vec{v}$, the component is zero, and the speed cannot change.

(b) During a short time interval Δt, show that the *direction* of the velocity turns through the angle

$$\Delta\theta = \frac{F}{mv}\,\Delta t.$$

(Hint: draw the two velocity vectors, which have equal length, from a common tail.)

Solution. By the previous task the velocity never changes length; it only swings around. So $\vec{v}(t)$ and $\vec{v}(t+\Delta t)$ are two vectors of the *same* length v, separated by the small angle $\Delta\theta$ we are after. Drawn from a common tail they form an isosceles triangle whose third side is $\Delta\vec{v} = \vec{v}(t+\Delta t) - \vec{v}(t)$, as in Figure 4.10.15.

The tips of the two vectors both lie on a circle of radius v. The straight side $\Delta\vec{v}$ is the chord cutting off the arc of angle $\Delta\theta$ on that circle, and for a small angle a chord is very nearly the arc it subtends:

$$\|\Delta\vec{v}\| = 2v \sin\frac{\Delta\theta}{2} \approx v\,\Delta\theta.$$

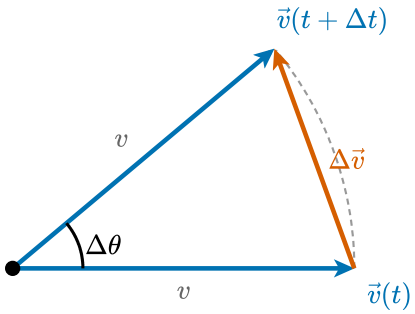
On the other hand Newton's second law over the short interval gives

$$\|\Delta\vec{v}\| \approx \frac{F}{m}\,\Delta t.$$

Equating the two expressions for $\|\Delta\vec{v}\|$,

$$v\,\Delta\theta = \frac{F}{m}\,\Delta t \qquad \Longrightarrow \qquad \Delta\theta = \frac{F}{mv}\,\Delta t,$$

which is what we wanted. Notice the rate of turning $\Delta\theta/\Delta t = F/(mv)$ is a *constant*, since F, m and v all are: the particle swings around at a steady angular rate.



equal lengths $\Rightarrow$ $\|\Delta\vec{v}\| \approx v\,\Delta\theta$

Newton: $\|\Delta\vec{v}\| = \frac{F}{m}\Delta t$ $\Rightarrow$ $\Delta\theta = \frac{F}{mv}\Delta t$

Figure 4.10.15 The two velocities have equal length v (dashed arc), so the triangle is isosceles and the chord $\Delta\vec{v}$ has length $\approx v\,\Delta\theta$.

(c) Combine $\Delta s = v\,\Delta t$ with the arc-length formula $\Delta s = R\,\Delta\theta$ to prove that

$$R = \frac{mv^2}{F}.$$

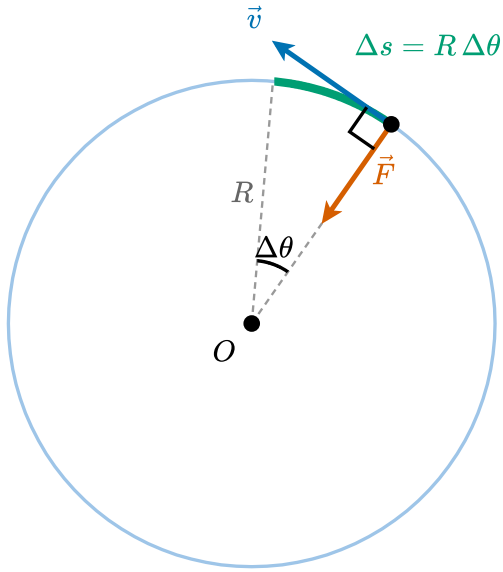
Solution. In time Δt the particle covers the arc length $\Delta s = v\,\Delta t$. If that arc bends through the angle $\Delta\theta$, then the radius R of the arc is defined by $\Delta s = R\,\Delta\theta$. Solving for R and substituting both expressions,

$$R = \frac{\Delta s}{\Delta\theta} = \frac{v\,\Delta t}{\dfrac{F}{mv}\,\Delta t} = \frac{mv^2}{F}.$$

(d) Conclude that the trajectory is a circle.

Solution. The quantity $R = mv^2/F$ is built from m, v and F, every one of which is constant — v because of the first task, and F by hypothesis. So the path bends through equal angles over equal arc lengths, everywhere along the trajectory: its radius of curvature is the same constant R at every point.

A plane curve with constant radius of curvature is a circle. Concretely, the centre of the turn always lies a fixed distance R from the particle in the direction of $\vec{F}$.



$$\Delta s = v\,\Delta t \quad \text{and} \quad \Delta\theta = \tfrac{F}{mv}\Delta t$$
$$\Rightarrow \quad R = \frac{\Delta s}{\Delta\theta} = \frac{mv^2}{F} \quad \text{— a constant}$$

Figure 4.10.16 The velocity is tangent to the circle and the force points straight at the centre. Equal arcs Δs subtend equal angles $\Delta\theta$, and the ratio of the two is the constant radius $R = mv^2/F$.

(e) A particle of charge q enters a uniform magnetic field $\vec{B}$ with its velocity *perpendicular* to the field. The magnetic force is

$$\vec{F}_B = q\,\vec{v} \times \vec{B}.$$

Show that this force has magnitude $|q|\,vB$.

Solution. The length of a cross product is $\left\|\vec{v} \times \vec{B}\right\| = vB\sin\alpha$, where α is the angle between $\vec{v}$ and $\vec{B}$. Here the velocity is perpendicular to the field, so $\alpha = 90^\circ$ and $\sin\alpha = 1$. Therefore

$$\left\|\vec{F}_B\right\| = |q|\left\|\vec{v} \times \vec{B}\right\| = |q|\,vB\sin 90^\circ = |q|\,vB.$$

Since v is constant (we are about to confirm this) and B is uniform, this magnitude is constant — the first hypothesis of part a.

(f) Explain why this force is *always* perpendicular to the velocity — not just at the initial instant, but at every moment of the motion.

Solution. This is the defining property of the cross product: $\vec{v} \times \vec{B}$ is perpendicular to *both* factors, whatever they happen to be. So $\vec{F}_B = q\,\vec{v} \times \vec{B}$ is perpendicular to $\vec{v}$ automatically, at every instant, with no computation and no special assumption about where the particle is or which way it is heading.

If you would like it verified rather than quoted, the dot product does it in one line.[2] Taking $\vec{c} = \vec{v}$,

$$\vec{F}_B \cdot \vec{v} = q\left(\vec{v} \times \vec{B}\right) \cdot \vec{v} = q\begin{vmatrix} v_1 & v_2 & v_3 \\ B_1 & B_2 & B_3 \\ v_1 & v_2 & v_3 \end{vmatrix} = 0.$$

So such a magnetic field can *never* change the speed of a charged particle, no matter how strong it is. Here the magnetic force does no work and it solely changes the direction of the velocity.

(g) Deduce that the particle moves in a circle, and find the radius of that circle.

Solution. The previous two tasks establish exactly the two hypotheses of part a: the magnetic force has constant magnitude $|q|vB$, and it is always perpendicular to the velocity. The argument of parts a–d therefore applies verbatim, and the particle travels in a circle at constant speed.

For the radius, put $F = |q|vB$ into $R = mv^2/F$:

$$r = \frac{mv^2}{|q|vB} = \frac{mv}{|q|B}.$$

Equivalently, the magnetic force supplies precisely the inward force mv^2/r that circular motion demands:

$$|q|vB = \frac{mv^2}{r} \qquad \Longrightarrow \qquad r = \frac{mv}{|q|B}.$$

See Figure 4.10.17. Faster particles and heavier particles travel on wider circles; stronger fields and larger charges wind them tighter.

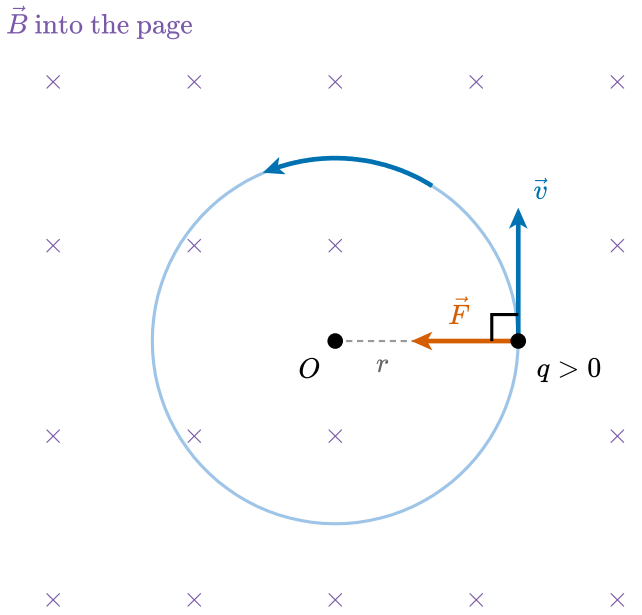


Figure 4.10.17 A positive charge in a uniform field $\vec{B}$ directed into the page. The force $q\,\vec{v} \times \vec{B}$ is perpendicular to $\vec{v}$ automatically, so it never changes the speed — it only bends the path into a circle of radius $r = mv/(|q|B)$.

22. ∗Speed and direction of a projectile. *Starred problem.* This one is for the interested reader. It will not be examined.

A particle is projected from O with speed v_0 at an elevation θ to the horizontal, as in Figure 4.10.18. At time t it is at the point P, moving with speed v in a direction making an angle ϕ with the horizontal. Show

[2]The product rule holds for the dot product just as it does for ordinary multiplication: $\frac{d}{dt}(\vec{u}\cdot\vec{v}) = \frac{d\vec{u}}{dt}\cdot\vec{v} + \vec{u}\cdot\frac{d\vec{v}}{dt}$. Taking $\vec{u} = \vec{v}$ makes the two terms equal, which gives the step used here, $\frac{d}{dt}(\vec{v}\cdot\vec{v}) = 2\,\vec{v}\cdot\frac{d\vec{v}}{dt}$.

[3]Two facts are doing the work. First, the scalar triple product $\left(\vec{a}\times\vec{b}\right)\cdot\vec{c}$ equals the determinant whose rows are $\vec{a}$, $\vec{b}$ and $\vec{c}$. Second, a determinant with two equal rows is zero, since interchanging those two rows both leaves the determinant unchanged and reverses its sign.

that

$$v = \sqrt{v_0^2 - 2\,v_0\,g\,t\sin\theta + g^2t^2}$$

and

$$\tan\phi = \frac{v_0\sin\theta - g\,t}{v_0\cos\theta}.$$

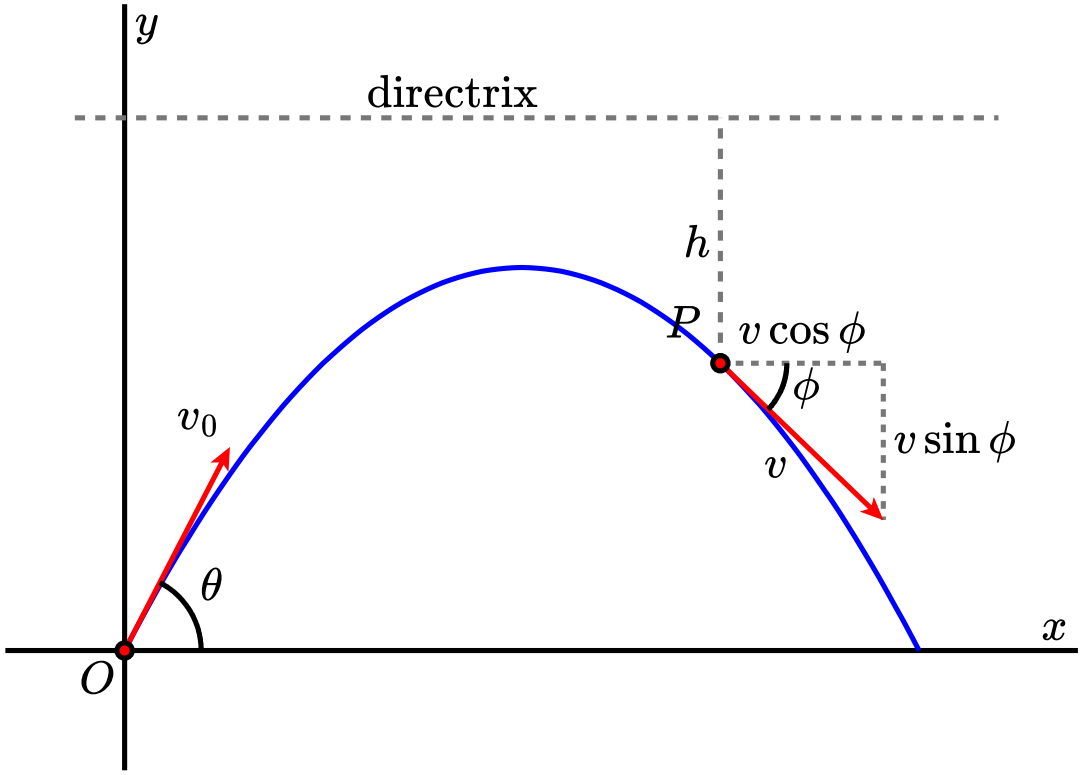


Figure 4.10.18 A particle projected from O with speed v_0 at elevation θ. At the point P reached after time t, the velocity v is tangent to the path and makes an angle ϕ with the horizontal; h is the depth of P below the directrix.

Solution. Take the origin at O with horizontal and vertical axes. The coordinates of P at time t are

$$x = v_0\cos\theta\,t, \qquad y = v_0\sin\theta\,t - \tfrac{1}{2}g\,t^2.$$

The horizontal and vertical components of the velocity are the time derivatives of these, so

$$v\cos\phi = \frac{dx}{dt} = v_0\cos\theta, \qquad v\sin\phi = \frac{dy}{dt} = v_0\sin\theta - g\,t.$$

Squaring and adding eliminates ϕ:

$$v^2 = v_0^2\cos^2\theta + \big(v_0\sin\theta - g\,t\big)^2 = v_0^2 - 2\,v_0\,g\,t\sin\theta + g^2t^2,$$

which gives the speed at time t. Dividing the vertical component by the horizontal component gives the direction,

$$\tan\phi = \frac{v_0\sin\theta - g\,t}{v_0\cos\theta},$$

that is, $\phi = \arctan\left(\dfrac{v_0\sin\theta - g\,t}{v_0\cos\theta}\right)$.

23. ∗Free fall from the directrix. *Starred problem.* This one is for the interested reader. It will not be examined.

The **directrix** of the parabolic path is the horizontal line at height $\dfrac{v_0^2}{2g}$ above O. Using the previous exercise, show that the speed of the particle at P is equal to the speed it would acquire by falling freely from the level

of the directrix down to P. That is, if h denotes the depth of P below the directrix (see Figure 4.10.18), then $v^2 = 2\,g\,h$.

Solution. From the previous exercise,

$$v^2 = v_0^2 - 2\,v_0\,g\,t\sin\theta + g^2t^2 = v_0^2 - 2g\big(v_0\,t\sin\theta - \tfrac{1}{2}g\,t^2\big) = v_0^2 - 2gy,$$

since $y = v_0\,t\sin\theta - \frac{1}{2}g\,t^2$ is the height of P. Writing this as

$$v^2 = 2g\left(\frac{v_0^2}{2g} - y\right)$$

and recognizing $\dfrac{v_0^2}{2g}$ as the height of the directrix above O, the quantity $h = \dfrac{v_0^2}{2g} - y$ is exactly the depth of P below the directrix. Hence $v^2 = 2\,g\,h$, the square of the speed gained by falling freely through the height h.

24. ***A collision on the directrix.** *Starred problem.* This one is for the interested reader. It will not be examined.

Two objects move under gravity. The first is the projectile of the two previous exercises: launched from O with speed v_0 at an elevation θ to the horizontal. The second is a ball released *from rest* at a point B on the directrix, the horizontal line at height $\dfrac{v_0^2}{2g}$ above O. We want the two to collide at the moment the projectile is at half of its maximum height, on the way *down*. See Figure 4.10.19.

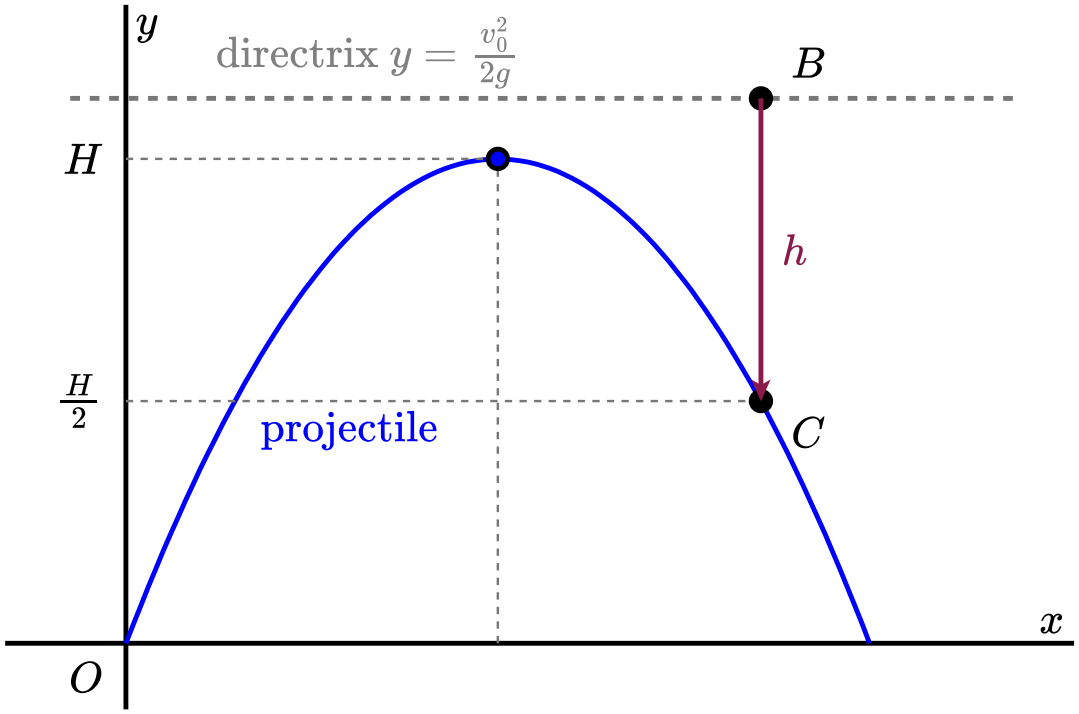


Figure 4.10.19 The projectile reaches half of its maximum height H at the point C on the way down. The ball is released from rest at the point B vertically above C on the directrix, and falls the depth h to meet it.

(a) Show that the projectile is at half of its maximum height at the two times

$$t_\pm = \frac{v_0\sin\theta}{g}\left(1 \pm \frac{\sqrt{2}}{2}\right)$$

and say which of these is on the descending branch.

Solution. The vertical motion is $y = v_0\sin\theta\,t - \frac{1}{2}gt^2$. It is greatest when $\dot{y} = v_0\sin\theta - gt = 0$, that is at $t = v_0\sin\theta/g$, which gives the maximum height

$$H = \frac{v_0^2\sin^2\theta}{2g}.$$

Setting $y = H/2$ gives the quadratic equation

$$t^2 - \frac{2v_0 \sin\theta}{g}\, t + \frac{v_0^2 \sin^2\theta}{2g^2} = 0,$$

whose discriminant is $2v_0^2 \sin^2\theta/g^2$. Hence

$$t_\pm = \frac{v_0 \sin\theta}{g} \pm \frac{\sqrt{2}\, v_0 \sin\theta}{2g} = \frac{v_0 \sin\theta}{g}\left(1 \pm \frac{\sqrt{2}}{2}\right).$$

These straddle the apex time $v_0 \sin\theta/g$ symmetrically, as they must. The descending crossing is the later one,

$$T = t_+ = \frac{\left(2+\sqrt{2}\right) v_0 \sin\theta}{2g}.$$

(b) Find the point B on the directrix from which the ball must be released.

Solution. Released from rest, the ball has no horizontal velocity, so it falls along a vertical line: B must be *directly above* the collision point C. The projectile's horizontal coordinate at time T is

$$x_C = v_0 \cos\theta \cdot T = \frac{\left(2+\sqrt{2}\right) v_0^2 \sin 2\theta}{4g},$$

so the release point is

$$B = \left(\frac{\left(2+\sqrt{2}\right) v_0^2 \sin 2\theta}{4g},\ \frac{v_0^2}{2g}\right).$$

In terms of the range $R = \dfrac{v_0^2 \sin 2\theta}{g}$ this is $x_C = \frac{2+\sqrt{2}}{4} R \approx 0.854\, R$—comfortably past the apex at $R/2$ and short of the landing point, as Figure 4.10.19 shows.

(c) Find how long after the projectile is launched the ball must be released.

Solution. The depth of C below the directrix is

$$h = \frac{v_0^2}{2g} - \frac{H}{2} = \frac{v_0^2\left(2 - \sin^2\theta\right)}{4g}.$$

Falling from rest through h takes a time τ with $h = \frac{1}{2} g\tau^2$, so

$$\tau = \sqrt{\frac{2h}{g}} = \frac{v_0}{g}\sqrt{\frac{2 - \sin^2\theta}{2}}.$$

The ball must therefore be released

$$t_{\text{rel}} = T - \tau = \frac{v_0}{g}\left[\frac{\left(2+\sqrt{2}\right)\sin\theta}{2} - \sqrt{\frac{2 - \sin^2\theta}{2}}\right]$$

seconds after the projectile is launched.

(d) Show that at the instant of the collision the two objects have exactly the same speed.

Solution. By Worksheet Exercise 4.10.23, a projectile at depth h below its directrix has speed $v_{\text{proj}} = \sqrt{2gh}$. The ball starts from rest *on* the directrix and has fallen the same depth h, so its speed is

$$v_{\text{ball}} = g\tau = g\sqrt{\frac{2h}{g}} = \sqrt{2gh}.$$

The two are equal. This is not a coincidence of our particular choice of C: the projectile always carries exactly the speed it *would* have gained by falling freely from the directrix, and the ball is doing precisely that fall. Wherever on the path we arrange the collision, the two objects meet with the same speed, here

$$v = \sqrt{2gh} = v_0\sqrt{\frac{2-\sin^2\theta}{2}}.$$

Their *directions* of course differ: the ball moves straight down, while the projectile moves down and forward at the angle ϕ of Worksheet Exercise 4.10.22.

(e) Is t_{rel} always positive? Find the elevations θ for which the ball is released after the projectile is launched, and explain what a negative t_{rel} would mean.

Solution. Requiring $t_{\text{rel}} \geq 0$ means

$$\frac{\left(2+\sqrt{2}\right)\sin\theta}{2} \geq \sqrt{\frac{2-\sin^2\theta}{2}},$$

and squaring gives $\sin^2\theta\left(4+2\sqrt{2}\right) \geq 2$, that is

$$\sin^2\theta \geq \frac{1}{2+\sqrt{2}} = \frac{2-\sqrt{2}}{2} \quad\Longleftrightarrow\quad \theta \geq \arcsin\sqrt{\frac{2-\sqrt{2}}{2}} \approx 32.8^\circ.$$

For flatter launches the required release time is negative: the ball would have to be dropped *before* the projectile is fired, because a shallow trajectory reaches its (low) half-height point sooner than the ball can fall the long way down from the directrix.

An animation of the whole scenario — the projectile rising to H, the ball released from B at the time t_{rel}, and the two meeting at C with velocity arrows of equal length — accompanies the online version of these notes.

25. ∗A Parabolic Antenna. *Starred problem.* This one is for the interested reader. It will not be examined.

A parabolic antenna has the shape of a paraboloid of revolution: it is created by rotating part of a parabola around its axis. By the reflection property, all signals arriving parallel to the axis are concentrated at the focus after reflecting off the dish, so that is where the receiver is mounted. The axial cross-section of the dish is described by two measurements: the *diameter* d of the dish and its *depth* h. Placing the vertex at the origin with the dish opening upward, the cross-section is the parabola $x^2 = 4py$, and the rim passes through the points $\left(\pm\frac{d}{2},\, h\right)$.

Consider a dish antenna with diameter $d = 120$ cm and depth $h = 20.3$ cm, suitable for the amateur radio band at 5.76 GHz.

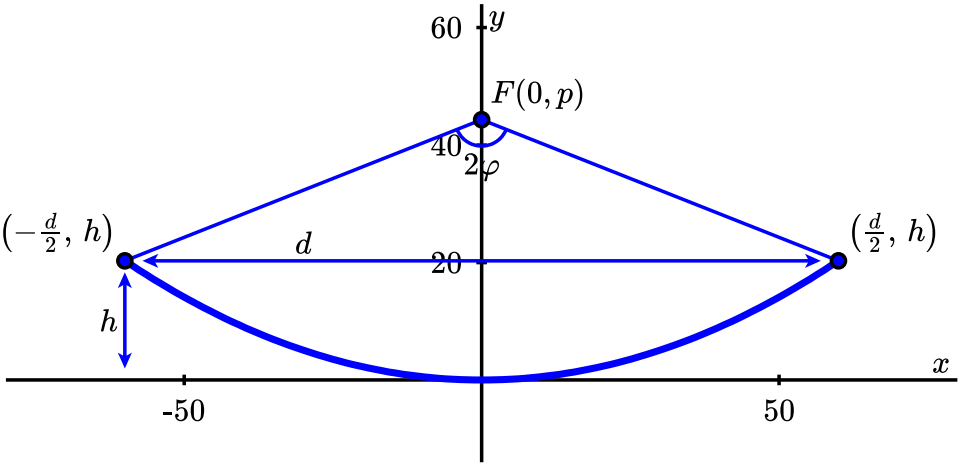


Figure 4.10.20 Cross-section of the parabolic antenna: diameter d, depth h, focus $F(0,p)$, and opening angle 2φ.

(a) Determine the optimal location for the receiver, that is, find the distance from the vertex of the dish to

the focus.

Solution. The receiver must sit at the focus $(0, p)$. The rim point $\left(\frac{d}{2}, h\right) = (60,\ 20.3)$ lies on the parabola $x^2 = 4py$, so

$$60^2 = 4p(20.3) \quad \Longrightarrow \quad p = \frac{3600}{81.2} \approx 44.3.$$

The receiver should be mounted on the axis about 44.3 cm above the vertex of the dish. Note that $p > h$ here, so the focus sits *above* the rim of this shallow dish.

(b) Find the quadratic function $y = f(x)$ (explicit form) that describes the curvature of the dish, and graph it (for example, in GeoGebra or Desmos).

Solution. Solving $x^2 = 4py$ for y with $4p = \frac{3600}{20.3} \approx 177.3$ gives

$$y = \frac{1}{4p}\,x^2 = \frac{20.3}{3600}\,x^2 \approx \frac{x^2}{177.3}, \qquad -60 \le x \le 60.$$

The graph captures the true curvature of the dish provided both axes use the same scale.

(c) The *opening angle* 2φ of the dish is the angle at which the two edges of the rim are seen from the focus. Compute it.

Solution. The focus $F(0, p)$, the point $(0, h)$, and the rim point $\left(\frac{d}{2}, h\right)$ form a right triangle with legs $p - h$ (vertical) and $\frac{d}{2}$ (horizontal), and φ is the angle at the focus. Hence

$$\tan\varphi = \frac{d/2}{p - h} = \frac{60}{44.3 - 20.3} = \frac{60}{24} \quad \Longrightarrow \quad \varphi \approx 68.2^\circ.$$

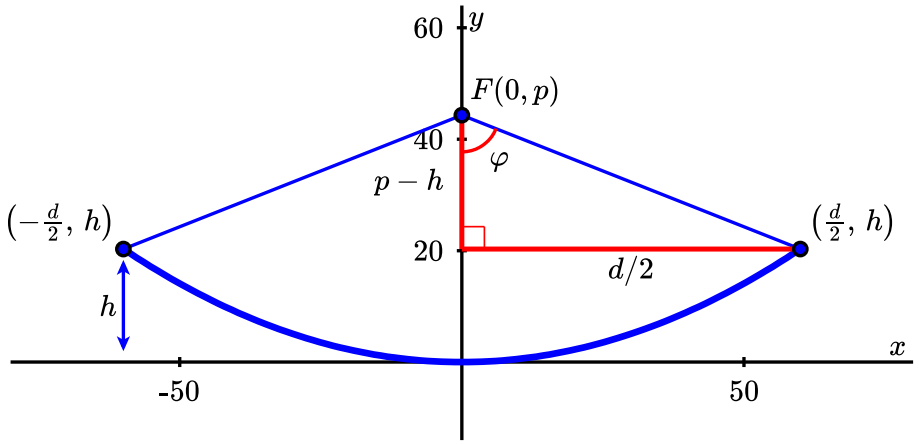


Figure 4.10.21 The right triangle used to compute the half opening angle φ: legs $p - h$ and $d/2$.

The opening angle of the dish is $2\varphi \approx 136.4^\circ$.

4.11 Sample Past Exam 2

A sample past exam, with worked solutions. It was a 65-minute, closed-book exam: no aids of their own (formula sheets, notes, phones, tablets, smart watches or similar) were permitted, and students were asked to write their work in a neat and organized format and to fully justify every step. Try the exam under the same conditions before you look at the solutions. The topics it covers, with links to the notes:

- Vectors
- The Dot Product
- The Cross Product
- Parametrization of Plane Curves
- Lines and Planes in Space
- Conic Sections

1.

(a) Compute the vector $\vec{v}$ whose tail and tip are at $(2, 0, -1)$ and $\left(3, 2, -1+\sqrt{11}\right)$, respectively.

Solution.

$$\vec{v} = \left\langle 3-2,\ 2-0,\ -1+\sqrt{11}-(-1) \right\rangle = \left\langle 1,\ 2,\ \sqrt{11} \right\rangle,$$

and

$$\|\vec{v}\| = \sqrt{1+4+11} = \sqrt{16} = 4.$$

(b) Find a vector $\vec{w}$ that points in the opposite direction to $\vec{v}$ (see part (a)) and whose length is triple the length of $\vec{v}$.

Solution. Opposite direction and three times as long:

$$\vec{w} = -3\vec{v} = \left\langle -3,\ -6,\ -3\sqrt{11} \right\rangle$$

(check: $\|\vec{w}\| = 3 \cdot 4 = 12$).

(c) Find the unit vector in the direction of $\vec{v} + \vec{w}$ (see part (b)).

Solution.

$$\vec{v} + \vec{w} = \vec{v} - 3\vec{v} = -2\vec{v} = \left\langle -2,\ -4,\ -2\sqrt{11} \right\rangle.$$

Therefore

$$\begin{aligned} \frac{\vec{v}+\vec{w}}{\|\vec{v}+\vec{w}\|} &= \frac{-2\vec{v}}{2\|\vec{v}\|} = -\frac{\vec{v}}{\|\vec{v}\|} = -\frac{1}{4}\left\langle 1,\ 2,\ \sqrt{11} \right\rangle \\ &= \left\langle -\frac{1}{4},\ -\frac{1}{2},\ -\frac{\sqrt{11}}{4} \right\rangle. \end{aligned}$$

Note that $\vec{v} + \vec{w}$ points opposite to $\vec{v}$.

2. Consider the two vectors $\vec{u} = \langle 2, -1, 3 \rangle$ and $\vec{v} = \langle 1, 2, 2 \rangle$. Write the vector $\vec{u}$ as the sum of two vectors, one of which is parallel to $\vec{v}$ and the other one is perpendicular to it.

Solution.

$$\vec{u} \cdot \vec{v} = 2 - 2 + 6 = 6 \qquad \text{and} \qquad \|\vec{v}\|^2 = 1 + 4 + 4 = 9.$$

Then

$$\begin{aligned} \vec{u}_{\parallel} &= \operatorname{proj}_{\vec{v}} \vec{u} = \left(\frac{\vec{u} \cdot \vec{v}}{\|\vec{v}\|^2} \right) \vec{v} = \frac{6}{9}\langle 1, 2, 2 \rangle = \left\langle \frac{2}{3},\ \frac{4}{3},\ \frac{4}{3} \right\rangle, \\ \vec{u}_{\perp} &= \vec{u} - \vec{u}_{\parallel} = \langle 2, -1, 3 \rangle - \left\langle \frac{2}{3},\ \frac{4}{3},\ \frac{4}{3} \right\rangle = \left\langle \frac{4}{3},\ -\frac{7}{3},\ \frac{5}{3} \right\rangle. \end{aligned}$$

Check: $\vec{u}_\perp \cdot \vec{v} = \frac{4}{3} - \frac{14}{3} + \frac{10}{3} = 0$. Hence

$$\underbrace{\langle 2, -1, 3\rangle}_{\vec{u}} = \underbrace{\left\langle \frac{2}{3}, \frac{4}{3}, \frac{4}{3} \right\rangle}_{\vec{u}_\parallel} + \underbrace{\left\langle \frac{4}{3}, -\frac{7}{3}, \frac{5}{3} \right\rangle}_{\vec{u}_\perp}.$$

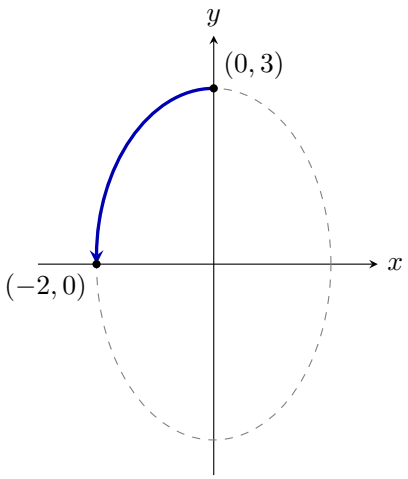
3. Parametrize the following curves.

(a) The quarter-ellipse from $(0, 3)$ to $(-2, 0)$ centered at the origin.

Solution. The ellipse is $\left(\frac{x}{2}\right)^2 + \left(\frac{y}{3}\right)^2 = 1$, so

$$x(t) = 2\cos t, \qquad y(t) = 3\sin t, \qquad \frac{\pi}{2} \le t \le \pi.$$

Check: $t = \frac{\pi}{2}$ gives $(0, 3)$ and $t = \pi$ gives $(-2, 0)$.

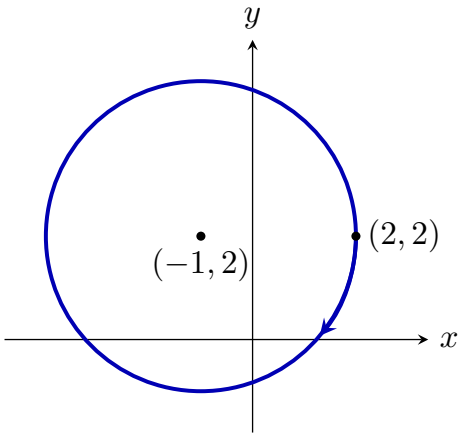


(b) The circle of radius 3 centered at $(-1, 2)$, traced once *clockwise* starting at $(2, 2)$.

Solution. $(x+1)^2 + (y-2)^2 = 3^2$. A minus sign on the sine term makes the motion clockwise:

$$x(t) = -1 + 3\cos t, \qquad y(t) = 2 - 3\sin t, \qquad 0 \le t \le 2\pi.$$

Check: $t = 0$ gives $(2, 2)$; $t = \frac{\pi}{2}$ gives $(-1, -1)$, so the point moves down first (clockwise).



(c) The line segment from $(2, -1)$ to $(-1, 3)$.

Solution.

$$\begin{aligned} \vec{r}(t) &= \langle 2, -1\rangle + t\,\langle -1 - 2,\ 3 - (-1)\rangle \\ &= \langle 2, -1\rangle + t\,\langle -3, 4\rangle, \end{aligned}$$

i.e.

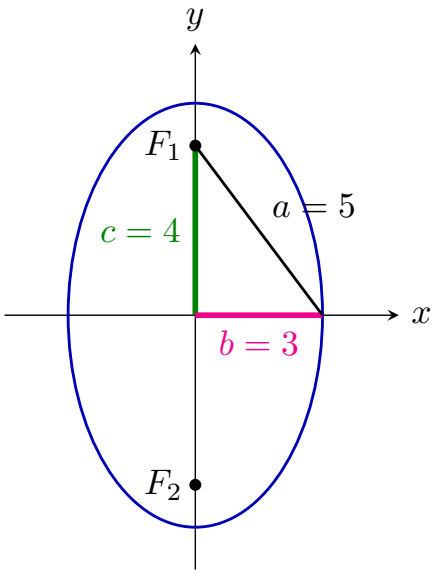
$$x(t) = 2 - 3t, \qquad y(t) = -1 + 4t, \qquad 0 \le t \le 1.$$

Check: $t = 0$ gives $(2, -1)$ and $t = 1$ gives $(-1, 3)$.

4. Consider an ellipse whose ***center*** is at the origin. Assume that it has ***foci*** $(0, -4)$ and $(0, 4)$, and suppose that the length of its ***minor axis*** is 6. Assume that the major axis is in the y-direction. What is the equation of this ellipse?

Solution. Foci on the y-axis: $c = 4$. Minor axis $2b = 6$, so $b = 3$. For an ellipse, $a^2 = b^2 + c^2 = 9 + 16 = 25$, so $a = 5$. With the major axis vertical,

$$\frac{x^2}{b^2} + \frac{y^2}{a^2} = 1 \quad \Longrightarrow \quad \boxed{\frac{x^2}{3^2} + \frac{y^2}{5^2} = 1}$$



5. Find a unit vector that is perpendicular to the xz-plane and points in the negative y-direction. If the tail of this vector is placed at $(2, -1, 3)$, where is its tip?

Solution. Perpendicular to the xz-plane means parallel to the y-axis: $\langle 0, c, 0\rangle$. Length 1 and pointing in the negative y-direction gives $c = -1$:

$$-\hat{\jmath} = \langle 0, -1, 0\rangle.$$

Tip = tail + vector $= (2,\ -1 - 1,\ 3) = (2, -2, 3)$.

6. Mark the following statements as True or False. If a statement is true, prove it and if a statement is false, provide a counter-example.

(a) Let $\vec{u}$ and $\vec{v}$ be any two vectors in $\mathbb{R}^3$. Then $\|\vec{u} + \vec{v}\|^2 + \|\vec{u} - \vec{v}\|^2 = 2\|\vec{u}\|^2 + 2\|\vec{v}\|^2$.

Solution. ***True.*** Use $\|\vec{a}\|^2 = \vec{a} \cdot \vec{a}$ and the distributive and commutative properties of the dot product:

$$\|\vec{u} + \vec{v}\|^2 = (\vec{u} + \vec{v}) \cdot (\vec{u} + \vec{v}) = \|\vec{u}\|^2 + 2\,\vec{u} \cdot \vec{v} + \|\vec{v}\|^2,$$
$$\|\vec{u} - \vec{v}\|^2 = (\vec{u} - \vec{v}) \cdot (\vec{u} - \vec{v}) = \|\vec{u}\|^2 - 2\,\vec{u} \cdot \vec{v} + \|\vec{v}\|^2.$$

Adding, the $\pm 2\,\vec{u} \cdot \vec{v}$ terms cancel, leaving $2\|\vec{u}\|^2 + 2\|\vec{v}\|^2$. (Geometrically: the sum of the squares of the diagonals of a parallelogram equals the sum of the squares of its four sides.)

(b) Let $\vec{u}$, $\vec{v}$, and $\vec{w}$ be non-zero vectors such that $\vec{u} \cdot \vec{v} = \vec{u} \cdot \vec{w}$. Then $\vec{v} = \vec{w}$.

Solution. ***False.*** Counter-example: $\vec{u} = \langle 1, 0, 0\rangle$, $\vec{v} = \langle 1, 2, 0\rangle$, $\vec{w} = \langle 1, 0, 5\rangle$. Then $\vec{u} \cdot \vec{v} = 1 = \vec{u} \cdot \vec{w}$, but $\vec{v} \neq \vec{w}$. (In general $\vec{u} \cdot (\vec{v} - \vec{w}) = 0$ only says $\vec{v} - \vec{w}$ is perpendicular to $\vec{u}$, not that it is $\vec{0}$.)

7. Consider the points $P(1, 0, 1)$, $Q(2, 1, 0)$, and $R(0, 2, 3)$.

(a) Find an equation of the plane that contains P, Q, and R.

Solution. $\overrightarrow{PQ} = \langle 1, 1, -1\rangle$ and $\overrightarrow{PR} = \langle -1, 2, 2\rangle$. A normal vector is

$$\vec{n} = \overrightarrow{PQ} \times \overrightarrow{PR} = \begin{vmatrix} \hat{\imath} & \hat{\jmath} & \hat{k} \\ 1 & 1 & -1 \\ -1 & 2 & 2 \end{vmatrix}$$
$$= (2+2)\,\hat{\imath} - (2-1)\,\hat{\jmath} + (2+1)\,\hat{k} = \langle 4, -1, 3\rangle.$$

Using the point P: $4(x-1) - (y-0) + 3(z-1) = 0$, i.e.

$$\boxed{4x - y + 3z = 7}.$$

Check: Q: $8 - 1 + 0 = 7$ ✓; R: $0 - 2 + 9 = 7$ ✓.

(b) Find parametric equations of the line through $S(5, 2, 5)$ that is perpendicular to the plane in part (a).

Solution. The line is parallel to the normal $\vec{n} = \langle 4, -1, 3\rangle$:

$$x(t) = 5 + 4t, \qquad y(t) = 2 - t, \qquad z(t) = 5 + 3t, \qquad t \in \mathbb{R}.$$

(c) Find the point where the line in part (b) meets the plane, and use it to find the distance from S to the plane.

Solution. Substitute into $4x - y + 3z = 7$:

$$4(5 + 4t) - (2 - t) + 3(5 + 3t) = 7 \quad \Longrightarrow \quad 33 + 26t = 7 \quad \Longrightarrow \quad t = -1.$$

The line meets the plane at $F = (5-4,\ 2+1,\ 5-3) = (1, 3, 2)$ (check: $4 - 3 + 6 = 7$ ✓). The distance from S to the plane is

$$\left\|\overrightarrow{FS}\right\| = \|\langle 4, -1, 3\rangle\| = \sqrt{16 + 1 + 9} = \sqrt{26} \approx 5.10.$$

(Same answer from the projection formula: $\dfrac{|\vec{n} \cdot \overrightarrow{PS}|}{\|\vec{n}\|} = \dfrac{|\langle 4, -1, 3\rangle \cdot \langle 4, 2, 4\rangle|}{\sqrt{26}} = \dfrac{26}{\sqrt{26}} = \sqrt{26}$.)